not to be laid down, though every indulgence and privilege of caste should otherwise be allowed them."

Under Muhammadan rule, apparently, jurisdiction in caste matters was largely exercised by local chiefs and zamindars. In Nadia, for instance. Maharaja Krishna Chandra Rai was an acknowledged arbiter in questions of caste during the first half of the 18th century, and had the power of restoring people to caste, imposing on them a heavy fine in addition to the expenses of *prayaschitta*. An appeal, however, lay to the Nawab, as is apparent from the following instance. A Brahman of Santipur having had a criminal intrigue with the daughter of a shoe-maker, the Raja forbade the barbers of the village to shave the family, and the washermen to wash their clothes. They appealed to the Raja, and afterwards to the Nawab, for restoration to caste, but in vain. The fact that they appealed to the Nawab, be it noted, confirms what has been said in the preceding paragraph. "After having been despoiled of their resources by the false promises of pretended friends, the Raja relented and removed the ban, but the family have not obtained to this day their pristine position."*

THE CASTE CUTCHERRY.

856. Under the East India Company there was a regular court, called the Caste Cutcherry (*Jatimala Kachahri*), for hearing and deciding cases relating to caste matters, the President of which was appointed by the English Governor. The functions of this court are described as follows by Verelst, Governor of Bengal from 1767 to 1769 :—"All nations have their courts of ecclesiastical jurisdiction distinct from the administration of civil justice, in some with a more limited, in others with a more extensive authority. The followers of Brama in Bengal have their caste cutcherries, or courts to take cognisance of all matters relative to the several castes or tribes of the Hindu religion. Their religious purity depends on the constant observance of such numberless precepts, that the authority of these courts enters into the concerns of common life, and is, consequently, very extensive. A degradation from the caste by their sentence is a species of excommunication attended with the most dreadful effects, rendering the offender an outcaste from society. But as the weight of the punishment depends merely upon the opinion of the people, it is unnecessary to say that it cannot be inflicted by the English Governor (as Mr. Bolts asserts), unless the mandate of a Governor could instantly change the religious sentiments of a nation. Neither can a man once degraded be restored, but by the general suffrage of his own tribe, the sanction of the Brahmans (who are the head tribe) and the superadded concurrence of the Supreme Civil power."†

857. Maharaja Naba Kishen, the Kayasth Diwan of Clive, held charge of this tribunal under the Governorship of Verelst,‡ while Warren Hastings appointed his Banians, Krishto Kanto Das ("Cantoo Babu"), a Teli by caste, and Ganga Govinda Singh. Against these two Burke fulminated in his Impeachment of Warren Hastings. "He has put his own menial domestic servant—he has enthroned him, I say, on the first seat of ecclesiastical jurisdiction, which was to decide upon the castes of all those people, including their rank, their family, their honour, and their happiness here, and, in their judgment, their salvation hereafter. Under the awe of this power, no man dared to breathe a murmur against his tyranny. Fortified in this security, he says—Who complains of me? No, none of us dare complain of you, says the trembling Gentoo. No; your menial servant has my caste in his power. I shall not trouble your lordships with mentioning others; it was enough that Canto Babu and Gunga Gobind Singh, names to which your lordships are to be familiarized hereafter, it is enough that those persons had the caste and character of all the people of Bengal in their hands."

858. Further light is thrown upon the Caste Cutcherry by the Select Secret Proceedings of 1775, in which year it was presided over by Krishto Kanta Das. In March Warren Hastings, protesting against a proposal made by Clavering to put "Cantoo Babu" in the stocks, complained of a previous

* S. C. Bose, *The Hindus as they are*, Calcutta, 1883, p. 167.

† H. Verelst, *A View of the Rise, Progress and Present State in the English Government of Bengal*, London, 1772, pp. 27, 28.

‡ N. N. Ghose, *Memoirs of Maharaja Naba Kishen Bahadur*, Calcutta, 1901, pp. 53, 57.

attack "on the subject of the Jautmalla Cutcherry, which was represented as arbitrary and oppressive, although this has existed from the first establishment of the Company."* In May the subject of the Caste Cutcherry again came up in connection with the question of the food to be given to Nundcomar while he was in jail. Clavering, supported by Francis, proposed that Cantoo Babu should be called and examined, on the ground that being President of this tribunal he passed judgements on all points relative to loss of caste. Warren Hastings at once replied:—"I understand the Cutcherry, over which Cantoo Babu, my servant, presides, has cognisance only of disputes among the lower kinds of the people, and that he presides in his Court, in virtue of the immemorial usage of the settlement, in the same manner that every other Chief Mutseedy or Banyan of the Governors of Calcutta have formerly done. I know not that he is qualified to judge of the question proposed. At all events, his opinion can be no authority, as he is neither versed in the laws of his religion nor of that sect which could entitle him to give a judicial opinion on any point respecting it. I myself am President of that Court, but I conceive myself merely a name to authenticate the acts of others, and I very frankly acknowledge my own incompetency to judge of points relating to the Gentoo religion.†" Here Warren Hastings clearly states that he is the real President of the Caste Cutcherry (in virtue apparently of his appointment as Governor) and has delegated his authority, except in confirming sentences, to his Deputy. It will further be noticed that he says his Deputy has little knowledge, and we cannot wonder at Colonel Monson's retort—"It might have been expected that the person he appointed to preside under him at the Caste Cutcherry should have been a sufficient judge of the rights (*sic*) of his religion." We may also perhaps wonder at the choice of a Teli to preside over a court of this character, even though Warren Hastings pleaded that his character was irreproachable, and that, "as the servant of the Governor, he was considered universally as the first native inhabitant of Calcutta."†

CONTROL BY THE FEUDATORY CHIEFS OF ORISSA.

859. The Caste Cutcherry has long since been abolished, and the British Government leaves caste questions entirely to the adjudication of the Caste Councils. In the Orissa States, however, the Feudatory Chiefs still retain the authority of the old Hindu kings. All affairs relating to the castes are dealt with by Caste Councils, over whom there is a recognized President, often called a Behara. He is appointed in almost all States by the Chief on his own authority and motion; in a few cases the views and wishes of the principal caste members are ascertained before making the appointment, and in a few other instances the castes are allowed to make their own selection. The Caste Council with the President decides all caste matters; if disputes arise and the Caste Council is unable to decide the matter at issue, it is laid before the Chief, whose decision is final. There is also a recognized right of appeal from the finding of a Caste Council to the Chief, whose decision on appeal is binding. In dealing with these references on appeal, the Chiefs either decide the matter on their own authority or refer it to selected Brahmans and other respectable persons, who usually hold their deliberations in the principal temple at the headquarters of the State. The opinion given by these bodies of arbitrators is laid before the Chief, who accepts, modifies, or alters it, as he thinks fit. The penalty for disobedience to the finding of the Chief on a caste matter is excommunication.

860. In one State there is a powerful and highly organized caste, which not very long ago was seriously exercised by a charge that a certain young man of the caste had been cohabiting with a woman of very low caste. The charge attracted very considerable interest, and the caste was greatly perturbed and unsettled. A criminal prosecution for defamation failed, and the matter was finally brought to the stage of a Caste Council. Powerful influences were at work within the caste, which is an extremely wealthy one, and the Caste Councillors split into two factions supported by various members of the caste: the one faction were of opinion that the charge was true and that the offender should

* G. W. Forrest, *Selections from State Papers (1772-1785)*, Vol. II, p. 325.
† Ditto ditto, Vol. II, pp. 320, 367.

be excommunicated. The case was then laid before the Chief for his decision. A mass meeting was convened, and the case was heard in the principal temple of the State: the finding of the meeting was that the charge was not proved and the alleged culprit was declared innocent. This finding the Chief confirmed. The case, however, did not end here. The caste had split into two hostile camps over the case. The party who were for condemning the culprit were composed of somewhat the more influential members; they decided to refuse to accept the decision of the Chief and to treat the culprit as excommunicated. The Chief thereupon excommunicated the recalcitrant section of the caste, with the result that they were deprived of the services of the barbers, washermen and priests. So effectual and binding was this order, that not only did the barbers, washermen and priests of the State, who had hitherto served them, refuse to work for them, but the services could not be obtained even of barbers, washermen and priests residing outside the State. This order was strictly enforced for some time. The men of this caste are clean shaven and very well groomed and dressed, but when the dispute was eventually settled, the persons affected by the order had long dirt-matted beards, the hair of their heads was in long strands and filthy in the extreme, and their clothes were beyond description for uncleanliness.

861. In another State, the Chief appointed a Brahman as Brahma, or head of the Brahmans of the State. This Brahma presides at ceremonies, such as marriages, deaths, sacred thread ceremonies, etc., amongst the Brahman community. The State is a large one, and the one Brahma cannot attend to all the duties of his office. He is accordingly allowed to appoint agents, one for each local area. The present Brahma was apparently inclined to levy too heavy a bonus from his agents, with the result that one of them resigned. The head Brahma wished to appoint another agent, but the local Brahmans objected; a deadlock ensued, with the result that the Brahmans laid the matter before the Durbar, and it was held that the Brahma must accept reduced fees from this agent, which he did. If he had refused, another Brahma would have been appointed. This decision was fully accepted by the Brahman community.

862. The Chief of a State has the power to place even a Brahman out of caste; and it is credibly stated that the late Chief of one State delegated this power to an European Police Officer. In the States under direct management, the Brahman community distinctly recognize the officer in charge as representing the Chief, and acknowledge his right, as such, to be an arbiter on caste questions. The Political Chief is accordingly received, on arrival in such a State, by a deputation of Brahmans, who offer him the regular benediction, put the *tika* mark of powdered sandal-wood and water on his forehead, place the cocoanut on his head, and offer him the thread. In no caste is any adoption valid, even if it be in accordance with caste custom, unless it has received the sanction of the Chief, or of the Political Agent when the State is under direct administration. The sanction of the Chief can, moreover, regularize an irregular adoption, *i.e.*, one not in accordance with law and custom. It is hardly necessary to state, in view of what has already been written, that adjudication on the caste disputes of less important castes would be absolutely accepted.*

863. One typical instance of the organization of a caste under the regime of the Feudatory Chiefs may be quoted. The caste in question is a weaving caste called Bhulia, and the account of it is derived from a note kindly contributed by the Maharaja and Feudatory Chief of Sonpur. The Chief is regarded as having paramount authority, as being the real "head of the caste," but he delegates his authority to a headman called Panua. The Panua presents a *nazar* to the Chief and receives a *sanad*. The post is in no way hereditary. If a Panua abuses his power, he is dismissed by the Chief, and another man appointed in his place. The Panua appoints subordinate officials called Jati Meher in different *parganas* or villages: Meher is a common synonym of Bhulia, and the prefix Jati distinguishes this official. The Jati Meher is assisted by one or two representatives of the caste called

* The above account has been contributed by Mr. L. E. B. Cobden-Ramsay, I.C.S., Political Agent, Orissa Feudatory States.

*bhadralok** who are selected by the Bhulias themselves. Complaints are lodged with the *bhadralok*, who inform the Jati Meher, or are preferred to the Jati Meher direct. The latter convokes a Panchayat from among the village elders; he cannot adjudicate without such a Panchayat. In case of differences of opinion, the matter may be referred to the Chief.

BENGAL STATES.

864. In Bengal there are only two localities in which traces of the ancient system may still be observed, viz., Hill Tippera and the Chittagong Hill Tracts. In Hill Tippera each caste has its own council of elders that generally decides caste disputes. In the event of the council failing to decide any dispute, the point at issue is laid before the Raja, whose decision is final. The district of the Chittagong Hill Tracts is divided into three circles, each of which is under a Chief. Each circle again is divided into a number of villages with a headman over each. In the absence of the Chief and the headman, caste questions are decided by a meeting of village elders, but usually such questions go to the headman, who has the power to enforce his decision by means of penalties. In every case the aggrieved party is at liberty to appeal to the Chief for a final verdict.

CASTE AND THE STATE IN NEPAL.

865. The only other State in this part of India in which the rulers exercise jurisdiction in caste matters is Nepal. Here the penal code is founded on the Sastras, and the maintenance of the principles of Hindu law is a State institution. There is, as Brian Houghton Hodgson pointed out, a great difference between its jurisprudence and that of Hindu princes of the plains who have been for centuries under Muhammadan or European rule, and have ceased to take public judicial cognisance of offences against caste law. "Neither persuasion, nor example, nor coercion, has had room to operate such a change in these mountains, the dominant classes of the inhabitants of which, originally refugees from Muhammadan bigotry, have in their seclusion nursed their hereditary hatred of Islamism, whilst they bade defiance to its power; and they have latterly come, very naturally, to regard themselves as the sole remaining depositaries of undefiled, national Hinduism. Hence their enthusiasm, which burns all the fiercer for a secret consciousness that their particular and, as it were, personal pretensions, as Hindus are and must be but lowly rated at Benares. It is in Nepal alone, of all Hindu States, that two-thirds of the time of the judges is employed in the discussion of cases better fitted for the confessional, or the tribunal of public opinion, or some domestic court, such as the Panchayat of brethren or fellow-craftsmen. than for a King's Court of Justice." "In the plains." remarked a Judge of the Chief Court of Nepal to Hodgson, "let man and woman commit what sin they will, there is no punishment provided, no expiatory rite enjoined. Hence Hinduism is destroyed; the customs are Muhammadan; the distinctions of caste are obliterated. Here, on the contrary, all those distinctions are religiously preserved by the public courts of justice, which punish according to caste and never destroy the life of a Brahman. *Below, the Sastras are things to talk of: here, they are acted up to.*"*

866. Degradation to a low caste is one of the five severe punishments that can be inflicted, the others being confiscation of property, banishment, mutilation and death. A century ago, members of the best families were degraded and given as slaves to the Damais, a low tailor caste, by which they lost both liberty and caste.† Coming to more recent times, several interesting instances of the exercise of the powers of the Maharaja in caste matters are given by Dr. Oldfield in his "Sketches from Nepal." A Brahman, being immune from capital punishment, cannot be put to death for heinous offences. He has his head shaved, is made to eat pork, consume offal and drink wine, so as to make him an outcaste, after which he is sent into exile. An influential Nepali of high caste "was subjected, as a punishment, to a disgusting degradation from the hands of two drummers of low caste, and in the presence of a large assembly of spectators, by which his honour and dignity were outraged and his own caste destroyed. He was confined to his own house for a year, but no other punishment was inflicted upon him. At the end of the year, by

* B. H. Hodgson, *Essays on Indian Subjects*. London, 1880, Vol. II, pp. 237-241.
† W. Hamilton, *Description of Hindostan*, London, 1820, Vol. II, pp. 672, 680.

the order of the King, who is supreme in such matters, he was forgiven, his caste restored to him, and he was allowed again to appear in public."* This punishment was inflicted because he had spread false rumours against Jang Bahadur, and, among other things, had declared that Jang Bahadur (whom he had accompanied to England) had lost caste by eating and drinking with Europeans. Jang Bahadur, we may well believe, took a grim delight in this method of retaliation. Further, while Dr. Oldfield was in Nepal, certain wealthy Hindu Newars were allowed to carry the *kalas* at their weddings, this being a right hitherto enjoyed only by the Gurkhas. "It has been conferred on them by the State as a privilege; they have in fact, *on payment of a fee*,† been raised from the rank of Newar to that of Parbatia."‡ There are other instances of such elevation. The Buddhist Sawmis, a caste of traders corresponding to Telis, were rewarded for their assistance in the Nepal expedition into Tibet in 1858, by being raised to the rank of a clean caste, the Maharaja taking a glass of water from them in open Durbar. Another striking exhibition of the power exercised by the Maharaja as *censor morum* was witnessed in 1897. Some young noblemen, being accused of frequenting the house of a woman of ill-fame, were imprisoned. The father of one of them, a man of high position who went with the annual tribute to China, died while they were in prison. The Brahmans interceded on his son's behalf, and he was released in order that he might perform his father's *sraddha*.

867. The following account of the principles observed by the State in treating caste offences as breaches of the law is furnished by the office of the Prime Minister of Nepal§:—"All questions involving social degradation or excommunication are to be decided by the courts, and in all these the Prime Minister is the last court of appeal. A person of a higher class eating, or having sexual intercourse, with a member of the depressed classes shall lose caste and be incorporated with the lower caste. A woman of higher position in the social order having sexual intercourse with a man lower down in the list shall be degraded to the caste of the male. But, so long as a man does not eat cooked rice or *dal*, etc., from the hands of any woman from whose hands water may be taken with impunity, he does not lose caste, even if he has sexual intercourse with her. The caste of the offspring of such intercourse is defined by fixed rules and laws. The taking of prohibited food or drink and social offences, the killing of cows and murder, generally involve social degradation, in addition to punishment according to law."

Briefly, under the system in force in Nepal, each caste is governed by its own laws and customs. Neglect or breach of them entails not only communal punishment, but is also subject to the law courts, which treat such offences as offences against the State.

868. The highest ecclesiastical functionary is the Raj Guru, a Brahman versed in the Sastras, who is appointed by the State. He advises the Durbar on social and religious matters, and it is his duty to prescribe the fitting penance and purificatory rites for violations of the ceremonial law of purity. His order, for instance, is necessary to restore to caste the envoys sent with tribute to China, who on their return have to pay him certain fees and perform prescribed ceremonies.‖ The Raj Guru also presides over the ecclesiastical court, known as the Dharma Adhikari, which takes cognizance of cases relating to caste. He comes to a decision in accordance with the laws laid down in the Sastras, and awards a punishment—either by fine, imprisonment, confiscation of property, or death—in proportion to the nature and heinousness of the offence and without reference to the religion of the offender. Even the Buddhists are subject to this tribunal, and there is a case on record of a Muhammadan native doctor attached to the Residency being deported in consequence of an offence against the Nepalese laws of caste.** Under the Raj Guru are subordinate officers who exercise jurisdiction in caste matters over groups of villages, and are authorized to take

* *Sketches from Nepal*, London, 1880, Vol. I, pp. 399, 400.
† The italics are mine. It will be observed that even in Nepal money can transform caste status.
‡ *Sketches from Nepal*, London, 1880, Vol. I, p. 411.
§ I am indebted to Lieut.-Col. J. Manners-Smith, V.C., C.I.E., Resident of Nepal, for this note.
‖ *Sketches from Nepal*, Vol. I, p. 412.
** *Sketches from Nepal*, Vol. I, p. 395, and Vol. II, pp. 150-151.

fees from people who are temporarily outcasted and afterwards restored to caste, whether by the caste Panchayats or the courts.

869. The caste Panchayats deal with minor offences, but the courts with graver matters, and their sentences are heavy. A Rajbansi, for instance, had an intrigue with a Teli woman. The Rajbansi Mandal, or headman, was bribed and suppressed the fact, but information was given to the civil authorities. The Mandal and both the guilty parties were imprisoned for 7 years, at the end of which the Mandal and the Rajbansi paramour were degraded to the Teli caste.* The fear of such penalties extends to castes on the British side of the frontier and has a salutary effect on them. Among themselves an offence may be condoned by a feast, but this would not satisfy the Nepalese. They frequently visit their caste fellows in Nepal, *e.g.*, at marriage feasts, and have a very real fear that their stricter brethren may hand them over to the Nepalese authorities if they break caste rules.

SURVIVALS ELSEWHERE.

870. The polity of some of the castes of Sambalpur shows distinct traces of the powers formerly exercised by the Raja. Nor is this to be wondered at, for the district was not brought under direct British rule till 1849, when it was annexed under Dalhousie's doctrine of lapse, *i.e.*, on the death of the last Chief without male issue. Here the headmen of different castes used to be appointed by the Raja, and they are still selected from families containing descendants of those on whom he conferred this honour. Among the Jharua Brahmans the president of the caste committee is selected from the Behara family: Behara was the designation of the headmen who were appointed by the Raja. The Gaura headmen were similarly nominated by and received charters from the Raja, authorising them to settle caste disputes. In the absence of a Raja this power of appointment is now frequently exercised by the zamindars, to whom the headman pays *nazarana*. There is no one, however, to make such appointments in the Khalsa, *i.e.*, the area under direct Government management, where the extinction of the line of Rajas has transformed the system. Among the Gandas, for instance, the Porai or headman used to be appointed by the Raja, but the post has now ceased to exist and a subordinate official acts as headman. In the zamindari area, though the power of appointment is still exercised by zamindars, there is a general tendency to decentralization. The Gauras used to have a chief Bagarti or headman with absolute authority, but, there being no central power over the caste, his influence is waning, and subordinate officers arrogate independent powers of control over the villages in their jurisdiction.

POWERS OF TRIBAL CHIEFS.

871. There are a few castes or tribes who still recognize the authority of the tribal chief or his descendants, such as the Binjhals and Gonds of Sambalpur, the Kharwars of Shahabad and the Nats of Champaran.

BINJHALS.

The head of the Binjhal caste in Sambalpur is the zamindar of Borasambar, who is a descendant of the tribal chief. The right to decide caste disputes rests with him, but, in accordance with long established custom, he delegates his authority to a member of what is known as the Diwan family, which is at present represented by an uncle of the zamindar. When a caste matter has to be decided, the latter calls a Panchayat of respectable men of the caste living in the neighbourhood. The case is duly heard and tried, the verdict being decided by a majority of votes, and the Diwan passes sentence. In difficult cases the matter is referred to the zamindar, whose decision is final. If a fine is imposed, it is paid to the Diwan, and half goes towards a feast of the Binjhal community. If the man is sentenced to provide a feast in addition to a fine, the Diwan allots enough to provide a feast and divides the balance with the zamindar.

GONDS.

872. The authority of the descendants of the old Gond chiefs of Sambalpur has passed to their descendants. Every Gond, whether residing in the Khalsa area (where there is no zamindar), or in the zamindari area, acknowledges the supremacy of some Gond zamindar. If the zamindar of the estate in which they live is a non-Gond, they are subject to a Gond zamindar elsewhere, so that the Gond

* Reported by the Subdivisional Officer of Kishanganj, Purnea.

zamindars are in control of caste matters both inside and outside their estates. In their own estates the zamindars sit in judgement with a Panchayat of Gonds. In the Khalsa area, and in zamindaris held by landlords of other castes, caste matters are settled by sub-panchayats, the head of which is called a Dharua. Each sub-panchayat, however, is subject to the control of a Panchayat under some Gond zamindar. If a member of the sub-panchayat commits an offence, he is tried by the Panchayat under the zamindar; and if he is outcasted, the latter appoints his successor. If a zamindar does anything which makes him liable to punishment, a council consisting of all the Gond zamindars can dispose of it, but it is said that such a case has not occurred. It is also said that, if this council does not come to a final conclusion, a reference may be made to the Gond Rajas of the surrounding Feudatory States, and finally to the Gond Raja of Mandla, from which the Gonds are said to have migrated. The belief that the Gond Raja of Mandla is a final court of appeal must date back many centuries: the last representative of the Gond kings of Mandla was executed for rebellion during the Mutiny.

Though the Gond zamindars are the acknowledged heads of the caste, the Dharuas in some part of the Khalsa area act almost independently, reference being rarely made to the zamindar concerned. The zamindars have also delegated some of their powers to the Dharuas, or Parganias as they are called in the Kolebira zamindari; but in serious cases of breach of caste rules the Pargania or Dharua is not competent to pass orders and must make a reference to the zamindar. Otherwise, he tries offences with the aid of a Panchayat, over which he presides. If the Panchayat is unanimous in its verdict, he gives judgement accordingly; if it is equally or nearly equally divided, the case is referred to the zamindar, whose order is final.

873. A survival of the power exercised by tribal chiefs is also found among the Kharwars, who live in the recesses of the Kaimur Hills in the district of Shahabad. The Kharwars recognize the authority of the descendant of their Rajas. Though he has lost the ancestral property, he retains his old title of Raja and the prestige attaching to it. Whenever he enters the house of a Kharwar, he receives one rupee as *nazarana*, besides getting presents of goats and grain on the occasion of festivals. In caste matters he is the final court of appeal, the Chaudhuris (*vide infra*) referring to him cases which they are unable to settle themselves or in which their decision is appealed against. His orders are invariably obeyed. Strictly, he is required to adjudicate only on questions connected with caste, but such questions often have a criminal or civil aspect. The fines he inflicts are mostly spent in feasting the Kharwars, but the Raja retains a portion. His authority is not confined to the Kharwars, for the Cheros, who have no ancestral Raja of their own, refer important matters to him.

KHARWARS.

For the decision of cases among themselves, the Kharwars have a regular gradation of courts of appeal. In the first instance, when there is believed to be a breach of caste rules, the Kharwars, by mutual consent, excommunicate the real or supposed offender. The latter can then move the Chaudhuri to convene a Panchayat to deal with the matter: the Chaudhuri is a local headman, whose office is hereditary, and who exercises jurisdiction over a certain number of villages, not exceeding eight. He calls a Panchayat, on which any Kharwar may serve, and a regular trial takes place. The outcasted man is the appellant, and the villagers who outcasted him are the defendants. The Panchayat is the High Court with the Chaudhuri as Chief Justice. If the offender refuses to accept the verdict of the Panchayat, he may appeal to a convocation of Chaudhuris. There is also a final appeal to the Raja, who is assisted by a council of elders. The Raja's decision is final.

874. Among the Nats of Champaran the authority of the tribal chief in caste matters is no less recognized, though they are Musalmans. The Panchayat consists of the Pradhan or hereditary chief of the tribe and any other members (usually two or three) whom he may choose to appoint. He usually, and naturally, appoints residents of his village, in which he exercises undisputed authority. His authority, however, extends far beyond its confines or the immediate neighbourhood. It is exercised not only in Champaran, but also in Saran

NATS.

and Muzaffarpur, and even in the eastern districts of the United Provinces. He spends his time in visiting the various portions of his dominion, and is known and feared throughout it.

The Pradhan takes cognizance of every kind of offence, criminal as well as social, which is brought to him for judgement, such as petty thefts, disputes about land, etc. The complainant and the accused each cut a small stick and give it to the Pradhan, who keeps the stick till the case is decided. The accused is then submitted to trial by ordeal, either by fire or by water. In the ordeal by fire, a red-hot piece of iron is placed on the victim's hand, his skin being slightly protected by seven leaves of the *pipal* tree. He has to hold it while another man runs a measured distance (seven yards and back); if the runner drops it, he is held to be guilty. Naturally a good deal depends on the speed and good will of the runner. The ordeal by water may be undergone in preference to that by fire. The accused is immersed in water up to the nose, and holds his nostrils. If he can hold his breath till a man has run the measured distance, he is acquitted and gets the weight of his stick in gold: the actual amount varies from Rs. 30 to Rs. 60. If he fails the test, he has to pay according to the same scale. This is regarded merely as a preliminary. The punishment follows. A fine is inflicted in the first instance, which is usually very heavy considering the means of the ordinary Nat. The fine goes into the pockets of the Pradhan. An alternative punishment is a cold bath: the victim is ordered to sit in the water of a tank or river for any period from 2 to 24 hours. One unfortunate man, who was sentenced to this punishment, sat on a cold morning in a river for two or three hours, after which a compassionate Hindu zamindar made him come out. The penalty he had to pay for disobeying his orders was outcasting for five years. The severity of other punishments will be apparent from the following instances. A man encroached on his neighbour's land and was fined Rs. 200. In another case a Nat was fined Rs. 100 for having illicit intercourse with a girl. In a third case a man, who took some maize from a field which he claimed as his own, was found guilty of theft and sentenced to remain in water for three hours. He could not bear the punishment, and was therefore fined Rs. 200.

Obstinate refusal to pay a fine or undergo the punishment prescribed is always followed by outcasting—usually for two years or more. Five years is a usual sentence in such cases. The Pradhan's power is so absolute, and the respect paid to him so great, that the justice of his verdict is never questioned, and his punishments are carried out rigorously.*

SUKLIS.

875. An interesting survival of tribal chieftainship may still be traced in the caste polity of the Suklis of Midnapore. Their governing body consists of Bhais (brothers) or elders of the castes, at the head of whom are the Maitis of Birsinhapur and the Chaudhuris. The Maitis are the descendants of one Birsinha, a chief who led the Suklis into Bengal and established his capital at a place which he named, after himself, Birsinhapur: this is an unimportant village near Mundamari. Their position as the heads of Sukli community is acknowledged not only in Midnapore, but also outside it. Such is the respect paid to them, that if a member of the Maiti family is present at a marriage or other ceremony, all do homage to him. If there is no Maiti present, a garland has to be set aside in his honour before the proceedings commence. A Maiti also presides over the Panchayat's meetings, and in his absence a Chaudhuri, for the Chaudhuris are the descendants of the second son of Birsinha.

CASTE SELF-GOVERNMENT.

876. In British territory, where Government has long since ceased to exercise control over social matters, the castes govern themselves. The higher castes as a rule have no controlling agency, and nobody has authority to hear complaints and pass judgement upon them. Among the lower castes, however, there are generally officials with whom information is laid, and whose duty it is to call a meeting of their caste fellows to deal with the matter. This conclave constitutes the Panchayat, literally a meeting of five men, though the actual numbers rarely correspond with that figure. Conditions vary so greatly in

* Compiled from a report by Mr. H. D. Graves Law, I.C.S., formerly Subdivisional Officer of Gobindganj.

different parts of the country, that a separate account of the organization of castes must be given for each sub-province.

As a preliminary to this account, it may be said that the actual unit of caste government has certain definite limits. The caste, as is well known, is a social group, membership of which is generally limited by birth. It is, in a minor degree, united by occupation or by the tradition of a common hereditary occupation, but even more by the laws of endogamy and commensality. By the former members are forbidden to marry outside the caste; by the latter they are constrained to eat and drink only with fellow castemen. Within the caste there are frequently minor groups called sub-castes, which also have the same laws on these two points. The unit of self-government consists of a group of members of a caste or sub-caste who come within the same circle of endogamy and commensality. The strength of the group is necessarily determined by territorial considerations. The families composing an endogamous and commensal circle may be scattered over such a large area, that effective combination is impossible. Where this is the case, it has to be split up into smaller circles for administrative purposes. The power to outcaste its members is the basis of the authority of each group. Among all but the lowest castes this power is ultimately dependent on the co-operation of the priest, the barber and the washerman. The priest is indispensable in religious and domestic life. Without the services of the barber and washerman no Hindu can be purified when pollution has been caused by deaths, births, etc. In this respect, therefore, the Panchayat is not altogether an isolated and self-sufficient unit, though otherwise independent.

BIHAR.

877. The higher castes of Bihar, such as Brahmans, Babhans (or Bhumihar Brahmans), Rajputs and Kayasths have no organization for the detection and punishment of breaches of caste rules. They have no governing body, and action must be taken by the members on their own initiative. If the offence is patent, they at once cease to have any intercourse with the offender. If there is any doubt about it, an informal meeting of the more influential members of the caste may be held and a common line of action determined upon. It rests entirely with the suspect to clear himself of the stigma. This he does by consulting a Pandit, who, if his sin can be atoned, gives a ruling on his case (*vyavastha*, or *panti*, or *patia*), stating the penances and ceremonies of expiation that have to be performed. Among the prescribed penances which are commonly undergone may be mentioned the following:— (1) Going on pilgrimage for an appointed period, (2) bathing in the Ganges and swallowing some of its sand, (3) living on alms for a prescribed time, (4) remaining dumb for an appointed time, (5) taking only one meal in 24 hours, (6) swallowing a mixture of the five products of the cow, viz., cow-dung, cow's urine, milk, curd and *ghi*, and (7) fasting. The ceremonies of expiation are (1) sacrifice, (2) the worship of the gods, commonly of Satyanarayan, (3) making a gift of a cow, a heifer, cash and cloth to the family priest, (4) feeding Brahmans and making presents to them of cloth and cash, and (5) feeding fellow castemen. Other castes, which have no regular machinery for dealing with breaches of the caste law, have meetings for the discussion of such questions when they arise. A man who is aware of the offence informs his brethren, and they sit in conclave and decide on the steps to be taken. A special meeting may be held; or the matter may wait till some ceremony occurs, at which the members of the caste will naturally be present; or the suspect himself may lay his case before them in order to establish his innocence and regain the privileges of caste fellowship. Among such castes the control over individual members is naturally less complete than among castes which have a constituted body of officials for the decision of matters affecting the community and for the punishment of unworthy members.

ORGANIZATION OF CASTE COUNCILS.

878. Most of the lower castes of Bihar have an organized system of caste government, which has certain common features, though the procedure and the names of the office-bearers vary in different parts and among different castes.

The unit consists of a Chatai, which means literally a mat, and connotes those who have the right to sit together on a mat—one is frequently provided—at a caste council meeting. The area to which the Chatai corresponds simply depends on the strength of the caste in any particular locality. There may be only one Chatai for several villages, each containing a few members of the caste, or there may be several Chatais in one village where the caste musters in strength. Generally, it may be said that the members of the Chatai represent 5 to 100 houses and, as a rule, are resident in one village and its adjoining hamlets.

THE CHATAI.

879. Each Chatai has a standing committee consisting either of one or two or three functionaries. There is invariably a headman, who presides at meetings of the council. He is generally called Sardar in South Bihar. Next in rank comes an officer called Manjan in South Bihar, who is practically the Vice-President of the council, for he presides in the absence of the President. The third member of the triumvirate is an executive officer, who is almost invariably known as a Chharidar in South Bihar. He acts as the headman's messenger; it is his duty to convene the caste council; and he is responsible for the execution of its decrees. In some castes these officers hold office by hereditary right; in case of there being no male member of the family to succeed, others are eligible. If one of them dies leaving a minor heir, his nearest relative, if otherwise competent, is entitled to represent him at the council meetings till he attains his majority. In other castes the post is held only for life, and a vacancy is filled up by the election of a competent man without regard to the hereditary principle. The posts are coveted, as they carry a certain dignity. The newly appointed man is given a *pagri* to wear, has a *tika* placed on his forehead, and celebrates the newly conferred honour by giving a feast to his castemen.

THE OFFICE-BEARERS.

880. Complaints are usually preferred to one of the members of the standing committee, generally to the Sardar direct, or through the Chharidar. In Patna it is reported that the complainant has to deposit a fee of Rs. 1-4, called *rasam*, which goes to meet the expenses of the Panchayat. In Saran a fee of Re. 1 is paid: this is called *pat kharcha*, *i.e.*, the expenses of the mat on which the Panchayat sits. The Sardar fixes a place and time for the meeting, and the members of the Chatai are summoned by the Chharidar. The meeting of the castemen of the Chatai forms the Panchayat. Its strength varies with the gravity of the issues to be debated. For a minor matter only a few of the village elders are summoned; for larger questions the head of each house may be called. When matters of special importance are to be discussed, distant members of the caste may be invited: at a recent Panchayat of the Telis in Patna about 1,000 were present. The meeting may be specially convoked, or it may wait till a big *sraddha* or marriage ceremony, when a large number will naturally assemble.

THE PANCHAYAT.

881. The Panchayat takes cognizance of a case either when a complaint is lodged or when a man who is suspected of an offence, and has already been outcasted by his family or neighbours, demands a hearing. It is nearly always a tribunal for the trial of offences, though it sometimes is a deliberative assembly which decides on the attitude of the caste on general questions. The proceedings generally begin with a common feast. The feast over, both parties are heard and witnesses are produced All are on an equality and any one present has a right to put a relevant question and to receive an answer. Oaths are frequently taken by the parties, *e.g.*, on the head of a son, Ganges water, copper, the *tulsi* plant or a cow's tail. The evidence having been taken, a general discussion takes place, and the headman after consulting his fellow officers gives judgement. The verdict is of course in accordance with the general opinion. Otherwise, it could scarcely be enforced. The proceedings are nearly always oral, and no record is made. In Purnea, when grave charges are preferred, the Panchayat often adopts the precaution of making the complainant put down his allegation in writing, and his thumb impression is taken on it, so that he may not resile.

PROCEDURE.

LARGER UNIONS.

882. The Chatais are sometimes, but not always, grouped together in larger unions called Baisi and Chaurasi, which are supposed to consist of 22 and 84 Chatais respectively. They are not necessarily co-existent: in some places there may be only Baisis, and in others only Chaurasis. In Muzaffarpur there are unions of 12 villages, called Bargaon, while the Telis of Patna have Bawans, *i.e.*, groups of 52 Chatais. These larger unions extend over a large area: a Baisi may cover 10 to 15 miles, a Chaurasi 40 to 50 miles. They also have an organization similar to that of the smaller units, *i.e.*, permanent officials, who bear names similar to those of the officers of the Chatais, such as Sardar, Manjan, etc. The larger councils are convened only on exceptional occasions for the decision of questions of special importance, or when appellate jurisdiction is necessary to settle conflicting claims, *e.g.*, when one Chatai has outcasted a man and another Chatai still receives him as in caste.

EXTENT OF JURISDICTION.

883. The jurisdiction of the Panchayat is necessarily local, but the combination of different Chatais helps to make its sentence effective over a considerable area. So long, therefore, as a man remains anywhere in the neighbourhood of his own village, he has little chance of defying the authority of the Panchayat. The penalty of contumacy, viz., excommunication for a fixed period or for life, is so terrible that he dares not face it. As a rule, one Chatai knows of and confirms the sentence of another. Occasionally, however, it may refuse to recognize the sentence, or there may be rivalry between two headmen. An outcaste may take advantage of this and seek refuge in another Chatai, where he can obtain re-entry into caste by giving a feast. In some places too the jurisdiction of the Panchayat extends only a few miles, and there is no central body with control over a large area. Where this is the case, an outcaste may leave his home and join another community in a distant part of the district. There is of course greater laxity of conduct among those who leave their homes and live in industrial centres for a time. Even they however are liable to punishment on their return, if their fall becomes known. A Dhanuk of Monghyr, who married a woman of another caste in Calcutta, was outcasted on his return home. A Turaha of Saran, who was seen carting hides in that city by a fellow villager, suffered the same punishment.

PANCHAYATS IN NORTH BIHAR.

884. The above account applies primarily to South Bihar, but the same system obtains among the low castes of North Bihar with minor variations. The following note by Mr. G. S. Dutt, I.C.S., late Subdivisional Officer of Kishanganj in Purnea describes its main features:—

"The Panchayat is a permanent institution consisting of all the village elders, for the time being, of one or more villages of a local area, who meet under the Presidentship of a Mandal when occasion requires. Thus, the actual number of members in the Panchayat is an indefinite and variable one and depends on the number of village elders existing at any time in the village or group of villages constituting the Panchayat. A number of Mandals are headed by a Sardar, who exercises jurisdiction over several Panchayat units. Again, several Sardars—sometimes as many as 14 to 22 Sardars—are headed by a Baisi Sardar. Besides these functionaries, there is, among certain castes, another functionary whose function corresponds to that of a peon, and whose duty it is to summon the village elders of the Panchayat when required by the Sardar or Mandal to do so. This functionary is called Barik among some castes (such as Tantis and Kaibarttas), and Diwan among other caste (such as Telis). The Barik does not get any fee, but whenever there is a marriage or *sraddha* within the jurisdiction of the Panchayat, the Sardar gets 1 *than* of cloth and the Barik gets 5 cubits. Whenever a feast is held among the Panchayat, it is the privilege of the Barik to decide upon its form or upon the delicacies to be supplied by the host. Whenever a Mandal dies, the Sardar appoints another in his place. Generally the son is selected after his father's death, if he is fit; otherwise, any influential well-to-do member of the community may be chosen. When the Sardar dies, another is chosen by the Mandals and the whole community under that particular Sardar. Sons and near relatives of Mandals and Sardars have a preferential claim to appointment.

"The jurisdiction of a Mandal extends over a single Panchayat, which may comprise one village only or several neighbouring villages. The jurisdiction of a Sardar extends over 8 or 10 such units, and the jurisdiction of a Baisi Sardar extends over 14 to 22 such units, and may consist of a whole *pargana* or a couple of *parganas*. When a matter cannot be decided satisfactorily by a Mandal, it is referred to the Sardar. When the Sardar is unable to decide satisfactorily, the matter is referred to the Baisi, who constitutes the final court of justice in the Panchayat system. In all ordinary matters each Panchayat unit acts independently, the Mandal deciding with the help of the village elders, whom he summons through the agency of the Barik or Diwan. Only in very grave matters affecting the welfare of the caste, or in the case of very grave offences against caste rules or etiquette in respect of marriage and connensality, etc., do several Panchayats and their Mandals meet together under the presidentship of the Sardar. The authority of the Baisi Sardar is hardly ever invoked, and the post is tending to become obsolete. In the matter of caste administration, there is a distinct tendency towards decentralisation. Each unit headed by the Mandal has been exercising a steadily increasing share of autonomy at the expense of the authority of the Sardar and the Baisi Sardar, especially of the latter—so much so that some Rajbansis in the Chapra thana stated that they had heard from their grandfathers of the existence of a Baisi Sardar, but that they did not even know if he was living or not."

LOCAL VARIATIONS.

885. There are numerous local variations. In one part a caste may have a standing committee, in another it may have none. It may or may not be grouped in larger unions, so that there may be Chaurasis only or Baisis only. The names of the officers also vary greatly: the Panchayat headman and the Baisi or Chaurasi headman may have the same designation, or they may be different. In one place a caste may have all three functionaries, in another only the headman and Chharidar, and elsewhere again only the headman. The following statement shows the titles of the office-bearers of different castes reported by the District Census officers and ethnological correspondents: in all cases the names are given in order of rank.

Caste.		District.		Titles of officers.
Amat	...	Darbhanga	...	Mahto, Diwan, Chharidar or Chaukidar.
Barai	...	Monghyr	...	Sardar.
Barhi	...	Patna and Gaya	...	Do., Chharidar.
		Monghyr	...	Do.
Bhar	...	Shahabad	...	Mahan Meth.
Chamar	...	Champaran	...	Metha, Pradhan or Mukhia.
		Patna and Gaya	...	Sardar, Chharidar.
		Shahabad	...	Mukhia, do.
		Monghyr	...	Marar.
		Bhagalpur	...	Manjan, Diwan.
		Muzaffarpur	...	Ditto, Chharidar.
Dhanuk	...	Monghyr	...	Manjan, Marar and Diwan.
		Bhagalpur	...	Do., Diwan.
		Purnea	...	Mandal, Diwan, Chharidar.
		Darbhanga	...	Mahto, ditto.
Dhobi	...	Muzaffarpur	...	Manjan, ditto.
Dom	...	Darbhanga	...	Sardar, Chharidar.
Dosadh	...	Patna and Gaya	...	Ditto.
		Purnea and Darbhanga.		Sardar, Diwan, Chharidar.
Gareri	...	Shahabad	...	Bhagat.
Goala	...	Patna ...	...	Manjan, Chharidar.
		Bhagalpur	...	Do., Diwan.
		Purnea ...	...	Mandal, do.
		Shahabad	...	Mahto.
Gonrhi	...	Bhagalpur	...	Manjan, Diwan, Chharidar.
		Champaran	...	Do., Do.
Hajjam	...	Shahabad	...	Raja, Diwan, Chharidar.
		Patna and Gaya	...	Sardar, Chharidar or Chobdar.

Caste.	District.	Titles of officers.
Hajjam ...	Monghyr ...	Manjan or Sardar, Marar or Gorait Diwan.
	Muzaffarpur ...	Manjan, Diwan, Chharidar.
Hari ...	Purnea	Sardar, Ditto.
Kahar ...	Patna, Gaya and Shahabad.	Do., Chharidar.
Kalwar ...	Champaran ...	Manjan, Diwan.
Khatwe ...	Darbhanga ...	Sardar, Diwan, Chharidar.
Kandu ...	Champaran ...	Manjan Do.
	Monghyr ...	Sardar, Gorait
	Muzaffarpur ...	Manjan, Diwan, Chharidar
Kewat ...	Purnea ...	Raja, Mandal, Pandit.
Koiri ...	Monghyr ...	Sardar or Manjan or Marar.
	Darbhanga ...	Mahto, Diwan, Chharidar or Chaukidar.
Kumhar ...	Monghyr ...	Sardar or Manjan or Marar.
Kurmi ...	Champaran ...	Manjan, Diwan.
	Muzaffarpur ...	Ditto, Chharidar.
	Patna	Sardar, Chharidar.
Lohar ...	Muzaffarpur ...	Manjan, Diwan, Chharidar.
	Shahabad ...	Sardar, Chharidar.
Musahar ...	Gaya	Ditto.
	Monghyr ...	Sardar, Gorait, Marar.
	Bhagalpur ...	Manjan, Mandal and Gorait.
	Purnea	Sardar, Diwan, Chharidar.
Mallah ...	Muzaffarpur ...	Manjan, Diwan, Chharidar.
	Champaran ...	Ditto.
Nat ...	Monghyr ...	Manjan or Marar.
	Champaran ...	Pradhan.
Nunia ...	Champaran ...	Manjan, Diwan.
Pasi ...	Patna	Sardar.
Sonar ...	Muzaffarpur ...	Manjan, Diwan, Chharidar.
Sunri ...	Ditto ...	Ditto ditto.
Tanti ...	Champaran ...	Manjan, Diwan.
	Monghyr ...	Do., Marar and Gorait.
Teli ...	Ditto ...	Sardar, Diwan, Chharidar.
	Darbhanga ...	Panjiar, Diwan.
	Champaran ...	Manjan, Do.
	Muzaffarpur ...	Ditto, Chharidar.
	Purnea	Paramanik, Diwan.
Tharu ...	Champaran ...	Chaudhuri, Mahtam.

886. In some parts the caste officials have recognized fees or perquisites In Purnea the triumvirate of the Dosadhs get presents of cloths: the Diwan and Chharidar each get one piece to every two that the Sardar receives. The Goala Raja, who presides over Panchayats of 14 villages in the same district, is given cloth and one rupee when the Panchayat is held in the house of a well-to-do man, and five betel-nuts if the man is poor. Among other castes, presents are given to the office-bearers when a marriage takes place. Sometimes the Chharidar gets a commission (one or two annas per rupee) on the amounts he collects. Among the Chamars of the Banka subdivision in Bhagalpur the Sardar receives one-fourth of the Panchayat's income, the remainder being spent in feasts. The following is a brief sketch of certain special features in the local organization of selected castes.

FEES OF THE OFFICIALS.

887. The system among the Bhars of Shahabad appears to be more centralized than usual. There is in every Bhar village a village headman, called Meth, who is informed of any violation of the caste rules. If he considers the matter fit to be referred to a Panchayat, he reports it to the Mahan, an officer with jurisdiction over ten or more villages, who convokes a Panchayat. The Panchayat is presided over by the Mahan, and all Meths in his jurisdiction sit on it. Both the village Meth and the Mahan hold their offices by hereditary right. If one or other dies leaving no one in his family to succeed him, a new man is elected, in the case of a Meth by members of the caste in the village

INDIVIDUAL CASTES.

concerned, in the case of a Mahan by the Meths of all the villages within the jurisdiction of the Mahan. The Dhanuks of Monghyr have a permanent committee consisting of a hereditary headman or Manjan for each village, and of a Marar and a Diwan. The Marar distributes tobacco among the assembled people; the Diwan sends round betel-nuts as a symbol showing that their presence is required at a Panchayat.

In Patna the Goalas have a headman in every village, called a Manjan, who convokes a Panchayat as occasion requires. His office is not hereditary, and a vacancy is filled up by election. Criminal charges, *g.e.* of thefts, are commonly heard by the Panchayat; if proved the accused is handed over to the police and the necessary evidence produced. In Shahabad every Goala village has a headman called Mahto. For groups of villages, and in the case of towns for the whole of the town, there is a superior caste official who is called Barka-Mahto, *i.e.*, a Mahto of 12 villages. When a breach of caste rules takes place, the village Mahto is first informed about it. In petty cases he gives judgement in consultation with the castemen of the village. In serious cases the Barka-Mahto is referred to, and a general Panchayat of all the castemen in the villages under him is convoked. All the sub-castes have also Panchayats. In the Goria sub-caste there is an official called a "Judge," who has control over the whole of the civil district (Shahabad), but among other sub-castes the Panchayat's jurisdiction is restricted to a group of villages, the head of which is called a Mahto. In Purnea the Goala headman is known as a Mandal and is assisted by a Diwan. At the head of every 14 villages there is a superior officer called the Raja.

Among the Hajjams of Patna there are generally two permanent officials, viz., the Sardar and the Chharidar, who is also known as the Chobdar. In Monghyr the committee consists of the headman, or Sardar, assisted by a Marar (or Gorait) and a Diwan: here there are also large unions under Sardars which adjudicate on grave offences. The office-bearers of the Hajjams in Shahabad are the Raja, the Diwan and Chharidar. The Raja is appointed by four or five Rajas of neighbouring Panchayats, the other two are elected by their caste fellows. All the sub-castes are governed by the one Panchayat. The Kurmis of the latter district have a regular gradation of unions. Each village has a caste headman, and every group of three or four villages is under a Naib. Over the Naibs again are Chaudhuris, whose jurisdiction extends over large areas and even over several *parganas*. The Naibs and Chaudhuris hold their offices by hereditary right, but if a competent successor cannot be found in their families, one is elected from other families. The better educated and well-to-do Kurmis claim Kshattriya descent and have started an association called the All-India Kurmi Kshattriya Association, with headquarters at Bankipore, which holds annual meetings. They stand aloof from the caste organization of their less advanced neighbours, and the Kurmi system of self-government is consequenty losing strength.

INTER-CASTE PANCHAYATS.

888. It is an almost universal rule that each caste acts in entire independence of others, and that the Panchayat should be confined to members of the caste. The only instance of inter-caste Panchayats is reported from the Kishenganj subdivision of Purnea, where the influence of the straiter Nepalese is felt. A Sikh constable on the Nepal border had adopted a Goala boy. The boy, having lived with a Sikh, was out of caste, but his adoptive father was anxious to have him taken into one or other of the Hindu castes. At his request, a large and representative Panchayat of no less than three castes, viz., the Goalas, Gangais and Rajbansis (who drink water from each other), met to discuss the question. The debate lasted a day and night. It was at last decided that as the boy had eaten with a Sikh, he could not be taken into any of their castes and that none of them could take water from him. The Sikh realized that other methods of suasion were necessary and offered to pay Rs. 500, and to give a feast to all three castes. His offer might have been accepted, have they not been convinced that their fellow castemen in Nepal would not only refuse to eat or inter-marry with them, but might hand them over to the Nepal Government for punishment when they crossed the border.

OFFENCES AND PENALTIES.

889. Among the lower castes the powers of the caste tribunals extend over a wide range. They take cognizance of breaches of the unwritten law of their caste, including breaches of social and religious rules, professional etiquette, and even the amenities of domestic life. It must not be supposed, however, that all offences are formally brought before the Panchayat. Frequently the offenders are simply reprimanded by the village elders, or the matter is quietly compromised. The caste headman commonly sends his Chharidar or messenger to settle matters privately. The number of offences against caste rules is legion, and space will not permit the mention of any but a few typical cases, such as smoking with or eating and drinking with a man of another caste, marrying outside one's own caste, taking up a degrading occupation, etc. In such cases relatives often suffer as well as the actual culprit. A Turaha of Champaran and his wife quarrelled. The wife, in a feminine fit of rage, determined to get her revenge, and drunk some water which a Musalman had touched. Both she and her poor husband were excommunicated. They were eventually restored to caste after the husband had fed Brahmans and feasted their caste fellows. Perhaps the commonest offences are those connected with the moral law, such as adultery, seduction, elopement, etc. Under this head too may be mentioned the question of *sagai*, or widow remarriage. Most of the castes in which the caste system has greatest vitality practice *sagai*, and the propriety or advisability of widow remarriage, in particular cases, is one of the subjects frequently laid before the Panchayat. In some cases, there appears to be no objection to a man having a mistress belonging to another caste, provided he does not eat food cooked by her.

In dealing with social matters the caste tribunals frequently trench upon the jurisdiction of the criminal and civil courts. Cases of assault on a fellow casteman are tried and compensation ordered. Abuse of a fellow casteman is dealt with leninently, but abuse of a headman severely, often entailing temporary excommunication. Endeavours are made to preserve peace and concord in the community. The spreading of false rumours, insults, disrespect to elders, all render the disturber of the peace liable to punishment. A husband and wife who frequently quarrel are brought to book. Reconciliations are effected in families that have quarelled and partitions are prevented. Failure to attend caste festivals, and any attempt to deprive the caste fellows of their rights, is promptly taken account of. One mean Teli, who refused to give the usual feast on his son's marriage, was punished by having to provide a mat for the Panchayat meetings. Religious offences, such as selling cows for meat, allowing a cow to die while tied up, the neglect of or improper performance of religious ceremonies, are commonly dealt with and severe sentences inflicted. A Barhi in Patna was accused of selling a cow to a butcher. His plea that he sold it to a Goala was not believed, and he was fined Rs. 25 and sentenced, in default, to remain an outcaste for 12 years. Being unable to pay the fine, he is still an outcaste. The apparent disproportion between the amount of the fine and the terrible penalty of 12 years' excommunication strikes a European as extraordinary.

PUNISHMENTS.

890. The punishment awarded by caste councils are briefly (1) outcasting, which may be either temporary or permanent, (2) fines, (3) feasts given to the castemen, (4) corporal punishment and (5), among the better castes, religious punishments such as *prayaschitta* (an expiatory ceremony), pilgrimages and penances. A man is permanently outcasted for grave offences, *e. g.*, if he knowingly and persistently partakes of food with, or drinks water from the hands of, or smokes with, a man of lower caste or marries a woman of lower caste and refuses to put her away. This extreme penalty has even been awarded when a man has married a woman of his own caste without or against the consent of her relations. Adultery and engaging in an occupation which is looked upon as degrading are sometimes similarly punished. Temporary outcasting is resorted for the punishment of offences which are regarded as less serious, or when there is hope that the cutting off of social intercourse for a time will effect reformation. This sentence is also passed in order to enforce obedience to the Panchayat's orders. A suspect is frequently outcasted till he clears himself of a charge.

A curious instance of this precaution is reported from Purnea. A man of the Rajbansi caste was charged by another of having had illicit intercourse with his widowed mother-in-law. The Panchayat met in due course, and as the charge was of a grave nature, the statement of the informer was taken down in writing and his thumb impression was taken on it, as well as a written undertaking that he would forfeit Rs. 10 if the charge was found to be untrue. The Panchayat could not arrive at a decision. The charge was, on the evidence, "unproven," but there was the risk of its being found true within three months, when it would be quite clear whether the woman was pregnant or not. In the meantime they all ran a danger if they ate with the man: so, to make themselves secure, they outcasted him for those three months.

When a minor offence has been committed, the culprit is ordered to pay a fine or provide a feast for his fellow-castemen. The fine is graduated according to the means of the offender. When he is a well-to-do or influential man, he is frequently required to give a feast to the castemen instead of being fined. Apologies are required for petty delinquencies, such as abusing fellow castemen and disrespect to elders. Pilgrimages are prescribed when a man by mistake, *i.e.*, unintentionally or unwittingly, eats food with, or drinks water from the hands of, or smokes with, a man of lower caste. *Prayaschitta* has to be performed for a similar offence, and also when a man has had social intercourse, knowingly, with persons of a higher caste. Penance is prescribed as a punishment for the arrogant and sometimes takes a curious form. For instance, when a man who has been declared guilty by a Panchayat shows contumacy, he is called upon to humiliate himself by placing upon his head the shoes of some of the members of the Panchayat.

Among the lower castes feasts to the castemen in the village are the commonest form of punishment. In the Kishanganj subdivision of Purnea, it is reported, nothing of importance, *e.g.*, a marriage or *sraddha* ceremony, can be performed without a feast being given to the Panchayat. Until and unless the feast is given, the ceremony is regarded as void. "This rule," writes Mr. G. S. Dutt, I.C.S., "has been pushed to its extreme limit among the Rajbansis, among whom the marriage ceremony is nothing but a feast given to the Panchayat. A man and woman may live together for years as husband and wife, and may beget children, but the marriage ceremony is not regarded as performed until the caste feast is given. As soon as the feast is given, the marriage becomes valid with retrospective effect."

RELIGIOUS PUNISHMENTS.

891. The feeding of Brahmans, pilgrimages to some sacred shrine, bathing in the Ganges, and the offering of *pujas* to the gods are often prescribed as punishments, especially in Tirhut. A man may have to perform one or other or a combination of these penances. A correspondent in Saran reports that for serious offences "a man has to bathe in the river Ganges and swallow its sand in order to expiate his sins. After going through these penances, he has to make a free gift of a cow or she-calf, as the Panchayat may decide, to his family priest. He has also to feed the priest and give him a present of clothing and cash. Besides the priest, Brahmans, as persons of secondary importance, have to be fed, the number being fixed by the Panchayat. These Brahmans, if the means of the offender permit, have also to be given cash and cloth, but proportionately less than what the family priest gets, because the most important task of eating the first morsel touched by the offender devolves on him. If he declines to eat, neither the other Brahmans nor the castemen of the offender would venture to drink water touched by him, inter-dining of the castemen being out of question. The offender is further enjoined to perform some *puja*: that which is at present in vogue is the ceremony of Satyanarayan *puja* (worship of the true god). Then comes the feeding of the castemen. Before or after feeding his castemen, the offender, if he can afford it, has to give *dhotis* to his castemen in general, and to the Pradhan or headman in particular. On such occasions the offender is ordered to give two dinners to the castemen, one called *kachhi* (food not touchable by other castes, *e.g.*, boiled rice, etc.), and the other called *pakhi* (food touchable by other castes, such as bread cooked in *ghi*). After all these preliminaries the offender is regarded as taken in caste, for he is allowed to eat with his caste men on the

occasion. If, however, the offender fails in any of the preliminaries, he must remain an outcaste."

CORPORAL PUNISHMENT.

892. Corporal punishment used to be commonly, but now is rarely, inflicted. The convicted person is thrashed with shoes, sticks, bamboos or the stem of a palm leaf, or made to ride on a donkey with one half of his face coated with lime and the other smeared with tar. Among some castes, an offender has to stand a certain time with a full pitcher of water on his head and with a mortar for pounding rice hung round his neck. The Doms and Halalkhors of Darbhanga also inflict a Sisyphean form of punishment, offering the man something to eat and then snatching it away and giving it to a dog. The Mallahs of this district take the guilty man round the village bearing a mortar, while the Barhis parade him with a worn-out plough on his shoulder. Other castes make a man wear shoes round his neck.

SEVERITY AND LENIENCY OF SENTENCES.

893. Some of the sentences are very light, *e. g.*, an apology or a fine of a few annas. Others are very heavy, but a frank submission and apology sometimes procures a cancellation of the sentence. A Barhi, for instance, while drunk, abused the members of his Panchayat and was outcasted for six months. The ban on him was withdrawn as soon as he aplogized. In another case a Hajjam was excommunicated for 25 years for shaving the clients of another Hajjam, but was readmitted into caste at the price of a feast to all the Hajjams in the neighbourhood. The severity of the punishment is frequently mitigated in the case of rich men, but they do not escape altogether. To quote a case in point, a Kahar in Saran was outcasted for adultery with his sister-in-law. He went off to Calcutta, made money, and on his return spent a good deal of it in trying to induce his caste fellows to remove the ban laid on him. Eventually they promised to readmit him into caste on condition that, when he was reinstated, every man beat him with shoes. To this he agreed, and duly submitted to his beating.

READMISSION INTO CASTE.

894. Except for grave delinquencies, the outcasting is generally temporary. A man is readmitted into caste as soon as the period has expired, and it is also a common thing for a sentence to be commuted, *e.g.*, to a fine and a feast. The man who is readmitted into caste has generally to provide a feast for his fellow castemen. His joining in the feast symbolizes the fact that he is again in communion with them.

PUNISHMENT OF FALSE CHARGES.

895. A man whose charge is found to be false by the Panchayat is as liable to punishment as the accused would be if it was proved. He may be outcasted temporarily or fined, or he may be subjected to personal punishment. He may be bound hand and foot and exposed to the sun, or whipped—it is reported from Saran that though corporal punishments are rarely inflicted nowadays, a bundle of bamboo twigs is kept ready for use at the Panchayat meetings—or he may be given five kicks by every member of the meeting, or tied up in a mat and left for some hours in that uncomfortable position.

REALIZATION AND DISPOSAL OF FINES

896. When fines are inflicted, they are either paid on the spot, or realized later by the Chharidar. Compulsion is not necessary, for default in payment is met by outcasting: the defaulter is simply boycotted and cut off from all social intercourse till he pays up. The proceeds are spent in a number of different ways. Most commonly they are spent on providing a common feast, or utilized for the purchase of mats for the members to sit on in council. and for other incidental expenses of the Panchayats, such as the purchase of cooking pots. They may be, and often are, devoted to charitable purposes, *e.g.*, to helping a poor man in meeting the expenses of his daughter's marriage, and in paying for the funerals of the indigent; or they are put to religious and pious uses, such as feeding Brahmans and alms to the poor. They may be allowed to accumulate till there is enough to build a temple. In one case a fine of Rs. 700 realized from a rich Sunri of Tirhut, who had performed *sraddha* in a manner contrary to established usage, was given to the fund raised for a Sunri school. Occasionally also they are expended on works of public utility, such as tanks and wells.

CHOTA NAGPUR PLATEAU.

897. In the Chota Nagpur Plateau conditions vary so greatly among the aboriginal tribes and semi-Hinduized castes that there cannot be said to be a uniform type of caste government. It will therefore be necessary to give an account of the system in vogue among some of the principal tribes, from which it will be seen that it is largely based on the communal system, which is one of their cherished institutions.

HOS.

898. The Ho villages were formerly grouped in *Parhas*, each under a chief called a Manki. The affairs of the *Parha* were regulated by the Manki assisted by a council of Mundas, or village headmen. When any question arose affecting the whole tribe, a general meeting of the Mankis was held. The powers of the councils were absolute, extending to death sentences for incest, and their decisions were unquestioned. In course of time the term *Parha* became corrupted into *Pir;* and, as the Hos multiplied, there were several Mankis in each *Pir*, but they still retained the system of councils, which became known as Panchayats. When British rule was established, the authority of the Panchayats in civil matters, especially in questions affecting tribal customs, was recognized. The rules for the administration of civil justice in the Kolhan provided specifically for the reference of suits to Panchayats, and declared that decrees passed in conformity with their awards should not be appealable, unless corruption could be proved, or unless the award was contrary to the common law of the country or to rules enacted by the Governor-General. These rules (laid down in 1837) are still in force, and disputes brought into Court are commonly referred back to the Panchayats. The control of the Panchayats over criminal matters was gradually transferred to the Courts, but petty disputes of a criminal nature continued, and still continue, to be settled by the headmen.

899. Complaints are made direct to the Manki, or through the Munda or village headman. For the settlement of trivial matters, in which only the parties themselves are interested, *e.g.*, petty assaults and questions of bride-price, the Manki may call on each party to nominate one or two persons to serve as arbitrators, and appoint a man to preside over their deliberations. If this court of arbitration cannot settle the question, the Manki takes it up himself. In petty disputes affecting only the parties concerned or the inhabitants of a single village, the Munda may summon a Panchayat of four or five influential raiyats with himself as President. This local Panchayat will settle the matter at issue, if possible; if they are not successful, it must be referred to the Manki for adjudication in a more representative Panchayat. When a momentous matter of caste custom or tribal usage is involved, all the Mundas under the Mankis are summoned. When the parties are under the jurisdiction of different Mankis, complaint may be made to either Manki: in such cases a joint Panchayat of the Mundas of both circles is commonly held.

900. Offences against caste rules are mostly concerned with questions of eating and inter-marriage. The Ho tribe is divided into a large number of exogamous septs known as *kilis*. Each of these *kilis* is divided into two classes, one of which is regarded as socially superior to the other. The members of the superior class will not eat or inter-marry with those of an inferior class. The *kilis* being exogamous, and the whole tribe being strictly endogamous, the same penalty of outcasting follows on inter-marriage within the *kili* as on eating or inter-marriage with other tribes or castes. Smoking the same cigarette is as strictly restricted as eating, but the rules as to drinking are more lax. A Ho will drink with another Ho with whom he cannot eat or inter-marry. He will also drink with Mundas, Santals and Bhumij, and with certain Hindu castes, such as Goalas and Kumhars. He will not, however, drink with lower Hindu castes, such as Ghasis, Tantis, Kamars and Doms, and never with Muhammadans. The sentence of outcasting is permanent if the offender cannot establish his innocence before the Panchayat. Temporary outcasting continues while the matter is *sub judice*, but this is only to protect the other members of the offender's family. On this account the relatives are the first to take action against an offender, the social ban continuing until he proves his innocence.

Now-a-days the treatment to be accorded to emigrants on their return from Assam is a common subject of inquiry. Their relatives immediately refuse to eat with them, and they are temporarily outcasted. The outcasted individual then has a Panchayat convoked, and has to prove to its satisfaction that he has not eaten with any foreigner since he left his home. If he can do this, he is received back in the usual way; if not, he is permanently outcasted. Women are, naturally enough, outcasted permanently if they have been away alone. Very few men, however, are permanently outcasted, because it is supposed that the aboriginal coolies on a tea garden live among their fellows and separately from the other coolies, and there is therefore *a priori* no reason for presuming that a man who has been to Assam has broken the rule about eating. Restoration to the tribe is celebrated by a feast, as a preliminary to which the man has to bathe, shave and receive a lustration. One of the Mundas, or a substantial raiyat of another *kili*, who has been a member of the Panchayat, is deputed by the Manki to sprinkle him with water, which is taken up in a leaf of the *tulsi* plant, or of a *nim* leaf if the *tulsi* is not available. A fowl is then sacrificed—formerly, the offender had to drink the blood of a pig or a black fowl—after which the Hos have a feast, in which their re-admitted brother takes part. As a further proof of his having begun a new life, the man has to throw away all the domestic utensils in his house and use new pots.

901. Fines are imposed in three kinds of cases—(i) Caste cases, in which an individual has lost his caste through poverty and applies for re-admission. The Manki takes a portion of the fine and the rest is divided among the Panchayat members. (ii) Offences against the general interests of the community, *e.g.*, the cutting of a tree in a sacred grove or immoderate felling in a village forest. Part of the fine is taken by the Manki and Panchayat members, and part by the chaukidar appointed by the villagers to look after the jungle. (iii) Personal disputes between parties. The major portion of the fine is given to the aggrieved party as compensation, the remainder being retained by the Manki and Panchayat members. The amount of the fine is regulated by the offender's capability to pay, and there is seldom any difficulty about realization.

If a man refuses to submit to the Panchayat's decision, the aggrieved party is referred to the Courts. The number of cases in which the Panchayat's verdict is questioned is, however, comparatively small. The Hos do not go to the Mankis as much as they used to do, but when they ask them to settle their differences in a Panchayat, the orders passed are generally accepted.*

MUNDAS.

902. The system of tribal government among the Mundas of Ranchi differs according to the area in which they live. Their country may be divided into two subdivisions, viz., the Khuntkatti and the Bhuinhari areas, lying roughly east and west respectively of thana Khunti. The Bhuinhari area is made up of groups of eight or more villages known as *Parhas*; the Bhuinhars of each *Parha* are all members of one and the same *kili* or sept. In this area the old post of Manki or tribal chief has disappeared, whereas it has survived in the Khuntkatti area. The latter was originally divided into *Pattis*, consisting of ten or twelve villages, which were ruled over by Mankis. The *Pattis* are now for the most part broken up, except in a locality known as the Manki *Patti*. In the Khuntkatti area the Munda and Pahan, who hold office by hereditary right, convoke Panchayats when occasion requires, *e.g.*, on receipt of a complaint. The Panchayat consists of members of the same *kili*. The Manki may be asked to preside; otherwise, the Pahan presides. Its jurisdiction extends only over the village, and it deals mainly with breaches of the marriage laws and disputes about the division of property.

In the Bhuinhari area each *Parha* has a standing committee, which deals as a matter of course with breaches of the caste rules. The chief officials are the Raja and Diwan, with whom complaints are lodged by the Munda or Pahan of the village where the offence has taken place; orders are then given to the Pande to convoke the Panchayat. All members

* The above account has been compiled from a report by Mr. L. B. Burrows, Deputy Magistrate, Singhbhum.

of the *kili* are entitled to attend. The proceedings are preluded by a feast, and there are certain officers having duties connected with it. One man gathers the leaves which serve as plates, another makes the plates, a third the leaf-cups, and a fourth distributes tobacco and *pan*. The chief function of the Panchayat is to punish offences against the marriage laws. If the culprit is repentant and promises to separate from the woman, he has to drink the blood of a white he-goat or a white fowl; the Pahan also sprinkles him with its blood. Otherwise he is usually ordered to pay a fine. The fines are realized by the Diwan and his *chaprasis*, by force if necessary. The Mundas are not very strict about eating and drinking, except with persons belonging to lower castes. They will eat with any Munda of any *kili*, and even with Christian Mundas, for embracing Christianity does not involve outcasting. The Panchayat also meets to discuss social matters—recently a meeting was held in one *Parha* to discuss the abolition of dances and *jatras*, in view of the immorality they lead to. Another favourite subject of discussion is the *Sardari Larai*, a political movement aiming at the expulsion of all Dikku (*i.e.*, Hindu and Musalman) zamindars, of which mention has been made in the section of Chapter IV dealing with the Birsaits. For this purpose collections are made and paid into a common fund.*

KANDHS (KHONDS).

903. Among the Kandhs (Khonds) of the Khondmals the primitive system of village communities still exists almost intact. The villages are grouped together in divisions called Muthas, each village being presided over by a headman, called Malika, over whom again is the headman of the Mutha, or the Mutha Malika. The village headman is the arbiter in all disputes, whether social, domestic or agrarian. If the dispute is between people of different villages, the headmen of the two villages decide it in consultation with the Mutha headman, in the presence of a few people of their own or adjoining villages. Intercourse with a blood relation is a heinous offence. The guilty parties are excommunicated till a purifying ceremony has been performed. A buffalo and pig are sacrificed to the earth goddess, and a pot of water is dashed on the front of the man's house to signify that the year's rainfall will not fail as a result of his sin. The Hinduized Kandhs of Angul have a system like that of their Hindu neighbours, there being a hereditary caste headman, called Behara, who convokes Panchayats and gives judgement in consultation with them. If the Panchayat is hopelessly divided in its opinion, members of other castes are called in, to form a general assembly, and the matter is threshed out with their advice. In Kalahandi the Kandhs select a headman called Omra—the name curiously recalls Mughal times—to act as their caste headman. He has jurisdiction over a group of villages, and is assisted by a Panchayat, composed of elderly and influential villagers and including as a rule the Gaontia, or fiscal headman. Complaints are made to the Omra, who then convokes the council and passes orders, in consultation with them, after hearing the parties.

ORAONS.

904. The Panchayat system is an old and cherished institution among the Oraons, the Panch or council of elders being held in such honour that the Oraons say, before discussing any important business, "God above, the Panch below," *i.e.*, the Panch is the highest authority on earth. There are two types of Panchayat, viz., the village Panchayat and the Panchora Panchayat. Originally, when the community consisted only of Oraons, the village Panchayat, *i.e.*, a meeting of *panches* representing the village, was confined to them, but now that the village is more heterogeneous, it has a different constitution. If a question affecting the whole village is to be debated, all the villagers, whatever their caste or tribe, meet in the Panchayat, while its president may be any respected village elder—even a Christian catechist—though it is generally the Mahto or Pahan. This Panchayat meets when occasion demands, and its president is elected only for the meeting. It decides land disputes, questions of inheritance and partition, cases of adultery and any infringement of Oraon customs. It also brings about the reconciliation of enemies, who have to drink a bowl of rice-beer together. Should one or other refuse, he is made to pay a fine or is given a good beating. If they consent to the reconciliation, a light fine is inflicted in order to provide a feast for the villagers. It also

* I am indebted to Mr. J. McPherson, Subdivisional Officer of Khunti, for the above information.

assembles to decide what action shall be taken when the village is visited by sickness, either of man or beast. The first thing done is, of course, to find out the wizard or the witch who is devouring their children or their cattle, and the next is to decide how to treat him or her.

PANCHORA PANCHAYAT.

905. The Panchora Panchayat is a more formal assembly consisting of the adult male members of a group of five or six villages. It is presided over either by the Kartaha or by the Mukhia. There is a Kartaha for each Panchora, who holds his office by hereditary right. The Mukhia is the chief man of a village or group of villages, and holds his office only as long as he is capable of performing its duties and is approved of by his fellows. The Panchora Panchayat is concerned chiefly with grave offences against caste rules, and also acts as a court of appeal against the decision of the Village Panchayat. If a man is ready to go to the expense of calling this large body together, he can do so, but the expense of giving food and drink to such a large body is naturally deterrent.

RE-ADMISSION OF OUTCASTES.

906. One important function of the Panchora Panchayat is to reinstate a man in caste. It sits in judgement on his case, decides whether he can be re-admitted, and fixes the amount he must pay, etc. In the actual ceremony of reinstatement the Kartaha plays a leading part. In the first place, the outcaste goes round the villages of the Panchora, carrying a *lota* and anouncing the date on which the Panchayat will assemble at his house. He has to fast for a certain period, and the Kartaha with two attendants *(bhitrias)*, come to his house. Two other Oraons (called *sivahis)*, who are especially selected for the purpose, mount guard over him to see that he does not break his fast or take any food or drink except turmeric water. When the period of fasting is ended, the Panchayat assembles, and the offender, after bathing, comes before it. The Kartaha kills a white cock or white goat, and the culprit is made to drink the blood, thus symbolically purging his sin. He then serves each Oraon with some food, after which the Kartaha calls for his fee *(patri tari)*, which varies from Rs. 5 to Rs. 15. Having received it, he begins to eat the food prepared by the outcaste. The moment that the Kartaha raises the food to his lips, all the persons present hurl their rice at his head. The offender, after this, brings a fresh supply of food and eats with his fellow tribesmen. The function of the Kartaha, it will be noticed, is that of a scapegoat or sin-eater. On his return home he uses the fees which he has been paid to give a feast to the caste-men. By so doing he atones for having eaten the food of an outcaste.

PARHA PANCHAYATS.

907. In some parts of Barwe in Ranchi there are Parha Panchayats, which differ in constitution and functions from the Panchora Panchayats. Like the latter, the Parha Panchayat exercises jurisdiction over a group of villages, but it does not consist of all the adult males of each village, but only of the leading men in each village, *e.g.*, the Mahto, Pahan, Bhandari, etc. It further deals with matters affecting whole villages, and not merely individuals. The Panchayat, which meets only once a year, deals with matters of religion, the dates of festivals, etc., and also with disputes about the village flags. Each Oraon village has a flag with a distinctive emblem, and disputes arise if one village makes any wanton innovation in its flag, *e.g.*, adopts the emblem which is distinctive of another. One of its chief functions is to deal with villages that do not observe the customary rules of sport, especially in the annual hunt. Two villages, for instance, unite for a hunt. During the beat a deer is wounded by villagers of village A, but escapes and is killed by the villagers of village B, who surreptitiously carry off their spoils of the chase and enjoy a solitary feast. A curious penalty is inflicted by the Parha Panchayat. The villagers of village A invade village B and beat to death the first pig which crosses their path, so as to supply themselves with a feast in the place of that of which they have been unfairly deprived.

OFFENCES AND THEIR PUNISHMENT.

908. The offences with which the Panchayat deals, whether it be the Panchayat of the village or of the Panchora, are for the most part offences against caste rules and public morality. The Panchayat takes no notice of sexual intercourse between

Oraons if the parties are not closely related. If a child is born, the parties are made to live together. Should the child die, they may separate, provided that all intercourse between them ceases and that the young man pays for the maintenance of the girl till she is married. Sexual intercourse between parties who are closely related is regarded as a very serious offence, and may involve loss of tribal rights for life or for a long term of years. The offending parties will only be able to recover their status, if at all, by the payment of large fine. Extenuating circumstances are however taken into consideration, and the Panchayat may consider it sufficient to give the parties a beating.

Sexual intercourse between Oraons and non-Oraons is a serious offence, but its heinousness depends on the social status of the caste concerned. Cases of illicit intercourse between an Oraon and a non-Oraon of low caste, *e.g.*, Dom, Ghasi, Turi, Lohar, etc., or of adultery with a non-Oraon of any caste, whether high or low, are submitted to a mixed Panchayat, *i.e.*, a Panchayat composed of the entire male population of the Panchora or Panchoras concerned, both castes being represented. If the act was unpremeditated or committed in drunkenness, the Panchayat will deal leniently with the offenders. If it was premeditated, the offenders may have to pay a fine of a buffalo or 5 or 6 pigs (of a total value of about Rs. 40) before they can be taken back into caste. The fines are divided between the two castes who have formed the Panchayat. Subsequently, the caste which ranks higher in social estimation holds a second Panchayat and imposes another fine on the member of their caste who has brought discredit upon them.

The rules about eating and drinking are not strict, and breach of them can be condoned by providing a goat or a pig and some rice-beer for a feast, or by the sacrifice of a white goat or a white cock and by drinking the blood of the animal so sacrificed. The ceremony of expiation may be carried out by the Pahan of the village, and the expiation does not necessarily involve the assembly of a Panchayat. As among other tribes of the Chota Nagpur Plateau, a man who has a festering sore—a "wound with maggots" as it is usually described—is considered to have offended against caste and to be unclean. To regain his position, he must call the Panchayat and feast them on a white goat and rice-beer.*

KHARIAS.

909. The Kharias of Ranchi have a Panchayat system similar to that of the Oraons. They are divided into two classes, viz., those who eat the flesh of cows (Chotgohandi) and those who abstain from it (Bargohandi). Amongst the latter it is an offence wilfully to kill, or to cause to be killed, a cow or bullock : such an offence can only be expiated by a visit to a sacred bathing place. On his return, the culprit has to drink the blood of a white goat and give a feast to the members of the Panchayat. The Kharias also have a Kartaha who restores men to caste : he is not a permanent officer, but is chosen for the occasion. If a man is outcasted and cannot, owing to poverty, pay the fine at once, the Panchayat may grant him the right of drinking with his castemen. For this he must pay them two measures of parched rice and one pot of rice-beer. For the full recovery of caste rights the Kartaha's help is needed. The offender drinks the blood of a white he-goat, besides supplying food and drink to the Panchayat. No rice is thrown at the Kartaha, and he is merely the first person to eat the food of the outcaste. As among the Oraons, it is an offence for a woman to do a man's work. A Kharia woman who touches the plough, is herself yoked to a plough and made to plough a few feet of ground : she must also eat some grass and go round the village begging for rice to provide drink for the Panchayat. The sister or the daughter of the master of the house, when grown up, also commits an offence if she enters a cow-shed.

SANTALS.

910. The system of tribal government among the Santals is closely bound up with the communal system. Its unit is the village, at the head of which is the Santal

* The above account has been compiled from a note by Mr. M. G. Hallett, I.C.S., late Subdivisional Officer of Gumla in the Ranchi district. A brief account of the Oraon Panchayats in Palamau will be found in *The Religion and Customs of the Oraons*, by the Revd. P. Dehon, Memoirs of the Asiatic Society of Bengal, Vol. I, 1906-07.

headman or Manjhi. He is essential to Santal life, every public sacrifice, ceremony and festival requiring his presence. Should a Santal village have a headman of another race, they will appoint a Santal to perform all the social and ceremonial deaths of the Manjhi. He is called a Handi Manjhi, *i.e.*, a liquor headman, the consumption of liquor being a feature of their ceremonies. In his administrative capacity as fiscal head of the village the Manjhi is assisted by a sub-head man called a Paranik. In his social functions he is assisted by the Jog-Manjhi, who acts as *custos morum* to the young people of the village. If a girl becomes pregnant, the Jog-Manjhi has to find the man who is responsible and bring him before the Panchayat, which will deal with the culprit. If he does not, the village people take him to the Manjhi's cow-shed and tie him with a buffalo's rope to a pole, besides imposing a fine on him. During the Sohrai festival, when much license prevails, the village boys and girls live for five days and nights with the Jog-Manjhi, who has to see that no scandal occurs, *e.g.*, that relatives between whom marriage is prohibited do not have illicit intercourse. The Jog-Manjhi has an assistant called Jog-Paranik, who officiates when he is absent. The fifth and last of the secular village officials is the Gorait, who acts as the Manjhi's orderly, and calls the villagers together at his command. These posts are practically hereditary, but it is recognized that their holders are merely representatives of the village community and that they derive their power from the people themselves. Once a year they all resign their posts to the village people, though this is now done only *pro formâ*, for they are regularly re-appointed.

The Manjhi summons the villagers when any question arises affecting their common interests, or when a villager has complained to him and a communal judgment is required The meeting is called a Panchayat or in Santali *More-hor* (literally five men), a term which probably originally signified the headman and the four other village officials. The latter are *ex-officio* members. and the Panchayat also includes any adult male belonging to the village. If there is a dispute between Santals belonging to different villages, the people of both villages meet together to decide the case. If they cannot arrive at a conclusion, or if one or both of the parties are dissatisfied with their finding, a reference is made to a full bench consisting of a Parganait (who is the head of a group of villages), the village headmen of the group and other influential men in the neighbourhood. As the Manjhi has an assistant in the village, so the Parganait has an assistant in his circle called the Desh-Manjhi.

Every village has its council place (the Manjhi *than*) where Panchayats are held and petty disputes are settled. The Panchayat also disposes of more serious questions, such as disputes about marriage and inheritance. Questions of serious importance are referred to a Panchayat consisting of the neighbouring Manjhis under the control of the Parganait.

OUTCASTING.

911. Total excommunication, which means expulsion from the tribe, can only be effected by a general assembly of the Santals. This extreme penalty is inflicted for breaches of either the endogamous or the exogamous law, *i.e.*, for sexual intercourse with a non-Santal or between Santal relatives who come within their table of kindred and affinity. If any one commits such an offence, the headman of his village calls his neighbouring colleagues together and informs them. If the charge is believed to be true, the parties are temporarily outcasted. Nothing more can be done till the annual tribal hunt takes place, when the matter is discussed in a full conclave of the Santals. If the case is not proved, those who started the rumour are very severely punished. If it is proved, the assembly gives an order for outcasting, and proceeds to execute the sentence under the supervision of the local Parganait and some other influential men. The main part of the proceedings consists of defiling the outcaste's house. The fire-places, pots, etc., are all broken, while the young men strip and commit nuisance in and round about the house ; one case is known in which it took more than two weeks for the place to dry up properly.

THE TRIBAL HUNT.

912. The tribal hunt is the one occasion in the year when the Santals act as a united tribe, all local units and officials being then subordinated to the tribal session.

It is a common hunt to which the people are summoned by an official called Dihri, who acts as priest and hunt-master. The summons is sent by a *sal* branch being circulated. In the evening, when the hunt is over, the people meet in council. Here the Manjhis and Parganaits are, if necessary, brought to justice; and if any one has to be excommunicated, his case is dealt with. Any matter, great or small, may be brought forward by anyone; if the case cannot be finally decided then, it is kept in abeyance till next year's hunt.

RE-ADMISSION OF OUTCASTES.

913. The re-admission of outcastes is as public as their excommunication. It is effected by a ceremony called *jam jati* (*i.e.*, eating one's way back to the tribe). When it is to be performed, the village headman informs the local Parganait, and the latter 12 other Parganaits, so that the news spreads over the whole countryside. The person who is to be re-admitted goes to the end of the village street carrying water in a *lota* with a twisted cloth round his neck to show that he is willing to be led. After he has acknowledged his transgression and begged for pity, the most venerable Parganait present takes the *lota* from his hands and bows to the sun. He then rinses his mouth with a little of the water and passes it round to all leading men, who do the same. After this they enter the village and go to the courtyard of the outcaste, where he washes their feet. All then sit down to a feast at which the outcaste serves them: he also pays the necessary fees, viz., Rs. 5 to every Parganait and to the village Manjhi, and one rupee to every other Manjhi. After the feast the old Parganait announces his restoration to brotherhood. They then dig a small hole, bury a lump of cow-dung in it and put a stone on top, thereby symbolizing that the man's sin is buried for ever.

DEATHS FROM TIGERS AND OUTCASTING.

914. In the Patna State the Binjhals and Saharas have a curious belief that if a man is killed by a tiger his relatives become *ipso facto* impure. For both castes there is an elaborate ceremony of purification which is performed by the officers of the caste Panchayat, viz., the Muri and Biswal in the case of Binjhals and the Biswal and Manjhi in the case of Saharas. The following account of the ceremony among Binjhals applies *mutatis mutandis* to the Saharas, the name of the officiating functionaries only being different. The family of the dead man first search for the body and bury it, or any portion they can find, near the village site. They then observe a fast till the Muri comes and sprinkles the juice of the *bija* tree over their house and also over the village roads and paths. After this, the household get out new pots and break their fast, but they remain excommunicated till duly purified. On the morning of the day fixed for this ceremony, all their clothes are washed, and the walls and floor of the house smeared with fresh earth and cowdung. The Biswal and Muri, accompanied by other members of the caste, then take the outcasted family to a stream or tank: the family is represented by one of its members, who is treated as the outcaste. He is shaved there completely, his male relatives are also shaved, and the females have their nails pared. They also bathe and put on new clothes. The Muri and Biswal make seven holes on the bank of the tank or stream, in each of which water, paddy, milk and flowers are placed. Seven lamps and seven heaps of rice are placed by them and the sun god is invoked: the outcaste and his family stand facing the sun. The Muri sacrifices seven fowls, and pours water seven times on the outcaste's head. Water is also sprinkled over the bodies of the outcaste and his family, and some is poured into their hands and drunk by them, after which they fall at the feet of the caste fellows and remain prostrate till told by the elders to arise. After this, the Muri goes to the house again and sprinkles the holy water on the floor and roofs. The proceedings end with a feast in the purified house, symbolizing re-entry into caste.

It is believed that the spirit of the dead man enters the tiger and that it will kill the head of the house unless the family is purified. The ceremony, it is said, propitiates the spirit, which is then released from bondage. The basis of the superstition is probably however, that the family has offended the deity and that, for the sake of the community, they must be purified by means of an expiatory ceremony. If any Khonds are resident in a village where a man has been killed by a tiger, they also take action independently.

In the centre of the street in which they live is a square wooden post, with the head roughly carved, which represents the earth god and is called Dharni or Judan. To it they make offerings, and neglect of its worship is a sin which renders them reliable to attacks from tigers. Formerly, when a man was killed by a tiger, they left the village and built new houses elsewhere. Now that the State has a system of forest conservancy, they are content to tear up the post, erecting another after an interval of a week or so.

ORISSA. LOW CASTES.

915. In Orissa the system of caste government follows a more or less uniform type. The lowest castes, and also the *Hatua* castes, *i.e.*, clean (mostly functional) castes, such as Gauras and Gurias, that occupy an intermediate position in the social scale, have headmen called variously Behara (the commonest name), Padhan, Thanapati, etc., who exercise authority in caste matters over single villages or groups of two to six villages. Over them, again, are superior officials called Mahantas, Sardar Beharas, etc., with jurisdiction over large areas, *e.g.*, fifty to sixty villages. The posts are hereditary: on succession, the new officer gives a feast to the castemen under him, the headmen of other groups and the superior officials. When they meet at this convivial gathering, they declare his succession is confirmed. Caste offences are dealt with in several ways according to their gravity, and the tribunal is not always confined to members of the caste. On receipt of a complaint, the headman calls a meeting of influential villagers belonging both to his caste and also to other castes, and decides the question in consultation with them: this meeting is called a Sabha. If the accused is opposed to having the case decided by this tribunal, the headman brings it up at a gathering of the caste on the occasion of some festival: this conclave is called Jati Sabha, *i.e.*, a meeting of the caste. The accused is excommunicated till the Jati Sabha has given its verdict. If the issues are important, or if the offender disputes the decision of a Jati Sabha, a Barhai Patak Sabha or general meeting of several castes (Brahmans, other high castes and clean low castes) is called. Its decision is final, and the people of all castes respect it.

If an offender refuses to submit to the orders passed by the headman at a Sabha or to the orders of the Jati Sabha, he is outcasted. If he disregards the decision of the general meeting (Barhai Patak Sabha), he is declared *patit*, *i.e.*, out of Hindu society, and the village barber and washerman cease to serve him. Fines are generally imposed for petty offences and expended in offerings to Jagannath or the village deity. Men guilty of serious offences have to provide the castemen with a feast or more than one feast. This entails heavy expense, as the number of men to be fed varies from 100 to 400. If an offender is poor, he may be permitted to feed only a few men and to pay a certain amount in cash. If he is so poor that he cannot make any payment, he falls prostrate before the assembly of caste people (Jati Sabha) and serves each man with *dantkathi nani*, *i.e.*, he gives each of them a stick for brushing his teeth and some water. This is regarded as an humiliating penance. Each caste has got a Brahman or Baishnab who makes the offerings to the deities. When a Jati Sabha is to be held, the money received up to date is made over to him. He then makes the offerings, brings the *bhog* (food offered to the deities), and distributes it to all the caste people, who eat it then and there.

916. In Balasore the system appears to be more like that of Bihar. It is reported that low castes, such as Gaura, Tanti, Teli, Gokha, Kandra, etc., have each a Panchayat, which deals with all questions connected with caste government. The Panchayat consists of as many members as there are houses or families within its jurisdiction. A male member from each family is sent as a delegate to it; a minor is represented by an adult relative. It is invariably presided over by the Behara or caste headman, who holds his title by hereditary right and "is appointed, when necessary, by the religious preceptor or village landlord." He is, in fact, the real authority, for all questions are referred to him in the first instance, and the Panchayat takes action only on his initiative. He calls it together when a special meeting is necessary. Generally, however, the meetings are held when religious festivals or social ceremonies are celebrated, at which the members of the caste will naturally be present.

HIGH CASTES.

917. The higher castes, such as Brahman, Karan and Khandait, and among the low clean castes, the Chasas, have no caste officials. When any member of these castes commits a serious offence or repeatedly violates caste customs, his neighbours move in the matter and call a meeting of the caste and leading members of other castes to deal with the matter. The control over individual members is not very strong, and the decisions of the caste councils are frequently disregarded. An offender may have sympathisers and friends, who back him up and, with him, disregard the opinion of the majority. In this respect the Oriya high caste is like the Bengali high caste, as it is frequently split up into discordant factions.

CASTE GOVERNMENT AND TEMPLES.

918. In Sambalpur there are some castes of which the organization is connected with the local temples. Council meetings are held in temples, oaths taken in a temple form an important part of the procedure, and temples are maintained from the caste funds. The castes in which this system obtains present other peculiar features of which a brief account may be given.

AGARIAS.

919. The Panchayat presidents of the Agarias, who are called Parganias, are the headmen of the villages in which the principal temples of this community are situated: these villages are known as Gurigaon, *i.e.*, temple villages. They hold office by hereditary right, but residence in the temple villages is essential. The Panchayats are held in the temples and are convoked by the Pargania, who summons—it is said by letter—the leading men of the caste from each village within the local area served by the temple. In case of intestate deaths, the whole property of the deceased goes to the caste. A feast is given, the Pargania gets a bullock, and the balance is utilized for religious or charitable purposes, *e.g.*, repairing the temples, and helping poor castemen on the occasion of marriages.

KULTAS.

920. The Kultas worship Ramchandi, a deity who has three principal temples. The villages in which they are situated are called Piths, and the fiscal headmen of the three villages are the caste headmen. All the Kultas therefore are grouped in three circles, each with its Pith Panchayat, or general committee, consisting of 4 to 6 persons, of which the Pith headman is president. Membership of the Panchayat is hereditary: even the minor heir of a deceased Panch can sit on it. The president's post is also hereditary, but females can succeed—a unique feature in the system of caste government. One of the presidents at the present time is a woman. Under the general committees there are sub-committees, and under the sub-committees there are one or two Kurs or headmen in each Kulta village. The post of Kur is also hereditary.

If the matter to be decided is of small importance, the Kur sends for the castemen of the village and decides the case with their help. Otherwise he refers it to the president of the local sub-committee. The president then calls all the Kurs of his circle and sits in council with them. Serious offences, and cases in which there is a division of opinion, have to be tried by the general committee. If an accused does not admit his guilt, neither the Kur nor the sub-committee can pass final orders, and a reference must be made to the Pith Panchayat. If he still persists in his plea of innocence, he is directed to have it put to the proof by taking an oath in a temple. In case of an intestate death, the temple gets all that remains of the property of the deceased after the expenses of a caste feast have been met. If a widow marriage takes place, the temple gets 5 per cent. of the money which the bridegroom pays to the castemen for the marriage feast.

BRAHMANS.

921. The Brahmans of Sambalpur, unlike Brahmans elsewhere, have an organized system of self-government for each of their three sub-castes. They are (1) the Jharua Brahmans, the earliest Brahmans in Sambalpur, whose name means jungly and is supposed to refer to the fact that the country was a mass of jungle when they settled in it; (2) the Utkal Brahmans, who are later immigrants from Orissa; and (3) the Raghunathia Brahmans, who worship Raghunath or Ram.

The Jharuas are grouped together in a society or Sabha, which is designated Brahmapura Aranyak Brahman Sabha: the Brahmapura temple in Sambalpur, from which it derives its name, is of particular sanctity, and not only caste matters but also civil suits are settled by oaths in it. The Sabha has written records dating back 50 years and is administered by a Panchayat or standing committee, at present consisting of 15 members including the president. The latter is a member of the family from which the Raja of Sambalpur used to select the Brahman headman. The members of the committee are chosen by the Sabha from leading families in Sambalpur town. This Panchayat has got original jurisdiction over members of the community living in Sambalpur town and its neighbouring villages. Outside these limits there are sub-committees with Parganias as headmen. The Sabha gives each Pargania a charter or letter of authorization, which also contains the names of the members of the sub-committee: the latter are selected from among the local Jharuas by the Sabha in consuls tation with the Pargania. The Brahmapura Sabha formerly had appellat-jurisdiction over all the sub-committees, but recently independent Sabhae have been set up. When there is an appeal against the decision of a sub-committee, its members sit with the members of the Brahmapura Sabha. Other castes also refer to it questions of a specially grave or complicated character. A record is kept of the proceedings, and regular accounts are maintained. In doubtful cases the alleged offender has to swear to his innocence in the Brahmapura temple.

922. The Utkals recognize the supremacy of a temple in Sambalpur called Timni Guri. Till a recent date, the head of the Guru family of Sambalpur, as the chief priest of this temple, was the recognized headman of the caste, and sat in Panchayat with the heads of the principal families. This simple body was swept away in 1895, when the modernized Utkals, filled with admiration of the representative system, decided to adopt it in their social life. A large meeting was held, in which the proposed reforms were sanctioned and the Panchayat was reorganized, 20 members being elected. The head of the Guru family retained his post, and the vice-president also was selected from that family. No elections were held to fill up vacancies till 1911, when there was another mass meeting of the community and fresh members were elected. The president, a man of the good old type, had by this time realized what the "reforms" meant. He resigned and the vice-president took his place.

The general committee exercises original jurisdiction over Sambalpur and its neighbourhood, and has 20 sub-committees under it, to which it has delegated power to deal with minor breaches of caste rules. Every serious matter in which there is need of *prayaschitta*, or of consultation of the *Smritis*, must be referred to the general committee. The elective system has not been extended to the sub-committees, membership of which is confined to certain families. The headman is selected from the principal family in the group of villages over which it has control. When a Panchayat meets, and the accused pleads not guilty, evidence is taken, the witnesses produced by both sides being examined on oath. If the evidence is inconclusive, the offender is asked whether he will swear in a temple that he was not guilty. The Brahmapura temple is most commonly resorted to. The oath is written on a palm leaf, and, after being read out, is deposited in the temple. The man invokes terrible penalities on his head, *e.g.*, that if he has committed the offence complained of, he will become blind, that "his heart will burst," or that he will lose all his children within three days, or three weeks or three months or three years, as may be agreed upon. If nothing of the sort happens within the period fixed, he comes up again before the Panchayat with the palm leaf and is taken back to caste.

923. The Raghunathias have an entirely different system, for they are under Gaontias or village headmen, each of whom is assisted by a permanent Panchayat of four men. The posts of the headmen and the *panches* are hereditary. For offences not calling for permanent outcasting the culprit has to purify himself by having himself shaved clean and all his clothes washed, and then visit a temple and make offerings to Raghunath. After this, he

must give a feast to his brethren. Fines are utilized for caste feasts, and of the balance five-eighths are devoted to the worship of Raghunath.

CASTE OFFENCES.

924. In Orissa many things are treated as breaches of caste rules that are taken no notice of elsewhere. A man who has been imprisoned in jail is frequently treated as a outcaste. On his release he has to make a pilgrimage besides other penalties, such as providing a feast for his local brethren, before he can be in communion with them. The Malis of Sambalpur outcaste a man for ever who is imprisoned seven times. If he is imprisoned more than once, they call on him to execute a bond, undertaking not to commit crime on pain of excommunication. To be beaten by a very low-caste man, such as a Ganda, is regarded as an offence by most castes. If a Gaura suffers this indignity, he must throw away his earthen cooking pots, cleanse his house and furniture, shave, have his clothes washed, and feed two old castemen residing in the village. A Bhulia is fined if a Ganda even accidentally touches him. *Machhiapatak*, *i.e.*, having maggots in a wound, makes a man unclean. The unclean wretch is temporarily outcasted, either for a fixed period (often 21 days) or until the wound heals. The Sahars sometimes punish a woman if she plasters the house or cleans the cowshed of a member of another caste, or carries baggage for him.

The punishments are sometimes extraordinarily light. A Kewat was fined only Rs. 22 for suppressing no less than three damaging facts, viz., that (1) his nephew removed the corpse of a man of another caste, (2) a widow in his house conceived, and (3) a relative of his went to Assam to work on a tea garden. One curious form of punishment is to make the culprit stand on one leg with a pot full of water on his head.

READMISSION OF OUTCASTES.

925. Among the low castes of Sambalpur the ceremony for readmitting outcastes is very like the purifying ceremony which, as already described, has to be undergone when a man has been killed by a tiger. The following is a description of the ceremony among the Ghasis by Mr. A. N. Moberly, I.C.S., formerly Deputy Commissioner of Sambalpur. A Ghasi outcaste can only be reamitted by a member of a section of the caste called Sonani. Each Sonani family is in charge of a circle for this purpose, and the head of the family for the time being officiates. On the appointed day the caste-men assemble in the morning on the bank of a nullah or tank. The outcaste and the males of his family, who have been expelled with him, are shaved. All bathe, and the Sonani, who wears a new waistcloth (*langot*) supplied by the outcaste and a thread like those worn by Brahmans, sacrifices a white cock to the sun. He then takes some water, which should have been obtained from the priest of some temple. If such water cannot be obtained, he makes seven small holes in the bed of the nullah and mixes some water from each of them. He places a little gold, some *tulsi* leaves and a pice in the vessel, holding the thread which he is wearing in his thumb, as Brahmans do on an auspicious occasion. He then gives a little to the outcaste, who is standing on his left leg with his hands placed together in the attitude of a supplicant. After drinking, the outcaste makes an obeisance to the Panchayat, who declare him pure. The other persons, who have been outcasted with him and who are standing behind him, but not on one leg, are also given some of the water. The Sonani then takes the remainder and sprinkles it over the outcaste's house, where the proceedings close with a feast.

The ceremony among the Mahars has several points of similarity. The heads of certain families of the Bisi and Naik sections conduct the ceremony ; these officers also preside over every Panchayat at which any question of divorce, outcasting or readmission is decided. Both should, if possible, be present at the readmission ceremony, in which case the Bisi takes the leading part, the Naik acting as his assistant ; but in the absence of one, the other can perform the whole ceremony. On the morning of the day of readmission all the dirty clothes belonging to the outcaste's family are given to the village washerman, and the walls and floors of his house are smeared with cowdung. In the case of heinous offences, the caste-men assemble under a *mahua* tree near a river or tank. The chief outcaste is completely shaved, if a male ; if a female, her hair is

cut. The other males of the family have their front hair shaved and the women's nails are pared. All then bathe, the outcastes exchanging the clothes they are wearing for others freshly washed by the Dhobi. The Bisi and Naik smear a place near the water with cowdung, and, after setting a lamp on it, make seven holes. In one of them they put gold, silver, *ghi* which has been sanctified with *mantras* by a Brahman, *gur*, *tulsi*, *nirmal* and cowdung, and mix water from it with that in the other six. *Arwa* rice, milk, *gur*, *ghi*, honey and flowers are then heaped together on the smeared place, and powdered sandalwood is sprinkled over them. The Bisi takes a cock and, facing the sun, cuts its throat on the edge of an axe, which he holds between his feet, so that the blood falls on the offerings. He prostrates himself and is followed by all present. The sacrifice is in honour of Samlai. Patmeswari is sometimes worshipped after Samlai; in this case there are two lamps, two heaps of offerings and two cocks. The Bisi and Naik next collect water from each of the seven holes in a pot, and all repair to the *mahua* tree, where the outcaste stands, facing the sun, with his family behind him and the caste-men opposite. The Bisi pours some of the water into his hands, and he drinks it standing on his left leg. Some water is similarly taken by each member of his family, but they are allowed to drink with both feet on the ground. At the direction of the Bisi he falls at the feet of the caste-men, and the elders tell him that he may get up as he is absolved. The Bisi then goes alone to the outcaste's house and sprinkles the remainder of the water on the floor and roof. On his return to the *mahua* tree, all feast. The fowl is buried by the Bisi, the lamps and offerings are thrown into the water and the holes are obliterated. In less serious cases the feast takes place at the house of the outcaste, and no part of the ceremony takes under a *mahua* tree.

BENGAL.

926. In Bengal the unit of caste government is the Samaj, a name for a society or association, which has, in this connection, a restricted special sense. It means the circle within which the members of a caste or sub-caste usually dine together on festive and religious occasions, and may be translated as "the local community." Every Hindu is under an obligation to feed castemen on certain occasions, and those who can attend on such occasions constitute the Samaj or administrative unit. Its limits therefore vary: there may be one or more in a village, or one Samaj may comprise a group of villages. There is always a tacit understanding amongst the members of the Samaj to abide by its decisions. It is, in fact, a corporate body, which acts as guardian of the unwritten social laws with regard to endogamy, exogamy and commensality.

LOW CASTES.

927. The lower castes have headmen for each Samaj, known by various names, such as Pradhan, Matabar, Mandal, Paramanik, Samajpati, etc., who hold office by hereditary right. The headship generally descends from father to son, but when the lineal male line of a family becomes extinct, the head of another family connected with the extinct line succeeds. Under the altered conditions of the present day, however, the hereditary Mandals are being ousted by parvenus, who have acquired wealth and influence. Sometimes also the zamindar appoints a Matabar or Pradhan for the caste in place of a deceased one. These headmen occupy the same position, and deal with offences in consultation with caste councils in the same way, as headmen in Bihar. At the council meetings, which are commonly called *ma'lis*, sentences of outcasting (permanent or temporary), fines and corporal punishments are inflicted. Fines are frequently made over to the Barwari (an institution for the performance of village *puias*), or to the Hari Sabha, or are spent in a caste feast, or in feeding Brahmans. Sometimes the offender, if he is a man of substance, has to undertake some work of public utility, such as the construction of a tank or repairs to a temple. Not infrequently, however, he is influential enough to be able to defy the Panchayat's order, especially if he is supported by other influential men. In such a case a split occurs, and two rival factions arise. The split often becomes permanent, and each faction sets up a Samaj for itself.

928. Other castes have no hereditary headman, but have a standing committee of influential men of the caste, to whom complaints are preferred

and who call meetings to decide upon them. Where a caste has neither a headman nor a committee, the question of any member having broken caste rules is brought up upon ceremonial occasions, *e.g.*, marriages, *sraddha*, and the like. Those who disapprove of the conduct of the delinquent, refuse to join him in the feasts given on such occasions, and dissuade others from doing so. The recognized leaders of the caste are also approached, and if they are of the same opinion, the delinquent is boycotted until he has made the atonement required by influential members of the community.

An interesting example of the collapse of caste organization is reported from Dinajpur. In that district there used to be a regular gradation of officials among the Kumhars. The Chaurasis were the recognized leaders of the caste. No marriage or *sraddha* was regarded as complete without their presence, and they were the final authorities in caste matters. Under them were headmen called Paramaniks, while the executive officers were Panpatras. The latter summoned the members to caste meetings, sending round *pan* or betel leaves as a missive, and at the meetings served the whole assembly, bringing in plantain leaves for use as plates at the common meal and removing them when it was over. The control of the Chaurasis has been thrown off. Though they have a high social status, they have no special authority in caste government. The Panpatras have also ceased to perform their former duties, and now the Paramaniks are the only officials.

HIGH CASTES.

929. The higher castes of Bengal have no regular machinery to maintain social and moral discipline, but hold meetings to discuss questions as they arise. Among the Brahmans living in towns there is frequently some man of good family and position who is generally recognized as their head. When an aggrieved party appeals to him, he calls a meeting of the more influential citizens, to which the more erudite local Pandits are invited. The question at issue is discussed, and the opinion of the Pandits is taken as to whether the Sastras sanction or prohibit the course proposed. Votes are taken, though not formally recorded, and a decision is come to. In petty cases the services of the Pandits may be dispensed with, but in matters of moment to the community they are indispensable. When broad questions of usage, caste or religion are discussed, Pandits of repute are called in from such centres as Nabadwip, Bhatpara, Purbasthali, and even Benares. There is a popular idea that the influence of the Pandits is on the wane. This belief is true only to this extent, that the Pandits have lost the means of enforcing their verdict. They pronounce their judgement, but its execution is left to others not under their power. The result is that a delinquent generally manages to escape the penalties prescribed by the Pandits if local men of influence connive at his offence or neglect to punish him. That, however, does not affect the real authority of the Pandits, which lies not in execution of sentence, but in the proceedings leading up to judgement. In this respect their influence is as strong to-day as it was a century ago, and their counsel is still as freely sought.

930. The meetings of both Brahmans and Kayasths are almost entirely confined to the consideration of the following offences :—(1) Sea voyages and the eating of forbidden food, (2) intermarriage between different sub-castes, (3) widow marriage, and (4) immorality on the part of a female. Immorality on the part of males seldom forms the subject of discussion, but a suspicion of unchastity on the part of a female is sufficient for a meeting to be called : if the charge is proved, she is rigorously dealt with. There is no doubt that the control of the caste over its individual members is, with one exception, less complete than it is in the case of castes which have caste Panchayats. The exception is the Kulin clans, on which the Ghataks keep a sharp eye. Their delinquencies are noised abroad at marriage feasts and other social ceremonies. Social degradation or excommunication automatically ensues without the necessity of a caste meeting. Other sections have not the same solidarity. One party may sympathize with the offender, *e.g.*, with one who eats forbidden food ; if they are the stronger party, he has little to fear. It is becoming increasingly difficult to punish a rich or influential man, as he is generally able to win over other members of the caste, which consequently is split up into separate parties.

931. The following is a brief sketch of the system in force among the Koches in Dinajpur and the Meches in Jalpaiguri, who may be taken as types of semi-Hinduized tribes. Over each group of Koches there is a headman called Mahat; there may be more than one group or Samaj in a village. The office of headman descends according to the ordinary law of inheritance, but on failure of male issue a new headman is elected by the people. Over a group of Mahats is a Baisi, called also a Paramanik or Digari Mahat, whose office is also hereditary. Paramount authority over all these functionaries is exercised by an officer called Saheb Gosain. Petty cases are decided by Mahats with the assistance of heads of families under them, but more important cases are heard by the Baisi assisted by the Mahats under him and by leading villagers. There is a right of appeal in all cases to the Saheb Gosain. A Gosain of Gayaspur in the Malda district is generally the Saheb Gosain, but the zamindar of Maldwar exercises the powers of the Saheb Gosain within his estates, and the priest of the Maharaja of Dinajpur exercises similar powers in the Dinajpur estate.

KOCHES.

932. When the Duars were held by the Bhutanese, each Mech village had a headman called Thakuri. His place has been taken by the Mandal, who originally acquired the position by election, but has now become an hereditary official. The Mandal takes cognizance of all kinds of disputes, social, religious, civil and criminal. He is assisted by a messanger called Halmajhi, who, when information is given of an offence, calls the offender and a male representative from each house: the Deosi or priest also attends, and when the matter is before a head Mandal, at least three other Mandals are present. One Mech, who had embraced Christianity, was readmitted into the tribe, on payment of a fine of Rs. 50 in cash, two pigs, a fowl and a large quantity of liquor. The cash was divided among the Deosi and Panchayat. One case of an unusual nature is reported as having occurred about two years ago. A Mech having died, his hookah was left with his other things at the place of burial. Another Mech picked it up and sold it to a third man, who smoked it. The latter was excommunicated for a time, and the two had to pay between them a fine, in cash and kind, amounting to Rs. 22.

MECHES.

933. The caste Samiti or Sabha is a form of caste organization which has recently come into existence in Bengal. Most have sprung up since the last census, and more especially since the first Partition of Bengal. They are the outcome of the modern spirit. Their main object is to improve the social position of the caste, and their organization is modelled upon European associations and companies. Some have effected a loose form of combination, but others have associations with central committees, while others have even formed themselves into limited liability companies. The Baruis, for instance, have formed a company, with headquarters at Jessore, the shares being Rs. 10 each. According to the articles of association, any adult member of the caste purchasing a share can be admitted as a member of the Sabha, but the shares may not be transferred to any one not belonging to their caste. The capital of the Sabha is to be spent for promoting education amongst the caste and for improving their religious, social, moral and physical condition. It is laid down that there is to be an annual general meeting, which members of the caste other than shareholders, and also the general public, may attend, though only shareholders have a right to vote. The articles provide for a President, Vice-President, a Secretary and an Assistant Secretary selected by the shareholders from among their number. These four officers, with 15 other shareholders, form an Executive Committee called the Committee of Directors. The objects of a Shaha Samiti, known as the Purba Banga Baisya Samiti, are more definitely stated. In addition to general objects, such as promoting union among Shahas and furthering the interests of the community, it aims at the encouragement of female education, as well as of male education, and the reformation of social customs. Students belonging to the caste are to be assisted to go to Japan and America and prosecute their studies there. Ancient works relating to the caste are to be collected and published, and every endeavour is to be made to raise the community in social rank.

CASTE SAMITIS AND SABHAS.

The Samitis are mainly concerned with the object last mentioned, and have but little or no concern with the internal government of the caste. To a certain extent, however, they are influencing the caste constitution. To quote two instances, the affiliation of Chasi Kaibarttas to the Mahishya Samiti is tending to create a separate caste or sub-caste, while the Karmakar association, called the Karmakar Vaisya Tattwik Samaj, is endeavouring to break down the barriers between sub-castes by promoting intermarriages.

NEPALESE CASTES.

934. Among the Nepalese castes of Darjeeling matters of caste discipline are tried by Panchayats called for the occasion. This is, as a rule, not a caste Panchayat, but a village conclave consisting of respectable crofters of any caste resident in the village and its neighbourhood. They select one of their number to act as President of the meeting. In one respect the proceedings are formal, viz., that a record is made of the proceedings and of the sentence, which is signed by the members and handed to the parties or kept by the village headman. If the accused proves his innocence, the proceedings end with a meal in which he joins, or he gives water to all those present.

CASTE LAW OF THE NEWARS.

935. In Nepal both Hindu and Buddhist Newars are subject to a code of caste law known as the *Gatti*. By it the relative position and social duties of each class are laid down and their privileges protected, while the maintenance of their customs and festivals is also ensured. Every family in each class is assigned certain hereditary duties connected with the celebration of festivals and public ceremonies of a religious character. On these occasions every household has its peculiar duty, which it is bound to perform under penalty of fine or loss of caste. The system is said to work very well and to serve the interests of the community. According to the rules of the *Gatti*, the head of each family is also expected, at certain times, to give a feast to all the members of his own class or caste. The different families fulfil this duty by turns. Its fulfilment is often a heavy tax upon a poor man ; but were he to neglect it, he would be ostracized by the rest of his own class. Another law of the *Gatti* requires that on the death of any Newar, one male from every other family in his class or caste must attend at the performance of the funeral rites, as well as at the subsequent ceremonies of purification. Newar funerals are consequently almost always followed by large processions of nominal mourners. In the majority of cases violation of any of the laws of the *Gatti* subjects the offender to punishment by fine, the amount of which is determined by a caste Panchayat, and varies according to the nature of his offence. If a Newar—Buddhist or Hindu—wilfully omits to fulfil duties of an important character, so that the community suffers from his neglect, he is sentenced by a general convocation to loss of caste.*

SIKH CASTE COUNCILS.

936. The only Sikh community of any consequence in Bengal consists of the Agraharis of Sasaram in the district of Shahabad, who have a caste Panchayat like their Hindu neighbours. Its jurisdiction extends over the whole of the Sasaram subdivision, and all adult Agraharis can serve on it. It takes cognizance of questions connected with Sikh ceremonies and customs (*e.g.*, of marriage and initiation into the Sikh brotherhood), and punishes those who neglect or contravene them. For serious offences, *e.g.*, adultery, marrying with a woman of another caste, neglect of Sikh observances (such as the five Ks described in Chapter IV), the culprit is outcasted, and is not readmitted into caste unless he performs certain ceremonies. For minor offences a fine is inflicted, and, in case of default, the person is outcasted till the fine is paid. On realization, the fine is made over to the Sikh temple.

CASTE COUNCILS AND THE LAW COURTS.

937. A basic principle of the system of caste government is embodied in the saying *Zat ka Raja Zat*, *i.e.*, the caste is its own ruler. It is carried so far that the caste councils sometimes discharge functions, which appertain to the civil and criminal courts, generally but not always with the consent of the parties. In Patna, for instance, a married woman of the Goala caste had an intrigue with a cousin. The man was outcasted, and the

* Oldfield, Sketches from Nepal, Vol. I, pp. 150-155.

woman and her husband burnt to death. No evidence of this crime ever came to light. Again, a Goala in Gaya was suspected of joining in a dacoity. The caste awarded their own punishment without a word to the police. The offender had his hair cut and his face smeared with lime, and was paraded through the village seated on a donkey. The Panchayats also occasionally punish persons who have recourse to the courts instead of to their tribunals about matters which they are competent to deal with. As a case in point may be mentioned the experience of a Jolaha in Darbhanga, who was outcasted because, his daughter having been enticed away, he lodged information at the thana. More frequently, however, they simply bring pressure to bear on the complainant and make him or her withdraw the case. A Chamar in Monghyr, when drunk, attempted to ravish a woman, who informed the police. The Panchayat promptly outcasted the man for six months and threatened to excommunicate her if she did not withdraw the charge. Their threat was effectual.

938. Vengeance is also taken on members of the caste who venture to give evidence against a brother casteman, and they are not infrequently boycotted. A Namasudra in Dinajpur, who gave evidence for a Musalman against another Namasudra, was outcasted for 20 years. The clannishness of caste in this respect is well illustrated by the account of the Goalas of Nadia given by the District Census Officer, Mr. A. K. Ray: "It is difficult to obtain evidence against a criminal offender from amongst his fellows, unless he is also a social sinner, in which case it is given with alacrity. This was strongly brought out during the trial of some Goalas of Krishnagar for bad livelihood. They had terrorized over the neighbourhood for years: they had not only done so with impunity, but had punished those that dared to complain against them. So long as they did not touch the person or the purse of a Goala, no evidence could be got. One of the party, however, fouled his nest, and retribution quickly followed. Although previously cases had failed for lack of local evidence, there was overwhelming evidence against the offender and his gang on the present occasion, and about a dozen of them were successfully prosecuted."

A striking case of a caste combining to defeat the ends of justice, which is reported from the same district, is of particular interest as shewing how severely unchastity in a woman, or even a suspicion of it, is punished and to what lengths a caste will go in enforcing its penalties. A young Kaibartta widow went away with her husband's nephew and was suspected of unchastity. She and her only son were outcasted, and her property sold by her husband's brothers. On her return home, the caste Panchayat declined to admit her to her home, and she had to build a hut on the outskirts of the village. But she was not allowed to live in peace even there. Her relatives felt that her living as an outcaste in the same village was a standing reproach to them, and requested the zamindar to evict her. When he refused to do so, they put up the young rakes of the village to molest her in all possible ways. Eventually, they broke into her house at midnight and carried her from her bed to a field, where they outraged her. When she complained to the police of house-breaking and rape, the caste people put the greatest obstacles in their way. The case was eventually sent up to trial but broke down, as the village being composed mostly of Kaibarttas, the villagers would not give evidence on her behalf. She was then prosecuted for bringing a false charge, but fortunately succeeded in obtaining an acquittal.

939. On the other hand, there is a growing tendency for the courts to be referred to in the following cases:—(1) The caste council itself refer the parties to the Magistrate. (2) The Panchayat cannot enforce its decision and therefore sends up a case to the Magistrate, in order that the State may inflict a punishment. (3) The Magistrate is regarded as a court of appeal from the verdict of the Panchayat. (4) A man refuses to acknowledge the jurisdiction of the Panchayat and proceeds against its members. In many cases when a Panchayat has a difficult or serious question to settle, they shrink from the responsibility and refer the parties to the Magistrate at once. Not infrequently they do this because they honestly realize that it is a case with which the courts should properly deal or with which it will more

adequately deal. At other times they are afraid of the consequences to themselves, if the police discover they have arrogated the powers of the penal law. They are the more apt to abdicate their functions, as the love of litigation spreads, for there is always the danger that an aggrieved party may prosecute them, *e.g.*, by bringing a case of defamation against them. For the same reason drastic corporal punishment is now not so frequently inflicted, as the man has only to go to the thana and exhibit his injuries. When a case is referred to the courts by the Panchayat, the Magistrate's verdict is not always acquiesced in. In Midnapore, for instance, a Goala was found in the house of a Gareri girl at midnight. Both the Goalas and Gareris resolved to have the man prosecuted and to pronounce its verdict in accordance with the finding of the court. The Goala was eventually acquitted, and the Goalas took no action against him. The Gareris, however, went back on their word and outcasted the girl. A distinction must of course be drawn between cases of this kind and those (of which a sketch will be given later) in which a caste combines with the police to clear out the black sheep of the community and establish a good name for itself. In such cases the Panchayat gives every assistance to the police, and also outcastes the offenders, so that he has both communal and legal punishment.

890. The second class of case occurs either when a Panchayat passes sentence but cannot enforce it because of the contumacy of the offender, or when it realizes that a man cannot be made to resume a decent life unless dealt with by the law. In Patna, for example, a Teli was outcasted for having an intrigue with a widow. In spite of this, he continued the liaison, and was eventually caught with the woman at midnight. Her mother and the other Telis handed him over to the police, and he was, as is usual in such cases, convicted of entering the house to commit theft. The third class consists of cases where the Panchayat itself recognizes the law court as having appellate jurisdiction, and an appeal is made to the Magistrate with its concurrence: the device adopted is for the aggrieved party to bring a charge of defamation against a member of the caste. A curious illustration of such appeals is reported by a Magistrate who served for some time in Singhbhum. He writes:—"Charges of witchcraft are rather common in Kolhan. Generally the man or woman condemned and outcasted by the caste Panchayat seeks his remedy in the criminal courts, and I have seen the whole village turning up at Chaibasa to watch the result of the case. If the accused charged with defamation is convicted, then the villagers take it that the issue (as to whether the complainant is a witch or not) has been tried out in court, and, I believe, she is taken back to caste. If, on the other hand, the accused in the defamation case gets off through want of evidence, it is taken that the decision of the caste Panchayat is confirmed, and the complainant has no further remedy." The cases in which an appeal to the law courts is made without the consent of the Panchayat are far more common, however, and, unfortunately for the system of caste government, are of growing frequency. In such cases the man who has been sentenced by the caste either honestly appeals to the court in order to clear himself or seeks by hook or by crook to revenge himself on his fellow castemen. On the whole, the accessibility of the law courts is tending to weaken the system of caste self-government, and the pleader gains at the expense of the Panchayat.

891. An interesting example of the way in which the organization of a caste can be utilized in the interests of good administration is afforded by the history of a recent movement in Patna. In 1902 the Dosadhs, who have long been responsible for most of the dacoities in the district, held a mass meeting, at which two of their leaders impressed on them the shame of their bad name and the advantages of honesty. Their representations had effect, for it was resolved (*i*) that Dosadhs should not sell cows to butchers, (*ii*) that marriage in the *saoai* form should no longer be tolerated, (*iii*) that Dosadhs who were in the habit of thieving, and those convicted by the Magistrates, should not be allowed to have any social dealings with other Dosadhs and (*iv*) that Dosadhs who violated these resolutions should not be allowed to intermarry with those Dosadhs who observed them, dine or drink with them, or smoke from the same hookah. Meetings were held in every part of the district, and the movement spread even into Monghyr. The good resolutions

of the Dosadhs were adhered to for some time, largely owing to the sympathetic interest taken in the movement by the late Mr. A. V. Knyvett, C.I.E., Deputy-Inspector General of Police. Not only did the Dosadhs bring social pressure to bear on the black sheep of the community, but they did not scruple to hand over to the police men who refused to live honest lives.

Recently this movement has been revived. In 1909 the Dosadhs held a mass meeting, as a result of which 13 notorious bad charcters were handed over to the police with the request that proceedings might be taken against them under section 110, Criminal Procedure Code. Within 18 months crime had been reduced by half in the police-station in which this meeting took place. More recently, in December 1910, some 20 of the Dosadh Sardars had an interview with the Superintendent of Police, in which they invoked his assistance in their efforts to reform. They pointed out that formerly the Dosadhs had a reputation for honesty and were employed in positions of trust, for which they received *jagirs*. Nowadays, they were looked down upon for their dishonesty, their social status had been lowered, and they had lost their hereditary employment. It was agreed that the caste Sardars should appoint a headman for each police-station, who should hold meetings of the Dosadhs annually, that the caste itself should deal with dishonest Dosadhs without a criminal prosecution, and that when any Dosadh took to a life of crime, his fellow castemen should report to the headman, who would appoint a Panchayat to deal with the case. General meetings were also to be held annually to review progress and deliberate on future action. Similar meetings were held by the Goalas with equally satisfactory results.

These movements are not due to outside influence, but to the initiative of the castes themselves. They are however spasmodic, the people's interest gradually subsiding, especially if they receive no official encouragement. While they last, however, they do no little good in ranging potential criminals on the side of law and order.

CASTE COUNCILS AND THE BRAHMANS.

942. The principle that the caste is its own ruler is also acted on by the lower castes of Bihar so far as the Brahmans are concerned. Brahmans are rarely called in to assist in the deliberations of the caste councils, and, as a rule, are only consulted about purely religious matters, *e.g.*, the religious penances or expiatory offerings to be performed for religious offences. In any case, of course, they are referred to only by castes which are served by Brahmans. The caste considers itself quite competent to settle other questions, and passes its judgement according to its own traditions and customs. There cannot be clearer proof of the independence of the low castes than the fact that if the caste Panchayat has readmitted a man into caste, the Brahman has no power to brand him as an outcaste, however flagrant his offence according to Brahmanic scriptures. In this and other respects the caste councils are true to the dictum of Narada—"Custom decides everything and overrides scriptural law."

In Orissa the caste councils do not seek ordinarily the advice of Brahmans, but they are invariably called in when a case of *gobadha* or cow-killing occurs. There is a special expert on the question, called Purana Pandit. He is a Brahman, versed in the rules of the *Sastras* about the treatment of cows, who is appointed by the zamindar to decide *gobadha* questions in certain localities. *Gobadha* it may be explained, is not confined to the deliberate killing of cows. If a cow dies for want of proper treatment and care, or with a rope round its neck, it is tantamount to cow-killing. In such cases the owner calls a meeting of the Brahmans, to which the Purana Pandit and leading members of other castes are summoned. They decide whether the death amounts to cow-killing and, if so, how *prayaschitta* should be performed.

In Bengal the Brahmans appear to be more frequently consulted than in Bihar, their advice being sought on difficult and knotty questions. There appears also to be a tendency for Panchayats in some parts to hold that offences require penance according to the *Sastras*, in which case a *vyavashtha*, *i.e.*, a ruling on the nature of the offence and the expiation required, has to be obtained from a Pandit. Scriptural law is thus followed instead of caste custom. This process appears to have gone very far among the Namasudras of

Dinajpur. It is reported that if the decision of the Pradhan, or headman of the village, is not accepted by other Pradhans in the Samaj, a reference is made to the priests of the community and their decision is final. In serious matters the Namasudra priests are consulted before a decision is arrived at by the Panchayat; and where the Pradhans and the priests cannot decide what do do, they refer to Brahman Pandits. The Pandits, it is said, can set aside the judgement of the Pradhans by quoting the authority of the *Sastras*. Among the higher castes, such as the Brahmans and Kayasths, the opinion of the priests who minister to them is seldom sought in caste disputes. Though they are bound to be consulted about religious ceremonies, their social position is a low one, the calling of a priest being looked down upon because it involves the acceptance of petty gifts.

CASTE COUNCILS AND ZAMINDARS.

943. In Bengal there is a tendency for the Panchayat system to be supplanted by the practice of referring disputes to the local zamindar. A powerful landlord is, in any case, in a very strong position, for he usually has the barbers and washermen, if not also the priests, under his thumb. A sentence of excommunication cannot be given full effect to without their co-operation; and, on the other hand, the zamindar can coerce his tenants by ordering them to withhold their services. He can thus either act independently or confirm the Panchayat's sentence. He can enforce it by means of his *barkandazes* as well as by forbidding the priests, barbers and washermen to serve a recalcitrant cultivator. Further, the landlord or his agent frequently acts as an arbiter both in social disputes and also in purely caste matters: their adjudication is a source of income which is not easily foregone. One correspondent writes that where the zamindar is a man of ancient lineage, he is often the referee in the social, caste and religious disputes even of the Brahmans, though not a Brahman himself. "Where his position and wealth far outweigh those of his neighbours, his voice prevails, although not in defiance of, or in antagonism to, the opinion of the Pandits; to their credit, it should be said, *Sastric* quotations are available to meet all ordinary emergencies. His authority does not however extend beyond the village or group of villages owned or administered by him. An offender who refuses to bow to the judgement of his fellow Brahmans seeks refuge in a distant place far away from the local zamindar's influence and so escapes altogether. More often, however, he keeps quiet for a while, and absents himself from the village whilst his friends and relatives propitiate the zamindar. They eventually get him to connive at his offence, and he thus escapes punishment."

In Orissa the zamindars occasionally appoint agents of their own to deal with offences against caste rules on their estates. A Behara, for instance, is sometimes appointed by the zamindar for his Kewat tenants; this officer receives a fee of four annas for every marriage. Where Dhobas are numerous, the zamindar appoints, though rarely, a similar functionary or more than one. In this latter caste the Behara gets a number of perquisites, receiving the fines imposed, fees for marriages, for *prayaschitta* ceremonies, for readmission of outcastes, etc. All these are divided between the Jati (caste) Behara and the zamindari Behara.

GUILDS.

944. Bengal, Bihar and Orissa were once the home of guilds, which flourished when the Buddhist religion was at its zenith. They tried their own law suits, an appeal lying only to the king, punished breaches of contract, and banished offenders against rules. Among other things, they acted as banks, receiving money as trust funds: they kept the principal and allowed 5 per cent. interest to the beneficiary named in the grant. "The reason why the guilds came into prominence just when they did is doubtless because it was at that period that the Buddhists arose, who reached the acme of their power in the third century B. C., and were important for a thousand years afterwards. In accordance with this fact stands, too, the special prominence of guild-life, in the eastern part of India, the home of Buddhism. As the Buddhists placed the warrior caste before the priest caste and gave unrestricted freedom to the third estate, it is not wonderful that guild-life is characteristic of a Buddhistic environment. The same, however, is true in regard to the Jains, a rival heretical sect, which also arose in the sixth

century B.C. Hence it is that, on the one hand, early Buddhistic literature, from 350 B.C. onwards, teems with references to the guilds and speaks of the heads of guilds as of the highest social position, while, on the other hand, the seat of guild-power to-day is still found among the Jains (the Buddhists having left India), and specially among the descendants of those who claim to have come originally from the eastern seat of Buddhistic and Jain culture."*

945. The guilds still maintain their existence in Bombay, Gujarat and parts of Northern India. In Central India too the Musalman Bhistis, or water-carriers, are said to form a strict guild, initiation into which is marked by the assumption of an apron of red cloth, tied round the waist, which is known as the *lungi* of Khwaja Khizr. The Bhistis have a common belief in Khwaja Khizr, the god of the waters, and are said to have certain tests, by which they can recognize a member of the brotherhood: the tests are believed to be connected with the number of straps by which the *massakh* or water-bag is suspended, the length of the strap which ties its mouth, etc. Should a Bhisti die in poverty, his fellow Bhistis are bound to help his orphan son and start him in life by providing him a water-bag; it is said that children may often be seen with a tiny water-bag, which the members of the guild have given him in order to comply with the letter, but not the spirit, of the unwritten law.† No such guild can be traced in Bengal, Bihar and Orissa, though some Bhistis are found, who say that their forefathers observed such customs when they first came to this part of India, and that they have long ago given them up. The red apron and the veneration of of Khwaja Khazir are all that they appear to have in common with the Bhistis Northern India.

946. In Bengal and Bihar, the ancient home of both Buddhism and Jainism, guilds in the proper sense of the word are now unkown. The only mention of anything like an organized trade guild that I can find occurs in the discursive account given by Mr. Motte of a journey through Orissa, which he undertook under the orders of Lord Clive, in 1766:—"The bearers in Calcutta form a commonwealth, the most politic in the world. They have a president, and hold frequent councils, in which everything is settled for the good of the community; and when any resolution is formed, neither stripes nor bonds must cause any member to recede; if he does, he is banished *ab aris et focis*. The air of Bengal has a surprising effect on them; for at home they are reported by their neighbours to be the greatest thieves on earth, whereas in a foreign country they are trusted with everything. It is true they have by-laws, which make it almost impossible to detect them in case of robbery; for, first, a bearer is to perjure himself rather than accuse another, save to the president and council; and, secondly, they will suffer none but brethren to enter their houses, pretending that the profane will defile them. They have gained their present ascendance by taking advantage of the heat of the climate and the indolence of the English; for if a person incurs the displeasure of this worshipful society, he may walk till he dies of a fever. I have known them carry their authority so far, as to fine a poor gentleman for accidentally spitting in his servant's face, though it had no other consequence than obliging him to wash before he ate. But, the society regarding it as an insult, he must submit, neglect his business or broil in the sun.‡"

947. At the present time the guild has been merged in the caste. Artisan castes, it is true, fix trade holidays, and also lay down rules regarding the traditional occupation, and enforce their observance. I myself have had a case before me in which the Kaseras or braziers of a town had united to keep the last day of the month as a holiday, and outcasted one industrious soul who ventured to break the rule. Among the functional castes encroachment on the privileges of others—"misappropriation of *birit*" as it is styled—is severely dealt with. A Barhi or carpenter must not make ploughs for a villager for whom another Barhi works. A Hajjam or barber must stick to his own clients: in one case a Hajjam was outcasted for working for a man who had already dismissed another Hajjam. A Chamar must not take the

* E. W. Hopkins, PH.D., *India, Old and New*, 1901.
† Gwalior Commercial Journal, December 1910.
‡ Asiatic Annual Register, 1799.

carcases of cattle that another Chamar has a recognized right to, and the Chamarin, who works as a midwife, must attend only the women of the families that her family customarily attends. Doms, Chamars and Halalkhors in some parts even sell, mortgage or give in dowry their hereditary rights. Among them the Panchayat or caste council has such power, that it may order a general strike and outcaste any one who ventures to work in defiance of its orders. The adoption of another occupation also involves punishment, but only when it is considered a degrading employment, such as making or selling shoes. Apart from such instances there is little or none of the corporate life of a trade guild, and no attempt to fix wages or regulate hours of work—much less any combination of different castes that have the same trade or handicraft. The functional castes now deal mainly with breaches of caste customs regarding morality, marriage and commensality, but to a certain extent also with disputes and quarrels among their members. The absence of co-operation in trade and industrial matters is largely due to the sub-castes having separate Panchayats. Each sub-caste is mainly interested in keeping itself separate from others, as regards commensality and marriage, instead of co-operating in matters affecting their common occupation. Decentralization has further resulted in the weakening of the authority of the higher functionaries, who formerly exercised jurisdiction over large areas. The individual Panchayats have thus assumed a purely local character, and there is consequently little cohesion among the various units in each caste or sub-caste.

CO-OPERATIVE CREDIT SOCIETIES.

948. In concluding this account of caste government a reference may be made to the part played by co-operative credit societies in the moral and social life of the people. This movement is in its infancy, but the societies which have been started have considerable vitality, and are already beginning to discharge functions which formerly were vested in the caste Panchayats. The reason for this is not far to seek. The village societies being associations formed on the basis of unlimited liability, the instinct of self-preservation makes it necessary for the members to exercise caution not only in the admission of new members and in grant of loans, but also in the elimination of bad characters, the discouragement of wasteful habits and the enforcement of thrift. Their influence is especially felt in two directions, viz., the reduction of expenses on social ceremonies, and the arbitration of disputes. "A society," writes Mr. J. M. Mitra, Registrar, Co-operative Societies, Bengal, "is allowed to lend for any purposes which the Panchayats think necessary, and a member would naturally go to his society for a loan for marriage or *sraddha* expenses. The members of the society know the applicant's worth and how much he ought to spend on a social ceremony. They will naturally not be over-anxious to have feasts at his expense, because if he becomes insolvent, they will have to "stump up" for him. It is for this reason that societies cut down applications for loans for social ceremonies." One society went further and actually intervened to arrange marriages for some of its members. These were old men who could not afford to pay the heavy bride price demanded by their caste fellows. The society thinking that it was high time they were married, negotiated with the brides' fathers to reduce their prices, and gave the would-be bridegrooms loans to enable them to pay them. The knowledge that litigation leads to indebtedness is also instrumental in causing cases to be referred to the village societies for settlement instead of to the law courts: in some instances also Magistrates refer disputes to the societies' Panchayats for settlement. In several of the societies in Cuttack the Panchayats, by common consent, take up petty local cases, levy small fines and place them in a fund which is devoted to village improvements. In Midnapore the societies decided 112 village disputes in a year. In some societies no member is allowed to go to court without first consulting the members.

Numerous other examples might be given of the influence exercised by the co-operative credit societies in social matters, but a few instances will suffice. In one society a member was fined Re. 1 for assaulting his aged mother. Another expelled a member for eloping with his neighbour's wife. In Kalimpong it was decided at a general meeting to smoke only tobacco and not cigarettes; the cigarette-smoker was to be fined. A Santal society

decided that the members should not spend money in brewing or drinking *pachwai*. In another society two members were fined Rs. 5 each for mortgaging their lands surreptitiously and their loans were called in. The members meekly paid the fines and returned the loans, and were then expelled. In the words of Mr. W. H. Buchan, I.C.S., late Registrar, Co-operative Societies, Bengal. "It is not a credulous optimism that reads in facts like these the promise of economic regeneration and of a village life invigorated and made healthier in all its relations.*"

CASTE GOVERNMENT AMONG THE MUHAMMADANS.

949. None of the Musalman groups approach so closely to the Hindu caste system with its numerous restrictions as the Jolahas. The extent to which they are permeated by the idea of caste cannot be better illustrated than by a sketch of the constitution of their community in Shahabad.† Here every group of Jolahas is ruled by a Panchayat, which has jurisdiction over 10 to 50 houses. Its sphere is usually conterminous with a village, but should there be only a few Jolaha families in the neighbourhood, it may extend over several villages. At its head is the Sardar or headman, who presides at its meetings and is assisted by the Chharidar, who acts as an executive officer. These two officers are appointed by election, the electors being the Jolahas over whom each Panchayat has jurisdiction. The posts are coveted as they carry with them a certain dignity and position, and the candidates canvass from door to door. The successful candidate celebrates his election by giving a feast to the caste-men, or to paupers and beggars, at which the blessings of the saints are invoked. In a majority of cases the ceremony of *Milad Sharif* is performed. This is a semi-religious function, at which two men recite in turn the virtues and attributes of the Prophet Muhammad. At the conclusion of the ceremony, sweets are distributed to all present. Sometimes, also, the new member makes a contribution towards the expenses of lighting the local mosque.

JOLAHAS.

950. When an offence is committed against the unwritten law of the Jolahas, a complaint is made to the Chharidar, who in his turn, reports the matter to the Sardar. The Sardar then orders the Chharidar to convoke a meeting of the Panchayat: this is generally held at the house of the Sardar. The Sardar, the Chharidar and other members of the Jolaha community, the complainant and the accused, all attend. The proceedings begin with a common meal, a humble feast at which *dal bhat* is eaten, toddy is drunk and hookahs are smoked. The feast being over, evidence is taken, and the Panchayat discusses its value and decides on a verdict, which is delivered by the Sardar. When the Panchayat has divergent opinions as to the guilt or innocence of the accused, the matter is referred to four or five Sardars of neighbouring Panchayats. This court of appeal is final.

The nature of the offences dealt with by this tribunal shows clearly how far the Jolahas have assimilated the Hindu ideas about caste. In the first place it deals, and deals severely, with any man who ventures to marry into another caste. "The Jolahas," writes my correspondent, "will rather give their daughters in wedlock to a lazy, worthless, penniless and consumptive boy, belonging to their own caste, who will die the day after marriage, and leave the girl an unfortunate widow all her life, than marry her to a well-to-do, good-looking and stout youth of another caste." A childless Jolaha cannot even adopt as his son and heir a child of another caste Widow marriage is also a serious offence, the punishment for which is permanent excommunciation in rural areas: in towns it is treated more leniently. In rural areas no respectable Jolaha will give his widowed daughter in marriage, even if she is still within her teens, for fear of being ostracised. Eating pork is a grave offence, and all breaches of the marriage law are severely dealt with.

* This account of Co-operative Credit Societies has been compiled from a note kindly contributed by Mr. J. M. Mitra, Registrar, Co-operative Societies, Bengal, and from the Report on Co-operative Credit Societies in Benga for 1910-11.

† This account is prepared from a note contributed by Maulvi Muhammad Abdul Aziz, Probationary Deputy Collector, Arrah.

Other offences of which the Panchayat takes cognizance are refusal to maintain a wife and children, ill-treatment of parents, eating or drinking with an outcaste, failure to attend the social or religious functions performed by caste-fellows without any reasonable cause defaming a caste-fellow, refusal to contribute to a fund raised by the Panchayat (*e.g.*, for sinking a well or erecting a mosque), and petty quarrels and disputes. It also punishes any Jolaha who takes to the degrading occupation of a sweeper or cobbler. Otherwise there are no restrictions on occupations. A Jolaha may be a cultivator, a trader, a hawker, a washerman, a driver of a ticca gharry, a menial servant, a tailor, a cook, a money-lender, a vegetable vendor or a gardener.

951. The punishments awarded by the Panchayat vary from petty fines to total ostracism. Grave offences, such as kidnapping, abduction, elopement, adultery, eating, drinking or smoking with an outcaste, marrying into the family of an outcaste, and unchastity in a woman, are punished by permanent outcasting. The outcaste is debarred from all social rights and privileges. No Jolaha will eat, drink or smoke with him. He is not allowed to join in their ceremonies; no one will buy the cloth of his looms. The penalty may extend to an innocent relative, and cases are known of the latter committing suicide, preferring death to social isolation. In less serious cases temporary ostracism, *i.e.*, the suspension of all social rights and privileges for a certain period, is the punishment generally resorted to. When an offender is taken back into his caste by the permission of the Panchayat, he has to perform prescribed ceremonies to celebrate his reinstatement. Sometimes a feast is given to all the caste-men, while sometimes the ceremony of *Milad Sharif* is performed in the presence of all the caste-men. Corporal punishment is inflicted as a penalty for minor offences on those persons who are too poor to pay any fine, and on juvenile offenders, but never on females. Petty thefts, treating respectable members of the caste with disrespect, or abusing them, are the chief offences for which a Jolaha youth is liable to corporal punishment. The punishment is carried out by the Chharidar, who uses a stick made out of the stem of the leaves of a palm-tree. The youth is whipped with this on the buttocks in the presence of the caste-men. One curious form of punishment is as follows: The guilty man has to carry an old shoe in his teeth three or four times round the assembly. This is regarded as a particularly degrading and humiliating sentence. Fines are imposed for minor offences on those who can pay them, the amount varying from 8 annas to Rs. 10. The Chharidar either realizes the fine at once, or the man, if he cannot pay it on the spot, is given time ranging from a week to three months. It is the duty of the Chharidar to realize all fines and to see that there are no long-standing arrears. No coercion is employed, or required, for the penalty of non-payment is outcasting. Refusal to obey other orders of the Panchayat is also met by outcasting, which is generally sufficient to reduce a man to abject submission. The barber, the washerman, the cobbler, the sweeper and even the village Dhunia are strictly forbidden to work for him. He is generally boycotted: the villagers cease to buy from him if he is a trader, to borrow money from him, or pawn their ornaments to him, if he is a money-lender, to purchase his cloth if he is a weaver, etc.

952. The Chharidar has to account to the Panchayat for all the fines realized, for their expenditure and for the balance. In most Panchayats no accounts are kept in writing, but where the members can read and write, account books are kept up. The proceeds form a fund, which is put to good use. It is utilized for the necessary expenses of the mosque, *e.g.*, for keeping a lamp burning every night, for earthen water-pots, ropes for drawing water from the well, repairs, the purchase of books of sermons, the pay of the Muazzin, and a subsistence allowance for the Imám who conducts the prayers. Beggars are fed, and aid is also given to any poor Jolaha, *e.g.*, his funeral expenses are met or a contribution is made to his marriage expenses, or he is given money to help him to make a pilgrimage to Mecca. Sometimes, too, an allowance is given to a Hafiz *i.e.*, a man who has committed the whole Koran to memory and recites texts from it in the mosque every night during the month of Ramzan. The fund is also drawn upon for giving a

feast to all caste-men on religious occasions, such as *Id*, *Bakr-Id* and *Shabi-barat*, and for the purchase of mats for the Panchayat members to sit on at meetings.

A similar organization is reported in other districts. In Darbhanga there is a central Panchayat at the headquarters station which exercises jurisdiction over all the others.

OTHER FUNCTIONAL GROUPS.

953. The Panchayat system also prevails among other functional groups. Thus, the Dhunias and Kunjras of North Bihar have permanent headmen, called Manjans, who call Panchayats to deal with and punish moral delinquencies. In Central Bengal the council consists of a President, called Mandal, and several members, called Pradhans whose number varies from 4 to 15. Vacancies both among Mandals and Pradhans are filled by the remaining Pradhans electing a successor. Factions are common, and one village may have more than one Panchayat. Complaints are made to the Mandal, who passes sentence after consulting the Pradhans. Excommunication, fines, feasts and corporal punishments are the usual punishments. The fines are paid into a fund for the maintenance of the village mosque and the celebration of religious ceremonies.

SHEIKHS.

954. The Sheikhs of Bihar have, as a rule, no regular organization or governing body. Should anything occur calling for communal action, complaint is made to the elders, who hold a meeting (*majlis*), at which the principal members of the community attend. As among Hindu castes, sentences of ostracism are passed, or the culprit is ordered to provide a feast or be beaten. In Purnea their affairs are regulated by a Sardar, whose post is generally hereditary. With the spread of education of recent years, there has been a tendency to abolish the system of hereditary Sardars in favour of referring disputes to the local zamindars or other men of position and influence.

In Eastern Bengal the system resembles that which is falling into desuetude in Purnea, for there is a regular body of office bearers. In Dinajpur there is a headman, called Mahat, over the Sheikh congregation of the Jama Masjid. He decides their petty quarrels, sees that they attend the mosque regularly and presides at burials and feasts. When the congregation is large, the Mahat has one or more assistants. The post of Mahat is generally hereditary, but if there is no male heir to a deceased Mahat, a new Mahat is elected by the people from among themselves. Serious cases, such as adultery or keeping a concubine, are adjudicated upon by the local Mahat and those of the neighbouring Jamas, sometimes assisted by a Maulvi or Mullah. In Rajshahi there is a governing body for each Sheikh community, consisting of two or three men, who are called Pradhan or Mandal and hold office by hereditary right. Elsewhere, *e.g.*, in Pabna, the Panchayat consists of Pradhans or Paramaniks or Sardars, who are simply village elders or men of prominence. The offences of which cognizance is taken are mostly the eating of forbidden food, the adoption of a degrading occupation and offences against morality or decency. Fines are inflicted, and a defaulter is boycotted. None eat or smoke with him, and he is not allowed to join the congregation in the Jama Masjid. The fines are utilized in providing a common feast, in meeting the expenses of the mosque, in giving presents to Maulvis and Mullahs, etc. In Bogra, there is no organized committee, but when a man commits any offence, the principal villagers meet in the mosque, where he is called on to explain the allegations against him. If adjudged guilty, he is called upon to perform the *tobá* ceremony, which consists of thrice uttering that word in the presence of the assembly. by way of penance, and undertaking never to repeat the offence. He is also required to pay a fine, called *kafira*, ranging from a few rupees to a large sum, which is deposited with the Imam to be spent on some charitable or religious purpose.

THE GENERAL PANCHAYAT OF DACCA.

955. In the city of Dacca the authority of a general Panchayat is recognized by all Musalmans except members of the Ashraf class. The following account of this system has been contributed by Mr. H. M. Cowan, I.C.S., Additional District Magistrate of Dacca, who prepared it with the

assistance of Khan Saheb Muhammad Azam, Superintendent of the Mahal Sardars.

The Muhammadan Panchayat organization of Dacca is a system for the decision of disputes between members of the Muhammadan community except the Ashraf class. For this purpose, the whole city is divided into groups, each group being identical with a municipal ward. Within each group are several local sub-groups known as *mahalas* or *tolas*, the boundaries of which correspond to those of a lane or street. There is not much difference between a *mahala* and a *tola*, but generally it may be said that the Muhammadan residents of *mahalas* are called Khasbas and consist of *khansamas*, tailors, etc., while those of a *tola* are called Kati and consist more of the labouring classes, such as masons, etc. Each *mahala* or *tola* has a Panchayat consisting of practically all members of the Muhammadan community living in the *mahala* or *tola*. Over each Panchayat there is a Sardar, who is elected for life by the Panchayat. When death creates a vacancy, a descendant of the deceased Sardar has preference, other things being equal, over another man. The duty of the Sardar is to look after the mosque of the *mahala* in which he resides, hear the grievances of those living under him, arrange for burials and marriages, see to the character of those living in his *mahala*, convene the Panchayat when necessity arises and preside over its deliberations. Over all the Sardars is a Superintendent elected by them. The Panchayat of a *mahala* or *tola* may be called on to deliberate on any point affecting the community. A member desiring a decision from the Panchayat applies to the Sardar. If any one complains to the Superintendent direct or to the Nawab of Dacca, the Superintendent and the Nawab send the petitions to the local Sardar, and the latter, by means of a messenger known as the Gorid, calls the members of the Panchayat together on a fixed date. On that date as many as choose assemble, five constituting a quorum, and decide the case by vote after hearing both sides. No written decision is required, but generally a note is made by some literate member and kept for reference in case of an appeal. If the dispute is between men of different *mahalas* or *tolas*, and they cannot agree as to which Panchayat shall try the case, a reference is made to the Superintendent and he decides where the case shall be heard.

956. If the parties are not satisfied with the decision of the Panchayat they can appeal to the Superintendent, and he arranges for a Bench consisting of (1) four Sardars of any four consecutive *mahalas* on his list of Sardars (2) four Sardars of any four consecutive *tolas* on his list of *tolas*, and (3) a member of the Provincial Muhammadan Association, who has a casting vote. The only restriction is that these nine men must belong to the same group or ward as the parties. The constitution of this Bench or appellate court is interesting. Formerly appeals were decided by Sardars. The Bench, which has been in existence only about ten years, owes its origin to a desire to link together the *mahalas* and *tolas*. The presence of a member of the Provincial Muhammadan Association is a recent innovation which shows an attempt to link up the local organization, consisting chiefly of common people, with the members of a central organization consisting of educated gentlemen. The presence of a member of the Provincial Muhammadan Association on the Bench brings a more highly trained mind to assist in the decision of a dispute which, owing to its complexity or any other cause, has not been satisfactorily decided by the local Panchayat. The Bench makes a record of its decision, which is kept by the Superintendent in his office at Ahsan Munzil, the residence of the Nawab of Dacca. If the decision of the Bench is not satisfactory, there is a further appeal to the Moti-ul-Islam Panchayat or Full Bench, which consists of the Superintendent and all the Sardars : ten constitute a quorum, and the Superintendent has a casting vote. A Full Bench decision is final. It may also be convened for general purposes, such as the levy of a subscription for some public object, etc., but such meetings are rare.

957. Litigation in these courts of arbitration, as they may be termed is not expensive. In the original court the plaintiff is expected to provide money sufficient to supply the members present with tobacco and *pan*. Otherwise, there are practically no expenses. Execution of judgement is effected by moral suasion or the pressure of public opinion. In rare cases

where this is not sufficient, it is reinforced by excommunication of the recalcitrant culprit. During excommunication the sinner is precluded from all social intercourse, and any one having dealings with him is himself liable to the same penalty. *Esprit de corps* is sufficient to ensure a penalty being carried out, and it is usually so disagreeable as to induce a contumacious Musalman to obedience, on which the ban is withdrawn. The majority of cases between Musalmans are settled in these Panchayats, but a large number are also settled amicably by the Nawab of Dacca or by the Superintendent. As for the appellate courts, 24 cases were decided by the Bench and 4 cases by the Full Bench during six months in 1911.

CASTE RESTRICTIONS.

958. There is properly no caste system among the followers of the Prophet. All are on a religious equality; they meet and worship in the same mosque, and they have got the same Maulvis and Mullahs. In practice, however, they are divided into distinct groups, which are socially separate. Occupation, transmitted from generation to generation, has given rise to divisions as characteristic as those of the Hindu functional castes. The Nikaris are fishermen; the Naluas are bamboo-mat makers, the Kulus are oil-pressers, the Jolahas are weavers, the Dhawas are wood-splitters and *palki*-bearers, the Dhobas are washermen, the Dhunias are cotton-carders, and the Hajjams are barbers. No intermarriage is permitted between the different groups. A man who takes a wife from a lower group is degraded to it, while his children must marry in it. There are also restrictions on eating together, though, according to their religion, a Musalman cannot be degraded by taking food from another of a lower status. In spite of these principles, a Sheikh will not eat with a Jolaha or Kulu in a ceremonial feast, and other groups will only dine with fellow members. On the other hand, there is a tendency for the functional groups to call themselves Sheikhs, a generic name which is coming into use as a designation for all but Saiyads, Mughals and Pathans. In some parts this has gone so far, that Sheikh is said to be a name for the main caste, while the functional groups are referred to as Sheikh sub-castes. This in itself serves to show how far the Musalmans of Bengal have assimilated Hindu ideas.

FUNCTION, CASTE AND SUB-CASTE.

959. In the Bengal Census Report of 1901 Mr. Gait referred to Monsieur Senart's theory that endogamy is the true test of caste, in other words, that the sub-caste should be regarded as the true caste. The hypothesis on which Senart's theory is founded is that the caste name is merely a general term including a number of true castes following the same occupation. Mr. Gait pointed out that the instance of Baniya quoted by Senart was scarcely a case in point, because it is a functional designation and not the name of a caste. The various groups such as Agarwala, Oswal, etc., included under it are, in fact, not sub-castes, but true independent castes. He showed that in Bengal castes are split up into a number of sub-castes and that it would be a misuse of the term 'caste' to apply it to the minor groups. "The caste system is no doubt closely bound up with endogamy, but the two things are not identical. The general conclusion indicated by an examination by the system of subcastes seems to be that although, at any given time, a caste is seen to be split up into numerous separate groups that have no special connection with each other, the fact that they are all included in the same 'caste,' and the theory of a common origin which this term connotes, holds them together in some indefinable way. In certain circumstances different groups will coalesce, while in other circumstances fresh sub-castes will spring into existence, and in any case the restrictions on marriage in the case of the smaller unit are far less rigid than they are in the case of the larger one."

960. In the following paragraphs it is proposed to examine the constitution of a few of the most heterogeneous castes that can be found in Bengal, Bihar and Orissa, to which, if to any, the principle enunciated by Senart would apply. At the same time, the opportunity will be taken to mention

cases in which new sub-castes are in the process of formation and to give a brief sketch of certain new castes that have been discovered and of their origin.

It will be seen that the groups making up a caste have very different origins. In many cases the distinction is territorial, and the modern name often commemorates some old and forgotten country, *e.g.*, Magahiya refers to the ancient Buddhist kingdom of Magadha, and Saptagrami to the ancient metropolis of Saptagram or Satgaon. Another territorial designation is Jaiswar, which means an inhabitant of Jais, once a Bhar stronghold and now a small town in the Rai Bareli district of the United Provinces. In Bihar it is a common name for the sub-castes of different castes and in particular of a Kurmi sub-caste. In Bengal it is a self-assumed title of the Chamars, who adopt it as a patent of respectability, thinking that it will associate or identify them with the clean and respectable Kurmis. Some sub-castes are accretions from other groups, while others owe their origin to the adoption of new occupations, or to diversity of practice in the same occupation, or to changes in social customs. These and other causes lead to gradations of rank for which there is often no intelligible reason, and sometimes end in the creation of an entirely new caste. Even the outcastes form themselves into castes and have higher and lower grades. Thus, the Kallars of Bhagalpur are divided into two sections called Chhasera and Dasera. The former, it is said, lost caste in the famine of 1866, when rice sold at 6 seers per rupee and claim to be superior to the Dasera, who were so feeble as to lose caste 10 years later when rice was no dearer than 10 seers per rupee.

It should be added that Hindus themselves use some names as generic designations, notably for fishing castes. In Bengal, the nomenclature is sometimes exceedingly loose. Members of fishing castes, having the same occupations, will call themselves indifferently Jaliya, Tiyar, Kewat or Kaibartta or a combination of these names, such as Jaliya Tiyar, Tiyar Kaibartta or Tiyar Kewat. In Bihar, again, Machhua is a generic name used for fishermen belonging to five separate castes, viz., Bind, Gonrhi, Tiyar, Sorahiya and Banpar, but some think that it is a caste name and that these five castes are merely sub-castes.

961. In Bengal at the present time differentiation of occupation is the most fruitful source of fission, new groups being formed by it either into sub-castes or separate castes ; it is often difficult to distinguish the two. A recent writer well describes this process, which he calls "upward economic movement and consequent social differentiation." "There is always visible an upward economic movement in a prospering community. Thus it comes to divide itself according to the following groups, ascending in order in the social scale—(*a*) handicraftsmen. (*b*) middlemen of the trade, (*c*) middlemen of other trades. In the upper strata the original fluidity is lost, and the caste and status tend to become more or less stereotyped. The higher sub-group ceases to consort with the lower in eating and marrying and gradually, by an inevitable course of development, is differentiated into a new caste till even the common origin is sometimes forgotten. . . . Among the fishing castes, when a man has saved some money, his first idea is to give up fishing and become a fishmonger. The middlemen, called Nikaris or Gunris, now constitute a distinct caste higher in status than the ordinary fishing castes. In Dacca, the Sankhari or the shell-cutting caste is divided into two sub-castes, viz., (*a*) Bara-Bhagiya or Bikrampur Sankhari, and (*b*) Chhota Bhagiya or Sonargaon Sankhari. The latter are a comparatively small group, constituted of more expert master artisans, who work at polishing shells, which they purchase rough cut—a departure from traditional usage which accounts for their separation from the main body of this caste. In other districts, owing possibly to the smallness of the caste, no similar groups have been formed. Recently, a certain portion of the Dacca Sankharis have become traders, writers, timber and cloth merchants and claim on that account to be superior in social rank to those who manufacture shell bracelets. This is an interesting example of a caste in the course of formation".*

* Babu Radha Kamal Mukharji, *Caste in Indian Economics*, Modern Review, August 1912.

DHEKARUS.

962. The Dhekarus are a small caste found only in the Sonthal Parganas and in adjoining villages in Birbhum. They are ostensibly blacksmiths, but their chief occupation is thieving. The name means "belcher," and is an onomatopœic word referring to the noise made by the bellows they use. These bellows are peculiar in shape, being worked by the tread, and are like those used by the Karmales. The name has now a sinister signification, connoting a thief in the Sonthal Parganas and a thief and drunkard in Birbhum. In the latter district a Dhekaru is said to drink day and night. A popular rhyme begins : "Oh Dhekaru, come and drink with us." *Pachwai* is said to be indispensable to them : in fact, it is reported that a Dhekaru regularly takes his measured pots of *vachwai* at least three times a day, and dies if his supply is short ! This seems scarcely credible. The Dhekarus are probably of aboriginal descent. Their own tradition of origin is that they were of the same race as the aboriginal blacksmiths called Ranas and separated from them, because the Ranas sacrificed a sheep. Sheep is a totem to them, and they will eat neither sheep's flesh nor the two vegetables called *chichinga* and *benay kumra*, as the former resembles the horns of a sheep in shape and the latter its belly. The Mals are the only caste with which they will eat ; they and the Mals also celebrate ceremonial feasts together. According to some, they are a sub-caste of Mals, and it seems possible that they owe their origin to aboriginal blacksmiths having formed connections with Mal women. They speak a corrupt form of Bengali, and worship Hindu deities, but eat beef and pigs. Many of those in Birbhum, however, have become Vaishnavas and abjure this forbidden food.

DHOBAS OF CHITTAGONG

963. The constitution of the Dhobas of Chittagong is interesting on account of its territorial basis. They are divided into six sub-castes, called Ram, Bhalua, Jagdia, Sandipi, Rohangaya and Chattigaya, of which the Collector (Mr. A. H. Clayton, I.C.S.) gives the following account :—"The Ram Dhobas appear to be the descendents of those washermen who came to the district with the first British regiment and settled here. They are of Hindustani origin, though perfectly domiciled now. They do not wash the clothes of low-caste Hindus such as Doms and Haris. Commensality and intermarriage are strictly confined within the group. They have their own Panchayat presided over by their leading men, or Sardars, who decide all professional or social matters with the help of their priests. Whenever any complaint is made to the Sardar, he invites all the influential members of the caste in a Majlis or assembly to decide the matter. The Bhaluas, Jagdia and Sandipi Dhobas are apparently immigrants from Bhalua (Noakhali), Jagdia (an old fort near the sea) and the island of Sandip. There is no intermarriage between these three sub-castes, which are governed separately by their respective Panchayats. Commensality is not so rigidly restricted within the group. The Rohangaya and Chattigaya Dhobas probably come from the same stock. The Rohangayas, who are generally found in the Cox's Bazar subdivision are so called, probably because their forefathers, who were Dhobas of Chittagong, settled at Cox's Bazar, Mangdoo, Akyab and other places in Arakan, which is known as Rohang. They are despised by the Chittagong Dhobas because they eat pigs. Their complete isolation from the northern part of the district perhaps accounts for their separation from the original stock in social matters. These two sub-castes do not intermarry or interdine and have their separate Sardars and priests as their governing bodies."

GANDAS.

964. The Gandas have hitherto not appeared in the caste returns of Bengal, Bihar and Orissa. Their total strength is 213,039, of whom all but 1,264 are inhabitants of Sambalpur and the Orissa Feudatory States. They are a low caste of weavers, who appear to be allied to the Pans, but have lost all connection with them. In addition to weaving coarse cloth, they serve as village watchmen and act as professional pipers and drummers. There are four subdivisions known as Oriya, Laria, Kandhria and Kabria. Three of these appear to be territorial subdivisions, for the Oriya Gandas are those who live in the Oriya country, the Laria those who reside in the Laria country, *i.e.*, Chhattisgarh, while the Kandhrias are so called because they live in the Kandh country. The Kabrias owe their origin to a difference in religion, for they

are Kabirpanthis or followers of Kabir. The Oriyas and Larias intermarry, and will drink, eat and smoke together, but not with the Kandhrias or Kabrias. The Gandas admit into their caste outsiders belonging to higher castes, but no one belonging to the castes which they regard as lower than themselves, viz., Chamar, Ghasi, Hari, Mangan and Mehtar. The Ganda is polluted by the touch of any of these latter and has to take a bath to regain his purity If he is beaten by, or eats from the hands of, one of them, he is outcasted.

KAIBARTTAS.

965. Among the Kaibarttas there are two main sub-castes, the Chasi (who are called Halia or Halia Das or Das in Eastern Bengal) and the Jaliya. The principal occupation of the former is cultivation and that of the latter catching and selling fish, or simply selling fish and plying boats for hire. The two sub-castes are entirely distinct, for they do not eat, drink or smoke together, and intermarriage is out of the question. In some parts there is a further differentiation, there being a third sub-caste designated simply as Kaibartta. These unspecified Kaibarttas are also engaged in cultivation, but raise garden crops for the market and sell them, whereas the Chasi Kaibarttas will not sell such produce personally. The recent history of the caste is an interesting record of development. The Chasi Kaibarttas are struggling for recognition as a separate caste under the name Mahishya, and are likely to split up into two separate sub-castes at no distant date, viz., Chasi Kaibarttas and Mahishyas. The latter consists of the more advanced and better educated Chasi Kaibarttas, who claim a superior status. Although the bulk of them admit that they belong to the same caste as the Chasi Kaibarttas, one section of them declines to dine or intermarry with those who personally sell their farm produce in the market. They say that the Mahishya is differentiated from the Chasi Kaibartta by the fact that he does not sell his produce except through servants of other castes. Any one of them found selling his own farm produce in the market is outcasted and called Chasi Kaibartta. Should a Mahishya marry into a simple Kaibartta family, or one which is locally called Chasi Kaibartta (and not Mahishya), his re-admission into caste is conditional on his making presents to the Mahishya Mandals of the neighbouring villages at a special caste feast. Severance of the marriage tie is not ordered, but further public intercourse between the two families must be stopped, although secret communication and visits will be condoned or connived at. Intermarriage with a Jalia Kaibartta, however, will not be tolerated for an instant, and the punishment will be expulsion from the caste. In Nadia the Panchayat does not permit a Mahishya to become a pound-keeper, to sell shoes or hides, or even to serve as a menial servant to any one but than a Brahman or Kayasth. If one of them does so, he is excommunicated. On the other hand, the abandonment of cultivation for any of the functional temporarily occupations of the higher castes is encouraged and admired. In some parts also the Mahishyas have taken to observing 15 days as the period of mourning (*asauch*) instead of one month like the rest of the Chasi Kaibarttas. The older and more conservative among the latter decline to be called Mahishya, and frankly say that they are not rich enough to join any organization in order to secure a higher status than their forefathers enjoyed. They prefer the old traditions and are quite content to go on cultivating and selling both grain and garden crops. In one village in Hooghly the Chasi Kairbarttas who had adopted the name Kairbartta marked its assumption by refusing to smoke from the same hookah as the Goalas, as they had hitherto done. The latter retaliated by refusing to supply curds, unless the Mahishyas came to their houses for it.

966. The Jaliya Kaibarttas are also in a state of transition, for they are trying to be recognized as Chasi Kaibarttas. As soon as one of them can afford to do so, he gives up selling fish, takes to other occupations and tries to keep himself aloof from other Jaliyas. He drops the name Jaliya and either calls himself simply a Kaibartta or claims to be a Chasi Kaibartta. They resent the Chasi Kaibarttas repudiating all connection with them, and maintain that, as they have a common origin, they have just as much right to be called Mahishya. There is a danger therefore that the very name which the Chasi Kaibarttas have adopted in order to distinguish

them from Jaliyas, will also be assumed by the latter. At this census certain Patnis also claimed to be recorded as Mahishyas on the ground that they were cultivators in addition to being boatmen. Four days before the census they changed their ground as they had discovered a passage in an ancient work referring to Kaibarttas as boatmen and wanted to be designated Manjhi Kaibarttas.

967. Other subdivisions of the caste are reported from different districts. In Howrah there are four sub-castes, viz., Uttarrarhi, Dakshinrarhi, Jaliya and Mala. The first two are engaged in cultivation and trade, and call themselves Mahishyas. The origin of these two sub-castes seems to be that one section lived in the north of Rarh and the other in the south. The origin of the other two is functional, the Jaliyas being fishermen and the Malas boatmen. It is reported that there is no intermarriage between any of these sub-castes : any persons who break this rule are outcasted and are never re-admitted. All four sub-castes have also separate priests : members of the first two may smoke from the same hookah, but none may eat cooked rice at each other's house. In Purnea the Chasi Kaibarttas are subdivided into three sections, which are, in a descending scale of respectability, the Sankh-beeha, who sell conch bangles, the Pan-becha who sell betel leaf, and the Tikadars, who are inoculators. There is no intermarriage between these three sections.

KAMARS AND KARMAKARS.

968. The name Kamar is commonly applied to all workers in metal, but there are really three distinct castes, viz., the Kamar of Bihar, the Kamar of Chota Nagpur and the adjoining districts and the Karmakar of Bengal. The constitution of the Kamars and Karmakars will be briefly examined in two Bengal districts forming a kind of ethnic border, where they are composed of the most divergent elements, after which an account will be given of the Karmakar sub-castes in Central Bengal.

Both Kamars and Karmakars are found in Bankura. The former, who are known locally as Kamaria, appear to be of aboriginal descent. Originally, the Kamarias used to burn charcoal, smelt iron and make iron implements, but diversity of occupation has led to the creation of two sub-castes called Dhokra and Loharia. The name of the former is probably derived from *dhukan*, meaning to breathe heavily, and refers to the noise made by their bellows. The Dhokras now manufacture brass vessels, whereas the Loharias have adhered to their original occupation. Endogamy and commensality are strictly enforced in each sub-caste, and they have separate Panchayats. The following sub-castes are found amongst the Karmakars of the same district, viz., Astaloi, Belaloi, Mahmudpuria, Rana and Raykamar. The Ranas are probably an accretion from an aboriginal tribe, Rana being a common name for blacksmiths among such tribes. Tradition assigns a common origin to the Astalois and Belalois, and says that the former name is due to the fact that the Astaloi used to work with eight anvils (*asta*, eight and *loi*, an anvil) while the Belaloi used to work without an anvil (*bela* or *bina*, without). It is also said that the Mahmudpurias came of the same stock as the Astaloi, but separated and settled in Mahmudpur.* Legend relates that a Chandal once prepared a weapon which was highly prized by the Nawab. When asked what he wanted as a reward, the Chandal begged to be given the same status as the Karmakar. The Nawab ordered the Karmakars to dine with the Chandal, whereupon some of them fled to Mahmudpur. Thus they managed to save their caste and came to be known as Mahmudpuria. The Ray Kamars are said to be descendants of the Karmakars who ate with the skilful Chandal craftsman. In the course of time they have attained prosperity and now intermarry with the Astaloi and Belaloi sub-castes. Otherwise intermarriage is strictly interdicted ; if a Mahmudpuria marries an Astaloi, he is outcasted and becomes an Astaloi. There is no commensality between the members of the different sub-castes : they will, however, all smoke from the same hookah. Each outcaste has its own Panchayat.

* Mahmudpur or Muhammadpur is a village in Jessore named after Mahmud Shah, King of Bengal from 1442 to 1459 A.D. It was later the capital of Sitaram Rai and the capital of Bhushna. *See* Jessore District Gazetteer, pp. 23-25, 159 *et seq.*

969. In Midnapore the principal Karmakar sub-castes are Astalaik, Kansari or Belaloi, Rana, Dhokra and Ghosh. All of these are functional groups. The Astalaik (apparently the same as the Astaloi) works in gold, silver and bell-metal, the Kansari in bell-metal only, as the name signifies, *kansa* meaning bell-metal. The Dhokra smelts iron, and the Ghosh makes images of gods and goddesses from sacred earth dug up from cremation *ghats*. The Ranas and Dhokras, as in Bankura, were probably aboriginal blacksmiths. There are other minor groups called Bangal, Dakhno, Kaiti and Palali: Palali means a runaway, and tradition says that they fled from their original home because the ruler of the place tried to force them to intermarry with Namasudras. This legend is obviously only a variant of that already related. No intermarriage is allowed among the sub-castes, but commensality is allowed among the first three sub-castes. There are separate Panchayats for each sub-caste.

KARMAKARS OF CENTRAL BENGAL.

970. The Karmakars of Jessore have no less than seven territorial sub-castes, viz., Rarhi, Barendra, Naldi, Saptagrami, Bhushnai, Dhakai and Muhammadshahi. These groups are territorial. Rarh and Barendra are well known; Naldi, Bhushna and Muhammadshahi are old *pargunas;* Dhakai is probably derived from Dacca, and Saptagram is the old form of Satgaon. Intermarriage and commensality are absolutely forbidden on pain of excommunication. In Murshidabad there are three common sub-castes, viz., Barendra, Uttarrarhi and Dakshinrarhi, which are also territorial. There is no intermarriage, nor do they eat with one another; all of them, however, may smoke in the same hookah. If a man takes a girl from or gives a girl to a man of a different sub-caste, he is expelled from the sub-caste: he can, however, get re-admission if he performs the worship of Satyanarayan and feeds other members of the community. Each of the sub-castes has a separate Panchayat. The sub-castes found in the 24-Parganas are Anarpuri or Ukro, Panchnar, Saptagrami and Chaklai. These classes appear to have been formed by residence in different localities. They all work as blacksmiths and goldsmiths, observe the same social and religious practices and are ministered to by the same Brahmans. There is no intermarriage, the rules of endogamy applying as much to the taking as to the giving of girls in marriage. There is also no commensality, except in some parts of the Basirhat subdivision. The Subdivisional Officer of Barrackpore reports that the Panchnar claim a higher social status, and while they freely take girls from the Anarpuri, never give their girls in marriage to any other class.

971. The Karmakars of Nadia furnish an interesting example of fission, which is tending to proceed further, as will be seen from the following note furnished by Mr. A. K. Ray, the District Census Officer:—"There are two principal sections of the Kamar caste, Rarhis and Barendras, and also four principal Samajes, viz., the Nadia Samaj, Agradwip Samaj, Daspara Samaj and Panch Samaj. Marriages are restricted, as a rule, withinthe Samaj, provided they do not violate laws of consanguinity. The members of the Agradwip Samaj are stated, however, to be inferior in social status to those of the Nadia Samaj, and are desirous of establishing social connection with the latter by giving their daughters in marriage to them. It is said that the Nadia Samaj follows the *smarta* system and the Agradwipa Samaj follows the *kaulik agara*. As the *smarta* doctrine is considered to be superior to *kaulik*, this appears to account for the respective status of the members of the two Samajes. As regards the remaining two Samajes, the members of the Daspara Samaj are goldsmiths by occupation, and those of the Panch Samaj are generally iron-workers. The Rarhis and Barendras among the Karmakars not only do not intermarry, but I understand that in the Sadar Subdivision they do not even interdine with each other. The Subdivisional Officer of Kushtia reports, however, that there is no restriction as regards intermarriage and interdining among the Rarhi and Barendra Kamars of his subdivision. Besides the above Samajes and sub-castes, the Kamars are also divided into two hypergamous groups, viz., Kulins and Mauliks. The Kulins can take girls in marriage from the Mauliks but cannot marry their own girls to them. A violation of this rule involves permanent loss of Kulinism.

"The Rarhi and Barendra sub-castes originated no doubt from territorial distribution, but as regards the four Samajes, the Nadia, or Nabadwipa, and Agradwipa Samajes, the Nadia, or Nabadwipa, and Agradwipa Samajes have been differentiated probably by their difference of occupation. These Samajes or social divisions, which are mostly endogamous, are really what may be termed nascent sub-castes. Of late, some educated Karmakars have formed a society at Calcutta, called Karmakar Vaisya Tattwik Samaj, with a view to obliterate all minor differences among the different sub-castes and Samajes and to establish that Karmakars are Vaisyas and not Sudras. In one of their pamphlets these propagandists declare that, unlike the Kayasths and other, there are no sub-castes among the Karmakars, like Rarhi, Barendra, etc. But one ounce of fact is better than a ton of theory, and, in spite of the praiseworthy endeavour of the reformers, the distinction between the Rarhi and Barendra Karmakars as two different sub-castes is still glaring, and is daily met with in many parts of the Sadar and Kushtia subdivisions." On the other hand, it is reported from Khulna that there are no sub-castes among the Kamars. The District Census Officer reports—"Societies are formed of the members inhabiting different localities, and these are known as Samajes, *e.g.*, Bhusna Samaj, Guptipara Samaj, etc.; but these groups are not regarded as sub-castes. Formerly there was no intermarriage between the different Samajes, but now such intermarriages take place and commensality prevails among all the Kamars. There is a Bengali saying—*Jadi bolo Kamar, bhat khao eshe amar*, *i.e.*, if you call yourself a Kamar, come and take my rice. The Karmakars (Kamars) are goldsmiths or blacksmiths by profession; some of them are well educated and hold appointments in Government service or are legal practitioners and the like. But all of them can dine together without any objection."

KARMALES.

972. The Karmales or Kolhes are a tribe of iron-workers and iron-smelters found in the Sonthal Parganas, where they are known as Kols. Ethnologically they belong to the Mundari peoples; linguistically are closely related to the Santals and Mahlis. It is probable that they come of the same stock as Santals, and that their special occupation has caused them to set up as a separate tribe: they now have no connection with the Santals. It is a curious fact that the working in iron appeals to be frequently a cause of fission, sections of aboriginal tribes who have taken to that occupation separating from the main body and becoming a separate caste or tribe. They claim to be Hindus, but this merely means that, like most aboriginal tribes, they worship some Hindu godlings in addition to their own animistic deities.

LOHARS.

973. The Lohars of Bihar, Chota Nagpur and Orissa are, according to Sir Herbert Risley, "a large and heterogeneous aggregate comprising members of several different tribes and castes, who in different parts of the country took up the profession of working in iron."* It is doubtful if these remarks hold good with regard to the Lohars of Bihar, where the sub-castes appear to owe their origin to residence in different localities, as indeed the names imply, *e.g.*, Kanaujia, Maghaiya and Gaurdeshia. The last is found in Purnea and recalls the former glory of Gaur, the capital of Bengal. In that district the sub-castes are strictly endogamous, both as regards giving as well as taking girls in marriage. The rules as regards commensality are less rigid, for if any one eats with one of another sub-caste, he is let off with a fine. Intermarriage, however, is punished with expulsion from the sub-caste. In Muzaffarpur this caste has no less than seven sub-castes, which are Belautia, Kanaujia, Digwara, Melia, Mahuli, Heri and Kanka. Kanaujia is of course a territorial group, and so is Digwara, for it is the name of an ancient village in Saran which dates back to Buddhist times.† The origin of the other groups is unknown. They all follow the same occupations, viz., working in iron, carpentry and agriculture; they also eat together, smoke from the same hookah, and have a common Panchayat. The only restriction to which they are subject is that a man must marry or give in marriage in his

* Tribes and Castes of Bengal, Vol. II, p. 22.
† Saran District Gazetteer, pp. 17, 151.

own sub-caste. If this rule is contravened, the offender is permanently outcasted. Sir Herbert Risley also includes immigrant Kamias (*sic*) from Nepal among the Bihari Lohars, but these are Kamis, an entirely different caste.

974. In Ranchi the Lohars of Bihar are called Kanaujia Lohars, and the indigenous blacksmiths are known as Nagpuria Lohars or Lohras. The latter are a recent accretion from the ranks of the aboriginals, and are very often called Kol Lohars. They are divided into two sub-castes, viz., Sad Kamar and Lohras proper. The former have given up work as blacksmiths and are engaged in agriculture. They still speak Mundari and in some localities observe the Mundari custom of burial in the ancestral *sasandiri*. They do not, however, take any meat other than that of fowls or goats, and do not drink *pachwai*. They also do not take cooked food from Mundas, and will take drinking water only from those who observe the same restrictions about food and drink as they do. On the other hand, the Sad Kamars admit into the caste children born by Mundari women, a privilege which they would not accord to children born by women of any other caste, even the highest. The mother, however, remains outside the pale. She is regarded as a concubine and as a Munda, and no Sad Kamar would accept any cooked food from her through her bastard children become Sad Kamars. Children of a Sad Kamar woman by a father of the Munda or any other caste cannot be admitted into the caste. The Lohras are iron-smelters and blacksmiths. They observe very few restrictions about food or drink, for they take cooked food from Oraons and Mundas and eat even the carcases of dead animals. Intermarriages between Sad Kamars and Lohras are unknown : any Sad Kamar marrying into a Lohra family would be permanently outcasted.

975. The Lohars of Bankura appear to be of non-Aryan descent and are divided into four sub-castes, viz., Gobaria, Angaria, Manjhi and Kasaikulia. The Gobaria Lohars are so-called, because they clean the spot where they eat with cowdung (*gobar*) after the meal is over. The Angaria Lohars are so named because they burn and sell charcoal. The origin of the Manjhi sub-caste, who are weavers, is said to be unknown, while the Kasaikulia Lohars are reported to be so called because they manufacture articles of bell-metal (*kansa*, bell metal). Both the latter are probably accretions from the ranks of the Bagdis, who have also sub-castes called Manjhi and Kasaikulia : the latter name is due to their having been originally settled on the banks of the Kasai river. There is no commensality or intermarriage amongst the members of the different sub-castes, nor will they smoke from the same hookah. Each sub-caste has its own Panchayat. If a man keeps a woman of another sub-caste, the woman's father is sentenced by the Panchayat to pay a fine, which is divided equally amongst the Paramanik, their Barnabipra Brahman and the Raja of Chhatna. The man himself has to do *prayaschitta* and pay a fine before he can be taken back into the fold. If persons of different sub-castes eat together, or smoke from the same hookah, they are outcasted until they perform *prayaschitta*, and each must pay a fine. The amount of the fine is said to be usually Rs. 3-12—a convenient figure, for it represents 60 annas.

976. The term Lohar in the border district of Singhbhum is applied to four groups which are rather castes than sub-castes, viz., Kanaujia or Sad Lohar, Dhokra Kamar, Kol Lohar and Lohar Majhi. The first group consists of immigrants, from whom Brahmans will take water. They do not work the bellows with their feet like the other sub-castes, but with their hands. Their bellows used always to be made of deer or *sambar* skin, but some have lately taken to using tanned leather of various kinds, including cow and buffalo hides. They do not eat fowls, and widow marriage is not practised. The Dhokra Kamars, who are a semi-Hinduized caste, generally use untanned leather for their bellows. They eat beef and fowls, drink liquor, practise widow marriage and are considered to be a low caste. The Kol Lohars are an accretion from the Hos and have much the same customs as the latter. There is, however, no intermarriage between them and the Hos. Those living in the towns and their neighbourhood have given up eating beef and are reluctant to have social intercourse with their brethren in the interior. Hindu barbers and washermen have begun to serve them, and they

bid fair to become a separate sub-caste. The Lohar Manjhis, who are found in Dhalbhum, are quite separate. They do not smelt or work in iron and may be an offshoot of the Bagdis.

977. The blacksmiths of the Sonthal Parganas are a curious medley, the name Lohar being applied to several entirely distinct castes, not sub-castes. The name is applied in the Dumka and Jamtara subdivisions to up-country Lohars and to Kamars or Karmakars of Bengal. as well as to Ranas, a low caste of beef-eaters who are of aboriginal descent. In Rajmahal, which is on the border line between Bengal and Bihar, it is reported that there are three sub-castes, viz., Kanaujia, Magahiya and Bangala. The first two were originally sub-castes of the Lohar caste of Bihar, and the last was the Bengal Karmakar. They appear to have become domiciled and to have merged into sub-castes of one and the same caste. Kanaujia and Magahiya are considered superior to the Bangala, and may not take food from him, whereas he will take food from them. Intermarriage is not allowed between any of the sub-castes, but since the Bangala Lohar is inferior to the Magahiya or Kanaujia, if he takes a wife from them, he does not lose his caste. On the other hand, if a Magahiya or Kanaujia marries a Bangala girl, he is outcasted and can be re-admitted only by going on pilgrimage and feeding his fellow castemen. The groups in the Pakaur subdivision are of a curious character. They are called Bhikaria and Karanjia, the former meaning beggars and the latter workmen. The Bhikaria is the descendant of the early blacksmith of the village community who was paid in kind for his work., At harvest time he would go round begging for a reward for his labours, and each cultivator would give something in proportion to the yield of his field. This system of collecting wages is called *bhik* or begging, because it was entirely left to the villagers to pay as they liked : in the case of failure of the crops, nothing was paid at all. The name Karanjia is derived from *kar* work and *jia* to live, and was applied to those who took cash payment for thier work. The two groups eat and smoke together and are exogamous, *i.e.*, a Bhikaria must marry into a Karanjia family and *vice versâ*. Each group has a Panchayat of its own, but the Panchayats co-operate when any one is guilty of gross misconduct, *e.g.*, marrying or eating with some one of another caste.

NAMASUDRAS.

978. The Namasudras have four main sub-castes, viz., Halia, Chasi, Karati and Jaliya. Halias and Chasis are engaged in cultivation, while Karatis work as carpenters. The functional distinction between these three sub-castes is disappearing, and the three occupations are often followed by different members of one of the same family. There is intermarriage between the Halias, Chasis and Karatis ; they also eat, drink and smoke together. In fact all these three sub-castes may be regarded as Halia or cultivating Namasudras as distinct from the Jaliya (or fishing) Namasudras. The Halias are too proud to admit the Jaliyas as Namasudras at all. If any member of the Halia class contracts a matrimonial alliance with a Jaliya, he is degraded to the latter class. In fact, the cleavage between the two is as sharp as that between the Chasi Kaibarttas or Mahishyas and the Jaliya Kaibarttas. The Jaliyas comprise two subdivisions called Karal, who are fishmongers and Jiani, who are fishermen. The cultivating Namasudras include the Dhanis, who were originally cultivators of rice, and the Siyalis, who used to cultivate and tap date palm trees, but now both cultivate other crops as well as rice and date palms.

PARIDHAS.

979. The Paridhas are a small caste found in Angul and the Orissa States. They are an offshoot of the Chasas and are said to owe their origin to the fact that the Garhjat Rajas, or Chiefs of the States, being scrupulous Hindus, refused to ride on ponies that were groomed by untouchable Haris, and requisitioned the services of some Chasas. The latter were outcasted by the Chasas, because they worked as syces, and formed a separate caste. They still, however, use the same *santak* or signature mark as the Chasas, viz., the *mai* or ladder. In addition to doing syces' work, they are employed as elephant mahauts. Though they groom ponies, they will on no account cut grass for them, this being regarded as the avocation of a Ghasi. They also look down on the work of farm servants and day labourers as degrading. Intermarriage with other castes is strictly forbidden. They practise adult marriage and eat

fowls and pork, but not cow's flesh. Any Paridha eating beef would be permanently excommunicated.

SAUNTIS.

980. An interesting example of the manner in which a new sect comes into being is afforded by the Sauntis of the Orissa Feudatory States. The nucleus of the caste consisted of persons outcasted from respectable Oriya castes, who were allowed by the Chief of Keonjhar to settle in Mananta, one of the villages in his State. Their numbers grew rapidly as they received other outcastes with open arms. The only qualification for admission was that the new comers must have belonged to some caste from whom Brahmans would take water. They called themselves Saunta, meaning "gathered in," which in course of time was changed to Saunti. The leadership was assumed by a Khandait family from Khurda in the Puri district, the head of which received the title of Bedhajal from the Chief; this name is similar to Saunta, as it means "surrounding with a net." The Bedhajal is the acknowledged leader of the caste and enjoys certain privileges, being permitted to ride in a *palki*, to have drums beaten in his procession, and a *chaura* carried before him, on State occasions. The Sauntis now number 22,659, and are to be found in the Keonjhar, Mayurbhanj, Pal Lahara and Nilgiri States, and, to a small extent, in Puri and Balasore. The Sauntis in all these places recognize the Bedhajal as their head and abide by his decision in caste matters. Most of them wear the sacred thread, and Brahmans drink water from their hands, though they eat fowls and drink liquor. Their marriage and funeral ceremonies are performed in very much the same manner as for other good Hindu castes. They have free access to the temples and are considered a clean caste. Their headquarters is at a place called Musakori in Keonjhar, which is the seat of the Bedhajal.

SAVARS AND SAHARS.

981. The Savars are one of the oldest races of Orissa, and have been identified with the Suari of Pliny and the Sabaroi of Ptolemy. They themselves say that they were originally a wandering tribe roaming through the hills of Orissa and living on the products of the forest. Legend points to their having been at one time a dominant race. The Dhenkanal State is said to derive its name from an aborigine of the Savar caste, named Dhenka Savara, who was in possession of a strip of land, upon which the present residence of the Chief stands. There still exists to the west of the Chief's residence a stone, commonly known as the Dhenka Savara Munda—Munda means a headman—to which worship is rendered once or twice in a year. The first Rajput Raja of Pal Lahara is said to have been selected by the Savars and other tribes as their Chief; and legend relates that he obtained the name Pal because he was saved during a battle by the Savars hiding him under a heap of straw.† The Savars are also intimately connected with the worship of Jagannath. The original image of this deity, according to mythology, was discovered in the land of the Savars, where its priest was a Savar fowler named Basu or Viswa Basu.

982. The Savars are now divided into two castes, the Savar and the Sahar; the latter are more commonly called Sahara, another variant being Saura. In some parts it is impossible to distinguish the two, those who have come into contact with Hindus and have adopted Hindu customs being called Sahars and those who have not yet reached that stage Savars. This is the case in Talcher, where they have the same marriage, death and religious ceremonies. Elsewhere, two separate castes are recognized. They admit a common origin and say that their forefathers were clothed only in leaves, knew not the use of salt or oil, and lived on jungle products and the spoils of the chase. Otherwise, they have no connection, and intermarriage is impossible. The Savars are still a race of nomad hunters. They worship the bow, and have one peculiarity in its use.* They draw the string with the forefinger and middle finger, and never use the thumb. Another peculiarity is that in some parts, such as Baramba, where they have become Hinduized, the Savars wear the sacred thread, and that their touch does not cause pollution like that of the Sahars. One section is called Patra Savar, a

* Orissa States Gazetteer, page 165. † Orissa States Gazetteer, page 276.

name which is reminiscent of their wearing no clothing but leaves. The Patra Savars are a gipsy race of minstrels and musicians ; this is an occupation not confined to them, but also followed by other Savars as well as by Sahars.

The Sahars are the section of the tribe who became the serfs of their Aryan conquerors and were Hinduized at an early period. They are now mostly day labourers or petty cultivators, and are despised by the woodland Savars, because they do earthwork and are farm labourers. They are a low servile class ranking very low in the social scale. They drink wine and eat all kinds of animals except beef and pork. Widow marriage and divorce are allowed, and no Brahmans will serve them. Like other degraded races, such as Pans and Haris, they live outside the village site.

983. Both Savars and Sahars worship animistic deities, called generically Gram Devata, the chief of whom seems to be Komorudia, who is represented by an egg-shaped earthen drum. In Angul the Savars are so far Hinduized that, even when they worship the bow before going out on a hunt, they call it the worship of Banaraj Bana Durga, *i.e.*, the forest Durga, lord of the forest. In Talcher the Sahars and Savars worship Hingula, a goddess of fire, who is of an unique character. Her symbol is a piece of stone, and her annual worship takes place on the full moon day of Chait. Some days before that date she is said to appear in the shape of fire burning in a coal-field. The Dehuri or officiating priest, who is a Sudha by caste, brings coal to create, or keep up, the fire. On the final day the assembled people throw in molasses, *ghi*, fragments of cloth and other inflammable material. The fire is kept up for some days, after which it is quenched. In the Khondmals the chief object of worship is Badral Thakurani, which is the Oriya name for the earth goddess, a Khond deity who is worshipped by non-Khonds as well as by Khonds. Formerly, the priest who offered sacrifices to the goddess was always a Khond, but now the Sahars employ a man of their own tribe, and the Oriyas a man of the Sudha caste. A Khond priest is still required to officiate for the Sahars at the worship of Gram Devata, but other sacrifices are performed by persons of their own tribe, while offerings to ancestors are made by heads of families.

984. There are some minor sections which appear to be separate from the two main bodies. In Angul there is a community called Kol Savar, who stand midway between the pure Savars and the Sahars. They claim to be Hindus and worship Durga, one of their own caste officiating as priests. They still practise adult marriage and admit that formerly they were a wandering race of hunters. Now they are labourers, who will cut paddy and hew wood, but will not do earthwork, as that is a degrading occupation. In Midnapore the Savars are hunters, hawkers of jungle products, and snake charmers. There is a separate community called Sahar Bagal, probably an accretion from the Savars, who are a clean caste having much the same position as Goalas. Another group in Puri is similarly called Sar-Bauri, because they have the same occupations as Bauris. There is, however, no intermarriage between them and the Bauris : a Bauri would be polluted by their touch. Perhaps the most interesting section of the old Savar race consists of the Suars of Puri, who claim to be descendants of Viswa Basu, the Savar priest of Jagannath. They are no longer Jagannath's priests, but his cooks, for they cook the rice offered to the god, which thereby becomes *mahaprasad* and may be partaken of by high and low castes together. Hindu ingenuity derives their name from the Sanskrit *supakara*, but it is undoubtedly only another form of Savar. Another name used by them is Daita, or Daitapati, which is accounted for by a tradition that they are descended from Daitapati or the left hand of Jagannath, whereas others are descendants of Basu, who represented his right hand.

985. There are numerous sub-castes or septs among the Sahars. Some are obviously named after a common ancestor, such as the Basu Sahars and the Guha Sahars. Basu was the Savar priest of Jagannath just mentioned. Guha is mentioned in the *Ramayana* as a Savar chief from whom Ram himself accepted hospitality. Two groups (described in Angul as sub-septs and elsewhere as sub-castes) owe their origin to differences in the method of cremating the dead. They are called Joria and Khuntia, and the distinction

between them is that the former burn their dead near a *jor*, or small stream, while the latter do so near a *khunt*, literally a stump, which in practice means an old tree on high ground. These subdivisions intermarry and eat together, but differ in their marriage customs. The Jorias consider it a sin to marry a girl after she has attained puberty, while the Khuntias see nothing wrong in exceeding the age of puberty. The Jorias have therefore adopted the custom of marrying a girl to an arrow, if she cannot be disposed of before she attains maturity. Other groups appear to be functional. The Paiks are the descendants of Sahars, or Savars, who served as *piks*, *i.e.*, as soldiers in the old State armies. The Naiks and Bisals served as headmen, and the Bhois and Beheras as messengers and carriers, while the Bureks took to catching fish as a profession. Various accounts are given of the origin of some sub-septs. The Gajpuria Bisals took service at Hindu temples and the Kapattalia Bisals are said to have got their name from being liars and deceivers (*kapat*). The Chandania Bhois use *chandan* or sandalwood parte for making forehead marks. The Dhobalbansia Bhois formed a separate sub-sept because they took to washing clothes for other people like a Dhoba or washerman. Washing clothes for another person is looked upon as a menial service.

From Sambalpur and the adjoining States one peculiar subdivision is reported, called Kalapithia, *i.e.*, the black-backed. It is said that they are chiefly found in Puri and pull Jagannath's car at the festival. They are considered superior to all the other sub-castes as they refrain from drinking liquor and eating fowls : other septs take wine and fowls, but not beef and pork. No information regarding the Kalapithias is forthcoming from Puri, and it is certain that now-a-days the task of pulling the car is not confined to any particular caste or sub-caste. I am inclined to think that it is a name given to the Suars, or cooks of Jagannath, who are in all probability the descendants of his early Savar priests.

TANTIS.

986. In some places Tanti is used as a generic term for different functional castes or is applied to endogamous groups loosely affiliated to the Tanti caste. This is notably the case in the Kishanganj subdivision of Purnea, where it is applied to four separate classes of weavers, viz., the Modi Tanti, Chapual Tanti, Jogi Tanti and Palia Tanti. The Palia Tantis are merely persons belonging to the Palia sub-castes of Rajbansis, who weave cloth ; it is possible that they may in time separate from the Rajbansis, but at present they are not distinct from the Palias. In the case of the Jogi Tanti, the process of fission has been completed, for the Jogi Tantis are distinct from the Jogis proper, who are lime manufacturers. The Chapual or Chaupal Tantis are really a separate caste of weavers who are said to have migrated from Nadia during a famine. There is no information available regarding the origin of the Modi Tantis, but they are so far superior to the other Tantis that Brahmans and other higher castes will drink water from their hands. The name shows that they belonged to some trading caste that abandoned their traditional occupation for weaving.

Elsewhere in North Bihar the term Tanti is used for a distinct caste with several of the usual territorial sub-castes. In Bhagalpur there are two main divisions called Uttarkul and Purabkul, the latter being also commonly known as Pairowa Tantis because they worship the deity presiding over their craft on Pairowa day, *i.e.*, the first day after the full moon. They have their own Panchayats for settling caste disputes, and do not allow intermarriage with other Tantis. The Uttarkul Tantis, who are known commonly as Jolahs or Jolahas, are subdivided into Magahiyas, Tirhutias and Kanaujias. Each of these sub-castes has its own Panchayat to punish social offenders : intermarriage between the different sub-castes is not allowed. Two more territorial sub-castes are reported from Champaran, viz., Sonpuria and Banaudhia, and there is also a functional sub-caste called Khatwe. The latter appears to have developed from its members having a special occupation, viz., weaving of *newar* beds. In this district intermarriage and commensality are not allowed between the various sub-castes. When a member of one sub-caste gives his daughter in marriage to, or takes a wife from, another sub-caste, the penalty is a fine, and, in default, excommunication.

When members of different sub-castes eat together, or smoke from the same hookah, the offender is either fined or ordered to bathe in the Ganges or to go to some place of pilgrimage.

Rangwas are another sub-caste in Saran, who keep to the traditional occupation of weaving and hence rank higher than the other Tantis, such as Kahar, Tantis and Chamar Tantis, who follow the occupations of the castes from which they sprang. The Chamar Tantis are the lowest in the scale. They still work as drummers like the Chamars, and in some parts also keep pigs. They are entirely separate from the other Tantis, who will neither eat with them, take water from their hands, smoke with them, or marry any of them. In Bhagalpur there are some Bengali Tantis who have migrated from Bengal, but have become domiciled and adopted the Bihari language. They still marry their sons and daughters in Bengal, more especially in the Murshidabad and Burdwan districts, whence the forefathers of most of them appear to have come. Thus, it often happens, that a Bengali-speaking boy of Murshidabad has for his wife a Hindi-speaking girl of his caste from Bhagalpur or *vice versa*.

987. In West Bengal there are several territorial sub-castes, such as Barendra, Uttarkul and Madhyakul, between which there is no intermarriage. Two other sub-castes are named after months in the Hindu year, viz., Aswini and Baisakhi. The former is considered a superior sub-caste in Midnapore, because its members do not use rice paste to starch their fabrics and are, therefore, considered cleaner. The Sukli Tanti is a sub-caste which only sells cloths and does not weave them. The abandonment of the traditional occupation appears to have led to their becoming a separate sub-caste. The Jogi Tanti is probably an accretion from the Jogi caste. From Midnapore six other sub-castes are reported, viz., Sarak, Sivakul, Charkandia, Matibansi, Dhoba, Pan and Kuturia. The Saraks are, as already mentioned in this report, Buddhists elsewhere, and in some places form a separate caste. The Sivakul sub-caste derives its name from one Siva Das, said to be their common ancestor. There is reported to be very little difference between them and the Aswinis, intermarriage and commensality being allowed. The Charkandias are so called because they arrange four clusters of thread together in the warp, whereas others arrange one or two and are therefore called Ekkandia or Dokandia. The Matibansis bury their dead; their name is said to refer to the practice of covering dead bodies with earth. The Dhoba Tantis, Pan Tantis and Kuturia Tantis are evidently formed by accretions from other groups. Similar accretions are found in Orissa where there are Gaura Tantis (from the Gauras) and Chamar Tantis (from the Chamars) as well as Pan Tantis. The social status of the castes from which they were drawn is still more or less retained, for the two latter are untouchable, whereas water may be taken from the Gaura Tantis, just as much from the Gauras themselves. There are also Hansi Tantis, who are believed to be descendants of indigenous Oriya weavers, and Sankhua Tantis, who blow conch-shells at marriage processions.

988. In Singhbhum, a border district where the same name is often given to different castes, there are two groups of Tantis, each of which is considered a separate caste. The first group is divided into four sub-castes viz., Aswini Tantis, Uttar Muliya, Purab Muliya and Mandarani: the last named is obviously of territorial origin, Mandaran being an historical tract of country which became one of the Mughal Sarkars.* The members of this group are immigrants, from whom the higher Hindu castes will take water. Intermarriage between the different sub-castes is not allowed, nor do the different sub-castes eat together at marriages or on other social occasions; but members of one sub-caste may take food in the house of a man of a different sub-caste and may smoke from the same hookah. Each sub-caste has its own Panchayat. The third group consists of the Ranginis and Patras, who are of Oriya origin. The distinction between them is that the Patras weave silk or tusser cloths, while the Ranginis weave cotton fabrics. The two sub-castes do not intermarry. There is a third weaving caste, which is sometimes called Pan Tanti, but in Singhbhum they are quite

* Hooghly District Gazetteer, pp. 288-292.

distinct from Tantis. They arrogate the name of Tanti, because they weave cloths, but they are nothing more than Pans, and have not succeeded in getting affiliated to the Tantis as they have elsewhere.

989. An interesting example of social differentiation is found among the Tantis of Calcutta, who are divided into three distinct groups called Basak, Dakshinkul and Madhyamkul. The cleavage between them is attributed to the Tantis engaging in trade in the early days of British rule. Some became middlemen for the sale of the fabrics of the Tantis' looms, others engaged in general trade. Both gradually rose in the social scale and dissociated themselves more or less from their humble brethren of the craft. The middlemen formed the Dakshinkul sub-caste; the general traders, who rank above them, became a separate community called Basak. Now only the Madhyamkuls practise their hereditary craft.*

STATISTICS OF CASTES.

990. Subsidiary Table II at the end of this chapter shows the strength at each census of the castes that now contribute two or more per mille to the population of either Province, and also the variations which have occurred between each census. It is not proposed to discuss the variations which occurred prior to 1901, many of which are extraordinary. The greater completeness and accuracy of successive censuses are responsible for the increases shown in some cases. In others, the variations are due to differences in classification, of which there is no record until the census of 1901. The changes which have taken place since then are due in some instances to special circumstances which require a brief explanation. It will be seen that the number of Banias has been steadily falling since 1881, and that in the last ten years they have registered a loss of over one-fourth. This, however, does not mean that the Bania communities are dying out. The decrease is merely due to the fact that Bania is a generic term for several distinct castes and that, with a progressive improvement in the methods of enumeration, an increasing number are returned under their distinctive caste names and not under the general designation of Bania. The extraordinary decrease in the number of unspecified Kaibarttas is the result of the Kaibarttas dividing into two sharply defined sections instead of remaining an united caste. Very many more consequently return themselves either as Chasi (Mahishya) or Jaliya Kaibartta than used to be the case. In the case of the Oriya castes considerable variations have been caused by the reconstitution of the Orissa Feudatory States and a consequent addition of population. This is the explanation of what seems *primâ facie* an abnormal rise (144 per cent.) among the Kandhs (Khonds). The Koches also register an increase of over four-fifths, which is to be attributed to their being separately tabulated at this census instead of being grouped with Rajbansis as in 1901. It is noticeable that in the districts where the increase in their numbers is greatest, there is only a reasonable increase in the number of Rajbansis and Koches taken together.

There are also extraordinary variations in the figures for Musalmans, which is very largely due to the late Government of Eastern Bengal and Assam allowing Jolahas to return themselves as Sheikhs, Pathans, etc. It is on this account that the Jolahas have decreased by 10 per cent., while the Sheikhs have added 14 per cent. and the Pathans 18 per cent. to their numbers. The Ajlaf or Atrap again have a loss of over two-thirds, which is due to the term having lost popularity. It is a designation for those miscellaneous groups which do not belong either to the functional or racial classes of Musalmans. It is now rejected by the low Musalman classes, whose aspiration is to be called Sheikhs. At the last census nearly 285,000 persons were returned as Ajlaf in Khulna; the number is now reduced to 445, there being a corresponding rise in the number of Sheikhs.

* Radha Kamal Mukherjee, *Caste in Indian Economics*, Modern Review, August, 1912.

991. It is sometimes thought that the higher Hindu classes are declining, but the census statistics do not bear out this supposition, though they are not growing so rapidly as some of the low castes and semi-Hinduized aboriginal races. In the last decade every one of the higher castes, viz., Brahman, Babhan, Rajput, Khandait, Karan, Kayasth and Baidya,* has grown except the Babhans and Rajputs, who have declined slightly: the marginal figures are for Bengal, Bihar and Orissa as a whole. For the decline among the Babhans plague must be held responsible, for the reasons given in the section below dealing with Babhans. The decrease in the number of Rajputs or Chhatris is more apparent than real. The diminution is accounted for by the Sonthal Parganas, where the census officers succeeded in obtaining a correct return of that elusive but interesting race, the Khetauris, most of whom have hitherto passed as Chhatris. In Bengal none of the three castes which contribute most largely to the Bhadralok class are on the down grade. The Brahmans in this province have increased by 7½ per cent., the Baidyas by 9 per cent. and the Kayasths by 13 per cent.

Caste.	Percentage of increase or decrease.
Babhan	- 1·1
Baidya	+ 9·4
Brahman	+ 4·6
Karan	+ 5·9
Kayasth	+ 8·4
Khandait	+ 13·1
Rajput	- 1·9

992. The aboriginal races, as shown in the margin, are making steady progress, the percentage of increase varying from 8 per cent. in the case of the Oraons to 25 per cent. in the case of the Mundas. Large increases are also registered by many of the depressed classes, such as Doms (16 per cent.) and Binds (15 per cent.), and by other low castes, such as the Kewat (19 per cent.) and Pod (15 per cent.).

Caste or race.	Variations per cent.
Bhuiya	10½
Bhumij	10½
Gond	16½
Ho	9
Kharia	16
Munda	25
Oraon	8
Santal	13

The following is a brief account of the distribution and variation in the numbers of the castes and races of the greatest numerical strength and of a few others that present special points of interest.

BABHAN (BHUMIHAR BRAHMAN).

993. The Babhans, who number 1,131,330, are practically confined to Bihar, there being only a few of their community in adjoining districts such as Purnea and Hazaribagh. Since 1901 they have decreased by 1 per cent., and this loss must probably be ascribed to plague. The greater part of it has taken place in the plague-stricken districts of Patna and Saran, and it is significant that the falling off is confined to the women, who, as pointed out in a previous chapter, suffer more from the ravages of plague than the other sex.

BAGDI.

994. The Bagdis with a strength of a little over 1 million are mainly found in West and Central Bengal, over two-thirds of the number being inhabitants of West Bengal. A small minority only is found in the adjoining districts and in Eastern Bengal; those enumerated in the latter area were temporary emigrants engaged in cutting crops or other forms of labour at the time of the census. This caste has been practically stationary since 1901, which is somewhat surprising considering that it is a hardy race of semi-aboriginals. The Bauris in West Bengal to whom the same remark would apply have also registered a very small increase.

BAISHNAB.

995. The increase of the Baishnabs by 8 per cent. is only natural, for this is a caste which grows by accession from outside, as well as from natural causes. It is very largely a Cave of Adullam, the refuge of many in revolt against society and Brahmanical domination. With this accession to their numbers, their aggregate is now a little over half a million.

BAURI.

996. The Bauris are far more widely distributed than the Bagdis, whom they resemble in many ways, for half of the total number (606,157) are found in West Bengal, and practically all the remainder in Cuttack, Puri and Manbhum. In the district last named they number over 100,000 and form the bulk of the labourers in the coal mines. The Bauri is, in fact, fast becoming a collier, so much so that coal mining is beginning to be regarded as the traditional occupation of the caste. Since 1901 they have increased only by 2 per cent., which is less than that might naturally be expected from such a hardy race.

* Khatris are excluded because they are not an indigenous caste: in any case, their number is small

997. The Bhotias number altogether 29,350 and are practically confined to Sikkim and the districts of Darjeeling and Jalpaiguri. They are divided into three distinct races, each with a local distribution. The Bhotanese who hail from Bhotan, are found mainly in Jalpaiguri. The Sharpas, who are immigrants from Eastern Nepal—the name Sharpa means eastern—are nearly all inhabitants of Darjeeling, where they aggregate over 5,000. There is a minor subdivision among them called Kagate, the origin of which is said to be that its members were engaged in paper making when they first came from Tibet and settled in the east of Nepal: they are also called Kagate Sharpas. They intermarry, eat with, and are, in fact, indistinguishable from other Sharpas. The Sikkimese are found to the number of 10,250 in Sikkim. There is also a fourth class consisting of Tibetan Bhotias or Bhotias who described themselves as such without further specification: the members of this class are nearly all found in Darjeeling. There has been an increasing influx of Bhotias from Tibet into Darjeeling, where the total number has risen by two-fifths in the last ten years. Sikkim has also attracted immigrants though not to the same extent, and registers an increase of over one-fourth.

BHOTIA.

998. The Bhuiyas are one of the principal castes of the Chota Nagpur Plateau, where nine-tenths of them are found. Their total strength is 732,801, to which probably should be added the majority of the 75,489 persons returned as Ghatwal The latter is in some places a name of a true caste, an offshoot of the Bhuiyas, but it is also a designation frequently assumed by Bhuiyas. The Bhuiyas have increased by 10½ per cent. during the last ten years.

BHUIYA.

999. The Bhumij number 362,976, of whom 272,694 are inhabitants of Bihar and Orissa, where almost all are residents of Manbhum, Singhbhum and the Orissa States. In Bengal the majority of the Bhumij are found in Midnapore, where nearly 46,000 were enumerated, and in Bankura (20,000). They are a growing community, now almost entirely Hinduized, and since 1901 have increased by 10½ per cent.

BHUMIJ

1000. Next to the Goalas, the Brahmans are the most numerous caste in Bengal, Bihar and Orissa. The Brahmans and Goalas are, in fact, the two castes necessary to the religious and material life of the Hindu, who depends on the one for religious ministrations, and on the other for the cow which yields him milk, *ghi* and the cow-dung cakes that keep the household fire alight. They number a little over 3 millions and are found in every district, their strength being proportionate to the strength of the Hindu population, *i.e.*, they are least numerous where Animists and Musalmans prevail and most numerous in distinctively Hindu districts. Since 1901 they have added 5 per cent. to their numbers, but whereas the ratio of increase is 7½ per cent. in Bengal, it is only 3 per cent. in Bihar and Orissa.

BRAHMAN.

1001. The Chamars, a low degraded caste of tanners and shoe-makers, are mainly inhabitants of Bihar, but are spreading in a south-easterly direction through Bengal. They number 1¼ millions, of whom only 137,000 were enumerated in Bengal. The latter were mainly emigrants, who had left their wives at home: there were nine males among them to every five females.

CHAMAR.

1002. The Chasas are almost entirely confined to Orissa, where they are a cultivating caste occupying much the same position as the Kurmis in Bihar. Like the Kurmis, they are an ambitious caste, the members of which are constantly endeavouring to rise in the social scale. The Kurmi desires to be classified as Kshattriya, while the Chasa gets himself enrolled in the ranks of Khandaits. In the Orissa Division they have decreased by 38,000, whereas the Khandaits have grown by 54,000, variations which must be ascribed to the extent to which the Chasas have returned themselves as members of the higher caste. On the other hand, there has been an addition of 37,000 in the Orissa States, but this is due to the transfer of five States from the Central Provinces. They now number 847,347 and are the most numerous caste in Orissa.

CHASA.

1003. The Gaura is the Oriya milkman and cattle-keeper, and corresponds to the Goala elsewhere. The caste now numbers 715,104, representing an increase of 66

GAURA.

per cent. since 1901. This increment is due merely to the addition of Sambalpur and a large block of States from the Central Provinces, the increase being found in the added area.

GOALA.

1004. The Goalas, who are also known as Ahirs in Bihar, are the most numerous caste in Bengal, Bihar and Orissa, their number being 3,896,853, or 4½ per cent. of the total population. During the last ten years they have grown by a little under 2 per cent.

GOND.

1005. The Gonds with an aggregate of 235,690 are nearly as numerous as the Gandas and are found in the same area, practically all being inhabitants of Sambalpur and the Orissa States. Outside this area there are only a few thousands in Ranchi and Singhbhum. They belong to the Gond tribe of the Central Provinces, which is so well known as to require no special description. In Orissa they are nearly all Hinduized, all but 26,000 returning themselves as Hindus. Comparison with the figures of last census is impossible owing to the change of area effected by the first partition of Bengal.

HO.

1006. The Hos are another localized tribe, numbering 421,771, of whom nine-tenths are found in Singhbhum and the Orissa States; in the latter they are most strongly represented in Keonjhar and Mayurbhanj, which adjoin Singhbhum. They have grown by 9 per cent. since 1901, but probably their rate of progress is greater than this figure would indicate. Special inquiries were made at this census regarding the language and caste of those who returned themselves as Kol, and it was found that many thousands of Kols, who were classified as Hos at the last census, really speak Mundari and belong to the Munda tribe. Such persons have now been classified as Mundas.*

KAIBARTTA.

1007. The Kaibarttas are one of the great racial castes of Bengal and *number over 2½ millions.* They *have* been classified *in the returns* under three heads, viz., the *Chasi Kaibarttas (Mahishya), the Jaliya Kaibarttas* and unspecified Kaibarttas, *i.e.*, Kaibarttas who returned themselves simply as Kaibartta without stating whether they were Chasis or Jaliyas. The net addition to their numbers is 4 per cent., but there are great variations among the three classes owing to a largely enhanced number claiming to be either Chasis or Jaliyas. The latter two classes have gained 271,000, whereas the unspecified Kaibarttas are less numerous by 175,000. The Chasi Kaibarttas now represent over four-fifths of the caste, while the Jaliyas account for only a little more than one-eighth. The caste is most numerous in Midnapore, which may be regarded as the nidus of the race, and then in the adjoining districts of Howrah and the 24-Parganas, into which they have overflowed. These three districts contain more than half of the total number of Kaibarttas.

KANDH OR KHOND.

1008. The Kandhs or Khonds are another tribe found only in Orissa, whose increase from 124,000 to 304,000 is due to the reconstitution of the Orissa States, where nearly four-fifths are found. Kalahandi alone, which has been added to the Orissa States since 1901, contains over 110,000 Kandhs.

There has recently been a temperance movement among the Kandhs of the Khondmals, which is of some interest as showing how this primitive people are ready to give up old habits in order to preserve their lands. Their leaders took a vow in 1908 to give up intoxicating liquor and the people followed suit, but their good resolutions were not proof against temptation. In 1910 there was a revival of the movement in a more promising form. The Kandhs now entreated Government to close all liquor shops so as to prevent them having a chance of drinking. Reduction in the number of shops would, they urged, be no good. The mere smell of liquor gave them a craving for drink. If shops existed, they would get it, however remote the shops might be. Drink had already done enough harm, leading to poverty, wife beating and—worst of all—the loss of land. The whole question in their minds is inseparable from that of land, for they realize that owing to drinking and improvidence they are worse off than their neighbours—the Sunri cultivator already owns, on the average, two more ploughs than the Kandh. A few said that there must be some liquor left for *puias*, but they were howled

* In the Orissa Feudatory States as constituted in 1901 there were no entries of Ho in the caste column of the schedules, but 40,060 of Kol and 58,471 of Kolho. All were classified as Ho, thus making a total of 98,821 Hos.

down by the others. Their request was granted as an experimental measure and orders issued to have all country spirit shops in the Khondmals closed down.

KAYASTH AND KARAN.

1009. The Kayasths have grown by 8½ per cent. since 1901, but the rate of increase in Bengal and in Bihar and Orissa is very different. In Bengal they have an addition of 129,000 (13 per cent.), to which the Dacca and Chittagong Divisions contribute three-fourths. In the former Division there is an increase of 55,000, over half of which may be accounted for by Sudras entering themselves as Kayasths; the number of Sudras has fallen by 29,000. In the Chittagong Division, where there has been an increase of 48,000 Kayasths, we find a decrease of 9,000 Sudras. The Karan is an Oriya caste of writers, corresponding to the Kayasths of Bengal and Bihar. They have an increase of 6 per cent., which is the result of natural growth.

KHAMBU AND JIMDAR.

1010. The Khambus, including the Jimdars, are the most numerous Nepalese tribe enumerated, their total number being 61,871, of whom 40,409 were found in Darjeeling and 15,872 in Sikkim. All but 2,644 returned their caste as Jimdar. It seems probable that the term Khambu was originally geographical and was applied to a race of aborigines who, according to Newar tradition, came into Nepal from the east, *i.e.*, from Tibet. Another name applied to them was Kiranti, also a geographical term applied to all the races (Limbus and Yakhas as well as Khambus) living in Kirant, a tract in the east of Nepal, of which the limits are uncertain. It was bounded on the west by the Dud Kosi, but, its eastern boundary is said to be either the Singalila range or the Arun or the Tambar river. The Khambu country proper is said to lay to the east of this tract, either between that Arun or Tambar or to the east of the Tambar. Legend relates that formerly the Kirantis killed and ate every kind of animal including cows. War was declared upon them by the Gurkhas, and after the Gurkha conquest the eating of beef was prohibited. At present the main distinction between the Khambus and Jimdars is that the former can and do eat cow's flesh, whereas the Jimdars do not. The Khambus also have different household deities and are reported by the Deputy Commissioner of Darjeeling to offer cow's flesh to them: they certainly offer pigs and fowls, through their own priests, who are called Home. When a Khambu dies, a pig is brained (with a pestle for grinding corn), and its tail and ears cut off and placed under the dead man's armpits before he is buried. Only the wealthier Khambus are cremated. The two appear to be of the same stock, the Jimdars being a more completely Hinduized section. They still however eat and drink together and also intermarry, and many of their sub-castes are the same, *e.g.*, Kulung, Chaurasia and Lohorong. They both call themselves Rais, and a Jimdar when asked if he is a Khambu will generally admit that he is.

KHANDAIT.

1011. The Khandaits are another Oriya caste corresponding to the Rajputs on other parts of the country. They have an increase of 12 per cent., which is the result partly of Chasas recording their caste as Khandaits and partly of the transfer of a large Oriya population from the Central Provinces. They now number 805, 761, or 41,586 less than the Chasas, but it is probable that accretion from the ranks of the latter will soon cause them to supplant the Chasas as the most numerous caste in Orissa.

KOIRI AND KURMI.

1012. The Koiri and Kurmi are two great cultivating castes of Bihar, but the latter is also the name of an aboriginal tribe in Chota Nagpur and the Orissa States, who spell their name with a harder, whereas the Bihari castes use a soft r. It was impossible to distinguish between the spellings, and they have therefore been grouped together. The Koiris number 1,306,469 and have grown by 3 per cent. since 1901. The Kurmis, with a strength of nearly 1½ millions, have advanced more rapidly, their percentage of increase being nearly 7 per cent. This is accounted for by the expansion in Chota Nagpur, where the semi-aboriginal Kurmis have added 100,000 to their numbers. The Bihari Kurmis have sustained a loss of 17,000 and may, therefore, be described as stationary.

LEPCHA.

1013. The Lepchas are a small but interesting race, almost entirely confined to Sikkim and Darjeeling, who number 20,316 (including 1,240 Christians in Darjeeling,

and 202 in Sikkim).* Fears have been expressed that the Lepchas are dying out, but there appears to be no warrant for this belief, though the consideration of the question of their real growth is somewhat complicated by the greater accuracy of each successive census bringing to light a larger number of Lepchas in Sikkim. In Sikkim they have registered an increase of 16 per cent. during the last 10 years, and in Darjeeling they have increased by 6 per cent. In the latter district they are concentrating more and more in the Kalimpong thana, where their number has risen during the last 20 years from 4,708 to 6,750, which is more than half the total found in the whole district. As Mr. Bell remarks—"No doubt many of the race have left the unsuitable environment of Darjeeling town and other parts of the district in order to settle in Kalimpong, where the forest, though reserved and under Government restriction, is still plentiful and close. Many more have emigrated to Bhutan, where still more abundant forests, untrammelled by restrictions, enable them to follow their wasteful, though ancient, system of *jhuming* . . . The Lepcha is apt to let his rights slide with the saying 'We Lepchas do not know how to bring complaints.' As a cultivator, the Lepcha is steadily improving by contact with his Nepalese neighbours. He has lost most of his jungle-craft with the reservation of the forests, but has learnt in its place how to make terraces for rice fields, to cultivate the chief crops, and generally to carry on his affairs in such a manner as is necessary to enable him to exist under the altered conditions of British rule and the scramble for land that has followed in its wake."†

MUNDA.

1014. The Mundas number 558,200 (including the Christian Mundas), of whom about three-fifths are residents of Ranchi. There they are distributed among three religions, 67,000 being Christians, 57,000 Hindus and 220,000 Animists. The increase in their numbers during the last ten years represents no less than 25 per cent., which is due partly to a number of persons who returned themselves as Kols in the Orissa States being classified as Mundas instead of being grouped with Hos as in 1901. There has also been a large increase in Ranchi, which is partly the result of the settlement securing agrarian rights to the Munda race. Cases have consequently been frequent of men who used to call themselves Rajputs, disclaiming that caste when it was a question of their being recorded as Mundari Khuntkattidars and of obtaining the rights attaching to that tenure. In such cases the pseudo-Rajputs have not only admitted that they are Mundas, but taken considerable trouble to prove it.

NAMASUDRA.

1015. The Namasudras have grown by 3 per cent. during the last ten years, and with an aggregate of 1,913,343 are the seventh largest Hindu caste in Bengal, Bihar and Orissa. They are a progressive Bengali caste chiefly found in Eastern Bengal.

ORAON.

1016. An increase of 8½ per cent. has brought the number of Oraons up to 640,010, including the Christian Oraons, of whom there are 113,000. Their distribution is very similar to that of the Mundas, for they are found in greatest strength in Ranchi, where nearly 400,000 were enumerated. They have, however, migrated far more freely than the Mundas, and 90,000 are found in the tea gardens of Jalpaiguri.

POD.

1017. The Pods number 536,590, of whom 470,000, or nine-tenths, are residents of the 24-Parganas and Khulna. In the former district they represent one-seventh, and in the latter one-tenth of the total population. They are multiplying rapidly, an increase of 11 per cent. in 1901 having been followed by a further increase of 15½ per cent. in the subsequent ten years.

RAJBANSI AND KOCH.

1018. The Rajbansis, on the other hand, have lost ground, the decrease amounting to 150,000 or 7 per cent. The decrease is, however, more apparent than real. It is due to the Koches having been recorded separately instead of grouped with Rajbansis as in 1901. Half the decrease has occurred in the Rajshahi Division, where 76,523 more Koches were enumerated than in 1901, while the Rajbansis have decreased by 107,696 : in this area only

* There were also 1,598 persons in Darjeeling who returned themselves as Native Christians without specification of tribe or races, but returned their language as Lepcha. These Lepchas, who have become converts to Christianity, are excluded from the figures above.

† Kalimpong Settlement Report.

305. Koches were returned at the last census. With a total of 1,916,376 the Rajbansis are the sixth largest Hindu caste in Bengal, Bihar and Orissa. Two-thirds of them are found in the Rajshahi Division, but they are relatively strongest in the Cooch Behar State, where they account for nearly three-fifths of the population. The Koches number 128,000, or 58,000 more than the number returned in 1901. Nearly all were enumerated in North and East Bengal, and they are most numerous in Dinajpur and Mymensingh, which contain over half the total number.

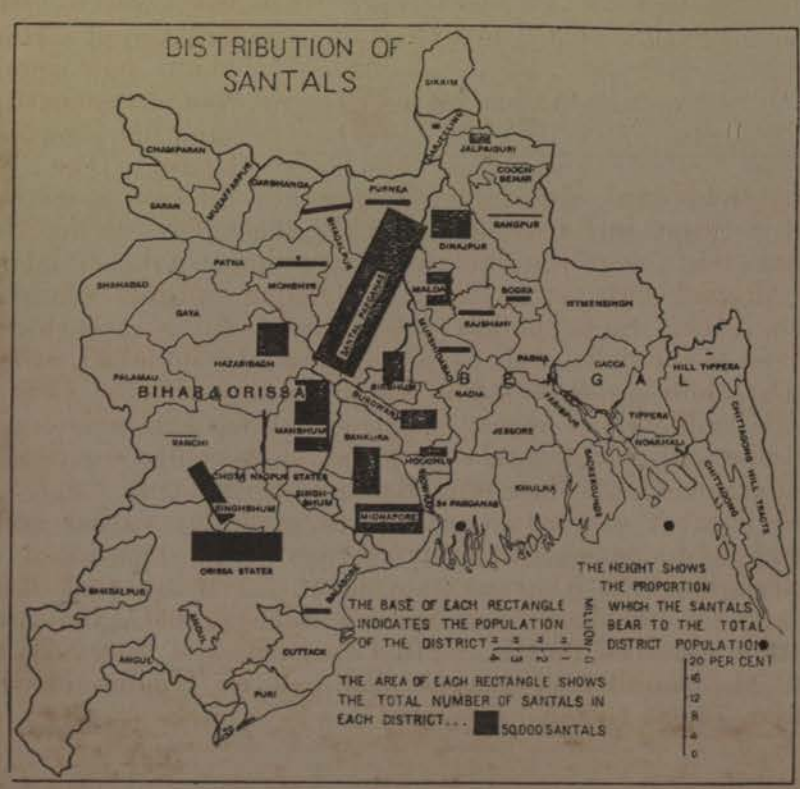
RAJPUT OR CHHATRI, KHETAURI, KHATRI AND KSHATTRIYA.

1019. The number of Rajputs has fallen by 2 per cent., the actual decrease being 26,973. This is accounted for by an addition of 25,593 among the Khetauris of the Sonthal Parganas, most of whom were grouped with the Chhatris, *i.e.*, Rajputs, in 1901. Two number of Rajputs in that district has fallen by over 27,000, while the aggregate of Khetauris is 27,024, which corresponds fairly closely with the estimate of 30,000 made by Mr. W. B. Oldham.* Two other districts, viz., Shahabad and Saran, also record heavy losses. In both districts some decline might naturally be expected on account of the decrease in the general population. In Shahabad, however, the loss represents 7 per cent., while the general population has only fallen by 5 per cent. The Rajputs there are now reduced to a number less than that returned in 1872. Seven-eighths of the loss has taken place among the females and is probably, to a large extent, the result of plague mortality. In Saran there is a decrease of nearly 7 per cent., which is 2 per cent. above the general decrease; here too the loss among females exceeds the loss among the males.

The number of Khatris has, at the same time, fallen by 21,000, reducing their aggregate to 46,029. There is always the greatest difficulty in distinguishing between the entries Khatri and Chhatri in slip copying and subsequent compilation; and the decrease must be attributed to greater success in deciphering them, a large proportion of those previously treated as Khatris being consequently entered as Chhatris. The Khatris are an immigrant caste, and their real number is probably smaller even than that now returned. There are also 16,419 persons classified as Kshattriyas in Eastern Bengal. Nearly all are Manipuris in Hill Tippera, who on conversion of Hinduism arrogate that name. These pseudo-Rajputs should more properly be grouped with the Chhatris or Rajputs instead of being given such an archaic and generic designation.

SANTAL.

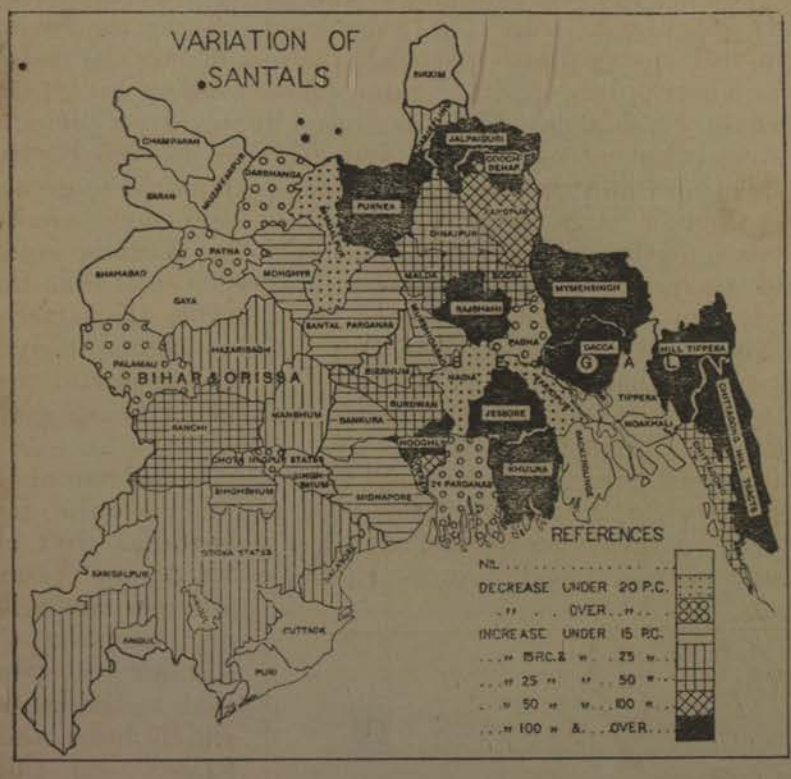
1020. An addition of 13 per cent. has brought the number of Santals to over 2 millions (2,068,000), and they are the fifth largest race in Bengal, Bihar and Orissa. In addition to those enumerated in these two Provinces, there are 59,000 in Assam. Altogether 668,149 are found in the district (the Sonthal Parganas) which bears their name, one-third being inhabitants of the Damin-i-Koh. In this district they have decreased by 1,386 since 1901, which at first sight appears surprising considering what a hardy, prolific race they are. The explanation lies in emigration and partly in the fact that 10,000 Kols or Karmales were classified as Santals in 1901; Kol is the local name for Karmales



* Some Historical and Ethnical Aspects of the Burdwan District, Index, p. xi.

The position of the Santals in the Sonthal Parganas has been well explained by Mr. H. McPherson, I.C.S., formerly Settlement Officer in the Sonthal Parganas :—"In the areas that are left to him, beyond which there is no further advance to be made, he has been protected against encroachment and against the consequences of his own folly by a paternal Government, and he has settled down with intent to stay and to continue the work of improvement and reclamation begun by him. In the older areas, from which he moved on at an earlier date, he seems to have done the first clearing of jungle and the first rough shaping of slopes and levels. The more civilized Bengali, Bihari and up-country immigrant came at his heels and pushed him off the land by force, cajolery and trickery." These remarks are to some extent confirmed by the results of the present census, for in the Damin, where they are protected, the Santals have increased by 2 per cent. in spite of extensive emigration, while they have decreased by 1½ per cent. outside it. They have been spreading far afield in search of land or labour, especially to the north-east. Purnea and North Bengal record an addition of 88,510 Santals or 54 per cent., part only of which is due to natural growth among the earlier settlers. Of this increase, Dinajpur, where the Santals are flocking into the Barind, claims 36,000, Malda, which also has a Barind tract, 14,000, and Purnea the same number.

1021. Another large body of Santals is found in the districts of Hazaribagh, Manbhum, Singhbhum, Midnapore and the Orissa Feudatory States, which between them contain 803,122. In Manbhum there has been an increase of 19 per cent., the result largely of immigration to the coalfields : the rate of increase is the same as among the general population. With the addition of the new-comers, the Santals of Manbhum now represent one-seventh of the district population. The attractions of the coal-fields are also largely responsible for an increment of 19,500 or over 40 per cent. in Burdwan. Hooghly again has an addition of 13,000 or 130 per cent.; here the Santal is beginning to take to labour and cultivation in alluvial flats away from the rolling uplands where he has hitherto made his home. So far he has not proceeded further south-east than Hooghly or moved to the delta proper. Excluding Murshidabad, where conditions are different, there are only 4,356 Santals in the whole of Central and East Bengal. The mills do not appear to attract him, and he abhors city life. Calcutta contains only 56 Santals and the metropolitan districts of Howrah and the 24-Parganas, with their numerous mill towns, only 1,217.



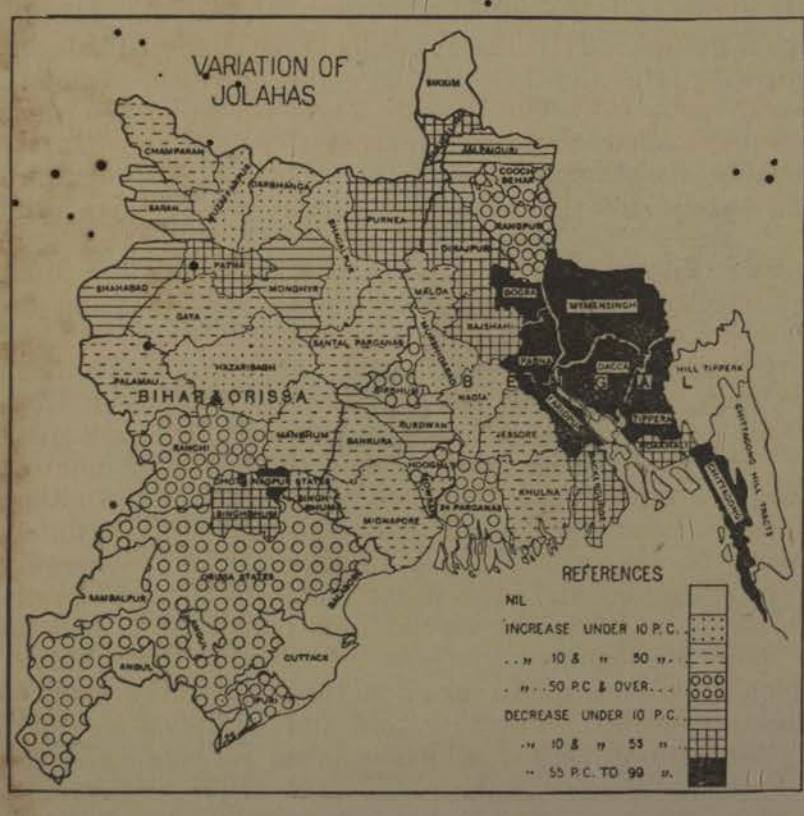
1022. A certain number of Santals, who have given up eating cows, pigs and fowls have assumed the name of Kharwar, as mentioned in Chapter IV in the account of the Kharwar movement. A number of them returned Kharwar and not Santal as their caste, and it is probable that most of the 1,306 Kharwars returned for the Sonthal Parganas are really Santals. It is noticeable that the number of Santals returned as Hindus in that district has fallen from 73,881 to 265.

SAURIA AND MAL PAHARIA.

1023. The Sauria Paharias, or Maler, and the Mal Paharias are two races found almost exclusively in the Sonthal Parganas. The number of the former in that district is 62,327, or one-third more than in 1901, and of the latter 38,553 or 50 per cent. more than in that year. These very large increases are due to the greater completeness of the census in the Sonthal Parganas and to the care taken by the local officers to secure an accurate record. This was mainly effected by using the name Sauria Paharia instead of Maler, which is easily confused with Mal, Malo or Mal Paharia, and by tabooing terms used by various sections of the Mal Paharias, such as Kumarbhag, Maulik, Naiya, and Pujahar. The local distribution of the Sauria and Mal Paharias is somewhat different. Practically all the former are found in the Damin in the Rajmahal, Godda and Pakaur subdivisions, whereas over four-fifths of the Mal Paharias live outside the Damin and less than 3,000 are resident in the Godda and Rajmahal subdivisions.

SHEIKHS AND OTHER MUSALMAN GROUPS.

1024. At this census the Sheikhs registered an addition of a little under three millions (14 per cent.), and their aggregate is now a little under 24⅔ millions. Nearly 23 millions are found in Bengal, where they account for 95 per cent. of the total Musalman population. In North and East Bengal they have increased by 2¾ millions owing mainly to the orders of the Government of Eastern Bengal and Assam that the lower functional groups such as Jolahas and Kulus might return themselves as Pathans, Sheikhs, etc. The Pathans are more numerous by 78,000 or 18 per cent. than they were 10 years ago, while the Jolahas have lost 134,000, the Nasyas 199,000, and the Kulus 46,000. The marginal map shows the variations which have taken place among the Jolahas.



SUNRI AND SHAHA.

1025. The Sunris and Shahas were formerly treated as one and the same caste, but at this census they were recorded separately in Bengal. The great majority of the persons who entered themselves as Shahas are really Sunris, and the two must be taken together for comparative purposes. If the Sunris are considered separately, we find that in the area administered by the late Government of Eastern Bengal and Assam, where Sunris were freely allowed to return themselves as Shahas, the number of Sunris has fallen from 285,000 to 5,000, and in their place a body of 298,000 Shahas has sprung up. Taking both Sunris and Shahas together, there is an increase of 14 per cent. since 1901, their distribution being as noted in the margin.

	Bengal.	Bihar and Orissa.
Sunri ...	119,325	257,114
Shaha ...	324,927	...

TANTI.

1026. The Tantis, who number 936,260, have sustained a loss of 10,000 or 1 per cent. during the last decade, which does not, however, represent a real decline. It is

due to the fact that in Singhbhum most of the Pans succeeded in passing themselves off as Tantis in 1901, whereas, at this census, they were returned by their real caste name. The result was a decrease in the number of Tantis in that district by 22,000 and an increase of nearly 23,000 among the Pans.

QUESTIONS OF RACE.

ANTHROPOMETRY AND RACE.

1027. The question of race as determined by anthropometry was discussed in the last report on the Census of India, where the population of Bengal, Bihar and Orissa was allocated to the following four main types :—(I) The Aryo-Dravidian type found in Bihar and represented in its upper strata by the Hindustani Brahman and in its lower by the Chamar. It is said to be probably the result of the inter-mixture, in varying proportions, of the Indo-Aryan and Dravidian types, the former element predominating in the lower groups and the latter in the higher. (II) The Mongolo-Dravidian type of Lower Bengal and Orissa, comprising the Bengal Brahmans and Kayasths, the Muhammadans of Eastern Bengal, and other groups peculiar to this part of India. It is said to be probably a blend of Dravidian and Mongoloid elements with a strain of Indo-Aryan blood in the higher groups. (III) The Mongoloid type of the Himalayas, Nepal, etc., represented by the Lepchas of Darjeeling and the Limbus, Murmis, and Gurungs of Nepal. (IV) The Dravidian type pervading the whole of Chota Nagpur; its most characteristic representatives are the Santals This is said to be probably the original type of the population of India, now modified to a varying extent by the admixture of Aryan, Scythian, and Mongoloid elements.

1028. Of late years anthropometry as a test of race has begun to fall out of favour. Professor Ridgeway considers that physical type depends far more on environment than on race. "From the evidence already to hand there is high probability that intermarriage can do little to form a new race, unless the parents on both sides are of races evolved in similar environments."* Elsewhere he points out that "as the physical anthropologists cannot agree upon any principles of skull measurement, the historical inquirer must not at present base any argument on this class of evidence."† Another writer remarks :—"Neither cephalic nor nasal index is of much use in determining race. The truth is, the method of indices has been thoroughly discredited among anthropologists, and were it not employed in the 'People of India,' a book published in 1908, we should have supposed it had no longer any followers. Sergi, the eminent professor of anthropology at Rome, says : 'A method which is only in appearance a method inevitably leads to errors and can produce no results.' For this 'old and irrational method,' Sergi would substitute the natural method, which consists in judging by the form of the skull."‡ Professor Ridgeway, however, is of a different opinion. "Osteological differences," he says, "may be but foundations of sand, because it is certain that such variations take place within very short periods, not only in the case of the lower animals, as in the horse family, but in man himself.§" His views appear to be confirmed by the recent discoveries of Walcher, who has drawn attention to the changes which can be made in the shape of the skull of newly born infants by inducing them to lie constantly on the side or on the back, according as it is desired to make the head long or short. Infants willingly lie on their back, if they are given a soft feather pillow. If, on the other hand, a hard pillow is used they prefer to lie on the side. Of twins, one who was kept on the side had a long head (index 78·4) and also a long face, while the other who was kept on the back had a short head (index 86·2) and a short face.‖

* Address to the Anthropological Section of the British Association, 1908.
† Ridgeway, *The Early Age of Greece*, p. 79.
‡ Professor Homersham Cox, *Anthropometry and Race*, Modern Review, May, 1911.
§ Address to the Anthropological Section of the British Association, 1908.
‖ Article in the *Muenchener Medizinische Wochenschrift*, dated the 17th January 1911.

1029. Another test of race which has recently been propounded is that blue patches are an infallible proof of Mongolian descent. Herr Baelz, the author of this theory, states :—"Every Chinese, every Korean, Japanese and Malay, is born with a dark blue patch of irregular shape in the lower sacral region. Sometimes it is equally divided on both sides and sometimes not. Sometimes it is only the size of a shilling, and at other times nearly as large as the hand. In addition, there are also more or less numerous similar patches on the trunk and limbs, but never on the face. Sometimes they are so numerous as to cover nearly half the surface of the body. Their appearance is as if the child has been bruised by a fall. These patches generally disappear in the first year of life, but sometimes they last for several years. If it be the case, as I believe, that such patches are found exclusively amongst persons of Mongolian race, they furnish a most important criterion for distinguishing between this and other races." * Inquiries regarding the occurrence of such marks have been made in Bengal, Bihar and Orissa, which afford a particularly suitable field for investigation in view of Sir Herbert Risley's theory that the Bengalis are a Mongolo-Dravidian race. If Baelz's theory is true that they are found exclusively among Mongolian children or children of Mongolian descent, they would naturally be absent in areas such as Bihar, and among races such as Hindustani Brahmans, to whom no Mongolian strain has been attributed.

MONGOLIAN BLUE PATCHES.

1030. Such patches are quite common in Bengal, Bihar and Orissa, and they are not confined to any particular caste or race. Both Hindus and Musalmans, high castes and low castes, aboriginals and others, have them. Out of 8,298 children, 498 were found to have blue patches, but there were the most extraordinary variations in the percentages in different districts, due in all probability to babies being examined in some cases and children in others. The fact that the patches generally disappear within a year after birth was not always realized : one Civil Surgeon solemnly reported the results of the examination of 112 adults, which was of course nil. In Cuttack only 11 out of 3,365 children had blue patches, whereas in the adjoining district of Puri, they were found on 21 out of 29 children. In Singhbhum 2,000 children were examined, but only 4 children (all Hos) had pigmented skins. One doctor found them in 1 out of every 10 ; another in 1 out of every 7 of the children that came under observation ; and a few in 50 to 90 per cent. of the cases examined. Excluding returns that seem to be of doubtful validity, the general proportion seems to be about 1 in every 10.

1031. The most reliable results were obtained in the Eden Hospital in Calcutta, where observations were made by the Resident Surgeons among the infants born in the hospital. Here 61 out of 192 babies, or nearly one-third, had blue patches at birth. They were usually noticed on the lower part of the back and over the hips. Their dimensions variedfrom the size of a rupee to the size of an adult's hand. The colour was always light blue. Out of the 61 children, 11 were Eurasians, 10 were Kayasths and one was a Jewish child. The remainder were Brahmans, Goalas, Telis, Kaibarttas, Gandhabaniks, Napits, Kumhars, Tantis, Bagdis, Indian Christians and Musalmans. These blue patches often run in families. A Bengali gentleman, a Barendra Brahman by caste, writes—"In our family almost all the infants are born with blue patches. They sometimes appear on the upper part of the back, some on both the lower and upper parts, but generally on the lower part of the back. They are roundish or irregular in shape, prominent in children with fair skins and naturally less prominent in dark skins. They usually disappear within a few months after birth, but in the case of a niece of mine they could be traced until she was six years of age." All the children of another Brahman in Orissa (seven in number) were born with similar skin pigmentation.

1032. The so-called Mongolian patches, though found in all parts and among all castes, appear to be most common among the Mongoloid races of the Chittagong Hill

RACIAL PREVALENCE.

* *On the races of East Asia, with special reference to Japan*, Zeitschrift fur Ethnologie, 1901, Part II

Tracts and among the Rajbansis of North Bengal. This form of pigmentation is far less prevalent among the races of the Chota Nagpur Plateau, as may be realized from the marginal figures. Patches of this kind have also been found in pure European children—in one out of every 200—where their presence is ascribed not to mixed blood, but to atavism or throwing back to ancestors with dark or black skins. It is also said that similar patches occur in some species of monkeys.*

Area.	Caste or race.	Number of children examined.	Number with blue patches.
Chittagong Hill Tracts	Chakma ...	106	94
	Kumi	25	24
	Magh	104	84
	Murung ...	30	23
	Tipara ...	120	85
Jalpaiguri	Rajbansi ...	52	28
Chota Nagpur Plateau	Kharia ...	27	...
	Munda ...	68	2
	Oraon ...	79	4
	Santal ...	253	9

So far as Bengal is concerned, my opinion is that the presence of the so-called Mongolian patches cannot be said to support Sir Herbert Risley's hyphothesis that the Bengalis are a Mongolo-Dravidian race. The results also seem to discount the hypothesis that they are found exclusively among Mongolian races, though they are undoubtedly most frequent among children of Mongolian stock or with a Mongolian strain. In view of the Darwinian theory, it would be interesting to know the relative prevalence of congenital blue patches among monkeys and human beings.

MELANOGLOSSIA.

1033. Inquiry was also made regarding the prevalence of melanoglossia, to which attention was first drawn by Colonel F. Maynard, I.M.S., so far as this part of India is concerned. Colonel Maynard carried out his observations at Ranchi, where he examined 347 tongues and found pigmentation in 32 per cent. of the cases. The distribution of the races in which they were found was as shown in the margin. "The other castes," Colonel Maynard remarked, "include a considerable number of castes of Aryan origin, and the relative infrequency of pigmented tongues among them (19·9 per cent.) compared with their frequency among the Dravidian tribes (average 44·8 per cent.) confirms the general impression I had formed that the pigmentation of the tongue varies with the pigmentation of the skin. For the Kolarian tribes (Mundas, Oraons, Kharias, etc.) have, as a rule, the blackest skins possible, and the depth of skin pigment was generally observed to correspond directly with the depth of the tongue pigment. The distribution and extent of the discoloration varied greatly. In some cases the fungiform papillæ were each surrounded by a blue or brown rim, giving the tongue a curious speckled look; in others there were irregular blue or black blotches, simple or multiple, and varying in size from a two-anna bit to a rupee on the dorsum or along the edges of the tongue. In one only was the whole tongue black. In no case were the gums or roof of the mouth pigmented. The marks were found at all ages, though more commonly, more widely spread and of deeper hue in adults than in children.

Race.	Per cent.
Munda ...	48·2
Oraon ...	47·5
Kharia ...	36
Bhuiya ...	47·5
Other castes ...	19·9

"The children of 46 parents who had pigmented tongues were examined with the following results. Of 16 sons of melanoglossal *fathers*, 7 had their tongues pigmented; 4 daughters of the same group of fathers showed no marks. Of 14 sons of melanoglossal *mothers*, 3 had pigmented tongues; and, of 12 daughters of the same, 3 were pigmented. As far as could be ascertained, the pigment was not in any way due to malaria. Enlarged spleens were not found more frequently in those who had than in those who had not pigmented tongues. Thus, melanoglossia, as far as these 347 cases go, would appear to be largely a question of race, and to be more common the lower the race is in the scale of civilization. It is almost equally common in the two sexes. It would appear to be hereditary, though not necessarily appearing in early childhood. No connection with any diseased condition was to be made out."†

* *The Hospital* (p. 249), dated 26th November 1912.

† Lieutenant-Colonel F. P. Maynard, I.M.S., *A Note on Melanoglossia*, Indian Medical Gazette, October 1897.

1034. Investigations carried out in all the districts of Bengal (as constituted at the time of the census) show that pigmented tongues are quite common. Altogether 18,444 observations were made, and melanoglossia was found in 11 per cent. of the cases. The area in which it is least common appears to be Orissa, while it is most prevalent in the Chota Nagpur Plateau, where aboriginal races predominate. The marginal statement shows the result of the examinations made. These can be taken as reliable, for observations were made in hospitals and dispensaries, while Civil Surgeons examined the tongues of prisoners in jail. Melanoglossia is not confined to races of aboriginal descent, though it is undoubtedly more common among them. In addition to the tribes and castes mentioned by Colonel Maynard, it has been ascertained that the incidence among Santals is 40 per cent.; 246 out of 584 Santals having pigmented tongues. The figures for Darjeeling also deserve attention: all but four of the persons with pigmented tongues belong to the hill races, viz., Jimdars, Mangars, Gurungs, Khas, Bhotias and Lepchas.

NATURAL DIVISION OR DISTRICT.	Number examined.	Number with melanoglossia.	Percentage.
West Bengal	940	75	8
Central Bengal ...	7,115	709	10
Darjeeling	81	17	21
North Bihar	1,059	146	14
South Bihar	2,219	210	9½
Orissa	3,861	58	1½
Chota Nagpur Plateau	3,250	835	25
Total ...	18,444	2,033	11

CASTE, ETC.	Number examined.	Number of pigmented tongues.
Babhan	86	12
Chamar ...	64	12
Dom	79	18
Goala	130	15
Kahar	88	8
Kayasth ...	75	3
Koiri	82	13
Kurmi	53	10
Musalman ...	259	24
Rajput	101	17

Cases of melanoglossia are reported for over 100 different castes or races; the marginal statement shows its incidence among some Hindu castes and Musalman groups in South Bihar and Hazaribagh, which may be taken as representative of different social strata. It seems by no means certain that melanoglossia is racial and not pathological. The opinion is common among those medical officers who kindly assisted in the inquiry that it is a concomitant of malaria. Observations carried out in Ranchi, among aboriginal or semi-aboriginal races, also indicate that it is commoner among females than among males, and that it is six times as common among adults as among children under 16 years of age. The result of 1,800 observations in that district is to show that the percentage of pigmented tongues among males and females under 16 years of age is 5 and 6, respectively, whereas the ratio is 30 per cent. among males and 40 per cent. among females over that age. This form of pigmentation is certainly therefore not congenital, and it is a fair inference that it is not racial.

SUBSIDIARY TABLE I.—CASTES CLASSIFIED ACCORDING TO THEIR TRADITIONAL OCCUPATIONS.

GROUP AND CASTE.	STRENGTH 000'S OMITTED.			GROUP AND CASTE.	STRENGTH 000'S OMITTED.		
	Total.	Bengal.	Bihar and Orissa.		Total.	Bengal.	Bihar and Orissa.
1	2	3	4	1	2	3	4
BENGAL, BIHAR AND ORISSA.	*84,741*	*46,306*	*38,435*	**XI.—Bards and astrologers**	*18*	*18*	...
I.—Land-holders	*3,321*	*182*	*3,139*	**XII.—Writers**	*1,662*	*1,167*	*495*
Babhan (Bhumihar Brahman) ...	1,130	...	1,130	Karan	147	...	147
Khandait	769	...	769	Kayasth	1,462	1,114	348
Rajput (Chhatri)...	1,370	130	1,240	Others	53	53	...
Others	52	52	...				
II.—Cultivators (including growers of special products).	*13,575*	*7,993*	*5,582*	**XIII.—Musicians singers, dancers, mimics and jugglers.**	*118*	*48*	*70*
Barui and Bani	308	178	130	**XIV.—Traders and pedlars**	*1,020*	*617*	*403*
Bind	135	...	135	Baniya	141	...	141
Chain	93	93	...	Gandhabanik	119	119	...
Chasa	846	...	846	Kasudar	83	...	83
Dhanuk	572	...	572	Shaha	625	225	...
Goal	236	...	236	Subarnabanik	110	110	...
Gangauta	83	...	83	Others	242	63	179
Kalbartta (Chasi)	2,138	2,138	...				
Koch	125	125	...				
Kolri	1,281	...	1,281	**XV.—Carriers by pack animals.**	...	...	...
Kolta	124	...	124				
Kunjra	189	...	189				
Kurmi	1,490	177	1,313				
Mal	109	108	...	**XVI.—Barbers**	*1,031*	*458*	*573*
Namasudra	1,909	1,909	...	Bhandari...	117	...	117
Pod	536	536	...	Hajjam	389	...	389
Rajbansi	1,917	1,809	108	Napit	447	447	...
Sadgop	550	550	...	Others	78	11	67
Sudh (Sudha)	79	...	79				
Others	856	370	486				
III.—Labourers	*2,644*	*1,572*	*1,072*	**XVII.—Washermen**	*659*	*232*	*427*
Bagdi	1,016	1,016	...	Dhoba	605	228	377
Bauri	607	314	293	Others	54	4	50
Knora	112	112	...				
Musahar	627	...	627				
Rajwar	132	...	132				
Others	150	130	20				
IV.—Forest and hill tribes	*6,603*	*1,677*	*4,926*	**XVIII.—Weavers, carders and dyers.**	*3,431*	*1,150*	*2,281*
Bhoria	79	...	79	Ganda	212	...	212
Bhuiya	664	...	664	Jogi and Jugi	361	361	...
Bhumij	273	...	273	Jolaha	1,108	282	826
Ho	419	...	419	Kapali	154	154	...
Kandh	303	...	303	Pan (Panka)	464	...	464
Kharia	105	...	105	Tanti and Tatwa	936	323	613
Kharwar	86	...	86	Others	196	30	166
Munda	410	...	410				
Oraon	640	165	475				
Santal	2,068	669	1,399	**XIX.—Tailors**	*43*	*6*	*37*
Savar (Sahar)	218	...	218				
Tipera	130	130	...				
Others	1,208	713	495	**XX.—Carpenters**	*513*	*182*	*331*
				Barhi	324	...	324
V.—Graziers and dairy men	*4,725*	*663*	*4,062*	Sutradhar	177	177	...
Garari	92	...	92	Others	12	5	7
Gaura	713	...	713				
Goala	3,896	646	3,250				
Others	24	17	7	**XXI.—Masons**	...	...	...
VI.—Fishermen, boatmen and palki-bearers.	*2,981*	*1,177*	*1,804*	**XXII.—Potters**	*808*	*295*	*513*
Gourhi	130	...	130	Kumhar	808	295	513
Kalbartta (Jaliya)	327	327	...				
Kahar	524	...	524				
Kewat	421	...	421				
Khatwe	117	...	117	**XXIII.—Glass and lac workers.**	*2*	*2*	...
Mallah	363	...	363				
Mali	247	247	...				
Tiyar	215	215	...				
Others	637	388	249	**XXIV.—Blacksmiths**	*827*	*325*	*502*
				Kamar and Lohar	791	311	480
VII.—Hunters and fowlers ...	*72*	*36*	*36*	Others	36	14	22
VIII.—Priests and devotees	*3,680*	*1,679*	*2,001*				
Baishnab and Bairagi	503	424	79	**XXV.—Gold and silversmiths.**	*268*	*56*	*212*
Brahman...	2,966	1,911	1,055				
Others	211	44	167	Sonar	212	...	212
				Others	56	56	...
IX.—Temple servants ...	*6*	...	*6*				
				XXVI.—Brass and coppersmiths.	*86*	*17*	*69*
X.—Genealogists	*34*	*7*	*27*				

Only those castes are shown which contribute more than 1 per mille to the population of either Province; the less numerous castes are grouped together as Others.

SUBSIDIARY TABLE I.—Castes classified according to their traditional occupations—*concluded.*

Group and Caste.	Strength 000's omitted.			Group and Caste.	Strength 000's omitted.		
	Total.	Bengal.	Bihar and Orissa.		Total.	Bengal.	Bihar and Orissa.
1	2	3	4	1	2	3	4
XXVII.—Confectioners and grain-parchers.	*1,043*	*164*	*879*	***XXXIII.—Earth, salt, etc., workers and quarriers.***	*573*	*116*	*457*
Guria	147	...	147				
Halwai	142	...	142				
Kandu	503	...	503	Beldar	89	...	89
Mayra	127	127	...	Nunjya	319	...	319
Others	124	37	87	Others	165	116	49
XXVIII.—Oil-pressers	*1,725*	*605*	*1,120*	***XXXIV.—Domestic servants***	*259*	*157*	*102*
Kalu	112	112	...				
Teli and Tili	1,491	419	1,072	Sudra	149	149	...
Others	122	74	48	Others	110	8	102
XXIX.—Toddy drawers and distillers.	*772*	*147*	*625*	***XXXV.—Village watchmen and menials.***	*1,430*	*83*	*1,347*
Kalwar	181	...	181				
Pasi	150	...	150	Dosadh	1,189	...	1,189
Sonri	376	119	257	Kandra (Kadma)	156	...	156
Others	65	28	37	Others	85	83	2
XXX.—Butchers	*14*	...	*14*	***XXXVI.—Sweepers***	*412*	*274*	*138*
				Hari	293	174	119
				Others	119	100	19
XXXI.—Leather-workers	*1,741*	*595*	*1,146*	***XXXVII.—Others***	*28,149*	*24,399*	*3,750*
Chamar	1,252	137	1,115				
Mochi	455	455	...	Ajlaf	143	143	...
Others	34	3	31	Christian	398	130	268
				Dhunia (Dhunkar)	202	...	202
XXXII.—Basket-makers and mat-makers.	*496*	*207*	*289*	Magh	128	128	...
				Mal (Malakar)	140	...	140
				Pathan	502	281	221
				Saiyad	229	138	91
Dom	416	174	242	Sheikh	24,662	22,953	1,709
Others	80	33	47	Others	1,745	626	1,119

Only those castes are shown which contribute more than 2 per mille to the population of either Province; the less numerous castes are grouped together as Others.

SUBSIDIARY TABLE II.—Variation in Caste, Tribe, etc., since 1872.

Caste, Tribe or Race.	Persons 000's omitted.							Percentage of variation increase (+) and decrease (-).				Percentage of net variation.
	Bengal.	Bihar and Orissa.	Bengal, Bihar and Orissa.					Bengal, Bihar and Orissa.				
	1911.	1911.	1911.	1901.	1891.	1881.	1872.	1901—1911.	1891—1901.	1881—1891.	1872—1881.	1872—1911.
1	2	3	4	5	6	7	8	9	10	11	12	13
HINDU AND ANIMIST.												
Babhan (Bhumihar Brahman)	2	1,130	1,132	1,144	1,222	1,032	1,014	- 1·1	- 6·42	+ 18·43	+ 1·77	+ 11·6
Bagdi	1,016	18	1,034	1,032	860	737	695	+ ·1	+ 28·21	+ 6·35	+ 8·98	+ 48·8
Baishnab (Bairagi)	424	79	503	467	464	568	523	+ 7·7	+ 0·57	- 18·30	+ 8·65	- 3·9
Baniya	15	141	156	210	333	905	200	- 25·9	- 7·15	- 63·14	+ 352·96	- 22·2
Baral and Barui	179	130	309	292	250	219	287	+ 5·8	+ 17·18	+ 14·18	- 23·71	+ 7·4
Barhi	3	324	327	306	291	484	248	+ 6·7	+ 5·30	- 39·92	+ 95·02	+ 31·6
Bauri	314	293	607	595	551	481	406	+ 1·9	+ 7·96	+ 14·41	+ 18·61	+ 49·3
Behlar	5	89	94	98	...	...	...	- 4·3	...	...	...	...
Bhandari	...	117	117	102	94	...	75	+ 14·9	+ 8·00	...	...	+ 55·2
Bhogta	3	78	81	78	...	...	...	+ 4·2	...	...	...	...
Bhuiya	69	664	733	663	501	464	447	+ 10·5	+ 32·33	+ 7·94	+ 3·67	+ 63·9
Bhumij	90	273	363	328	306	226	200	+ 10·5	+ 7·16	+ 35·50	+ 13·01	+ 81·4
Bind	25	135	160	139	136	137	121	+ 15·4	+ 1·80	- 0·34	+ 13·22	+ 32·1
Brahman	1,324	1,755	3,079	2,870	2,801	2,754	2,430	+ 4·6	+ 2·67	+ 1·70	+ 13·31	+ 33·4
Chain	93	32	125	129	116	95	109	- 2·7	+ 11·14	+ 21·77	- 12·54	+ 15·1
Chamar	137	1,114	1,251	1,187	...	...	...	+ 5·4	...	...	...	...
Chasa	1	846	847	846	671	534	483	+ ·2	+ 26·09	+ 25·59	+ 10·45	+ 75·3
Dhanuk	14	572	586	594	576	542	492	- 1·1	+ 3·01	+ 6·31	+ 10·19	+ 19·2
Dhoba	228	377	605	568	573	553	478	+ 6·8	- 1·23	+ 3·63	+ 15·72	+ 26·4
Dom	174	242	416	359	348	343	321	+ 15·8	+ 3·15	+ 1·32	+ 6·95	+ 29·6
Dosadh	46	1,189	1,235	1,176	1,194	1,134	992	+ 5·0	- 1·50	+ 5·24	+ 19·19	+ 29·3
Ganda	1	212	213	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...
Gandhabanik	119	24	143	140	123	...	140	+ 2·5	+ 13·64	...	...	+ 1·9
Gangauta	...	83	83	83	...	...	...	+ ·1	...	...	...	...
Gaseri	4	92	96	100	106	112	91	- 3·3	- 5·88	- 5·31	+ 22·97	+ 6·0
Gaura	2	713	715	631	631	414	334	+ 63·7	+ 0·11	+ 4·21	+ 23·66	+ 113·8
Goala	646	2,950	3,596	3,329	3,835	3,579	3,172	+ 1·8	- 0·16	+ 7·14	+ 12·83	+ 13·9
Gond	...	226	226	205	149	161	87	+ 10·5	+ 38·21	- 6·98	+ 83·96	+ 159·8
Gondhri	11	130	141	149	201	66	101	- 5·4	- 29·39	+ 204·28	- 34·47	+ 40·0
Guria	...	147	147	140	132	...	...	+ 5·1	+ 6·20	...	...	...

SUBSIDIARY TABLE II.—VARIATION IN CASTE, TRIBE, ETC., SINCE 1872—*concld.*

CASTE, TRIBE OR RACE.	PERSONS 000's OMITTED.							PERCENTAGE OR VARIATION INCREASE (+) AND DECREASE (−).				Percentage of net variation.
	Bengal.	Bihar and Orissa.	Bengal, Bihar and Orissa.					Bengal, Bihar and Orissa.				
	1911.	1911.	1911.	1901.	1891.	1881.	1872.	1901—1911.	1891—1901.	1881—1891.	1872—1881.	1872—1911.
1	2	3	4	5	6	7	8	9	10	11	12	13
HINDU AND ANIMIST *—concluded.*												
Hajjam	2	388	390	380	...	...	...	+ 2·6	...	...	...	...
Halwai	14	142	156	153	161	...	144	+ 2·0	− 5·11	...	...	+ 7·8
Hari	174	119	293	302	285	286	259	− 2·8	+ 5·90	− 0·45	+ 10·47	+ 13·2
Ho	1	419	420	385	156	...	...	+ 9·2	+ 158·29	...	...	...
Jogi and Jugi	361	35	396	375	406	340	384	+ 5·7	− 7·76	+ 19·33	− 11·18	+ 3·2
Kahar	90	524	614	585	621	605	466	+ 4·9	− 5·76	+ 2·70	+ 29·78	+ 31·8
Kaibartta (Total) ...	2,488	93	2,581	2,485	2,222	2,482	2,358	+ 3·9	+ 11·84	− 10·09	+ 5·26	+ 9·5
Ditto (Chasi) or Mahishya ...	2,138	28	2,166	1,960	...	...	...	+ 10·5	...	...	...	...
Ditto (Jaliya) ...	327	4	331	267	...	...	...	+ 24·2	...	...	...	...
Ditto (unspecified) ...	23	61	84	259	...	...	...	− 67·5	...	...	...	...
Kalu	113	44	156	155	160	171	151	+ ·7	− 3·18	− 6·28	+ 13·01	+ 3·2
Kalwar	13	181	194	239	402	190	...	− 18·9	− 40·63	+ 111·39	...	...
Kamar and Lohar	312	480	792	757	740	672	599	+ 4·6	+ 2·35	+ 9·92	+ 12·35	+ 32·2
Kandh	1	203	204	124	104	37	...	+ 144·1	+ 19·87	+ 181·40	...	...
Kandra (Kadma) ...	37	156	193	151	141	121	102	+ 27·2	+ 7·41	+ 16·57	+ 18·01	+ 88·1
Kandu	12	503	515	507	520	607	479	+ 1·7	− 2·56	− 14·33	+ 27·23	+ 7·7
Kaora	113	1	113	113	106	...	100	+ 1·5	+ 6·06	...	...	+ 14·0
Kapali	134	...	134	144	134	127	121	+ 7·4	+ 7·36	+ 7·48	+ 7·83	+ 10·1
Karan	24	148	201	189	130	108	113	+ 6·9	+ 45·91	+ 22·46	− 6·26	+ 76·9
Kayasth	1,114	348	1,462	1,348	1,467	1,451	1,403	+ 8·4	− 8·10	+ 1·09	+ 3·41	+ 4·1
Kewat	22	421	443	373	358	253	222	+ 18·8	+ 3·88	+ 40·63	− 12·79	+ 51·4
Khandait	56	769	805	719	681	617	458	+ 12·1	+ 5·51	+ 10·41	+ 34·78	+ 76·0
Kharia	13	109	121	105	56	32	53	+ 16·1	+ 88·83	+ 148·29	+ 12·74	+ 129·6
Kharwar	13	85	98	102	94	195	73	− 3·7	− 8·35	− 51·97	+ 170·77	+ 33·7
Khatwe	...	117	117	103	81	47	51	+ 13·5	+ 26·83	+ 72·43	− 8·07	+ 127·9
Koch...	125	3	128	70	...	...	...	+ 82·9	...	...	...	...
Kolri	26	1,281	1,307	1,287	1,193	1,205	1,092	+ 2·1	+ 6·09	− 0·80	+ 10·34	+ 19·6
Kolta	...	134	134	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...
Kumhar	291	513	804	745	746	698	607	+ 7·9	− 0·10	+ 6·99	+ 14·95	+ 32·4
Kurmi	177	1,313	1,490	1,396	1,322	1,213	938	+ 6·7	+ 5·65	+ 8·91	+ 26·66	+ 58·9
Magh	128	...	128	110	97	...	57	+ 16·4	+ 13·96	...	...	+ 126·0
Mal	108	24	132	146	98	125	126	− 9·0	+ 48·89	− 21·92	− 0·84	+ 5·0
Mal (Malakar)	39	140	179	132	132	216	153	+ 35·1	− 13·06	− 39·88	+ 40·90	+ 16·4
Mallah	27	363	390	389	383	471	413	+ ·1	+ 1·74	− 18·70	+ 13·96	+ 5·6
Malo...	247	457	247	228	88	19	9	+ 8·8	+ 157·70	+ 314·63	+ 106·60	+ 2,530·2
Mayra	126	23	149	148	127	109	92	+ 1·3	+ 16·04	+ 16·75	+ 235·10	+ 63·4
Muchi	455	31	486	440	...	...	...	+ 10·5	...	...	...	...
Munda	67	410	477	382	363	98	100	+ 25·2	+ 5·22	+ 270·43	− 49·71	+ 151·3
Muyahar	12	627	639	606	564	546	431	+ 5·4	+ 7·49	+ 3·27	+ 26·53	+ 48·1
Namasudra	1,909	5	1,914	1,861	1,768	1,576	1,504	+ 2·8	+ 5·19	+ 12·18	+ 4·82	+ 27·2
Napit	447	35	482	462	...	...	...	+ 4·3	...	...	...	...
Nuniya	42	319	361	343	318	280	226	+ 5·2	+ 7·83	+ 13·78	+ 23·70	+ 59·7
Oraon	165	475	640	591	482	46	241	+ 8·4	+ 22·49	+ 966·47	− 81·04	+ 165·8
Pan (Panika)... ...	2	454	456	447	342	241	250	+ 4·4	+ 30·66	+ 41·52	− 3·51	+ 82·2
Pasi	15	150	165	153	148	165	134	+ 8·0	+ 3·87	− 10·29	+ 23·23	+ 23·3
Pod	537	...	537	465	419	326	293	+ 15·4	+ 11·06	+ 28·49	+ 11·18	+ 83·1
Rajbansi	1,909	108	1,917	2,066	1,967	1,648	1,548	+ 7·2	+ 3·09	+ 20·51	+ 32·07	+ 53·3
Rajput (Chhatri) ...	130	1,240	1,370	1,297	1,509	1,409	1,232	− 1·9	− 7·44	+ 7·09	+ 14·42	+ 11·2
Rajwar	22	132	154	160	132	130	79	− 3·4	+ 21·12	+ 1·06	+ 64·36	+ 94·4
Rautiar	2	93	95	77	...	...	...	+ 23·4	...	...	...	...
Sadgop	350	24	374	378	371	348	659	− 1·0	+ 1·94	+ 2·39	− 15·80	− 12·9
Santal	669	1,399	2,068	1,830	1,471	203	923	+ 13·0	+ 24·43	+ 151·63	+ 77·97	+ 124·2
Savar (Sahar)	5	218	223	111	...	...	...	+ 100·9	...	...	...	...
Sonar	59	213	267	246	273	241	253	+ 9·1	− 10·16	+ 13·24	− 4·73	+ 5·7
Srimahabanik	109	20	129	156	96	...	126	+ 17·2	+ 19·06	...	...	+ 2·0
Sudra	149	...	149	186	235	186	50	− 19·9	− 20·70	+ 25·78	+ 73·15	+ 197·2
Sudh (Sadha) ...	...	79	79	67	...	...	...	+ 17·1	...	...	...	...
Sunri and Shaha	444	257	701	616	473	589	761	+ 13·8	+ 43·70	− 28·11	− 29·12	− 7·8
Sutradhar	127	5	132	172	176	...	164	+ 5·9	− 1·91	...	...	+ 10·9
Tanti and Tatwa	353	613	966	946	802	919	876	− 1·1	+ 18·07	− 12·79	+ 4·88	+ 6·8
Teli and Till	419	1,072	1,491	1,395	1,383	1,299	1,211	+ 6·9	+ 2·36	+ 4·94	+ 7·23	+ 23·1
Tipara	130	...	130	102	91	16	15	+ 28·1	+ 11·87	+ 467·18	+ 5·24	+ 747·8
Tiyar	215	61	276	267	194	349	365	+ 3·2	+ 38·09	− 44·56	− 9·35	− 24·2
MUSALMAN.												
Ajlaf	143	...	143	435	...	...	...	− 68·6	...	...	...	...
Dhunia (Dhunkar) ...	8	202	210	200	...	...	...	+ 5·5	...	...	...	...
Jolaha	282	826	1,108	1,342	...	...	...	− 10·7	...	...	...	...
Kunjra	4	189	193	177	...	...	...	+ 8·9	...	...	...	...
Pathan	281	291	572	424	...	...	...	+ 18·4	...	...	...	...
Saiyad	138	91	229	226	...	...	...	+ 3·0	...	...	...	...
Sheikh	22,953	1,709	24,662	21,713	...	...	...	+ 13·6	...	...	...	...

NOTE.—Only those castes are shown which contribute 2 per mille or more to the population of either Province. The figures for Bengal, Bihar and Orissa in 1901 and previous censuses relate to the Province of Bengal as then constituted. Since 1901 there has been a large addition to the area of the Orissa States, which accounts for the abnormal increase of some Oriya castes, such as Gauras and Kandhs. The decrease in the number of unspecified Kaibarttas is due to a greater number of Kaibarttas returning themselves as either Chasi (Mahishya) or Jaliya, and not simply as Kaibarttas. The increase in the number of Koches is to be ascribed to this caste being separately tabulated at this census, instead of being grouped with Rajbansis. Shahas are entered separately in Table XIII, but are grouped with Sunris for comparative purposes, as Shahas and Sunris were treated as one and the same caste at each previous census. The decrease in the number of Jolahas is due to the Government of Eastern Bengal and Assam allowing Jolahas to return themselves as Sheikhs, Pathans, etc. Ajlaf is a term for Musalmans who do not properly belong to the functional or racial groups. The majority of those who were entered as Ajlaf in 1901 returned themselves as Sheikh at this census.

CHAPTER XII.

OCCUPATIONS.

INTRODUCTORY.

1035. The statistics on which the discussion in this chapter is based will be found in Tables XV and XVI. Table XV is divided into five parts, viz.:—

Part A. The first section is a general provincial summary, showing the number of persons in British territory, Feudatory States and cities following the different occupations entered in the prescribed scheme of classification. The second section gives similar statistics, for each district and State, of occupations which are followed by more than 1,000 persons in any district or State.

Part B shows the subsidiary occupations followed by persons whose main occupation is agriculture.

Part C is an optional table, giving statistics of combined occupations, which has not been compiled for either province. An attempt was made to compile it in Eastern Bengal, but it was found that the statistics were of such little value that it would be waste of time and labour to prepare it.

Part D shows the distribution of occupations by religion.

Part E embodies the results of the industrial census, *i.e.*, a census of industrial concerns employing 20 persons or more, which was held concurrently with the general census. The first section shows for each province as a whole the number of persons employed in each kind of industry distinguishing between industrial concerns in which mechanical power is used and those in which it is not, and classifying them according to the number of persons employed. The second section gives for each district the number of persons employed in each industry without these details. The third and fourth sections show the castes and races of the owners and managers of industries that are of special importance. An appendix is also given at the end of the table in which the industrial concerns are grouped together by districts.

In Table XVI statistics are given of the occupations of selected castes and races in areas where they are especially numerous or otherwise important. The occupations are arranged under 13 main heads corresponding to the sub-classes of the scheme of classification ; these heads have been subdivided, where necessary, in order to distinguish between different occupations. An appendix at the end of the table shows the castes of persons returned as workers in selected occupations, such as operatives in jute mills.

As usual, the tables are supplemented by subsidiary tables dealing with the more salient features of the returns, which will be found at the end of the chapter, viz.:—

Subsidiary Table I.—General distribution by occupation.

Subsidiary Table II.—Distribution by occupation in natural divisions.

Subsidiary Table III.—Distribution of the agricultural, industrial, commercial and professional population in each natural division and district.

Subsidiary Table IV.—Occupations combined with agriculture where agriculture is the subsidiary occupation.

Subsidiary Table V.—Occupations combined with agriculture where agriculture is the principal occupation.

Subsidiary Table VI.—Occupations of females by sub-classes and selected orders and groups.

Subsidiary Table VII.—Comparative statistics of the returns for selected occupations at this and the last census.

Subsidiary Table VIII.—Occupations of selected castes.

Subsidiary Table IX.—Distribution by religion of 10,000 persons following each occupation, and distribution by occupation of 10,000 persons of each religion.

In this chapter it is proposed to discuss the industrial census first and then to proceed to the general census of occupations. The chapter will, therefore,

be divided into two parts, viz., (1) the industrial census and (2) the general census.

INDUSTRIAL CENSUS.

THE SCOPE OF THE INDUSTRIAL CENSUS.

1036. The general tables of occupations, while they indicate the main functional distribution of the people and give statistics of occupations combined with agriculture, and of occupation by caste, furnish meagre information regarding individual manufactures and industries, and throw little light on recent industrial developments. An attempt, it is true, was made in 1901 to distinguish between workers in factories and those engaged in home industries, and also to distinguish, in the case of factories, between "owners, managers and superior staff" and "operatives", but the entries in the schedules were far too vague to permit of accurate information on these points being obtained. In order to remedy this defect, the Census Commissioner recommended that, in addition to the general and household schedules, a special schedule should be prescribed for persons working in mines, mills, factories, etc., and this proposal was accepted by the Government of India. It was decided that the schedules, or, as they should more properly be called, the returns, should be filled in for all industrial or manufacturing works in which at least 20 persons were employed at the time of the census.

The returns, which were filled in by the owners, agents or managers, and not by the census staff, specified the character of the mill, factory, mine, etc., *e.g.*, whether it was a jute mill, or jute press, or coal mine, the nature of the mechanical power employed, and the state of the trade or industry when the census was taken. They further stated the castes or nationalities of owners and managers, and recorded the number of persons in superior employ, skilled workmen and unskilled workmen, those last mentioned being divided into two classes, viz., persons over and under 14 years of age. The statistics compiled from these returns, therefore, furnish information not only regarding the number of persons employed in different manufactures and industries, but also regarding the extent to which indigenous enterprise takes its share in various industrial undertakings, and the sections of the community to which the owners and managers belong in each class of industry. Briefly, they throw light on the industrial development of the country, and, are of greater value than the statistics of the general table of occupations, so far as organized industries and manufactures are concerned.

This is partly because factory labour is, to a large extent, occasional and not permanent. Nothing is commoner than for men to work in the mills during the slack agricultural season and to return to their holdings after a few months. Their principal occupation is therefore agriculture, and not that of mill operatives, and it is entered accordingly in the general schedules. Further, the entries in the schedules are often vague, a worker in a coal mine, for instance, returning himself simply as a labourer without any reference to a coal mine. Lastly, the special industrial table (XV-E) and the general occupation table (XV-A) are prepared on different principles. In the former the industry is looked to and not the actual occupation of individual employés: a carpenter in a brewery, for instance, is merged in the general head of brewery employés. In the latter table, on the other hand, only persons directly concerned with the industry or manufacture are classed under it, and not those with distinctive occupations of their own.

At the same time, it must be remembered that the industrial returns refer to the state of affairs on a particular day of the year, when some concerns were closed, others were not in full work, and others again had a larger number of operatives than usual. Some concerns work only for a period of the year; if they were not at work on the date of the census, they were necessarily excluded from the returns. In other cases the busy manufacturing season comes after or before the census date, so that the number of employés returned does not represent the full labour force. Conversely, of course, the busy season may be synchronous with the date of the census, in which case the number of persons employed is greater than at other times

of the year. Apart, moreover, from the question of manufacturing seasons, the strength of the labour force depends on the state of trade and the demand for manufactured goods in particular industries, which may be normal, or brisk, or dull in varying degrees.

BENGAL.

1037. The total number of industrial and manufacturing concerns in Bengal, including mills, factories, mines, etc., is 1,466, and the total labour force is 606,305. Of these, 427,972, or over two-thirds, are unskilled labourers, 77,684 being under 14 years of age. The aggregate of skilled workmen is 160,848, of whom all but 1,079 are Indians, while those engaged in direction, supervision and clerical work number 17,485 : of the latter, 2,915 are Europeans or Anglo-Indians, and 14,570 are Indians. No less than one-third of the total labour force is employed in the jute mills, and nearly another third in the tea gardens of Jalpaiguri and Darjeeling. Seven other kinds of industrial or manufacturing concerns, as shown in the margin, employ over 10,000 each, the aggregate being 121,940, of whom nearly a fourth are engaged in coal mining in the Raniganj coal-field in Burdwan. The predominance of the jute, tea and coal industries is very marked : if they are left out of account, there are only 163,000 persons who find employment in different forms of labour.

GENERAL RESULTS.

CONCERNS.	Number.	Number of employés.
Jute mills ...	50	200,446
Tea plantations ...	240	191,286
Collieries	129	37,707
Railway workshops	15	22,735
Brick and tile factories.	161	22,019
Jute presses ...	109	13,842
Printing presses ...	103	12,171
Cotton mills ...	18	11,752
Machinery and engineering works.	37	11,714
Total ...	862	523,672

1038. The concentration of organized industries and manufactures in Calcutta and the metropolitan districts of Calcutta, Howrah, Hooghly and the 24-Parganas, is another noticeable feature. They contain two-thirds of the industrial undertakings in the province, while the operatives at work in their mills and factories constitute over half of the total number. Outside this area there are only two industrial centres, viz., the district of Burdwan, with its coal mines, and the tea garden districts of Jalpaiguri and Darjeeling. In the remainder of the province, with an area of 70,000 square miles and a population of 38½ millions, there are only 201 works with 35,000 employés. Four districts, viz., Dinajpur with a population of over 1½ millions, Khulna with 1⅓ millions, Noakhali with nearly the same number, and the sparsely populated Chittagong Hill Tracts, do not contain a single factory or other industrial concern employing 20 hands ; in six more, viz., Bankura, Birbhum, Jessore, Mymensingh, Faridpur and Backergunge the number of employés is under 500. It is not too much to say, therefore, that, with the exception of the capital and the six districts first mentioned, industrial enterprise in the Presidency is at a low level. The most backward parts of the province are the Dacca and Chittagong Divisions, where there are only 84 works employing 13,000 persons. About one quarter of these work in jute presses, and another quarter in the tea gardens of Chittagong, the total number employed in other fields of labour being under 5,000.

LOCAL DISTRIBUTION.

DISTRICT.	Number of works.	Number of employés.
24-Parganas ...	175	161,638
Jalpaiguri ...	109	134,840
Howrah	124	80,193
Darjeeling ...	127	58,950
Calcutta[a] ...	495	53,471
Burdwan	158	46,611
Hooghly	77	40,308
Total ...	1,265	571,011

1039. The figures already given show that Indians represent 99 per cent. of the skilled workmen, and 83 per cent. of those engaged in direction, supervision and clerical work. It remains to glance at the figures showing how far ownership and management are divided between them and the Europeans and Anglo-Indians.

OWNERS AND MANAGERS.

[a] In the suburbs of Calcutta, *i.e.*, the municipalities of Cossipur-Chitpur, Manicktollah and Garden Reach, there are 77 works, with 25,419 hands, which are included in the figures for the 24-Parganas.

Taking concerns of all kinds, whether owned by companies or by private persons, and excluding the 45 works owned by Government, we find that 745 are under Indian ownership, while 654 are owned by Europeans or Anglo-Indians and 33 by both races. Some branches of industry are entirely or almost entirely monopolized by the Indian community, *e.g.*, they own all, or nearly all, the type foundries, brass foundries, oil mills, rice mills, boot and shoe factories, umbrella factories, timber yards, brick, tile and *surki* works. On the the other hand, European owners predominate in the more important industries, such as in the tea gardens, machinery and engineering works and jute mills. No jute mill is under Indian ownership, and even in the case of jute presses the Indian owners are slightly in a minority. About two-thirds of the cotton mills are owned by them, and the collieries are fairly evenly divided, for nearly half are owned by Europeans or Anglo-Indians, over one-third by Indians and the balance by companies managed by representatives of both communities. In one branch of industry the Indians are more than holding their own, viz., printing, for two-thirds of the presses belong to them. It is also noteworthy that they own 39 out of 51 iron foundries and iron and steel works.

1040. Altogether, 572 or two-fifths of the various undertakings are controlled by companies, the great majority of which are under European directorship. The total number owned by companies of which all the directors are Indians, is only 65, or one-ninth of the company-owned concerns. Indians share the directorship of 21 coal mines with Europeans, and six mines are directed by them solely, so that they control either entirely or in part one-third of the colliery companies. Indian companies also own 18 tea gardens and 16 jute presses, but joint-stock enterprise in other directions has not apparently found much favour. The people of the country, being still strongly individualistic, have a much greater interest in private concerns, of which two-fifths are owned by them. Prominent among these private concerns are brick and tile factories (136), oil mills (110), printing presses (63), collieries (42) and jute presses (36). One-fifth of the private owners come from the ranks of the Brahmans, who are closely followed by the Kayasths with one-seventh. Then come that progressive caste, the Sadgops, who claim 8 per cent. of the total number, and the trading classes known as Teli and Tili (7 per cent). The shrewd and ubiquitous Marwaris, it is noteworthy, account for 37 owners (5¼ per cent.) in spite of their small numbers, whereas there are only 41 among the Sheikhs, though their aggregate strength is 23 millions.

1041. The representation of the two communities among managers is very much the same as for ownership, 54 per cent. being Indians. They share the management of coal mines equally with Europeans and Anglo-Indians, but the latter monopolize the jute and cotton mills and are in a majority even in the case of jute presses. On the tea gardens only one-fifth of the managers, in the silk filatures and mills one-third, and in machinery works one-sixth, are Indians. In other concerns Indians predominate more or less according to their ownership, *e.g.*, out of 536 printing presses, iron and brass foundries, iron and steel works, brick, tile and *surki* factories, and oil, flour and rice mills, the managers are Indians in all but 61 cases. As among owners, so among managers, Brahmans and Kayasths are most strongly represented, a little over one-fifth of the managers being Brahmans, while a little under one-fifth are Kayasths. The Sadgops come third on the list, and then the Chasi Kaibarttas and Sheikhs. The position of the Chasi Kaibarttas is noticeable as showing how a cultivating caste is progressing in education and industrial acumen and enterprise.

BIHAR AND ORISSA.

1042. The industrial development of Bihar and Orissa is even less advanced than that of Bengal, for the total number of industrial and manufacturing works employing 20 persons or more is only 583, and of employés 179,714. The extraction of minerals, rather than the conversion of raw material into finished products is moreover by far the most important branch of industry. The mines

GENERAL RESULTS.

number 256 or over two-fifths of the concerns, and they give employment to 105,000 persons or two-thirds of the labour force. The only other important industrial concerns are indigo plantations, which, number 119 and employ 30,680 persons. The latter figure includes those employed directly by the factories in cultivation as well as in the manufacture of indigo. It would have been greater had the industrial census been taken in the manufacturing season ; as it was, many of the factories were not at work, and were consequently excluded from the returns, while in others the labour force was only a fraction of what it would be later in the year. Excluding mines and indigo plantations, the total number of industrial and manufacturing works in the province is 208 with 44,000 operatives, half of whom are at work in railway workshops and timber yards.

Class.	Number.	Employés.
1 Collieries ...	199	86,878
2. Indigo plantations	119	30,680
3. Mica mines ...	52	10,840
4. Railway workshops	7	10,269

LOCAL DISTRIBUTION.

1043. The most backward part of the province is the Orissa Division, which has a population of 5 millions, but contains only 16 industrial concerns with 1,474 employés. The Patna Division is but little better, though it has 20 towns and 6½ million inhabitants, for there are no more than 26 works employing under 3,000 hands. The returns for the Tirhut Division are very different owing to the indigo industry, which accounts for two-thirds of the concerns and all but 8,000 of the employés. This industry has little vitality in Saran, but still maintains itself in the other three districts of the division. The only other works of importance in Tirhut are the railway works at Samastipur in the Darbhanga district. In the Bhagalpur Division the only district which can be said to be in any way industrial is Monghyr, where the railway workshops of the East Indian Railway at Jamalpur employ over 8,000 men, while the tobacco factory of the Peninsular Tobacco Company at Monghyr, though not long started, has over 1,000 hands. In this division there are still 20 indigo factories at work with nearly 3,000 employés ; the only other important works are the stone quarries of the Sonthal Parganas. The Chota Nagpur Division, though in other respects the most backward tract in the province, is the most advanced industrially owing to its mineral resources. The development of the Jheria coal-fields puts Manbhum far ahead of the other districts, for at the time of the census 194 collieries were at work and 80,000 persons were employed in them. The figures for lac factories in this district do not give a clear idea of the expansion of the lac industry, for most were not at work at the time of the census. In Hazaribagh there are no less than 42 mica mines with 9,000 labourers, which exceeds by 3,000 the number employed in the Giridih collieries. In Singhbhum the Tata Iron and Steel Works at Sakchi, though they were still under construction when the census took place and had not started manufacturing, already employed 4,600 persons, the copper mine of the Copper Company at Matigara over 1,000, and the iron mines of the Bengal Iron and Steel Works nearly 1,500. In the Orissa Feudatory States only Mayurbhanj and Gangpur contain industrial works. In the former the working of the iron mines at Gurumaishani afforded employment to over 4,000 persons. In the latter the development of the timber trade has led to the concentration of over 8,000 men in timber yards.

OWNERS AND MANAGERS.

1044. Joint stock enterprise has not developed to the same extent as in Bengal, only a little over one-fourth of the concerns (excluding those belonging to Government) being owned by companies. The majority of these are mining companies, and there are only 40 companies for the exploitation of other forms of industry or manufacture. The Indian inhabitants are either more averse to forming companies than the Bengalis, or their management of them is less successful, for the companies, of which the directors are solely or partly drawn from the Indian community, number no more than 23 or one-seventh of the total number. The indigo concerns, unlike the tea gardens, are still mainly in private hands, and all but 14 are owned by Europeans. European companies, however, own two-fifths of the coal mines, one-fifth of the mica mines, and all but one of the iron, manganese and copper mines. Of the concerns

having private owners, two-thirds belong to Indians, who practically monopolize all but the indigo plantations. One-fifth of the private owners of Indian origin are Brahmans, who have possession of no less than 27 mines and indigo plantations. Next to them the Agarwalas own the largest number of industrial undertakings, the proportion being one-eighth, while the Kayasths come third with one-ninth : members of the caste last named own 13 collieries and 10 mica mines.

1045. The managers are equally divided between the Indian and the European and Anglo-Indian communities. The latter manage all but two of the indigo plantations and over two-fifths of the collieries, but only 89 other concerns. The Indian managers are in control of 112 coal mines, four-fifths of the mica mines and sugar factories, and practically all the lac factories. One-fourth of them are Brahmans, who manage nearly a fifth of the collieries and a fourth of the mica mines. One-sixth are Kayasths, the majority of whom are also employed in coal and mica mines, and then come the Agarwalas and Kalwars, each contributing one-eighth of the total number of Indian managers : the Kalwars owe their position to their interest in the lac trade, 16 lac factories being owned and 18 managed by them.

CHARACTER OF MILL AND FACTORY LABOUR.

1046. Before concluding this account of the industrial census, reference may be made to the character of mill and factory labour. As a rule, the labourers do not work throughout the year, and employment in the mills and factories is not their only means of subsistence. No better account of the conditions regulating the supply can be given than that contained in the report of the Indian Factory Labour Commission of 1907-08.

"The habits of the Indian factory operative are determined by the fact that he is primarily an agriculturist or a labourer on the land. In almost all cases his hereditary occupation is agriculture ; his home is in the village from which he comes, not in the city in which he labours ; his wife and family ordinarily continue to live in that village ; he regularly remits a portion of his wages there ; and he returns there periodically to look after his affairs, and to obtain rest after the strain of factory life. There is as yet practically no factory population, such as exists in European countries, consisting of a large number of operatives trained from their youth to one particular class of work, and dependent upon employment at that work for their livelihood. It follows that the Indian operative is, in general, independent of factory work, to the extent that he does not rely exclusively upon factory employment in order to obtain a livelihood ; at most seasons he can command a wage sufficient to keep him, probably on a somewhat lower scale of comfort, by accepting work on the land ; and there are also numerous other avenues of employment, more remunerative than agricultural labour, which are open to every worker in any large industrial centre. If the operative is not merely a landless labourer, he will in general be bound by strong ties to the land and to the village from which he originally came ; he can at any time abandon factory life in order to revert to agriculture ; and the claims of the village where he has a definite and accepted position are in practice, as experience has shown, sufficiently powerful to recall him from city life for a period which extends, on the average, to at least a month in each year. The Bombay operative resident in the Konkan, probably returns to his village for one month each year ; and the jute weaver of Bengal, working longer hours and earning higher wages, is not content with less than two or three months. Whenever factory life becomes irksome, the operative can return to his village ; there is probably always work of some kind for him there if he wishes it ; and in most cases he is secured against want by the joint family system. The position of the operative has been greatly strengthened by the fact that the supply of factory labour undoubtedly is, and has been, inadequate ; and there is, and has been, the keenest competition among employers to secure a full labour-supply. These two main causes—the independence of the Indian labourer, owing to the fact that he possesses other and congenial means of

earning a livelihood, and the deficient labour supply—govern the whole situation."

1047. Another noticeable feature of modern industrial conditions in Bengal is the extent to which its large manufactures and industries depend on other Provinces for their labour supply. The industrial expansion of Calcutta and its neighbourhood has created a demand for labour which the Bengalis have not been able to meet. The inadequacy of the number of local artificers, mechanics and labourers, and, to some extent, their inefficiency have made it necessary to employ an increasing number of workers from other parts of India. In the jute mills only a minority of the operatives are Bengalis. "Twenty years ago all the hands were Bengalis, but they have gradually been replaced by Hindustanis from the United Provinces and Bihar. These men have been found more regular, stronger, steadier and more satisfactory generally, so that at present in most of the mills two-thirds of the hands are composed of up-country men."* In the tea gardens of Jalpaiguri and Darjeeling the Bengalis form an insignificant minority. In the coal mines semi-Hinduized aboriginals or pure aboriginals, such as Bauris and Santals, predominate. In the cotton mills Oriyas contribute largely to the ranks of the operatives, and one is astonished to see how many Oriyas there are in the jute presses and what heavy loads they carry. The same tendency is seen in other branches of industry, where the personnel is gradually changing, as the Bengali gives place to immigrants. The manner in which the latter are filling the labour market may be illustrated by an extract from a speech delivered a few years ago in the Bengal Legislative Council by a member, who was himself a large employer of labour with long experience of the country :—

"It is certainly a fact, which my experience has proved, that the Bengali carpenter is being slowly, but surely, supplanted by his Chinese competitor. Again speaking from my own experience, this gradual dying out of the Bengali carpenter is very materially due not only to his lack of training, but also to the disinclination of parents to let their children follow the calling of mechanics. I have known several instances of Bengali carpenters in my own employ bringing their sons to me to be taken on as clerks in my office, with an Entrance or First Arts qualification. Twenty-five years ago, our workmen were nearly all Bengali Hindus, and there was not a single Chinaman in our employ and only one or two Muhammadans. Now we have a large number of Chinamen, and among the Indians the Bengalis are in a very small minority. The Chinaman, it is true, gets larger wages, but he earns his money to the hilt, works steadily, takes only one or at most two holidays in the year, is sober, punctual and intelligent, and does not need to be continually urged to his work. The Bengali, I am constrained to say, is very much the contrary. He gets small wages certainly, but he earns for his employer even less than he gets. As a rule, he takes little or no real interest in his work, and if not carefully watched, will scamp his job."

GENERAL CENSUS.

INSTRUCTIONS TO ENUMERATORS.

1048. Of the 16 columns of the census schedule, no less than three are intended for the entry of occupations or means of livelihood. There are two columns for actual workers, one to show the principal and the other the subsidiary occupation. The third column is headed "means of subsistence of dependants on actual workers," a somewhat infelicitous expression, the meaning of which is not at first sight obvious. It means the occupation or means of livelihood of the person by whom a dependant (*i.e.*, any person who does not earn his own living) is supported. The instructions regarding the manner in which these columns were to be filled up were more elaborate and detailed than in 1901. One important modification consisted in the more precise definition of workers, dependants and subsidiary occupations. It was laid down that only those persons should be shown as workers who help to augment the family income.

* B. Foley, *Supply of Labour in Bengal*, 1906.

As an illustration of the rule, it was stated that a woman who looks after her house and cooks the food is not a worker but a dependant, whereas a woman who collects and sells fire-wood or cow-dung is thereby adding to the family income, and should be shown as a worker. Similarly, a woman who regularly assists her husband in his work (*e.g.*, the wife of a potter who fetches the clay from which he makes his pots) is an actual worker, but not one who merely renders a little occasional help. The result of this rule has been the addition of a large number of female workers. As regards subsidiary occupations, it was laid down that where a man has two occupations, the principal one is that on which he relies mainly for his support and from which he gets the major part of his income. A subsidiary occupation was to be entered *if followed at any time of the year.* The words shewn in italics are of particular importance, as the entry of occasional occupations, taken up, it may be, for a few days in the year, has enormously increased the entries of subsidiary occupations. The returns of such occasional occupations are of little practical value; and considering the heavy task already imposed on an improvised agency, there is much to be said in favour of not attempting to obtain a return of subsidiary occupations, which is merely one of the bye-products of the census.

SCHEME OF CLASSIFICATION.

1049. At the last census occupations were classified according to an elaborate scheme, being divided into 8 main classes, which were subdivided into 24 orders, 79 sub-orders and 520 groups. As remarked by the Census Commissioner: "It is generally admitted that a classification which distinguishes no fewer than 520 groups is far too elaborate for census work in India. It involves an altogether excessive amount of labour in compilation, while the results are of no greater value than those of a far simpler table would be: in some cases indeed they are actually misleading."* At this census the Census Commissioner prescribed a revised scheme of classification, based on that prepared by M. Bertillon with modifications necessary to adapt it to conditions in India. This scheme has already formed the basis of the tabulation of occupations in Italy, and also (though with some modifications) in Germany, while the new classification scheme of the United States approaches it closely. It has further been adopted by Brazil in the census of 1910, Egypt in 1907, Bulgaria in 1900, Spain in 1900, and also in Chili, Venezuela and Mexico, and in Belgium (with some changes). The adoption of this scheme in India therefore facilitates the comparison of international statistics. At the same time the reduction of the number of detailed heads has resulted in a great saving in the time and labour involved by compilation. Comparison with the results of the last census has to some extent been rendered difficult, and the difficulties have been increased by one partition following another. The demands of time and the exigencies of expenditure have rendered it impossible to compile comparative statistics for the two provinces as now constituted, but a comparative statement has been prepared for Bengal, Bihar and Orissa as a whole, which will be found in Subsidiary Table VII. In this statement the difficulty caused by the change of classification has been got over, as far as possible, by re-arranging the statistics of the last census according to the new scheme.

1050. Though far simpler and easier than that followed at the last census, the scheme seems still unduly elaborate, considering conditions in India. Its main object is to render the statistics of India comparable with those for other countries, but for this purpose all that is needed is tabulation in accordance with the 61 sub-orders of M. Bertillon's scheme, and the groups might be largely reduced without loss of any reliable information that is of value. Still, much has been gained by reducing the number of detailed heads from 520 to 169, and the difficulties of classification under these heads were minimized by an admirable alphabetical index prepared by the Census Commissioner, in which the group numbers of a vast number of occupations of different kinds were shown. Apart from its elaborate character, the defects in the scheme itself were few. The most noticeable defect was

*As examples of the curious results obtained, it may be mentioned that the occupation table of 1901 showed only 56 cartmen in Noakhali, though carts are in general use there, only two persons as growers of fruits and vegetables, and no pig-breeders or swine-herds. In Monghyr there were only seven sweetmeat makers and in Purnea none.

the differentiation of those engaged in pastoral pursuits. A distinction was made between persons who breed and keep cattle and herdsmen, which it was impossible to carry out, owing to the fact that there is no clear line of demarcation between the two occupations, and that the vernacular expressions for cattle-keepers and herdsmen are interchangeable. The results were consequently vitiated, the expression being taken to mean cattle-keeper in some cases and herdsmen in others. There are thus extraordinary variations in the district statistics for these two classes, herdsmen predominating in some cases and cattle-keepers in others. A minor defect is that "ordinary cultivation" is used as the designation of both an order and a group, and has therefore two distinct meanings. As applied to the order, it includes not only tillers of the soil but also landlords, estate managers and their subordinate staff, farm servants and field-labourers. As applied to the group, it connotes cultivators who are not engaged in market gardening or growing special products such as tea and indigo. Another small defect consists of the omission of meat-sellers and painters from the scheme. While it recognizes a butcher, there is no entry for meat-sellers, though fishermen and fish-dealers are differentiated. A painter is also not recognized, unless he spends his time in painting some definite class of articles, *e.g.*, is a house painter, carriage painter, boat painter or picture painter : a man who is a general painter is eliminated altogether. As is well known, the butcher is not always a meat-seller, and a general painter is a recognized artisan, who will turn his hand to any job requiring the use of brush and paint. It is also a matter of regret that the general labourer, who has a well defined position in the economy of the country, is not recognized, but is merged with others under the head "Labourers and workmen otherwise unspecified."

PLAN OF TABLES XV AND XVI.

1051. The prescribed scheme contains 4 classes, 12 sub-classes, 55 orders and 169 groups. The main principles which have been followed in classifying the detailed occupations under the various groups are as follows:—(1) Where a person both makes and sells any article, he is classed as a 'maker,' *i.e.*, he is entered under "Industry" and not under "Trade." (2) Industrial and trading occupations are divided into two main categories, viz., those where the occupation is classified according to the material worked in, and those where the occupation is classified according to the use which it serves, *e.g.*, carpenters comes under "Industries connected with wood" and cabinet-makers under "Furniture industries", while traders in piece-goods come under "Trade in textiles" and traders in ready-made clothing under "Trade in clothing." The scheme adopted in Table XV is intended to throw light on the economic aspects of the statistics of occupation, *i.e.*, on the number of persons employed in the various branches of production, manufacture, trade, transport, etc. A different principle has been followed in Table XVI, the object of which is to show the manner in which the members of a given caste earn their living, *e.g.*, how many live by professions, clerical work, domestic service and the like. For the purpose of this table therefore the occupations have been classified from the stand-point of the individual rather than from that of the community ; the status and character of the occupation as such have been looked to rather than the end which it serves from an economic point of view.

RENT-RECEIVERS AND RENT-PAYERS.

1052. It will easily be realized that, with a population of which the great majority subsist by agriculture, the entry of agricultural occupations is of especial importance. Considerable difficulty was caused by the orders of the Government of India that in the schedules a distinction should be made between those who receive rent and those who pay rent. This is an economic distinction which is foreign to the people themselves, and which also fails to account for that large body of people who hold or cultivate revenue-free or rent-free land. Subsequently, it was ascertained that it was intended not to make the payment or receipt of rent a criterion for the classification of agriculturists, but to distinguish between persons who live on the rent of agricultural land and those who live by actual cultivation. In other words, a rent-receiver is an agriculturist who does not cultivate, and the rent-payer is an agriculturist who does cultivate, either himself or by means of servants. Consequently, zamindars and raiyats who do not cultivate but sublet their

land come under the category of rent-receivers, while zamindars and raiyats who cultivate their land and do not sublet it are rent-payers. It would have been preferable, had it been permissible, to have laid down merely that a man was to be entered simply by the designation ordinarily recognized, such as zamindari and cultivation. Entries of this kind are quite sufficient for compilation, and would have saved a good deal of correspondence and searching of mind among the census staff.*

It was not attempted to make any further differentiation of rent-payers and rent-receivers for the reasons explained in 1901. "Any attempt to do so would have been misleading, owing to the impossibility of securing entries in the schedules sufficiently clear to permit of the necessary differentiation. The terms used in describing the different kinds of interest in land are so numerous, that any attempt to particularize would have been fore-doomed to failure."

VAGUENESS OF THE ENTRIES.

1053. One of the greatest difficulties in carrying out a detailed scheme of classification is the vagueness of the original entries. An untrained mind loves general terms, and consequently there are a large number of such entries as labourer, servant, shop-keeper, etc., though the greatest care was taken at the time of enumeration to reduce vague entries to a minimum and to specify exactly the kind of labour, service, etc., that was actually followed. Some enumerators indeed were so impressed by the necessity for clear and distinct entries, that they gave details which were almost as troublesome as generic entries. For instance, instead of entering *manohari dokan* or *khichari farosh*, *i.e.*, a shop dealing with miscellaneous goods, they would give a catalogue of all articles sold in the shop. In the same way, instead of entering a *Mudi's* shop as such, there were such entries as "a shop for the sale of rice, salt, spices, tobacco, *ghi*, flour, etc."

There were also a few curious entries which required a little intelligence and knowledge to discover their meaning. One man's occupation was entered as *net bajana*, *i.e.*, a belly-drummer, which meant that he was a beggar who slapped his stomach to show how hollow and, inferentially, empty it was. A poison-dealer was easily identified as a chemist, and a children-gatherer as a nurse or *aya*, these being apparently English translations of vernacular expressions. A less easily recognizable return was *Mahabiri kuri*. This refers to the handful of grain taken from each bag that is weighed and offered to Mahavira, the actual recipients being the priests of the temple. The right to collect and keep this tithe had been leased out by the priests, and the entry actually referred to a lessee. Other curious entries were *dua denewala* or giver of blessings, *i.e.*, a religious mendicant, *murda ka kafan lenewala* (taking shrouds from corpses), *i.e.*, burial ground service, and *akas birit*. The last is difficult to translate. Literally, it means income from heaven, and connotes dependence on the mercy of heaven, in other words begging.

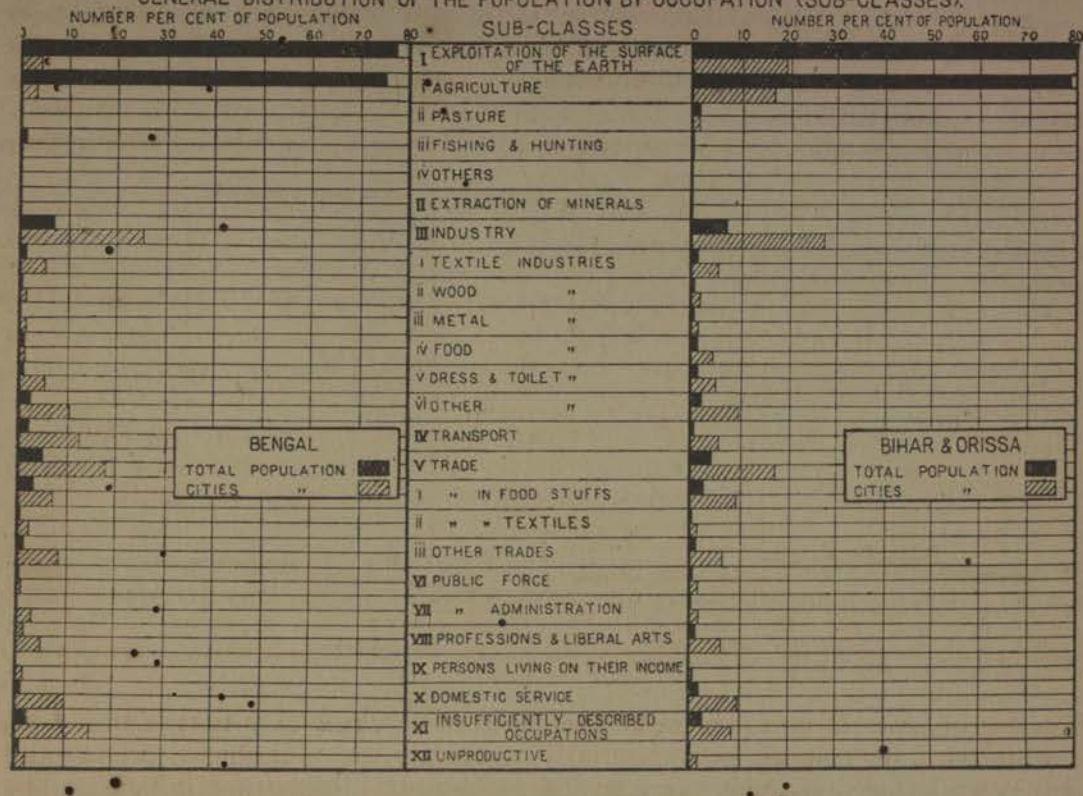
General Distribution of Occupations.

Class.	Bengal.		Bihar and Orissa.	
	Total.	Percentage.	Total.	Percentage.
1. Production of raw materials ...	36,078,000	78	31,115,000	81
2. Preparation and supply of material substances.	6,724,000	14¼	4,808,000	12½
3. Public administration and liberal arts.	1,182,000	2½	652,000	2
4. Miscellaneous	2,322,000	5	1,860,000	5

1054. The marginal statement gives actual and proportional figures for the four main classes of occupations in the two provinces. In both the great majority of the people are dependent on agriculture and cognate pursuits.

* A statement of the different tenures and of the groups under which they were classified was prepared for use in the compilation offices, and will be available for reference at the next census. It would be quite sufficient for the classification of the terms entered.

GENERAL DISTRIBUTION OF THE POPULATION BY OCCUPATION (SUB-CLASSES).



BENGAL.

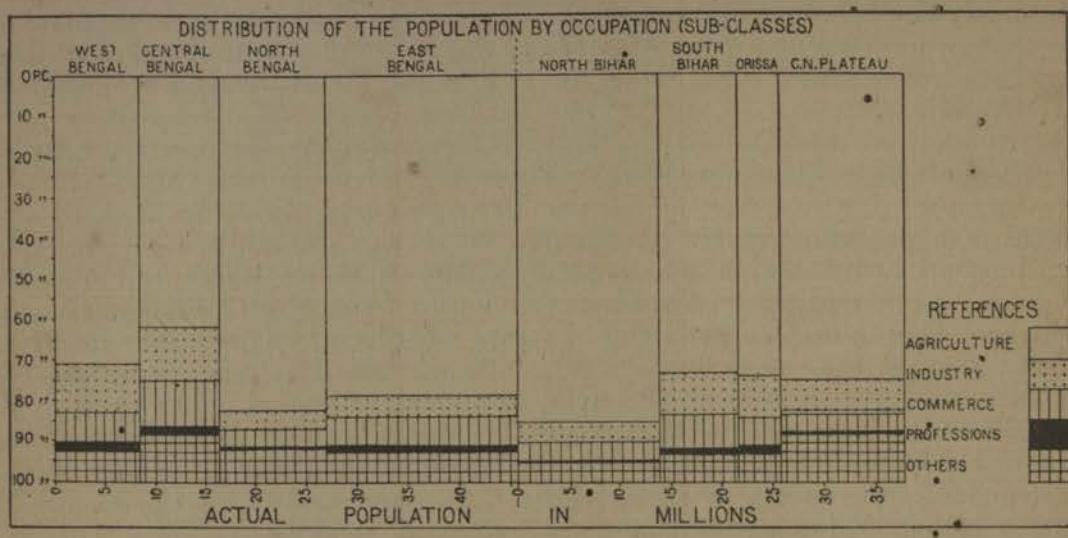
1055. In Bengal 35⅓ million persons, or three-quarters of the population, are supported by pasture and agriculture. Nearly 30 millions, or two-thirds of the people, are ordinary cultivators, while 1,200,000, or 3 per cent., are maintained by income from agricultural land, and nearly 3⅖ millions, or 7½ per cent., come under the head of farm servants and field labourers. It is a clear sign of the low industrial level of the province that agricultural labourers are only slightly outnumbered by those who follow industrial pursuits or depend on industries for their support. The number returned under the head "Industry" is 3,441,000, of whom about one-fourth depend on textile industries. Trade accounts for 2⅓ millions, or 5 per cent., while those who come under the head "Transport" aggregate nearly one million, or 2 per cent. The latter are outnumbered slightly by "Labourers and workmen otherwise unspecified", who correspond to general labourers. Nearly a third of a million subsist by service in the public force (mainly the public or village police) or in various branches of the administration. Professions and the liberal arts (including religion) account for four-fifths of a million or under 2 per cent. Domestic service provides for over half a million, while those subsisting by unproductive professions, such as prostitutes and beggars, number 446,000 or nearly one per cent.

BIHAR AND ORISSA.

1056. The predominance of pasture and agriculture is even more pronounced in Bihar and Orissa, where they form the means of subsistence of 31 millions or five-sixths of the total population. No less than 30 millions are dependent on cultivation, 22 millions or 57 per cent. being cultivators, two-thirds of a million rent-receivers, and 7¼ millions, or 19 per cent., farm servants and field labourers. The number who obtain a livelihood from industries is nearly 3 millions, representing 7 per cent. of the population, while 1⅔ millions, or 4 per cent., subsist by trade. Employment in the public force and public administration provides for nearly a quarter of a million, or 115,000 less than "Transport." Those who subsist by professions and the liberal arts are more numerous, aggregating nearly 400,000 or 1 per cent., but domestic service is still more important, providing for 2 per cent. General labourers, whose description of their occupation was insufficient to allocate them to any other head, aggregate 889,000, while the total for unproductive occupations is under 200,000, or less than half that returned for Bengal.

1057. North Bengal contains a larger proportion of persons dependent on agriculture than any other part of Bengal; in Bihar and Orissa this position is held by North Bihar. In both tracts the predominance of agriculture is not relieved by the

DISTRIBUTION BY LOCALITY.



presence of any large industries except the indigo and tea industries, both of which are, of course, only partially manufactory. Both in North and East Bengal the comparative paucity of agricultural labourers is noticeable. In Bengal the industrial population is largest in Central Bengal and West Bengal, owing to the industrial towns clustered along the Hooghly; in the new Province it is largest in Orissa and South Bihar, where the urban population is most numerous. Trade has naturally the strongest representation in Central Bengal, and the commercial population is relatively least numerous in the undeveloped districts of Chota Nagpur, which are, however, but little inferior to North Bengal. In Bengal the professions are most favoured in West and then in Central Bengal: the proportion of persons who subsist by this means in North Bengal is less than a quarter what it is in the former two divisions. In Bihar and Orissa the professional classes are least numerous in North Bihar and are found in greatest strength in Orissa, which indeed contains a larger proportion than any other division of the two provinces except West Bengal. Orissa owes its position to the fact that the religious classes are grouped with the strictly professional classes, and that it is a land under priestly domination: in Puri, which contains the temple of Jagannath, one of the centres of Hindu priesthood, no less than 3 per cent. of the population come under this head. The detailed figures in the table of occupations may now be reviewed.

1058. The first class "Production of raw materials" is divided into two sub-classes, viz., "Exploitation of the surface of the earth" and "Extraction of minerals." The former sub-class includes two orders, the first being "Pasture and agriculture" and the second "Fishing and hunting." It will be convenient to discuss the statistics of agriculture separately from those for pasture. Reference has already been made to the number and proportional strength of the principal groups, viz., those who subsist by income derived from the rent of agricultural land, ordinary cultivators, and farm servants and field-labourers.

AGRICULTURE.

In the two provinces taken together ordinary cultivators have increased by only 5 per cent., but rent-receivers by 19 per cent, since 1901. In the latter case part of the increase must be attributed to the natural desire of cultivators to claim the more respectable status of zamindars, if they hold a little zamindari in addition to their tenant's holdings, and partly to the extent to which other classes, such as pleaders and traders, acquire landed property. The increase in the number of agricultural labourers is *primâ facie* remarkable, for since 1901 it has been more than doubled, the addition being over 5 millions. This increase, however, does not imply that the ranks of landless labourers have been swollen by the accretion of 5 millions from other classes, *e.g.*, from

cultivators who have lost their land, from weavers who can no longer support themselves by their looms, etc. Some of the addition may be ascribed to this cause, and some must be due to natural growth; but the greater part is due to the greater precision of the census, which resulted in a very much larger number having their occupation entered as agricultural labour instead of simply as labour. In consequence of this, we find that the number of persons who have had to be allocated to the head "Labourers and workmen otherwise unspecified" has fallen by nearly 4 millions, and now numbers only 2 millions.

Another point which calls for notice is the difference between the returns for Bengal and Bihar and Orissa. Those dependent on agricultural labour in the latter province are more than twice as numerous as in Bengal, the actual excess being nearly 4 millions. Some part of the difference may be attributable to the higher standard of census work in Bihar and Orissa: a quarter of a million less persons were entered simply as labourers than in Bengal. This however is only a fraction of the difference, and the real explanation is that the number of landless field labourers is far greater in Bihar and Orissa than in the richer province of Bengal. The well-to-do Bengali cultivators depend largely on the annual influx of labourers from Bihar and Orissa for reaping their crops, and complaints are frequent of the inadequacy of the supply of local labour. At other seasons of the year they have a system of mutual exchange of labour, and co-operate to work in one another's fields in turn.

In no part of Bihar and Orissa is the percentage of field labourers to the general population less than one-tenth, the minimum being reached in Orissa, which in this, as in other respects, resembles Bengal. The maximum is reached in Bihar, where over one-fifth of the total population subsists by field labour. In Bengal, on the other hand, the proportion falls to 5 per cent. in North Bengal and to 3 per cent. in East Bengal, where the population consists mainly of Musalmans who till their own fields. It rises above 10 per cent. only in West and Central Bengal, where the relatively high figure is probably due to some extent to a higher standard of accuracy: it is noticeable that in these two divisions the proportion of insufficiently described occupations is lower than elsewhere in the province.

OCCUPATIONS COMBINED WITH AGRICULTURE.

1059. In Bengal 416,726 persons, or 2½ per cent. of the actual workers, returned agriculture as a subsidiary occupation: in other words they obtain their livelihood principally from other pursuits, but are partially dependent on agriculture. The corresponding number in Bihar and Orissa is 413,539 or 2·2 per cent. One-eighth of the actual workers in either Province whose main occupation is pasture and agriculture have subsidiary occupations. From the marginal figures it will be seen that agriculture forms one of the dual occupations in a large number of cases, for landlords also cultivate land themselves, cultivators, in addition to tilling their own fields, lease them out to sub-tenants, and agricultural labourers have small holdings, the cultivation of which supplements the wages they get by working in the fields of more prosperous peasants. The proportion of non-agricultural pursuits followed by agriculturists is exactly the same in both provinces, viz., 9 per cent.

PRINCIPAL OCCUPATIONS.	SUBSIDIARY OCCUPATIONS.					
	BENGAL.			BIHAR AND ORISSA.		
	Total.	Agricultural.	Non-agricultural.	Total.	Agricultural.	Non-agricultural.
Landlords	**89,791**	33,843	55,948	**61,496**	47,217	14,279
Cultivators	**1,222,078**	292,474	929,604	**1,644,616**	504,916	1,139,700
Agricultural labourers...	**105,285**	32,868	72,417	**224,438**	63,030	161,408
GRAND TOTAL ...	**1,417,154**	359,185	1,057,969	**1,930,550**	615,163	1,315,387

1060. Excluding those who returned pasture and agriculture as their principal means of support, the ratio of workers who are partially agriculturists is 7 per cent. in Bengal and 9 per cent. in Bihar and Orissa, the actual numbers being 387,252 and 375,274 respectively. About one-fourth of those who serve in the public force, *e.g.*, as policemen or village chaukidars,

supplement their income by zamindari or cultivation. The proportion is lower among those engaged in the general administration, of whom one-seventh in Bengal and one-sixth in Bihar and Orissa have agriculture as a minor means of subsistence. Of those who actually serve as priests, about one-fifth in the former and one-fourth in the latter province also hold or cultivate land. The lawyer classes obviously regard landed property as a good investment or as a means of improving their social status, for one out of every three is returned as partially supported by agriculture. The industrial classes have far less connection with the land in Bengal, where only 7 per cent. are partially agriculturists, but in Bihar and Orissa 11½ per cent. are cultivators as well as artisans. It is noticeable as showing how far the cotton weavers find it necessary to eke out their livelihood by other means, even when they still obtain their main livelihood from weaving, that one-ninth of their number in Bengal and one-seventh in Bihar and Orissa have to cultivate as well as weave.

1061. One-tenth of the landlords in Bengal, and nearly one-fifth of those in Bihar and Orissa, also hold some land which they cultivate themselves. Six per cent. of the landlords in the former, but only 1½ per cent. in the latter province, add to their resources by money-lending, dealing in grain and other kinds of trade. Of the cultivators who returned a subsidiary occupation, only about 1 per cent. have landed property for which they receive rents, and a far larger proportion have to eke out their livelihood by working as field labourers or general labourers—a sure sign that their holdings are too small to support themselves and their families. In Bengal only one cultivator in every 26, but in Bihar and Orissa one out of every 18, is forced to be an occasional labourer in order to maintain himself. The number of farm servants and field labourers who have subsidiary occupations is far smaller than among either landlords or cultivators, and the majority are either petty cultivators or general labourers.

Principal occupations.	Percentage having subsidiary occupations	
	Bengal.	Bihar and Orissa.
Landlords	27	25
Cultivators	14	18
Agricultural labourers ...	7	5

Tea Plantations in Bengal.

1062. A quarter of a million persons are supported by the tea gardens of Bengal, nearly all being residents of Jalpaiguri, Darjeeling and Chittagong. The greatest development of the industry has taken place in Jalpaiguri, where the outturn of tea rose from 31 million pounds to 49 million pounds between 1901 and 1911, while the area under the plant was extended from 76,403 to 90,859 acres. With these figures may be compared those for 1881, viz., one million pounds and 6,230 acres. In this district most of the available land, which is suitable for tea, has been taken up and the increase in the outturn is due mainly to young tea coming into bearing, and to the gradual extension of cultivation on existing grants. The marginal statement shows the number of persons maintained by the tea industry according to the entries in the general schedules both in 1901 and 1911 and the number entered in the industrial returns as actually employed in tea gardens. The figures show how different conditions in Jalpaiguri are from those obtaining in the other two districts. Both in Darjeeling and Chittagong two-thirds of the persons supported by work in the tea gardens are actual employés, but in Jalpaiguri the employés represent 84 per cent. of the total number. The paucity of dependants in this latter district shows that the majority of the workers are immigrants unaccompanied by their families, while those in Darjeeling and

District.	Number supported.		Number of employés.
	1901	1911	1911
Jalpaiguri	113,685	159,606	134,041
Darjeeling	86,725	80,016[c]	52,966
Chittagong	5,066	6,271	4,279

[c] This figure includes the persons maintained by work in two small cinchona plantations employing 761 hands.

Chittagong are largely drawn from local sources and live a family life on or near the tea gardens. This inference is supported by statistics which have been specially compiled showing the birth places of the tea garden population. In Jalpaiguri more than half come from Chota Nagpur, 75,000, or two-fifths, being born in Ranchi. Nepal sends 19,000, or a little over one-ninth, and the Sonthal Parganas 10,000, while more distant tracts, such as Tirhut (1,700) and Orissa (3,000). are also drawn on. The number born in Jalpaiguri itself is only 37,000, or less than one-quarter of the residents on tea gardens. In Darjeeling, however, nearly half were born in the district, and practically all the remainder in Nepal (25,000). Less than 3,000 come from Chota Nagpur, and the aggregate for all other places is only 4,000. The labour for the small tea gardens of Chittagong is also largely recruited locally, one-half being born in the district itself. The marginal statement further shows how largely the races of Chota Nagpur bulk in the tea garden population of Jalpaiguri and those of Nepal in Darjeeling. In the former Oraons, Mundas and Santals number 84,000, or half the total number. In the latter three typical Nepalese races, viz., the Jimdars (or Khambus) Murmis and Mangars, account for over 20,000 or nearly two-fifths of the workers. Further details of caste will be found in Part III of the Appendix to Table XVI.

Caste.	Jalpaiguri.	Darjeeling.	Total.
Oraon	55,543	1,357	59,900
Munda	17,280	404	17,684
Jimdar or Khambu ...	2,582	9,771	12,353
Santal	11,319	362	11,681
Murmi	2,130	8,582	10,712
Mangar	5,703	4,503	10,206
Kharia	6,048	...	6,048

Sufficient has already been said to give an idea of the heterogeneous nature of the tea garden population of Jalpaiguri, but, before bringing this paragraph to a close, reference may be made to its polyglot character. Special returns for the languages spoken on the tea gardens show that no less than 48 languages are current, those most widely spoken being shown in the margin.

Language.	Number.	Language.	Number.
Hindi and Urdu ...	60,000	Bengali	5,000
Oraon	38,000	Oriya	6,000
Naipali	18,000	Kharia	4,000
Santali	12,000	Nepalese tribal languages.	4,000
Mundari	12,000	Ho	2,000

INDIGO AND TEA PLANTATIONS IN BIHAR AND ORISSA.

1063. There are, according to the industrial census, six small tea plantations (in Ranchi) employing 535 hands, and 119 indigo plantations employing 30,680 persons, either directly in the cultivation of the plant or in the manufacture of the dye. All but one of the indigo concerns are situated in the Tirhut and Bhagalpur Divisions, the former containing 98 with 28,000 persons in their employment. Manufacture was not in progress at the time when the census was taken, and the great majority of the persons entered in the returns were cultivators. These, for the most part, returned ordinary cultivation as their means of livelihood in the general schedules, the result being that in the Bhagalpur and Tirhut Divisions those entered under the head of indigo cultivation number only 1,027. Small as this latter figure is, it is a reduction on that returned in 1901, when 2,891 persons were shown as labourers belonging to the indigo factories. This decrease is not to be wondered at, for, as is well known, the indigo industry is declining owing to the competition of the synthetic dye and the falling of the price of the natural dye, as a consequence of which other crops are found to be more profitable.

PASTURE.

1064. In Bengal 306,000 or less than 1 per cent. of the population, and in Bihar and Orissa 669,000 or 1·7 per cent., subsist by means of pasture. In the former province the number returned as herdsmen, shepherds, goatherds, etc., is six times as great as that returned for cattle and buffalo breeders or keepers. The strength of these two classes is very different in Bihar and Orissa, where the proportion is only two to one. Not much reliance, however, can be placed on the figures, as the vernacular terms for both are generally the same, so that it is more or less a matter of chance whether a man is classified as a cattle-keeper or herdsman. As an instance of the variations which are inevitable under

the present system of differentiating between herdsmen and cattle-keepers, I may point to the marginal figures for male cattle-keepers at each of the last three censuses in three divisions. It must also be remembered that a large number of those supported by pasture return their occupation as that of milk, butter or *ghee* sellers, and are consequently allocated to the head "Trade." Far fewer, however, appeared to have done this than in 1901, the result being a decrease of nearly 200,000 in those returned as sellers of milk, butter, *ghee*, etc., and an increase of 186,000 in the number of cattle breeders and keepers in the two provinces.

PROVINCE.	1911.	1901.	1891.
Burdwan ...	14,112	2,707	17,668
Presidency ...	1,635	1,851	29,927
Orissa	9,665	3,650	28,486
TOTAL ...	25,412	8,208	76,081

FISHING.

1065. Altogether 644,000 persons in Bengal subsist by fishing, or double the number subsisting by pasture. Nor is this to be wondered at considering the nature of the country and the resources, even though imperfectly developed, of its rivers, its estuaries and the sea board. In addition, moreover, to those actively engaged in fishing, there are 324,000 maintained by the sale of fish, so that the total number supported by catching and selling fish is very little under 1 million, or 2 per cent. of the total population. As explained in 1901, the two occupations should be amalgamated, as they cannot be kept distinct. A few sections of the fishing community catch fish, but do not retail them, and a few others expose them for sale, but do no not catch them; and the majority both catch and sell. Special statistics of the castes engaged in fishing in the Presidency and Burdwan Divisions show that half are Bagdis, and one-eighth are Malos who only slightly outnumber the Jaliya Kaibarttas. Of other castes, the most strongly represented are the Tiyars, Rajbansis and Namasudras.

Comparatively few persons are engaged in fishing in Bihar and Orissa where so many of the rivers remain dry for a great part of the year. The total returned under this head is 134,000, of whom 40,000 are inhabitants of the sea-board districts of Orissa. Of the actual fishermen, about one-third are Mallahs and one-fifth are Kewats, both well-known Bihar castes.

It remains to note that since 1901 the aggregate of persons supported by fishing in the two provinces has increased by no less than 226,000 or 40 per cent. This apparently extraordinary increase is, however, simply due to the reduction of the number returned as fish-sellers by 268,000 or 39 per cent. The figures do not mean that fish-sellers have given up their shops or stopped hawking fish and taken to catching fish, but merely that there was a clearer differentiation of those engaged in the fishing industry and in the fish trade. The two, moreover, are, as already noticed, not clearly demarcated in actual practice, and the same man returns himself either as a fisherman or a fish dealer or as both. Taking the two together, we find a decrease of 3 per cent. a result which confirms what is a matter of common knowledge, viz., that fishing is not a progressive industry. Apart from that, it must be remembered that fishing is not considered an honourable reputation, and that the ambition of fishing castes is to attain greater respectability by becoming cultivators. As it is, one in every twelve of those whose principal occupation is fishing also cultivates some land in Bengal, and one in six in Bihar and Orissa.

EXTRACTION OF MINERALS.

1066. The total number of persons returned under the head shown in the margin is 116,000 in Bengal and 164,000 in Bihar and Orissa; all but an insignificant minority subsist by coal mining.

COAL MINING.

Coal mining is the means of livelihood of 242,000 persons (in both provinces), of whom 155,000 are actual workers. Since 1901 there has been an increase of no less than 158,000, or 188 per cent., in the number supported by this industry which in itself shows the strides it has made during the last decade. Further proof of the rapidity of its development is furnished by the returns of the Mines Department. In 1901 the total output was under 6 million tons, and the average number of workers in the mines amounted to 80,000. In 1911 the output had risen to nearly 11 million tons (nine-tenths of the total yield for India), and the average labour force to 100,000. In the latter year there were no less than 422 mines at work of which 268 yielding 7½ million tons are situated in Bihar and Orissa

That province contains the progressive Jheria field, which was only tapped by the railway in 1894, but now accounts for half the total production of India. This field and a part of the Raniganj field are comprised within the district of Manbhum, which is pre-eminently the chief mining district of India; the census returns show that 111,000 or 7 per cent. of its inhabitants are supported by work in the collieries. Another important coal-field in this province is the Giridih field in Hazaribagh, which has been worked systematically since 1871, and now contains 6 mines with an output of 700,000 tons, or 5 per cent. of the production of India. The Daltonganj field in the Palamau district was opened in 1901 and yields 70,000 tons, but the output is as yet small in the other fields, viz.—(1) the Bokaro-Ramgarh field in Hazaribagh, where mining was begun in 1908; (2) the Rajmahal field in the Sonthal Parganas, where work had long been discontinued, but was resumed in 1897; and (3) the Hingir-Rampur field in Sambalpur, which was opened in 1909. The only mines in Bengal are found in the Raniganj field, there being 151 in Burdwan, 2 in Bankura and 1 in Birbhum; the total output was nearly 4 million tons in 1911. This is the oldest field in either province, work being started in 1777, and it was till recently by far the largest producer, but since 1906 it has been outstripped by the Jheria field.

THE LABOUR FORCE.

1067. The labour force in the collieries is composed not only of men but also of women and children. The men cut the coal; the women and children carry it to the tubs, and as a rule also push the tubs to the shaft or incline, horses and ponies being rarely employed for this purpose. Whole families work together and choose their own hours of labour. The industrial census shows that among the unskilled labourers women outnumber men, and that there is one boy or girl under 14 years of age to every six workers aged 14 and over. The daily output per miner is very small compared with that of England, both because the miners are not so hard working and skilful, and also because they work for fewer days: one result is that a mine in Bengal requires 2½ times as many underground workers as an English mine. The Indian miner will not give his whole time to mining. He seldom works more than four or five days in the week, and observes all holidays: the man who gets most wages works the least number of days. "He is not an economist, either political or domestic; his logic is of the simplest, viz., that his labour should be regulated only by the eating and drinking capacity of himself and family. As by filling one tub per day he can obtain quite sufficient to meet all his needs, it does not dawn upon him that by filling three he might be steadily placing himself beyond the risk of want."* At present, many only work casually during the off-season of agriculture; others are nomadic by nature and drift from mine to mine; others work fitfully and irregularly, for they will not leave their native villages and live near the mines. "Some of the persons employed at a Bengal colliery live 30 miles from the pit. They walk the distance through rough jungle, stay at the colliery for 6 or 7 days, and then return home for a week's rest. Others live from 10 to 15 miles away and come irregularly to the mine. They stay there for 24 hours, of which they will spend 18 underground, working a double shift."† It is evident, however, that the comparatively high wages paid in the coal-fields, and the steady expansion of the industry, will before long have the effect of establishing a permanent mining population in the colliery districts. There are already signs that the evolution of a distinct class of miners has begun. They are mainly aboriginals or semi-aboriginals, drawn from the neighbouring distants and trained on the collieries, such as Bauris, who have now been engaged in coal-cutting so long that they are beginning to consider it a caste occupation.

An examination of the returns of castes of workers in coal mines shows that one-fourth are Bauris and nearly the same number are Santals. Of the remainder the majority are semi-aboriginals or low Hindu castes, such as Bhuiya, Chamar and Muchi, Kora, Rajwar, Dosadh and Musahar. In Manbhum nearly two-thirds are labourers born in the district, and one-fifth come from the districts of the Burdwan division and Murshidabad. Two-

* Report of Chief Inspector of Mines in India for 1908.
† Report of Chief Inspector of Mines for India for 1904.

thirds of the coal miners in Burdwan are local labourers, while one-sixth come from the Sonthal Parganas and nearly as many from Chota Nagpur.

OTHER MINES AND SALTPETRE REFINERIES.

1068. There were 52 mica mines at work at the time of the census, of which 42 are situated in Hazaribagh, six in Gaya and four in Monghyr. The number of persons actually at work in the mines was 11,000, of whom nearly a fifth were children under 14 years of age: they are employed above ground, and their work is very light, consisting chiefly of shaping and sorting the mineral. The total for all other mines, including iron, manganese and copper mines, was 7,500. The refining of saltpetre is still an industry of some importance in Bihar, being the means of livelihood of 29,000 persons, or 14 per cent. more than in 1901.

INDUSTRIES. TEXTILE INDUSTRIES.

1069. Textile industries are still the most important of the industries of either province, the number dependent on them being 870,000, or a quarter of the industrial population, in Bengal, and 480,000, or 17 per cent., in Bihar and Orissa.

COTTON SPINNING AND WEAVING.

1070. Cotton spinning and weaving alone provide for 853,000 persons, viz., 460,000 in Bengal and 393,000 in Bihar and Orissa. Of these only 11,000 are employed in cotton mills, and the remainder work at home. In spite of the stimulus given to this industry by the *swadeshi* movement and by the efforts of Government to introduce improved and more profitable methods of work, there has been a serious decline since 1901 in the number who subsist by the produce of their looms: the actual decrease in both provinces is a quarter of a million or 23 per cent.

JUTE SPINNING, PRESSING AND WEAVING.

1071. Jute spinning, pressing and weaving, however, attract a growing number of workers. The aggregate of those dependent on the manipulation of jute has, in fact, risen during the last 10 years by 201,000, or 140 per cent. It is pre-eminently an industry of Bengal, where it provides for 328,000 persons, as shown in the margin. Over two-thirds of the total number were enumerated in Calcutta (14,840) and the metropolitan districts of Hooghly (50,740), Howrah (74,818) and the 24-Parganas (168,773). As already stated, 200,000 persons were employed at the date of the census in the jute mills lining the banks of the Hooghly in these districts. In addition to these operatives, there were 14,000 persons working in jute presses, of whom half were found in the districts of North and East Bengal.

Division.	Number.
Burdwan	126,663
Presidency ...	186,478
Rajshahi	7,845
Dacca	5,488
Chittagong ...	656
Cooch Behar ...	443

The statistics contained in Part IV of the Appendix to Table XVI in the Bengal volume of tables furnish some interesting information regarding the castes of jute mill employés. Altogether 71 castes, each with over 100 representatives, appear in the list, and of these the most numerous are the Musalman groups of Sheikh and Jolaha, which between them account for over one-third of the total number. The most numerous Hindu castes are mainly low castes, but there are nearly 9,000 Brahmans. The Chamars, numbering nearly 22,000, account for one-tenth of the workers, and one other caste, viz., the Chasi Kaibarttas, contributes over 10,000. Then come in order Brahmans, Tantis, Telis, Bagdis, Muchis and Dosadhs.

SILK INDUSTRY.

1072. The total number of silk spinners and silk weavers has increased but slightly since 1901, rising from 56,000 to 57,000, of whom 49,000 were enumerated in Bengal and 8,000 in Bihar and Orissa. The marginal statement shows the chief centres of the industry (which includes the spinning and weaving of tusser silk as well as pure silk) and the variations which have taken place since 1901. Briefly, it is progressive in Birbhum, Bankura and Malda, slightly decadent in Murshidabad, and in danger of extinction in Rajshahi. In Bhagalpur there has been what appears to be a phenomenal increase, but that district is a well-known centre of tusser silk and

District.	Number supported.	
	1911.	1901.
Birbhum ...	3,098	2,101
Bankura ...	4,800	3,032
Murshidabad ...	27,338	28,961
Malda	7,950	6,915
Rajshahi ...	3,127	7,400
Bhagalpur ...	5,518	224

batta (mixed cotton and silk) weaving, and it is difficult to understand the figures of 1901. Apart from that, the Bihar Trading Company of Bhagalpur has done much to push the products of the local looms, and has customers in Bombay and Burma, Bengal and the Deccan. The decline of the industry in Rajshahi is due to the closing of several filatures of the Bengal Silk Company in 1909. The outturn of silk in this district has since fallen still further decreasing from 43,251 lbs. in 1910 to 22,402 lbs. in 1911. Disease among silk worms has hampered the rearers, and many have given up rearing cocoons as less profitable than the cultivation of jute.

As shown in the margin, the industry of rearing silk-worms and gathering cocoons has almost become extinct in Rajshahi, and is on the down grade in Murshidabad, but is still holding its own in Malda. It remains to note that the industrial census shows that 7,000 persons are employed by silk filatures in Bengal, of whom five-sevenths are resident in Murshidabad and one-sixth in Rajshahi.

District.	Number supported.	
	1911.	1901.
Murshidabad ...	6,803	10,041
Malda	34,598	24,383
Rajshahi ...	766	33,155

1073. While there are only 8,000 persons in Bihar and Orissa returned as dependent on work in "hides, skins and hard material from the animal kingdom," the number is nearly seven times as great in Bengal. The great majority are tanners, curriers, leather-dressers and leather-dyers; those who actually make leather articles, such as trunks and water-bags, are numerically insignificant. The reason is that, except for shoes, leather articles are not in demand either among Hindus and Musalmans; it is significant that the shoe-makers in the two provinces are thrice as numerous as the tanners, curriers, etc. The returns of the castes of actual workers show that leather-working and shoe-making are almost entirely confined to Chamars and Muchis, whose traditional occupation it is. The industry has not as yet been organized and developed by modern methods. In spite of its large possibilities, there are as yet only 13 tanneries and four leather factories in the two provinces, and these are only small concerns employing only 1,740 hands.

Work in hides and skins.

1074. The eighth sub-class of industry, which is designated "Wood," includes two very different classes of workers. The first consists of artisans, such as sawyers, carpenters, turners and joiners. They and their families number 229,000 in Bengal and 125,000 in Bihar and Orissa. The difference between the figures for the two provinces is accounted for by the fact that the latter province contains a large population of aboriginals who are mostly their own carpenters. Unlike the old Hindu people, with their sharp differentiation of functions, they shift for themselves, hew the rafters for their huts, and do any rough carpentry required in their domestic life. Among the Hindus carpentry is more or less the preserve of the Barhis, whose hereditary occupation it is. In spite of the large area still under forests and the supplies they yield, work in wood is still for the most part a cottage industry. So far the number employed in saw mills, carpentry works, timber yards and furniture factories in both provinces is only 11,000. Nor is this altogether to be wondered at, for in most places, outside the forest areas the country is so much denuded that the people are forced to use cakes of cow-dung and litter for their fires. But little woodwork is in any case required for the ordinary houses, as the floors are of earth, and the walls of plastered mud or bamboos. Moreover, even if he had the means to do so, the peasant has no desire to beautify his house, for he regards it merely as place in which to sleep, eat his food, keep his chattels, etc. The second class included under this head consists of persons making baskets, mats and bamboo articles, who chiefly belong to the lower classes and to aboriginal races. They number 140,000 in Bengal and 172,000 in Bihar and Orissa. In the latter province they outnumber the artisan class of carpenters and joiners; in the former 16,000, or nearly one-eighth of the total number, are found in Midnapore, from which come large supplies of the matting commonly known as Calcutta grass matting.

Work in wood.

1075. Work in metals maintains 185,000 persons in Bengal and 208,000 in Bihar and Orissa. In both provinces the great majority are blacksmiths, but in the former 48,000

Work in metals.

and in the latter 37,000 persons are engaged in making brass, copper and bell-metal articles. This latter industry holds its own, the number main tained by it having increased by 18 per cent. since 1901. The workers in these materials, with their families, aggregate 15,000 in Midnapore, wher there are several centres for the manufacture of brass and bell-metal utensils "This industry is better organized than any other in the province; and it i most highly organized at Ghatal and Kharar in Midnapore district. Th masters there are enterprising and wealthy; they obtain the material in economically large quantities—tin from Straits Settlements and copper from Japan, and so on; they distribute the labour, they pay by piece-work, and they have a steady demand from Bara Bazar in Calcutta."* Other meta industries are also fairly well organized, there being 131 manufactories o workshops in Bengal employing 32,000 persons. Of these, 7,500 work in iron foundries, 2,000 in iron and steel works, nearly 6,000 in Government arm factories, and 12,000 in machinery and engineering works; The most con siderable iron foundries are those of the Bengal Iron and Steel Works a Barakar (in Burdwan), which employ over 3,000 hands. The manufacture of tin goods is a comparatively recent development, which shows promise of expansion, there being nearly 3,000 persons employed in tin works. In Bihar and Orissa there are 4 iron and steel works and 7 machinery and engineering workshops, which employed altogether 5,639 hands at the time of the census. The Tata Iron and Steel Works in Singhbhum are, however the only works of great economic importance in this province. As already stated, they had not started manufacture at the time of the census, and the number of employés was only a fraction of what will eventually be the labour force.

CERAMICS.

1076. The manufacture of pottery, earthern bowls, bricks, glass, tiles etc., is the means of subsistence of 227,000 persons in Bengal and of quarter of a million in Bihar and Orissa. In the former province brick and tile manufacture is a thriving industry along the Hooghly, where brickfields are even more numerous than mills. Howrah, Hooghly and the 24-Parganas alone contain 132 brick and tile factories, in which 17,000 persons were employed at the time of the census. Glass manufacture is an industry of very small importance owing to the difficulty of getting sand suitable for its production but two small factories have been started in Bengal. The only works in which pottery is made on a large scale are those of Messrs. Burn & Co. at Raniganj where glazed drain pipes, bricks, tiles and every kind of pottery are produced.

CHEMICAL PRODUCTS.

1077. The manufacture and refining of oil is by far the most important of the occupations relating to chemical products the number supported by it being 123,000 in Bengal and 136,000 in Bihar and Orissa. In the two provinces, taken together, only 30,000 persons are returned for other occupations, such as the manufacture of matches, explosives, fireworks, aerated and mineral waters dyes, paint, ink, paper, soap, candles, lac, cutch, perfumes and drugs. Of these, the most important is the manufacture of lac, which is chiefly carried on in Chota Nagpur and the Sonthal Parganas; unfortunately the industrial returns do not give a full idea of the organization of this industry, as a large number of the factories were not at work when it was held. On the other hand, they furnish interesting information regarding the extent to which the manufacture of chemicals and chemical products is attracting Indian specialists, not to mention capitalists. There are 11 chemical works in Calcutta and its vicinity, prominent among which is the Bengal Chemical and Pharmaceutical Works, started by Dr. P. C. Ray, D.Sc., F.C.S., which is "one of the most go-ahead young enterprises in Bengal." Pencil manufacture has been taken up by the Small Industries Development Company; six soap factories have been started in Calcutta and its neighbourhood, and there are also one perfumery, one cardboard and three stationery factories. Paper making as a home industry has been killed by competition, but there are three paper mills employing 4,000 hands, which belong to the Titagarh Paper-Mills Co. and the Bengal Paper Mills Co. of Raniganj.

* J. G. Cumming, *Review of the Industrial Position and Prospects in Bengal in 1908*, Part II page 25.

1078. The food industries are of a simple nature, five-sixths of the workers in Bengal and four-fifths in Bihar and Orissa being rice pounders and huskers, flour grinders and grain parchers. The latter province has one industry that is scarcely represented in Bengal, viz., toddy-drawing, which supports a little over 26,000 persons. The same number subsist by making sweetmeats, jams and condiments in Bihar and Orissa, and 5,000 more in Bengal.

FOOD INDUSTRIES.

1079. There are over a million persons ministering to the necessities or luxuries of dress and the toilet, viz., 518,000 in Bengal and 590,000 in Bihar and Orissa. Practically all belong to four main classes, viz., tailors, shoe-makers, washermen and barbers, all of which are functional castes, pursuing their traditional avocations.

INDUSTRIES OF THE DRESS AND TOILET.

1080. From what has already been said about the character of the houses of the people it will readily be understood that the number to whom building supplies the means of life is not very large. The aggregate for the two provinces is, in fact, only 367,000, which is a very small number for a population of nearly 85 millions. A considerable proportion moreover are simply thatchers or tank-diggers, the latter of whom have really no connection with building.

BUILDING INDUSTRIES.

1081. The returns of "Construction of means of transport" are admittedly incomplete, as this heading is designed for European countries, where carriage makers, wheelwrights, whip and saddle makers are a class by themselves. It is unsuitable to India, where makers of carts and *palkis* are, as a rule, ordinary carpenters, who do any other woodwork that comes in their way. Naturally, therefore, they return their occupation simply as carpentry. The only point of interest in the returns is that there are 27,000 boat builders in Bengal, nearly all of whom are found in the water districts of Khulna, Pabna, Dacca, Mymensingh and Backergunge. Dacca, which contains 12,000, and Backergunge with 6,600, are the chief centres of the industry. More reliable and instructive statistics are furnished by the industrial returns, which show that in Bengal 35,000 and in Bihar and Orissa 10,000 persons are employed in works for the manufacture of means of transport. In the latter province all these workers, and in the former 23,000, are mechanics and labourers in railway workshops. There are also 7,000 employés in the dockyards and Port Commissioners' workshops; and although motor-cars are a recent introduction, their repairs call for 1,000 mechanics in Calcutta.

CONSTRUCTION OF MEANS OF TRANSPORT.

1082. The comprehensive heading given in the margin includes a miscellany of occupations ranging from editors of newspapers to lingam makers, from jewellers and watchmakers to toy makers and book stitchers, from theatre managers to jockeys. The major part are jewellers and goldsmiths, who number 214,000 in Bengal and 131,000 in Bihar and Orissa. The great majority pursue their handicraft independently, and less than 1,000 are gathered together in jewellery workshops. Printers, lithographers and engravers, and their families, have a strength of 21,000 in Bengal, Calcutta alone having 99 printing presses with 12,000 employés.

INDUSTRIES OF LITERATURE, ARTS AND SCIENCES.

1083. Sweepers, scavengers, dust and sweeping contractors number 45,000 in Bihar and Orissa and 49,000 in Bengal. Over one-fourth of the latter are found in Calcutta, where 9,000 persons actually work as sweepers or scavengers.

REFUSE MATTER.

1084. Nearly a million persons in Bengal are shewn as actually at work in occupations connected with transport or as dependant on the workers. As is only natural in a Province containing great natural waterways, as well as the largest port in India, transport by water pro ides for a large proportion. The actual number is 311,000, of whom 225,000 are boat-owners and boatmen and their families. They are concentrated mainly in the water districts of the Dacca Division, which contain 90,000, and Chittagong Division 35,000. Calcutta, the focus of the boat traffic, contains 20,000 and Pabna 14,000. There are also 65,000 persons dependent on the shipping and steamer traffic, of whom Calcutta

TRANSPORT.

contains 20,000, Chittagong 17,000 and Dacca 12,000. Transport by road provides for 458,000 persons, of whom 188,000 are employed on the construction and maintenance of roads and bridges, or are supported by persons so employed. That archaic conveyance, the *palki*, still maintains its position, owners or bearers of *palkis* and their families numbering 127,000. The returns for porters and messengers are misleading, for the aggregate is only 35,000, which is an absurd figure. The explanation is that most were simply entered in the schedules as coolies and relegated to the head of "Labourers otherwise unspecified." Work on the railways supports 161,000, and the post-office, telegraph and telephone services 32,000 : a later section deals with the number actually in employ at the time of the census in both provinces. An attempt was made to distinguish between labourers employed on railway construction and other railway employés, but the statistics are of no value, as the entries in the schedules did not distinguish between open lines and lines under construction.

The number supported by transport in Bihar and Orissa, viz., 361,000, is only three-eighths of that returned by Bengal. As might be expected in a province with a small sea-board, and no ports but only roadsteads, and with few great navigable rivers, transport by water is of minor importance. The total supported by it is 52,000, most of whom are boat-owners and boatmen. The upkeep of, and traffic along, roads provide for four times as many. The inhabitants being poorer, and also more energetic and physically stronger, than the Bengalis, the number of *alki*-bearers and owners (38,000) is about a third of that returned for the rich and favoured province. So many tracts being hilly, rugged and roadless, pack bullocks have to be largely used instead of carts. The number of pack bullock owners and drivers is 30,000, while it is under 1,000 in Bengal. The railways account for 82,000, and the post office, telegraph and telephone services for 12,000.

RAILWAYS AND THE IRRIGATION, TELEGRAPH AND POSTAL DEPARTMENTS.

1085. Subsidiary Table X at the end of this chapter shows the number of persons in the two provinces as a whole who were employed at the date of the census on the railways and in the Irrigation, Telegraph and Postal Departments. Statistics are also given of the number in different grades and classes of employment, and of the number who were Europeans and Anglo-Indians or belonged to the Indian community. The railways, it need scarcely be said, are one of the greatest employers of labour in the country, nearly a quarter of a million being either directly or indirectly in their service; of these, only 4,394 persons were Europeans or Anglo-Indians, nearly all in the higher ranks. The Irrigation Department had in its employment 20,000 persons, of whom a quarter were actually employed directly. This large body of men included only 30 Europeans or Anglo-Indians. The aggregate of those employed in the Postal Department was 23,000, of whom only 104 were Europeans or Anglo-Indians, while the Telegraph Department had a strength of 4,600. Excluding signallers (537), the European and Anglo-Indian element in the latter department was very small, there being only 77 representatives of those two communities.

TRADE.

1086. The fifth sub-class "Trade" is divided into no less then 18 orders, each of which deals with different aspects of commercial life. Of the 2½ millions subsisting by trade in Bengal, over 1,400,000 persons deal in articles of food or drink. The most numerous are grocers and sellers of vegetable, oil, salt and other condiments (355,000), fish dealers (324,000), sellers of cardamom, betel-leaf, vegetables, fruit and areca nuts (241,000), grain and pulse dealers (207,000), and sellers of dairy produce, such as milk, butter and *ghee* (145,000). Of other commercial pursuits, trade in textiles is most generally followed, 194,000 persons being returned under it. Altogether 131,000 are shown under the head "Banks, establishments of credit, exchange and insurance," but the greater part are nothing but money-lenders. Their number would be greater still, were it not that usury, though a common subsidiary occupation of landlords, grain-dealers and cloth merchants, is not their principal means of livelihood. Banks are few in number among a people who prefer to hoard or actually bury their money. Insurance companies are increasing in number, but are often of mushroom growth.

In Bihar and Orissa commercial occupations are followed by 1,650,000 persons, over a million of whom are engaged in or maintained by the sale of food and drink. Of these, nearly 320,000 are grocers and vendors of vegetable, oil, salt, etc., 223,000 are grain and pulse dealers, and 147,000 sell cardamom, betel-leaf, vegetables, fruit and areca nuts. Bankers and money-lenders number only 68,000, while trade in textiles accounts for 103,000. There are two features in the returns for traders in Bihar and Orissa which call for notice, viz.,—(1) the large number of vendors of wine, liquor and ærated water; and (2) the extent to which trade in fuel is carried on. Vendors of wine, liquor, etc., number 86,000 or four times as many as in Bengal, while trade in fuel supports 109,000 persons, or more than double the number recorded in Bengal. The fuel which form the material of this trade includes firewood, charcoal and cow-dung cakes.

PUBLIC ADMINISTRATION.

1087. Public administration, which forms a separate sub-class, does not correspond to Government service, as a large number of persons in the employment of Government are allocated to other groups of the scheme of classification. For instance, officers in the Forest Department are classed under "Forestry," which is treated as a part of "Pasture and Agriculture." The Medical, Education and Public Works Departments are comprised within "Professions and Liberal Arts," the Postal and Telegraph Departments come under "Transport," and Settlement Officers are relegated to estate management, where they are grouped under the head of "Pasture and Agriculture" with estate agents and managers, rent-collectors and clerks. The returns for "Public Administration," therefore, give no indication of the number actually engaged in the administration of the country or supported by the salaries of Government servants.

There are two main subdivisions of this sub-class, viz., "Public Force" and "Public Administration." The former includes the Army, Navy and Police, and Police includes not only policemen but also *chaukidars*. The returns for Police show 175,000 workers and dependants in Bengal, and 179,000 in Bihar and Orissa. The number returned as workers, *i.e.*, persons who are actually police officers, constables, *dafadars* and *chaukidars*, is by no means the same as that shown by the departmental returns, the reason being that the salaries paid to them are not always their main means of support. A *chaukidar*, for instance, generally combines cultivation with his duties as watchman, and the proceeds of his crops are often a more important source of income than his small monthly stipend; in such cases the entry of principal occupation is of course cultivation. As regards "Public Administration," the figures are:—Bengal (134,000) and Bihar and Orissa (67,000). The great majority are supported by State service in the limited sense already explained, and the remainder mainly by Municipal service.

PROFESSIONS AND LIBERAL ARTS. RELIGION.

1088. The marginal table shows the number (including both workers and dependants) returned under the five orders of this sub-class. The predominance of religious occupations in both provinces is noticeable, those for whom religion provides a daily meal being well over half a million. What is even more noticeable is that the number following those occupations is very much greater in Bengal, where Musalmans form more than half the population, than in Bihar and Orissa, which is mainly Hindu. Though the Hindus of Bengal number 21 millions, and those in Bihar and Orissa 32 millions, the Hindus who subsist by religious occupations are more numerous by 117,000 (or nearly 40 per cent.) in the former province. The distribution of different religious pursuits is moreover very different in the two provinces, for in Bengal the number who live by exercising priestly functions is more than double that returned for Bihar and Orissa, where a far greater number follow minor occupations, such as temple and burning ground service.

OCCUPATION.	Bengal.	Bihar and Orissa.
Religion	371,000	206,000
Law	76,000	24,000
Medicine	163,000	54,000
Instruction	97,000	55,000
Letters and arts and sciences.	105,000	56,000
Total ...	812,000	395,000

LAW.

1089. Bengal also has the advantage over the other province in its supply of lawyers, lawyers' clerks, petition-writers and touts. Of lawyers alone, such as *vakils* and *mukhtars*, Bengal has about three to every one in Bihar and Orissa, the

actual number subsisting by their practice being 9,641 and 3,517 respectively. Calcutta alone contains 1,862 of these successful practitioners; and there is an average of 268 for each Bengal district (excluding Calcutta) and of 153 for each district in the less advanced province. The Bengali lawyer has one drawback compared to his brother of the robe in Bihar and Orissa, viz., that he has a larger family to support, for he has on the average four and the other only three dependants. The legal profession is growing in popularity as a lucrative occupation, the number supported by it increasing by 30 per cent. since 1901. It is becoming more and more a monopoly of the Indian, even in its higher branches. In 1911 out of 170 barristers practising in the High Court of Calcutta, only 22 were Europeans; in other words, there were six Indian barristers practising to every European barristers.

MEDICINE.

1090. The number of those supported by medicine in Bengal is thrice as great as in Bihar and Orissa, and there is this further difference between the two provinces, that in the former medical practitioners predominate, and in the latter those persons who occupy a subordinate position, such as midwives, compounders and vaccinators. The average number of medical practitioners actually subsisting by their practice is 1,279 in each Bengal district, and only 282 in the districts of Bihar and Orissa. It cannot be said that their attainments are generally of a high order, or that their medical knowledge is very extensive: in fact, the Bengali staff of the census office thought "quack" was the proper translation for most of the entries. Their number has increased by 12 per cent. within the last 10 years. The second group of this sub-class includes not only midwives, compounders and vaccinators, but also nurses and masseurs. From the proportion of the sexes, it is evident that the majority are midwives, there being seven female to every two male workers.

INSTRUCTION.

1091. The sub-class designated "Instruction" includes those who live by the art of teaching, whether professors and teachers (except of law, medicine, music and dancing) or clerks or servants connected with education. The number classified under this head in Bengal (97,000) is nearly double as great as it is in Bihar and Orissa.

LETTERS AND ARTS AND SCIENCES.

1092. Neither province affords much scope to persons with literary, artistic or scientific attainments. The aggregate supported by them is 105,000 in Bengal, and 56,000 in Bihar and Orissa, but three-fourths of them subsist by music, singing, dancing and acting, and it must be admitted that, as a rule, the dancers (mostly women of low character) and the musicians (such as village drummers and tomtom players) hold no high rank in artistic life. The remainder are nearly all either (1) architects, surveyors, engineers and their employés (including the Public Works Department) or (2) authors, artists, photographers, sculptors, meteorologists, botanists and astrologers. The figures for each of these latter two classes are about the same, viz., 14,000 in Bengal and half as many in Bihar and Orissa. Their smallness is a sufficient proof of the low estimation in which arts and sciences are held or at least of the poor income they command.

PERSONS LIVING ON THEIR INCOME.

1093. The returns for persons living principally on their income, such as proprietors of houses, persons living on funds or investments and pensioners, show what a small proportion of the population have independent means. The aggregate is only 52,000 in Bengal, where nearly two-fifths are resident in Calcutta, and 10,000 in Bihar and Orissa.

DOMESTIC SERVICE.

1094. Domestic service is the means of livelihood of 527,000 persons, or 1 per cent. of the population, in Bengal, and of 726,000, or nearly 2 per cent., in Bihar and Orissa. No less than 110,000 were enumerated in Calcutta, where they constitute one-eighth of the inhabitants.

INSUFFICIENTLY DESCRIBED OCCUPATIONS.

1095. The eleventh sub-class is reserved for those whose occupations are so vaguely described that they cannot be assigned to any other group in the scheme of classification. The great majority are "workmen and labourers unspecified," *i.e.*, persons described by such vague terms as cooly, labourer,

etc., of whom there are over a million in Bengal and nearly 900,000 in Bihar and Orissa : these correspond more or less to general labourers.

UNPRODUCTIVE OCCUPATIONS.

1096. The last sub-class consists of unproductive occupations, viz.—(1) inmates of jails, asylums and hospitals, and (2) persons following disreputable callings, such as beggars, vagrants, prostitutes, procurers, receivers of stolen goods and cattle poisoners. It is satisfactory that unproductive pursuits of this character support only 1 per cent. of the people of Bengal and a half per cent. in Bihar and Orissa, the actual numbers being 446,000 and 192,000 respectively*. Among the workers, females predominate in Bengal owing to the large number of prostitutes. In Calcutta alone nearly 13,000 women, or 5·7 per cent. of the females aged 10 and over, returned themselves as subsisting by prostitution.

WORKERS AND DEPENDANTS.

BENGAL.

1097. In Bengal as a whole there are 36 workers to 64 dependants—a fact which, in itself, points to a fair level of prosperity. The dependants are most numerous among the lawyers, among whom there are 4 dependants to every worker. I am not in a position to state whether this is due to prolificness, or to their having many drones or hangers-on in their families in consequence of their affluence. Of other occupations, dependants bulk most largely among persons supported by pasture and agriculture, or living on their incomes, or maintained by the public administration. In all these cases every worker has approximately 2 dependants. The proportion of dependants is smallest in domestic service, where they constitute only 31 per cent. of the total number, and then among vagrants, beggars and prostitutes 36 per cent. The relative paucity of dependants in the latter case is easily intelligible, as all three are classes who shift for themselves and do not have encumbrances if they can avoid it. Among miners there are only 4 dependants to every 5 workers, but, as already explained, both women and children work in the coal mines, and women are even more numerous than men among the unskilled labourers. It must moreover be remembered that a considerable number of the workers are immigrants from other provinces, who leave their families behind, so that their dependants are not included in the returns for Bengal.

One point in the returns calls for special mention, viz., that the proportion of dependants is highest in East Bengal, not only in the agricultural population, where it is as high as 72 per cent., but also in the industrial, professional and commercial population. The explanation is threefold. In the first place, the people are more prosperous than elsewhere. Secondly, they are mainly Musalmans, who, as shewn in previous chapters, are more prolific than other communities. Lastly, the number of adult male immigrants from outside is less than elsewhere.

BIHAR AND ORISSA.

1098. In Bihar and Orissa there is far less disparity between workers and dependants. They are, in fact, nearly equally balanced, there being 48 of the former to 52 of the latter. In this province, as in Bengal, those who have adopted the legal profession can apparently afford to support more than any other class, and have the largest percentage of dependants, viz., 72 per 100 workers. Then come those engaged in the public administration (65 per cent.), those living on their income (64) and the police (63). The agriculturists are in a very different position to those of Bengal, for there are 53 dependants to every 47 workers. The difference is accounted for by the fact that in Bihar and Orissa the peasant is a poorer man than the Bengali ; he cannot afford hired labour to the same extent, and his family has therefore to take a much more active part in cultivation. The minimum number of dependants is found among the mining population, which have 3 dependants only to every 7 workers. The explanation of their relative paucity which has been already given for Bengal also applies to this province with this addition, that in Bihar and Orissa the miners are drawn more largely from local sources.

* There were also 48,000 persons in Bengal and 23,000 persons in Bihar and Orissa, classified under religion in group 149 which relates to religious mendicants and inmates of monasteries. A large proportion of these subsist by begging.

As regards localities, the antithesis to the rich sub-province of East Bengal is found in the Chota Nagpur Plateau with its population of poor and hardy aboriginals, whose birth-right is labour, whether they are males or females. In this tract there are only 47 dependants to every 100 workers among the agriculturists, who form the great majority of the inhabitants, and the proportion is even lower among traders (45) and in the industrial and mining population (42).

OCCUPATIONS OF FEMALES.

1099. The difference between conditions in the two provinces is further exemplified by the figures showing the number of women who actually work in different occupations. In Bengal the number is a little over two millions; in Bihar and Orissa it is thrice as great, amounting to nearly $6\frac{2}{3}$ millions. Expressed in proportions, there is one female to every two male workers in the latter, and two females to every seven male workers in the former. The causes of the difference are patent. Bengal is a richer province, and the women need not work to the same extent. Apart from the pressure of necessity, more than half the people of Bengal are Musalmans, and though they are chiefly of a low class, it is thought a sign of respectablity to keep women in seclusion as much as possible. Among the Bengali Hindus, moreover, the *bhadralok*, or respectable middle classes that observe the zenana system, are strongly represented. The population of Bihar and Orissa is poorer, and a large proportion are either low caste Hindus, or semi-Hinduized aboriginals, or pure aboriginals, with whom it is an immemorial usage for women to engage in manual labour.

Statistics of the number and proportion of male and female workers in each sub-class, and in selected orders and groups, will be found in Subsidiary Table VI. The orders and groups selected are those in which the total number of workers is large, or in which the proportion of female to male workers is high. There are certain occupations which naturally fall to a woman's lot, such as the domestic industries of rice pounding and husking and the parching of grain. In Bengal there are 27 women to every male engaged in rice pounding and husking, while in Bihar and Orissa the proportion is 16 to 1. Midwifery is also a woman's task, nor need it surprise us that in the unproductive class, which includes prostitutes, the Bengali women should outnumber the males.

BENGAL.

1100. Excluding the occupations above mentioned, there are only three occupations in which the female outnumber the male workers in Bengal, and in all three cases it is more or less natural that they should. Two of these are domestic industries, for which women are well suited, viz., silk-worm rearing and making twine or string. The third is the sale of fuel, which, as is well known, consists of cow-dung cakes that women make from the cow-dung and litter they pick up and carry to market. It may be added that women workers are nearly as numerous as male workers on the tea gardens, where plucking the tea leaves is a task for which they are admirably fitted.

BIHAR AND ORISSA.

1101. The list of occupations in which women workers are in excess in Bihar and Orissa is a long one, and to save space is given in the margin. It is also interesting to note that as many women as men keep cattle or buffaloes. Of the occupations mentioned in the list, some are home industries, such as cotton ginning and cleaning, making oil, spinning and weaving silk, and making twine and string. Others are industries natural to the poorer classes who bulk largely in the population, such as basket-making, collecting firewood, and selling fuel, grass and fodder. Others show that it is regarded as a woman's function to dispose of the articles that her husband makes, grows or catches, such as pots and household utensils, milk, *ghee*, and fish. The last classes of occupation to be mentioned are domestic service,

	Number per 1,000 males.
Trade in fuel	6,938
Rope, twine and string making ...	3,400
Fish dealers	2,257
Sellers of milk and *ghee*	2,052
Trade in pottery	1,982
Sweepers and scavengers	1,858
Vegetable and fruit sellers... ...	1,762
Basket-makers...	1,373
Silk spinners and weavers	1,289
Washing and cleaning and dyeing ...	1,200
Cotton ginning and cleaning ...	1,155
Firewood collectors	1,135
Manufacture and refining of oil ...	1,081
Indoor servants	1,033

in which women are naturally employed largely, and the menial tasks falling to the female sweeper.

OCCUPATIONS IN CITIES.

1102. The marginal statement shows how greatly the distribution of occupations differs in urban and rural areas, and the extent to which industrial and commercial pursuits predominate in the former. In the cities of Bengal, viz., Calcutta and its suburbs, Howrah and Dacca, industries of different kinds support over a fourth of the inhabitants, the most important being textile industries and industries of dress. Of individual industries, the principal is jute manufacture, which affords the means of subsistence to nearly a fifth of the industrial population. The commercial population (excluding those engaged in transport) represents nearly one-sixth, and those dependent for their daily bread on domestic service one-tenth, of the population. The professions and liberal arts provide for 71,000 persons, or 5,000 less than those who subsist by industries of the dress and toilet. Landlords outnumber all those engaged in the legal and medical professions. Nearly 7,000 landlords or 2 per cent. of the landlords of Bengal were enumerated in Calcutta alone, from which it may be inferred that there is good ground for the frequent complaints about absentee landlords who prefer the amenities of the metropolis to life on their estates.

Occupation.	Number per 1,000 supported.			
	Bengali.		Bihar and Orissa.	
	Province	Cities.	Province.	Cities.
Agriculture	754	37	783	169
Industry	76	259	77	276
Commerce (transport and trade).	71	303	52	281
Professions and liberal arts	18	53	10	62

There are only three cities in Bihar and Orissa, viz., Patna, Gaya and Bhagalpur, and none of them is on the same level, industrially or commercially, as Calcutta and its suburbs or Howrah. A considerable number of the inhabitants are engaged in cultivation, either within the city limits or on the outskrits. Those dependent on pasture and agriculture represent nearly a fifth of the population, and actually outnumber the commercial community (excluding those engaged in transport).

OCCUPATIONS BY RELIGION.

1103. Statistics of the number of adherents of each religion following different occupations are given in Imperial Tables XV-D, and proportional figures will be found in Subsidiary Table IX at the end of this chapter. For facility of reference, the marginal table is added to show the proportion of each religion supported by the main occupations.

Bengal.

Occupation.	Percentage supported.				
	Hindus.	Musalmans.	Christians.	Buddhists.	Animists.
Agriculture and pasture	65	86	41	79	89¼
Industry	11	4	6	4	1
Trade and transport	11	4	16½	6	5
Public administration, professions and liberal arts.	4	1	19	2	0·15

1104. What is more interesting is the distribution of occupations between different religions, and in particular between Musalmans and Hindus. In order that the reader may understand the relevancy of the figures, it may be mentioned, in the first place, that Musalmans constitute 52 per cent. and Hindus 45 per cent. of the population. The proportion of Musalmans engaged in agriculture is far higher than that returned for Hindus—a fact which explains the weakness of their representation in other occupations. Nearly 21 million Musalmans are dependent on agriculture, leaving only 3½ millions, or 15 per cent. of their total number, for other pursuits, whereas the balance of Hindus available for non-agricultural occupations is 7½ millions or 37 per cent.

Hindus and Musalmans.

The great majority of the Musalmans are cultivators, who have not yet risen to the level of landed proprietors, but till their own holdings. They aggregate nearly 19 millions and outnumber the Hindu tenants by over 8 millions, the proportion being 9 Musalmans to 5 Hindus. The landlords, on the other hand, consist mainly of Hindus, of whom there are seven to every three Musalmans. The Musalmans are largely outnumbered by the Hindus in the industrial and commercial population, but there are a few notable exceptions. There are more Musalmans employed in the furniture and building industries, and they also have a large share of the inland traffic along the waterways of Bengal, outnumbering the Hindus slightly in the boating population. They are in a strong majority among the lascars and others employed on ships and steamers, forming indeed five-sixths of the total number. In the jute mills they are only half as numerous as the Hindu operatives, but here the balance is set largely against them by the influx of Hindu immigrants from up-country. Work in hides, shoe-making and scavenging is almost a monopoly of the Hindus, but nearly all the tailors come from the Muhammadan community. The latter have a predominant interest in two branches of trade, viz., trade in clothing and trade in means of transport, such as boats and carts, horses and cattle. In the unproductive occupations also there is a slight excess of Musalmans, but in practically every other avocation they form a minority. The professions and liberal arts do not appear to appeal to them. There is only one Musalman to every nine Hindus in the legal, and one to every five in the medical profession, but there are two Musalmans to every seven Hindus in educational employment. Their share of appointments in the public service is disproportionate to their numerical strength, for in the Police there are double as many Hindus and in the service of the State 3½ times as many Hindus as there are Musalmans.

CHRISTIANS.

1105. Two-fifths of the Christian community obtain a living by pasture and agriculture, which is due simply to the fact that two-thirds of them are Indian converts. Nearly as many are supported by trade, transport, the professions and the public services, in all of which Europeans and Anglo-Indians have a share. In spite, however, of this latter element, the Christians contribute less than 3 per cent. to the number of those for whom service in the State affords subsistence. The proportion is 4 per cent. in the case of educational work; it is very nearly that figure for literary, artistic and scientific professions; and it reaches 6 per cent. on the railways. The extent to which different Christian races, such as Anglo-Indians and Indian Christians, find employment in various directions will be discussed later.

BUDDHISTS AND ANIMISTS.

1106. A little over two-thirds of the Buddhists, who consist mainly of Himalayan races or of Maghs in Chittagong, are agriculturists. The Animistic races, who are chiefly immigrants, are most strongly represented on the tea gardens and coal mines, accounting for one-fifth of the number supported by work on the former, and for one-ninth on the latter. A twelfth of the Buddhist population also work, or are supported by work, in the tea gardens, the coolies who adhere to Buddhism being largely Nepalese, Bhotias and Lepchas. Both Buddhists and Animists eschew the occupations of barber, washerman and sweeper: the aggregate of both religions for these three pursuits is, in fact, under 150.

BIHAR AND ORISSA.

1107. A statement similar to that for Bengal is given in the margin for Bihar and Orissa. In this latter province a comparison of the extent to which occupations are distributed between the different religions is not of the same interest, as the Hindus are in such an overwhelming majority that they predominate in nearly every case.

OCCUPATION.	PERCENTAGE SUPPORTED.			
	Hindus.	Musalmans.	Christians.	Animists.
Agriculture and pasture	80½	75	75	83
Industry	7	10	4	3
Trade and transport	5	7	4	2
Public administration, professions and liberal arts.	2	2	5	0·4

1108. Among the Hindus 17 per mille, and among the Musalmans 22 per mille, are landlords—proportions very different from those of Bengal, viz., 40 and 15 per mille respectively. Taking the whole agricultural population into account, we find that the Hindus account for over four-fifths of every class, but that there is considerable disparity in the case of Musalmans, who contribute 13 per cent. of the total number of landlords, but only 9 per cent. of the cultivators. Though the Hindus are nearly nine times as numerous as the Musalmans, the latter can claim nearly one-third of the weaving population. Their share in the trade in texiles, hides and clothing is far larger than their numbers would warrant, and they actually outnumber the Hindus in the sale of means of transport, such as carts, *palkis*, pack bullocks, etc. Compared with their co-religionists in Bengal, they show a greater aptitude for the law, but not quite as much for education, there being roughly one Musalman to every four Hindus in both professions. The number employed in or dependent on service in the State is also greater than it would be if there was proportional representation, for one-fourth of the total number belong to the Muhammadan community.

HINDUS AND MUSALMANS.

1109. The proportion of agriculturists among the Christians of Bihar and Orissa is nearly double what it is in Bengal, owing to the fact that the great majority are converts drawn from among aboriginal cultivators. Europeans, Armenians and Anglo-Indians represent only a small fraction of the total number, and to their relative paucity must be attributed the small part played by the Christian community in such branches of public and social life as law, medicine and the public administration: even in the service of the State only one out of 30 is a Christian.

CHRISTIANS.

1110. The Animists are more closely bound to the soil than any other community, over four-fifths being dependent on pasture and agriculture. Of the remainder, nearly one-twelfth consist of coal-cutters or labourers in collieries and their families. Coal-mining, which enables even the fitful worker to earn high wages, is an employment congenial to the aboriginal, and three-tenths of the colliery population consists of Animists. The other industries pursued by them are mainly simple handicrafts: one-fifth of those returned under the head of industry are basket-weavers and mat-makers. Their trade is equally primitive, consisting of the sale of the necessities of life or of raw material: over one-fourth of the Animist traders sell fuel, such as firewood, charcoal or cow-dung cakes. Less than half per cent. subsist by unproductive callings, and only 15 persons subsist on their income.

ANIMISTS.

OCCUPATIONS BY RACE AND CASTE.

1111. The previous sections of this chapter have dealt with the total number of persons supported by each occupation, whether they personally work at it or not. The subsequent discussion relates only to actual workers, and the figures for dependants are excluded.

1112. Both in Bengal and Bihar and Orissa one-third of the Europeans are engaged in commercial pursuits, connected either with transport or trade, while over a fourth in the former, and a third in the latter, province belong to the public force: this is due mainly to European regiments in the two provinces. In both 8 per cent. are employed in various industries, including mining. Public administration accounts for only 6 per cent. of the European workers in Bengal, and for 5 per cent. in Bihar and Orissa. The Anglo-Indians of Bengal have a stronger representation in Government service, the proportion in their case being 9 per cent., while in Bihar and Orissa it is the same as for Europeans. The railways obviously offer the best field of employment to the domiciled community, for in Bengal a fourth and in Bihar and Orissa two-fifths come under the head "Transport." Trade in either province is a minor occupation, and in Bihar and Orissa an unduly large number of females are beggars or prostitutes. The Armenians devote themselves mainly to commercial rather

CHRISTIANS.

than to industrial pursuits. Two-fifths of the Bengali Christians are cultivators, one-eighth are in domestic service and one-ninth are field labourers. The Indian Christians of Bihar and Orissa are nearly all agriculturists; over one-fifth can claim the dignity of a landlord, while three-fifths are tenants cultivating their fields.

OTHERS.

1113. The returns for Indian tribes and castes are chiefly of value as illustrating the fact that functional and other castes have to a very large extent abandoned their traditional occupations. This fact is so well known, that it is not proposed to discuss the figures in detail, but merely to mention some of their more salient features. In spite of the *swadeshi* movement, the proportion of the weaving castes that actually live by weaving is smaller even than in 1901. The one tract in which the industry still seems to maintain its vitality among the weaving castes is Orissa, where nearly two-thirds of the Tantis still earn their daily bread by working their looms. Of the higher castes, the Brahmans live mainly by agriculture, and not by the exercise of their priestly functions. In West and Central Bengal the number of Brahmans supported by agriculture, whether landlords and tenants, is double that supported by priesthood; in North and East Bengal a quarter, in Bihar one-seventh and in Orissa and Chota Nagpur only one-tenth maintain themselves by their traditional calling. Among the Baidyas there are two landlords to every physician, and among the Kayasths and Karans those who are writers are far outnumbered by the agriculturists. The modern Sunris of West and Central Bengal have abandoned to a great extent their hereditary occupation, only one-ninth being wine-sellers. In these and other cases the characteristic caste calling is generally given up in favour of agriculture. There is no reverse tendency in the case of purely agricultural castes. Four-fifths or more of the Babhans, Chasas, Khandaits, Koiris, Kurmis in Bihar and Orissa, and of the Chasi Kaibarttas and Rajbansis and Sadgops in Bengal, still subsist by agriculture. One-half of the Jaliya Kaibarttas of North and East Bengal are still fishermen, and one-half of the Gandhabaniks pursue their traditional calling of traders. One-third of the Kalus maintain themselves by pressing oil, but less than one-tenth of the Telis.

CASTE.	PERCENTAGE OF WEAVERS.			
	BENGAL.		BIHAR.	
	1901.	1911.	1901.	1911.
Jolaha	57	38	29	16
Tanti	52	42	12	7

CASTES FOLLOWING SELECTED OCCUPATIONS.

1114. Some instructive information regarding the extent to which various castes follow certain occupations is furnished by the appendix to Imperial Table XVI. It is unnecessary to refer again to the castes of jute mill employés and of the tea garden population, which have already been mentioned.

EASTERN BENGAL.

1115. Less than half of the landlords of Eastern Bengal are Musalmans, though Musalmans represent two-thirds of the population. One-sixth of them are Brahmans and a little over one-sixth are Kayasths. The Shahas owning estates slightly outnumber the Baidyas, and then in order come the Rajbansis, Chasi Kaibarttas, Namasudras, Telis and Tilis, and Jogis: no other caste can boast of 1,000 landlords. Estate management and the subordinate posts of rent collectors, estate clerks, etc., are chiefly in the hands of the Kayasths, Brahmans and Musalmans. It is a curious fact that though there are 54,000 Musalman landlords, only 7,500 Musalmans are engaged in estate management either in a superior or subordinate position. The Musalmans, Brahmans, Kayasths and Baidyas, practically monopolize the telegraph and post-office service and the legal profession. In the medical profession the Napits or barbers are more numerous than the Baidyas, but, as is well known, the Napits' knowledge of medicine and surgery is very limited. They open boils and abscesses, compound salves and simples, and prescribe for all forms of venereal disease. Nearly half the professors, teachers and inspecting staff of schools and colleges in Eastern Bengal are Musalmans, who are more numerous even than the Brahmans and Kayasths taken together. It is interesting to note the extent to which the lower castes are taking a place in the professions. Among the Rajbansis there are 21 lawyers, 115

medical practioners and 161 persons in educational appointments. The Namasudras claim no less than 522 medical practitioners and the Baruis 223, while other low castes as Dhobas, Kumhars, Kurmis, Malis, Malos and Patnis are also represented. Of the persons in educational posts, the Namasudras contribute 192, the Chasi Kaibarttas 245, the Shahas 214, the Baishnabs 122 and the Napits 168.

Statistics of the caste of persons in Government service have also been compiled, but as they relate only to the districts under the defunct Government of Eastern Bengal and Assam, they have an antiquarian interest rather than a practical value. Among gazetted officers the castes most strongly represented were the Kayasths, Brahmans and Baidyas, all of which had a larger number of officers than either the Musalmans or the Europeans ; the number of gazetted officers belonging to each of these latter two communities was one-sixth of the total. Three-tenths of the persons in subordinate employ were Musalmans, who were, however, slightly out-numbered by the Kayasths, and one-seventh were Brahmans. After the Brahmans, the Baidyas had the largest number of appointments and then the Sudras. Similar statistics for the police show that the Kayasths held most of the higher appointments, from that of Police Superintendent to that of head-constable, followed by the Musalmans and then by the Brahmans. The proportion of appointments held by Europeans was only one-seventh of that returned for the Kayasths. Nearly one-third of the police constables were Musalmans, who were almost twice as numerous as any other class. The second place was shared by the Brahmans and Rajputs, each with one-seventh of the total force, after whom came the Kayasths.

West and Central Bengal.

1116. Statistics compiled for West and Central Bengal show that two-fifths of the cotton weavers are Tantis, and nearly three-tenths are Jolahas. Sheikhs and Jogis or Jugis are, next to them, the most important of the weaving castes, but their proportion to the total is only 7 and 6 per cent. respectively. Over one-fourth of the boatmen are Musalman Sheikhs, about one-sixth are Mallahs and one-tenth are Chasi Kaibarttas. Five out of every eleven fishermen are Bagdis, one out of every seven is a Malo, and one out of every ten a Jaliya Kaibartta. The leather workers are, almost to a man, Chamars or Muchis. Nearly half the vendors of wine are Sunris, the remainder being mainly Pasis and Sheikhs. The groups of Musalmans last named and the Baishnabs account for half the beggars, the remaining half being a miscellany of different castes.

Bihar and Orissa.

1117. In Bihar and Orissa altogether 32 castes have 100 or more representatives among those who actually work as cotton spinners and weavers and subsist by their work. Among these the Tantis predominate, accounting for ever one-fourth of the total number, while the Jolahas constitute one-fifth. The other principal weaving castes are more or less localized, viz., the Pans of Orissa and Chota Nagpur, the Doms in the Feudatory States, and the Bhulias and Gandas of Orissa. Fishing is chiefly followed by the Mallahs and Kewats, who, between them, account for more than half of the total number of fishermen, and by he Gonrhis in the Bhagalpur division and the Gokhas in Orissa. Work in leather is almost confined to the Chamars. Kewats and Mallahs also predominate in the boating population. The retailing of wine and spirits is almost a monopoly of the Pasis, the Sunris having only a minor share of the trade. The ranks of the beggars are recruited from 89 castes, each contributing 100 or more. Unlike Bengal, where a large proportion of the beggars are either Baishnabs or Sheikhs, no caste is specially prominent among them except the Brahmans, and many of those returned as subsisting by begging are probably religious mendicants.

MISCELLANEOUS.

Castes of Income-tax Assessees.

Bengal.

1118. Some idea of the distribution of wealth among different castes may be gathered from the statistics of the castes of income-tax assessees given in Subsidiary Table XI at the end of this chapter. In Bengal over one-eighth of those assessed to the tax are Kayasths,

who derive their income mainly from commercial and professional pursuits. Their aggregate number is only a little less than that of the Musalmans, of whom only 3,177 (out of 24 millions) derive sufficient wealth from trade manufactures, professions and property to be assessed to income-tax. The next most numerous caste consists of the Brahmans, of whom half obtain their income from commerce and trade. They only slightly outnumber, however, those enterprising traders, the Shahas. Only one other caste has over 1,000 assessees, viz., the Telis and Tilis, who also make their money by wholesale and retail trade. It is somewhat surprising that two of the chief mercantile castes indigenous to Bengal, the Gandhbaniks and Subarnabaniks, should each have under 500 assessees. The great majority of the assessees have been assessed on income obtained from commerce and trade, and among them the Shahas, Musalmans, Kayasths and Brahmans have the most representatives. Two-thirds of those assessed on the income derived from professional pursuits are Brahmans and Kayasths: the Kayasths also account for over a sixth of the owners of property.

BIHAR AND ORISSA.

1119. The number of assessees in Bihar and Orissa is less that two-thirds the number returned for the richer province of Bengal. The mercantile caste of Agarwalas contributes one-eighth of the aggregate. The number returned for them is strikingly high considering their numerical strength, for the assessees actually represent 5 per cent. of all the Agarwalas, including women and children. The only other caste with over 1,000 assessees consists of the Brahmans, who owe their position to the interest they take in commercial undertakings and to their share of professional pursuits. After the Brahmans come, in order, the Telis, Sunris, Rajputs, Babhans, Kalwars and Kayasths, of whom the Sunris and Kalwars are intimately connected with the liquor trade.

As in Bengal the greater part of the assessees have come within the purview of the Income-tax Act owing to their connection with trade. One-seventh of these commercial assessees are Agarwalas, while Babhans, Brahmans, Kalwars, Sunris and Telis each contribute 7 per cent. or a little more. The Brahmans and Kayasths form three-fifths of the professional men; and the Babhans, Brahmans and Rajputs are the most important castes among the owners of property.

CASTES OF CONVICTS.

1120. The number of Musalman and Hindu convicts in Bengal is almost exactly proportionate to their strength in the population, and it cannot be said that either community has any particular propensity to crime. The largest number of Hindu criminals are Kayasths and Brahmans, but the actual number of the former is only 817 out of a million and of the latter 542 out of 1¼ million, representing 7 and 4 per 10,000 respectively. Relatively, the most criminal castes are not indigenous to Bengal, which is largely due to the fact that at the time of the census the Presidency and Alipore jails were jails to which convicts from Bihar and Orissa were sent. This concentration of convicts from outside Bengal, *e.g.*, Pans and Chasas, of whom there are few representatives in the general population, vitiates the conclusions which might otherwise be drawn from the figures. Of the indigenous castes, the most law-abiding appear to be the Rajbansis, of whom only 2 per 100,000 were in prison when the census was held. The population is only 1 per 10,000 or less among the Jolahas, Jogis, Chasi Kaibarttas, Pods, Sadgops, Santals, Shahas and Sheiks: many of the Jolahas and Sheikhs who were under sentence were however returned as Musalmans, Chasi Kaibarttas simply as Kaibarttas, and probably also Shahas as Sunris, so that the true proportion in their cases is obscured.

In Bihar and Orissa the gipsy caste or race of Nats stand by themselves, one out of every hundred being in jail. Next to them come the Dharhis, who are habitual criminals, and the Doms, one section of whom, viz., the Magahiya Doms, also have an hereditary tendency to crime; at the time of the census 4 per mille of the former and 2 per mille of the latter were undergoing sentence. The most law-abiding castes appear to be the Babhans, Chasas, Hajjams, Kandus, Khandaits, Koiris, Kumhars and Telis, among whom the proportion falls below 1 per 10,000.

OCCUPATIONS OF PERSONS LITERATE IN ENGLISH.

1121. A special return has been compiled of the occupations of persons in Eastern Bengal who were recorded both as actual workers and as literate in English. The largest number of persons satisfying this dual qualification is found among landlords, but they only slightly outnumber the English-knowing cultivators. The extent to which the knowledge of English is disseminated among the Hindus and Musalmans belonging to these two classes of agriculturists differs greatly, for in the landlord class five Hindus are literate to every Musalman, whereas among the cultivators there are five literate Musalmans to four Hindus. Taking the two classes together, we find that the agricultural community claims 37 per cent. of the workers who have an English education. Professional men, such as lawyers, doctors and teachers, account for one-sixth of the total number; there is one literate Musalman to every seven Hindus. Traders come next, with nearly 10,000 literates in English, or one-tenth of the total; among them there are nine literate Hindus to every Musalman.

SUBSIDIARY TABLE I.—General Distribution by Occupation.

Class, sub-class and order.	Bengal								Bihar and Orissa							
	Number per 10,000 of total population.		Percentage in each class, sub-class and order.		Percentage of actual workers employed.		Percentage of dependants to actual workers.		Number per 10,000 of total population.		Percentage in each class, sub-class and order.		Percentage of actual workers employed.		Percentage of dependants to actual workers.	
	Persons supported.	Actual workers.	Actual workers.	Dependants.	In cities.	In rural areas.	In cities.	In rural areas.	Persons supported.	Actual workers.	Actual workers.	Dependants.	In cities.	In rural areas.	In cities.	In rural areas.
1	2	3	4	5	6	7	8	9	10	11	12	13	14	15	16	17
BENGAL, BIHAR AND ORISSA ...	***10,000***	***3,573***	***36***	***64***	***5***	***95***	***73***	***185***	***10,000***	***4,838***	***48***	***52***	***1***	***99***	***104***	***107***
A.—PRODUCTION OF RAW MATERIALS	***7,791***	***2,536***	***33***	***67***	...	***100***	***122***	***207***	***8,095***	***3,795***	***47***	***53***	...	***100***	***123***	***113***
I.—Exploitation of the surface of the earth.	***7,766***	***2,522***	***32***	***68***	...	***100***	***122***	***208***	***8 053***	***3,765***	***47***	***53***	...	***100***	***123***	***114***
1. Pasture and agriculture	7,626	2,462	32	68	...	100	124	210	8,016	3,745	47	53	...	100	124	114
2. Fishing and hunting	140	60	43	57	1	99	100	131	37	20	54	46	1	99	79	85
II.—Extraction of minerals	***25***	***14***	***57***	***43***	...	***100***	***33***	***77***	***42***	***30***	***70***	***30***	...	***100***	***423***	***44***
3. Mines	25	14	56	44	...	100	138	78	34	24	71	29	...	100	950	40
4. Quarries of hard rocks	·19	·15	84	16	...	100	100	20	1	1	67	33	...	...	...	49
5. Salt, etc.	·06	·05	89	11	77	23	2	47	7	5	62	38	...	100	327	61
B.—PREPARATION AND SUPPLY OF MATERIAL SUBSTANCES.	***1,452***	***682***	***47***	***53***	***14***	***86***	***74***	***119***	***1,251***	***679***	***54***	***46***	***2***	***98***	***112***	***83***
III.—Industry	***743***	***362***	***49***	***51***	***12***	***88***	***78***	***109***	***728***	***399***	***55***	***45***	***2***	***98***	***102***	***82***
6. Textiles	188	98	52	48	11	89	54	96	125	66	53	47	3	97	93	89
7. Hides, skins and hard materials from the animal kingdom.	12	5	40	60	6	94	147	150	2	1	47	53	3	97	266	111
8. Wood	80	37	46	54	8	92	65	123	77	41	53	47	1	99	130	88
9. Metals	40	15	38	62	14	86	106	109	54	22	41	59	1	99	166	144
10. Ceramics	49	25	51	49	2	98	49	97	66	38	58	42	1	99	85	71
11. Chemical products properly so called and analogous.	29	11	40	60	9	91	76	150	41	24	60	40	1	99	102	68
12. Food industries	104	72	69	31	3	97	74	45	113	76	67	33	2	98	76	48
13. Industries of dress	112	46	41	59	19	81	93	156	154	84	55	45	2	98	94	83
14. Furniture industries	2	1	56	44	15	85	56	83	·18	·08	43	57	9	91	236	122
15. Building industries	49	21	43	57	27	73	84	149	36	20	56	44	5	95	120	77
16. Construction of means of transport ...	8	3	33	67	6	94	94	209	·43	·16	39	61	16	84	95	171
17. Production and transmission of physical forces.	1	1	62	38	94	6	51	230	·07	·02	27	73	14	86	36	302
18. Industries of luxury and those pertaining to literature and the arts and sciences.	58	21	37	63	22	78	113	190	48	20	41	59	4	96	144	144
19. Industries concerned with refuse matter ...	11	6	56	44	42	58	60	92	12	7	63	37	5	95	69	58

SUBSIDIARY TABLE I.—General Distribution by Occupation—*continued.*

Class, sub-class and order.	Bengal.								Bihar and Orissa.							
	Number per 10,000 of total population.		Percentage in each class, sub-class and order.		Percentage of actual workers employed.		Percentage of dependants to actual workers.		Number per 10,000 of total population.		Percentage in each class, sub-class and order.		Percentage of actual workers employed.		Percentage of dependants to actual workers.	
	Persons supported.	Actual workers.	Actual workers.	Dependants.	In cities.	In rural areas.	In cities	In rural areas.	Persons supported.	Actual workers.	Actual workers.	Dependants.	In cities.	In rural areas.	In cities.	In rural areas.
1	2	3	4	5	6	7	8	9	10	11	12	13	14	15	16	17
IV.—Transport	***208***	***110***	***53***	***47***	***21***	***79***	***49***	***99***	***94***	***43***	***46***	***54***	***4***	***96***	***101***	***120***
30. Transport by water	67	33	49	51	30	70	28	138	14	5	28	62	2	98	50	166
31. Transport by road	99	58	59	41	15	85	50	73	56	28	49	51	5	95	96	109
32. Transport by rail	35	16	47	53	25	75	90	118	21	9	44	56	4	96	136	131
33. Post-office, telegraph and telephone services	7	3	37	63	26	74	101	191	3	1	38	62	6	94	150	166
V.—Trade	***501***	***210***	***42***	***58***	***13***	***87***	***88***	***146***	***429***	***237***	***55***	***45***	***2***	***98***	***134***	***80***
34. Banks, establishments of credit, exchange and insurance	28	9	32	68	13	87	108	224	18	8	43	57	3	97	149	132
35. Brokerage, commission and export	10	4	37	63	42	58	120	212	6	3	47	53	5	95	155	111
36. Trade in textiles	42	17	40	60	19	81	98	168	27	12	43	57	4	96	130	135
37. Trade in skins, leather and furs	19	7	39	61	12	88	87	164	10	4	40	60	2	98	314	147
38. Trade in wood	10	5	48	52	11	89	96	112	10	6	63	37	1	99	77	58
39. Trade in metals	3	1	41	59	48	52	85	204	1	·51	38	62	4	96	235	137
30. Trade in pottery	6	3	49	51	2	98	131	103	4	2	61	39	...	100	218	65
31. Trade in chemical products	3	1	45	55	26	74	66	139	10	6	57	43	1	99	195	75
32. Hotels, cafes, restaurants, etc.	6	3	48	52	30	70	76	120	23	11	49	51	3	97	118	104
33. Other trade in food-stuffs	300	127	42	58	9	91	75	142	246	140	57	43	2	98	120	75
34. Trade in clothing and toilet articles	5	2	47	53	53	47	65	170	4	2	49	51	8	92	140	101
35. Trade in furniture	9	4	39	61	14	86	114	162	4	2	44	56	5	95	279	119
36. Trade in building materials	3	1	40	60	9	91	131	134	1	1	54	46	3	97	231	77
37. Trade in means of transport	4	1	40	60	12	88	73	161	2	1	51	49	2	98	77	98
38. Trade in fuel	10	7	69	31	15	85	47	45	28	22	78	22	1	99	112	98
39. Trade in articles of luxury and those pertaining to letters and the arts and sciences	19	8	39	61	21	79	133	159	12	6	51	49	5	95	117	94
40. Trade in refuse matter	·09	·03	32	68	67	33	74	491	·01	·008	68	32	3	97	...	45
41. Trade of other sorts	24	10	41	59	28	74	106	160	23	11	48	52	4	96	172	168
C.—PUBLIC ADMINISTRATION AND LIBERAL ARTS.	***255***	***91***	***36***	***64***	***15***	***85***	***135***	***186***	***170***	***73***	***43***	***57***	***4***	***96***	***146***	***133***
VI.—Public force	***40***	***15***	***38***	***62***	***15***	***85***	***29***	***189***	***47***	***18***	***38***	***62***	***4***	***96***	***56***	***170***
42. Army	2	2	81	19	59	41	16	35	...	·35	...	·26	76	24	8	92	9	32
43. Navy	·003	·003	93	7	...	...	...	7	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...
44. Police	38	13	34	66	10	90	37	197	47	18	37	63	4	96	58	172

SUBSIDIARY TABLE I.—General Distribution by Occupation—*concluded.*

Class, sub-class and order.	Bengal								Bihar and Orissa							
	Number per 10,000 of total population.		Percentage in each class, sub-class and order.		Percentage of actual workers employed.		Percentage of dependants to actual workers.		Number per 10,000 of total population.		Percentage in each class, sub-class and order.		Percentage of actual workers employed.		Percentage of dependants to actual workers.	
	Persons supported.	Actual workers.	Actual workers.	Dependants.	In cities.	In rural areas.	In cities.	In rural areas.	Persons supported.	Actual workers.	Actual workers.	Dependants.	In cities.	In rural areas.	In cities.	In rural areas.
1	2	3	4	5	6	7	8	9	10	11	12	13	14	15	16	17
VII.—Public administration (order 45).	*29*	*9*	*33*	*67*	*38*	*62*	*141*	*245*	*17*	*6*	*35*	*65*	*5*	*95*	*270*	*178*
VIII.—Professions and liberal arts	*175*	*64*	*36*	*64*	*10*	*90*	*149*	*178*	*103*	*48*	*47*	*53*	*3*	*97*	*161*	*112*
46. Religion	80	30	37	63	7	93	95	176	54	24	44	56	3	97	116	126
47. Law	16	4	25	75	20	80	271	310	6	2	28	72	11	89	349	349
48. Medicine	35	12	33	67	9	91	192	186	14	9	63	37	3	97	200	55
49. Instruction	21	9	41	59	11	89	150	145	14	6	46	54	4	96	166	115
50. Letters and arts and sciences	23	9	40	60	13	87	121	157	15	7	49	51	4	96	107	103
IX.—Persons living on their income (order 51).	*11*	*3*	*32*	*68*	*48*	*52*	*207*	*221*	*3*	*1*	*36*	*64*	*14*	*86*	*118*	*191*
D. MISCELLANEOUS	*502*	*264*	*53*	*47*	*20*	*80*	*50*	*100*	*484*	*291*	*60*	*40*	*3*	*97*	*61*	*66*
X.—Domestic Service (order 52)	*114*	*79*	*69*	*31*	*26*	*74*	*39*	*46*	*189*	*115*	*61*	*39*	*4*	*96*	*52*	*64*
XI.—Insufficiently described occupations (order 53).	*292*	*122*	*42*	*58*	*22*	*78*	*67*	*157*	*245*	*143*	*58*	*42*	*2*	*98*	*87*	*72*
XII.—Unproductive	*96*	*63*	*65*	*35*	*11*	*89*	*17*	*58*	*50*	*33*	*66*	*34*	*3*	*97*	*20*	*51*
4. Inmates of jails, asylums and hospitals	3	3	100	...	42	58	...	...	2	2	100	...	6	94	...	...
55. Beggars, vagrants and prostitutes	93	60	64	36	9	91	21	59	48	31	65	35	3	97	24	55

SUBSIDIARY TABLE II.—Distribution by Occupation in Natural Divisions.

Group No.	Occupation.	Number per mille of total population supported in—										
		Bengal.	West Bengal.	Central Bengal.	North Bengal.	East Bengal.	Bihar and Orissa.	North Bihar.	South Bihar.	Orissa.	Chota Nagpur Plateau.	Sikkim.
	1	2	3	4	5	6	7	8	9	10	11	12
	TOTAL	*1,000*	*1,000*	*1,000*	*1,000*	*1,000*	*1,000*	*1,000*	*1,000*	*1,000*	*1,000*	*1,000*
	I.—Exploitation of the surface of the earth.	*777*	740	653	845	806	*805*	871	749	767	778	962
	1. (a) Agriculture ...	*754*	714	621	825	789	*783*	854	729	738	730	944
1	Income from rent of agricultural land.	*26*	34	32	13	28	*16*	17	12	17	14	3
2	Ordinary cultivators ...	*642*	515	471	735	720	*572*	626	473	607	562	941
4	Farm servants and field laborers.	*74*	160	109	51	34	*189*	207	226	108	171	...
	1. (b) Pasture	*7*	14	12	5	2	*17*	12	17	18	22	7
	Others	*2*	1	2	4	...	*1*	1	1	1	3	1
	2. Fishing and hunting ...	*14*	11	18	11	15	*4*	4	2	10	3	...
	II.—Extraction of minerals	*2*	14	...	...	...	*4*	2	1	...	10	...
16	Coal mines ...	*2*	13	...	...	...	*3*	...	...	...	10	...
	III.—Industry	*74*	103	130	46	54	*73*	49	103	106	70	5
	7. Textile industries ...	*19*	30	38	8	12	*13*	5	14	22	17	1
22	Cotton spinning	*10*	13	10	5	11	*10*	3	9	19	16	1
24	Jute spinning	*7*	15	23	1	...	...	...	1	1	...	...
	8. Wood industries ...	*8*	10	10	6	7	*8*	6	9	11	8	...
	9. Metal industries ...	*4*	8	7	2	2	*5*	3	6	6	9	1
	12. Food industries ...	*10*	20	15	9	5	*11*	8	14	25	9	...
	13. Industries of dress and the toilet.	*11*	13	20	5	10	*15*	12	25	22	10	2
	Other industries	*22*	22	40	16	18	*21*	15	35	20	17	1
	IV.—Transport	*21*	26	35	13	17	*9*	6	19	10	7	4
37	Boat-owners, boatmen, etc.	*5*	2	6	2	7	*1*	1	2	2	1	...
	V.—Trade	*50*	50	76	31	50	*43*	37	62	55	33	13
	26 Trade in textiles ...	*4*	4	6	2	5	*3*	3	4	2	2	...
	32 and 33. Trade in foodstuffs.	*31*	30	47	19	30	*27*	25	41	33	18	3
	Other trades	*15*	16	23	10	15	*13*	9	17	20	13	10
	VI.—Public force	*4*	5	6	4	3	*5*	3	5	5	6	4
	VII.—Public administration	*3*	3	7	1	2	*2*	1	1	4	2	1
	VIII.—Professions and liberal arts.	*18*	23	21	8	19	*10*	6	18	22	7	4
	IX.—Persons living on their income.	*1*	2	4	...	...	...	...	...	1	...	...
	X.—Domestic service ...	*11*	17	27	6	5	*19*	11	23	10	29	8
	XI.—Insufficiently described occupations.	*29*	12	30	34	34	*25*	9	13	14	53	7
	XII.—Unproductive	*10*	5	11	12	10	*5*	3	6	6	5	2

SUBSIDIARY TABLE III.—Distribution of the Agricultural, Industrial, Commercial and Professional Population in Natural Divisions and Districts.

Serial No.	District and Natural Divisions.	Agriculture: Population supported by agriculture.	Agriculture: Proportion of agricultural population per 1,000 of district population.	Agriculture: Percentage on Agricultural population of— Actual workers.	Agriculture: Percentage on Agricultural population of— Dependants.	Industry (including mines): Population supported by industry.	Industry (including mines): Proportion of industrial population per 1,000 of district population.	Percentage on Industrial population of— Actual workers.	Percentage on Industrial population of— Dependants.	Commerce: Population supported by commerce.	Commerce: Proportion of commercial population per 1,000 of district population.	Percentage on Commercial population of— Actual workers.	Percentage on Commercial population of— Dependants.	Professions: Population supported by professions.	Professions: Proportion of professional population per 1,000 of district population.	Percentage on Professional population of— Actual workers.	Percentage on Professional population of— Dependants.	Serial No.
1	2	3	4	5	6	7	8	9	10	11	12	13	14	15	16	17	18	20
	BENGAL	**34,937,017**	**754**	**32**	**68**	**3,556,527**	**76**	**49**	**51**	**3,283,826**	**71**	**45**	**55**	**811,939**	**18**	**36**	**64**	
	West Bengal ...	**6,048,434**	**714**	**36**	**64**	**989,948**	**117**	**54**	**46**	**648,424**	**76**	**50**	**50**	**192,709**	**23**	**43**	**57**	
1	Burdwan...	1,029,093	669	35	65	232,730	151	55	45	116,768	76	52	48	32,393	21	45	55	1
2	Birbhum	716,382	766	35	65	78,980	84	64	36	52,650	56	58	42	12,936	14	59	41	2
3	Bankura	841,648	739	41	59	110,007	97	53	47	78,101	68	59	41	20,506	18	42	58	3
4	Midnapore	2,292,430	813	37	63	207,788	74	54	46	147,406	50	51	49	61,768	22	48	52	4
5	Hooghly	701,444	643	34	66	161,737	148	54	46	111,091	102	47	53	35,636	33	36	64	5
6	Howrah	467,457	495	30	70	198,706	211	50	50	143,478	152	44	56	29,470	31	33	67	6
	Central Bengal ...	**5,012,528**	**621**	**32**	**68**	**1,047,612**	**130**	**52**	**48**	**898,375**	**111**	**49**	**51**	**171,466**	**21**	**37**	**63**	
7	24-Parganas	1,602,403	659	32	68	391,224	161	58	42	211,935	87	48	52	44,037	18	33	67	7
8	Calcutta	31,026	35	42	58	188,691	211	60	40	279,595	312	62	38	51,940	58	41	59	8
9	Nadia	1,071,060	662	33	67	181,009	112	41	59	164,015	101	38	62	31,936	20	33	67	9
10	Murshidabad	953,469	695	31	69	157,312	115	50	50	105,513	77	46	54	18,106	13	41	59	10
11	Jessore	1,353,540	770	33	67	129,376	74	41	59	137,317	78	39	61	25,447	14	36	64	11
	North Bengal ...	**8,856,453**	**825**	**34**	**66**	**490,459**	**46**	**51**	**49**	**477,676**	**44**	**53**	**47**	**89,245**	**8**	**41**	**59**	
12	Rajshahi	1,189,377	790	33	67	74,320	50	51	49	63,704	43	51	49	14,409	10	41	59	12
13	Dinajpur	1,537,792	911	34	66	47,205	28	58	42	47,252	28	60	40	6,978	4	51	49	13
14	Jalpaiguri	810,150	897	43	57	22,291	25	61	39	29,747	33	68	32	5,139	6	53	47	14
15	Darjeeling	191,045	738	56	44	11,773	44	57	43	17,179	65	58	42	3,369	13	42	58	15
16	Rangpore	2,091,761	877	32	68	50,026	21	53	47	101,516	42	55	45	13,646	7	43	57	16
17	Bogra	850,533	865	37	73	37,132	38	43	57	30,608	31	48	52	8,096	8	39	61	17
18	Pabna	1,019,301	713	31	69	129,605	91	38	62	103,889	73	41	59	20,506	14	32	68	18
19	Malda	663,939	661	38	62	102,071	102	61	39	54,736	54	53	47	8,762	9	44	56	19
20	Cooch Behar	517,765	873	35	65	16,036	27	58	42	29,045	49	69	31	6,340	11	45	55	20
	East Bengal	**15,019,602**	**789**	**28**	**72**	**1,028,508**	**54**	**40**	**60**	**1,263,351**	**67**	**37**	**63**	**358,519**	**19**	**31**	**69**	
21	Khulna	1,117,733	818	31	69	62,843	46	39	61	96,363	70	37	63	22,762	17	35	65	21
22	Dacca	1,993,173	673	28	72	280,957	95	36	64	337,690	114	32	68	76,192	26	28	72	22
23	Mymensingh	3,808,579	841	31	69	178,852	40	43	57	239,724	53	45	55	45,103	10	36	64	23
24	Faridpur	1,716,458	809	28	72	116,778	55	37	63	140,302	66	37	63	39,437	19	30	70	24
25	Backergunge	2,005,041	825	28	72	110,586	46	42	58	126,094	52	42	58	49,226	20	31	69	25
26	Tippera	2,007,422	826	28	72	98,696	40	40	60	120,705	50	37	63	43,395	18	34	66	26
27	Noakhali	1,029,022	793	16	84	23,825	18	40	60	43,757	34	31	69	21,437	16	32	68	27
28	Chittagong	969,507	643	25	75	123,114	82	44	56	93,587	102	30	70	58,134	38	27	73	28
29	Chittagong Hill Tracts	148,585	906	59	41	885	6	85	15	1,621	10	91	9	407	3	61	39	29
30	Hill Tippera	214,082	932	46	54	2,972	13	67	33	3,648	16	62	38	2,426	11	41	59	30
	SIKKIM	**83,039**	**944**	**66**	**34**	**425**	**5**	**74**	**26**	**1,527**	**17**	**76**	**24**	**364**	**4**	**86**	**14**	
	CITIES	**49,017**	**37**	**43**	**57**	**345,069**	**259**	**56**	**44**	**402,654**	**303**	**59**	**41**	**71,152**	**53**	**40**	**60**	

The agricultural population is represented by groups I-6 (ordinary cultivation and growing of special products and market gardening) of the classified scheme the industrial by sub-classes II and III (extraction of minerals and industry), the commercial by classes IV and V (transport and trade) and the professional by sub-class VIII (professions and liberal arts).

SUBSIDIARY TABLE III.—Distribution of the Agricultural, Industrial, Commercial and Professional population in Natural Divisions and Districts.

Serial number.	Districts and Natural Divisions.	Agriculture.				Industry (including mines).				Commerce.				Professions.				Serial number.
		Population supported by agriculture.	Proportion of agricultural population per 1,000 of district population.	Percentage on agricultural population of—		Population supported by industry.	Proportion of industrial population per 1,000 of district population.	Percentage on industrial population of—		Population supported by commerce.	Proportion of commercial population per 1,000 of district population.	Percentage on commercial population of—		Population supported by professions.	Proportion of professional population per 1,000 of district population.	Percentage on professional population of—		
				Actual workers.	Dependants.			Actual workers.	Dependants.			Actual workers.	Dependants.			Actual workers.	Dependants.	
1	2	3	4	5	6	7	8	9	10	11	12	13	14	15	16	17	18	19
	BIHAR AND ORISSA ...	*30,083,572*	*783*	*46*	*54*	*2,960,338*	*77*	*56*	*44*	*2,011,218*	*52*	*53*	*47*	*395,107*	*10*	*47*	*53*	
	North Bihar	*12,039,461*	*854*	*42*	*58*	*716,706*	*51*	*54*	*46*	*618,369*	*43*	*54*	*46*	*80,149*	*6*	*53*	*47*	
1	Saran	1,971,343	861	47	53	134,607	59	54	46	89,867	39	54	46	13,394	6	45	55	1
2	Champaran	1,728,902	906	43	57	58,563	31	54	46	53,978	28	55	45	4,941	3	58	42	2
3	Muzaffarpur	2,467,291	867	36	64	125,293	44	53	47	114,208	40	54	46	17,017	6	54	46	3
4	Darbhanga	2,501,042	854	37	63	150,747	51	50	50	119,936	41	55	45	21,237	7	57	43	4
5	Bhagalpur	1,757,733	822	45	55	113,362	52	52	48	122,098	57	52	48	13,068	6	48	52	5
6	Purnea	1,612,950	811	40	60	134,142	67	59	41	118,282	59	57	43	9,892	5	57	43	6
	South Bihar	*5,662,520*	*729*	*51*	*49*	*807,603*	*104*	*54*	*46*	*629,076*	*81*	*50*	*50*	*137,834*	*18*	*46*	*54*	
7	Patna	1,118,820	695	50	50	176,504	110	52	48	145,880	90	49	51	30,464	19	41	59	7
8	Gaya	1,974,689	729	53	47	228,159	106	54	46	166,668	77	50	50	42,803	20	44	56	8
9	Shahabad	1,341,732	719	52	48	229,376	123	55	45	131,239	70	51	49	37,090	20	51	49	9
10	Monghyr	1,627,283	763	49	51	173,564	81	55	45	185,269	87	50	50	27,477	13	46	54	10
	Orissa	*3,092,589*	*738*	*32*	*68*	*444,799*	*106*	*56*	*44*	*271,333*	*65*	*56*	*44*	*90,570*	*22*	*42*	*58*	
11	Cuttack	1,433,555	689	32	68	276,394	131	55	45	158,199	75	54	46	47,637	23	39	61	11
12	Balasore	889,887	843	31	69	64,328	61	63	37	35,266	33	60	40	12,098	12	54	46	12
13	Puri	749,147	732	34	66	104,217	102	56	44	77,868	76	58	42	30,845	30	42	58	13
	Chota Nagpur Plateau	*9,289,002*	*750*	*53*	*47*	*991,230*	*80*	*58*	*42*	*492,440*	*40*	*55*	*45*	*86,554*	*7*	*47*	*53*	
14	Hazaribagh	1,007,869	782	59	41	74,850	58	63	37	36,588	43	50	50	10,687	8	51	49	14
15	Ranchi	868,340	626	59	41	113,752	82	53	47	92,463	67	53	47	11,779	8	41	59	15
16	Palamau	517,946	734	54	46	49,810	72	56	44	26,376	38	55	45	3,398	5	54	46	16
17	Manbhum	919,925	594	55	45	195,364	126	62	38	29,853	38	55	45	5,635	4	55	45	17
18	Singhbhum	534,631	799	58	42	30,343	44	52	48	25,842	37	52	48	3,075	4	48	52	18
19	Santhal Parganas	1,630,958	866	57	43	83,312	44	61	39	58,890	31	49	51	8,589	5	50	50	19
20	Angul	132,788	786	48	52	16,995	85	51	49	6,986	35	62	38	1,132	6	52	48	20
21	Sambalpur	569,932	766	60	40	85,171	114	65	35	27,922	38	63	37	7,996	11	46	54	21
22	Orissa Feudatory States ...	2,971,100	783	44	56	333,982	88	56	44	155,134	41	60	40	34,215	9	46	54	22
23	Chota Nagpur States ...	95,572	643	54	46	7,742	52	47	53	4,386	29	54	46	538	4	47	53	23
	CITIES	*43,959*	*169*	*43*	*57*	*71,900*	*276*	*50*	*50*	*60,054*	*231*	*44*	*56*	*16,320*	*62*	*38*	*62*	

The agricultural population is represented by groups 1—6 (ordinary cultivation and growing of special products and market gardening) of the classified scheme, the industrial by sub-classes II and III (extraction of minerals and industry), the commercial by sub-classes IV and V (transport and trade) and the professional by sub-class VIII (professions and liberal arts).

SUBSIDIARY TABLE IV.—Occupations combined with Agriculture (where Agriculture is the subsidiary occupation).

Occupation.	Number per mille who are partially agriculturists.										
	Bengal.	West Bengal.	Central Bengal.	North Bengal.	East Bengal.	Bihar and Orissa.	North Bihar.	South Bihar.	Orissa.	Chota Nagpur Plateau.	Sikkim.
1	2	3	4	5	6	7	8	9	10	11	12
TOTAL	**25**	**29**	**26**	**16**	**29**	**22**	**19**	**24**	**42**	**19**	...
I.—Exploitation of the surface of the earth.	5	4	5	4	5	4	3	5	9	3	...
1.—(a) *Agriculture*	2	1	2	2	2	1	1	2	3	...	...
(3) Agents, managers of landed estates (not planters), clerks, rent-collectors, etc.	187	145	186	174	222	140	149	140	220	87	...
(5) *Pasture*	12	15	5	5	43	42	56	64	44	34	...
2. Fishing and hunting	85	71	70	87	102	174	186	161	218	107	...
Others (groups 7, 8 and 13) ...	88	61	127	71	137	92	49	79	49	128	...
II.—Extraction of minerals ...	29	29	19	...	56	124	153	100	53	115	...
(16) Coal mines	29	29	19	...	...	118	56	32	89	119	...
III.—Industry	72	78	58	68	113	114	116	97	113	153	...
6. Textile industries	59	72	25	53	110	136	132	106	82	176	...
(22) Cotton spinning, sizing and weaving.	108	126	78	69	120	143	156	93	83	181	...
(23) Jute spinning, pressing and weaving.	23	39	11	19	121	201	120	319	91	95	...
8. Wood industries	80	59	50	65	127	104	83	114	142	100	...
9. Metal do.	104	141	55	116	123	129	169	113	206	107	...
12. Food do.	18	18	11	20	28	63	60	63	40	36	...
13. Industries of dress and the toilet.	136	161	61	134	199	144	158	114	167	116	...
Other industries	86	125	42	96	98	111	120	91	172	108	...
IV.—Transport	88	15	94	69	106	50	107	79	124	74	...
(27) Boat-owners, boatmen, and towmen.	119	158	108	69	135	107	115	89	136	91	...
V.—Trade	88	93	64	78	119	82	95	62	93	82	3
26. Trade in textiles	92	103	53	91	115	101	105	73	122	121	...
32 and 33. Trade in food-stuffs.	90	94	71	76	111	77	83	61	93	79	16
Other trade	88	88	54	83	115	89	129	62	90	83	...
VI.—Public force	242	300	184	181	275	277	237	216	388	311	...
VII.—Public administration ...	143	139	78	171	243	178	187	142	206	155	29
VIII.—Professions and liberal arts.	153	148	107	155	161	168	163	168	199	166	13
IX.—Persons living on their income.	89	147	40	106	209	111	143	93	172	66	...
X.—Domestic service	25	21	18	27	46	31	50	39	52	14	...
XI.—Insufficiently described occupations.	49	52	30	29	73	21	53	38	56	17	10
XII.—Unproductive	14	24	8	16	19	34	40	36	44	29	2

SUBSIDIARY TABLE V.—Occupations combined with agriculture.

(Where agriculture is the principal occupation.)

LANDLORDS (RENT-RECEIVERS).			CULTIVATORS (RENT-PAYERS).			FARM SERVANTS AND FIELD-LABOURERS.		
Subsidiary Occupation.	Number per 10,000 who follow it.		Subsidiary Occupation.	Number per 10,000 who follow it.		Subsidiary Occupation.	Number per 10,000 who follow it.	
	Bengal.	Bihar and Orissa.		Bengal.	Bihar and Orissa.		Bengal.	Bihar and Orissa.
1	2	3	4	5	6	7	8	9
TOTAL	*2,748*	*2,530*	TOTAL	*1,372*	*1,799*	TOTAL	*677*	*514*
Rent-payers	981	1,872	Rent-receivers	94	106	Rent-receivers	17	6
Agricultural labourers ...	50	71	Agricultural labourers ...	235	446	Rent-payers	195	138
Government servants of all kinds	65	42	General labourers	152	111	General labourers	143	57
Money-lenders and grain-dealers	301	111	Government servants of all kinds.	6	11	Village watchmen	8	3
Other traders of all kinds ...	310	50	Money-lenders and grain-dealers.	60	42	Cattle-breeders and milkmen	10	19
Priests	224	69	Other traders of all kinds ...	252	203	Mill hands	1	2
Clerks of all kinds (not Government)	93	14	Fishermen and boatmen ...	72	46	Fishermen and boatmen ...	56	31
Schoolmasters	86	17	Cattle-breeders and milkmen	25	84	Rice-pounders	17	13
Lawyers	17	9	Village watchmen	28	23	Traders of all kinds ...	22	18
Estate agents and managers ...	118	1	Weavers	32	67	Oil-pressers	2	5
Medical practitioners	89	7	Barbers	28	53	Weavers	5	9
Artisans	48	10	Oil-pressers	18	45	Potters	2	5
Others	363	240	Washermen	12	36	Leather workers	6	11
			Potters	11	46	Blacksmiths and carpenters	6	5
			Blacksmiths and carpenters	37	60	Washermen	4	8
			Others	310	421	Others	192	194

SUBSIDIARY TABLE VI.—Occupations of Females by sub-classes, and selected Orders and Groups.

Group No.	Occupations.	Bengal.			Bihar and Orissa.		
		Number of actual workers.		Number of females per 1,000 males.	Number of actual workers.		Number of females per 1,000 males.
		Males.	Females.		Males.	Females.	
1	2	3	4	5	6	7	8
	Total	*14,388,474*	*2,267,005*	*151*	*11,946,878*	*6,649,113*	*557*
	I.—EXPLOITATION OF THE SURFACE OF THE EARTH.	*10,701,511*	*978,912*	*91*	*9,522,342*	*4,842,840*	*504*
	1.—PASTURE AND AGRICULTURE	*10,448,762*	*911,763*	*87*	*9,371,813*	*4,822,504*	*564*
	(a) Ordinary cultivation	*10,076,374*	*788,354*	*78*	*9,153,960*	*4,672,400*	*510*
1	Income from rent of agricultural land	265,479	63,328	240	197,538	45,559	231
2	Ordinary cultivators	8,422,860	482,998	57	6,621,769	2,518,805	380
4	Farm servants and field labourers	1,213,806	241,928	184	2,310,653	2,198,096	952
	(b) Growers of special products and market gardening ...	*129,936*	*95,435*	*723*	*19,809*	*1,965*	*104*
5	Tea, coffee, cinchona and indigo plantations	93,791	91,776	938	2,525	339	134
6	Fruit, flower, vegetable betel, vine, arecanut, etc., growers	33,445	1,656	50	8,284	1,654	200
	(c) Forestry	*12,397*	*4,784*	*381*	*16,363*	*16,317*	*997*
8	Wood-cutters, firewood, lac, catechu, rubber, etc., collectors and charcoal burners.	11,595	4,616	398	14,382	16,317	1,135
	(d) Raising of farm stock	*261,157*	*11,300*	*43*	*390,271*	*153,157*	*339*
9	Cattle and buffalo breeders and keepers	21,529	4,066	189	78,766	76,747	1,000
12	Herdsmen, shepherds, goatherds, etc.	238,621	7,012	29	310,086	92,995	171
13	*(e) Raising of small animals (birds, bees, silkworms, etc.)* ...	*3,998*	*1,658*	*1,562*	*905*	*37*	*180*
	2.—FISHING AND HUNTING	*212,749*	*67,144*	*316*	*50,529*	*26,536*	*532*
14	Fishing	211,670	66,943	316	47,168	25,917	550
	II.—EXTRACTION OF MINERALS	*40,354*	*25,164*	*624*	*68,403*	*45,653*	*667*
	3.—MINES	*35,499*	*25,013*	*632*	*58,721*	*34,744*	*592*
16	Coalmines	30,495	25,013	633	57,144	33,051	578
	III.—INDUSTRY	*1,751,202*	*544,380*	*481*	*812,654*	*724,675*	*891*
	6.—TEXTILES	*547,257*	*107,067*	*208*	*145,608*	*110,558*	*768*
21	Cotton ginning, cleaning and pressing	347	131	378	3,949	4,862	1,150
22	Cotton spinning, sizing and weaving	144,168	45,303	314	119,648	87,916	735
23	Jute spinning, pressing and weaving	177,720	37,914	213	8,126	956	118
24	Rope, twine and string	5,092	12,935	2,540	2,177	7,402	3,400
27	Silk spinners and weavers	17,929	9,443	527	2,346	3,029	1,291
	8.—WOOD	*124,606*	*44,297*	*356*	*90,594*	*66,865*	*740*
37	Basket makers and other industries of woody materials including leaves	37,136	43,018	1,158	45,838	62,926	1,373
	9.—METALS	*69,272*	*1,635*	*23*	*70,390*	*14,896*	*212*
	10.—CERAMICS	*51,085*	*34,749*	*680*	*84,670*	*83,942*	*992*
47	Potters and earthen pipe and bowl makers	19,882	30,087	502	68,670	51,315	747
48	Brick and tile-makers	20,133	4,331	215	4,299	2,536	590
	11.—CHEMICAL PRODUCTS PROPERLY SO CALLED AND ANALOGOUS.	*42,329*	*9,616*	*227*	*45,766*	*47,073*	*1,027*
53	Manufacture and refining of vegetable and mineral oils	39,110	8,465	216	38,634	41,970	1,081
	12.—FOOD INDUSTRIES	*48,474*	*290,154*	*6,831*	*68,064*	*224,758*	*3,301*
56	Rice pounders and huskers and flour grinders	10,006	273,512	27,335	7,977	126,289	15,832
58	Grain parchers, etc.	2,187	13,399	6,127	28,901	90,132	3,119
	13.—INDUSTRIES OF DRESS AND THE TOILET	*179,156*	*32,499*	*181*	*183,935*	*159,893*	*786*
68	Tailors, milliners, dress-makers and darners, embroiderers on linen ...	37,429	3,431	92	23,361	20,819	891
71	Washing, cleaning and dyeing	39,704	20,001	504	59,384	71,247	1,200
72	Barbers, hairdressers and wig-makers	70,915	8,186	115	74,362	39,703	534
	15.—BUILDING INDUSTRIES	*90,895*	*8,101*	*89*	*59,179*	*24,908*	*421*
77	Excavators, plinth builders and well-sinkers	4,843	878	181	23,358	19,340	827

SUBSIDIARY TABLE VI.—Occupations of Females by sub-classes, and selected Orders and Groups—*concluded.*

Group No.	Occupations.	Bengal. Number of actual workers. Males.	Bengal. Number of actual workers. Females.	Bengal. Number of females per 1,000 males.	Bihar and Orissa. Number of actual workers. Males.	Bihar and Orissa. Number of actual workers. Females.	Bihar and Orissa. Number of females per 1,000 males.
1	2	3	4	5	6	7	8
	***III.—INDUSTRY*—concluded.**						
	18.—INDUSTRIES OF LUXURY AND THOSE PERTAINING TO LITERATURE AND THE ARTS AND SCIENCES.	*94,047*	*4,524*	*48*	*60,042*	*15,216*	*253*
90	Makers of bangles, rosaries, bead and other necklaces, spangles, lingams and sacred threads.	3,735	2,942	788	13,221	11,619	879
93	19.—INDUSTRIES CONCERNED WITH REFUSE MATTER (SWEEPERS, SCAVENGERS, DUST AND SWEEPING CONTRACTORS).	*20,152*	*7,592*	*377*	*10,041*	*18,654*	*1,858*
	IV.—TRANSPORT	*476,312*	*32,078*	*67*	*149,795*	*15,103*	*101*
	21.—TRANSPORT BY ROAD	*241,861*	*28,653*	*118*	*98,185*	*13,927*	*140*
98	Persons employed on the construction and maintenance of roads and bridges.	100,133	27,027	270	8,398	7,135	850
102	Porters and messengers	21,711	1,352	58	17,547	4,843	276
	V.—TRADE	*752,493*	*221,631*	*295*	*455,803*	*454,779*	*996*
110	28.—TRADE IN WOOD	*13,230*	*8,376*	*633*	*13,428*	*10,197*	*754*
112	30.—TRADE IN POTTERY	*9,702*	*3,718*	*380*	*3,291*	*6,523*	*1,982*
	32.—HOTELS, CAFES, RESTAURANTS, ETC.	*13,640*	*823*	*60*	*26,652*	*16,871*	*636*
114	Vendors of wine, liquor, aerated waters, etc.	9,418	337	25	25,965	16,559	638
	33.—OTHER TRADE IN FOOD-STUFFS	*422,015*	*158,365*	*367*	*255,849*	*262,429*	*1,104*
116	Fish dealers	82,925	59,864	722	19,203	43,349	2,257
117	Grocers and sellers of vegetable oil, salt and other condiments ...	123,774	13,187	107	90,826	78,979	870
118	Sellers of milk, butter, ghee, poultry, eggs, etc.	45,640	18,316	401	13,635	27,984	2,052
120	Cardamom, betel leaf, vegetable, fruit and arecanut sellers	70,871	28,202	398	54,629	61,004	1,762
121	Grain and pulse dealers	62,407	33,603	538	65,496	50,672	774
124	Dealers in hay, grass and fodder	3,063	910	297	2,384	4,838	2,029
130	38.—TRADE IN FUEL (DEALERS IN FIRE-WOOD, CHARCOAL, COAL, COW-DUNG, ETC.)	*9,383*	*23,017*	*2,453*	*10,738*	*74,505*	*6,938*
132	Dealers in common bangles, bead, necklaces, fans, small articles, toys, hunting and fishing tackle, flowers, etc.	20,316	4,663	230	11,431	10,027	877
	41.—TRADE OF OTHER SORTS	*42,120*	*3,375*	*80*	*29,194*	*12,879*	*441*
	VI.—PUBLIC FORCE	*69,393*	...	...	*67,926*	...	...
	VII.—(ORDER 45) PUBLIC ADMINISTRATION.	*43,315*	*619*	*14*	*3,135*	*535*	*85*
	VIII.—PROFESSIONS AND LIBERAL ARTS ...	*958,438*	*36,724*	*140*	*143,567*	*41,374*	*287*
	46.—RELIGION	*119,597*	*17,309*	*144*	*76,822*	*14,313*	*186*
	48.—MEDICINE	*41,844*	*15,949*	*564*	*11,804*	*22,221*	*1,882*
155	Midwives, vaccinators, compounders, nurses, masseurs, etc. ...	4,393	14,310	3,257	5,733	21,781	3,786
161	***IX.—(ORDER 51). PERSONS LIVING PRINCIPALLY ON THEIR INCOME.***	*10,964*	*5,623*	*513*	*2,506*	*1,035*	*413*
	X.—(ORDER 52). DOMESTIC SERVICE ...	*254,356*	*111,590*	*439*	*227,603*	*215,554*	*947*
162	Cooks, water-carriers, door-keepers, watchmen and other indoor servants.	240,622	111,413	463	206,992	213,750	1,033
	XI.—(ORDER 53). INSUFFICIENTLY DESCRIBED OCCUPATIONS (GENERAL TERMS WHICH DO NOT INDICATE A DEFINITE OCCUPATION.)	*534,951*	*43,376*	*83*	*361,241*	*246,824*	*317*
167	Labourers and workmen otherwise unspecified	433,603	42,158	97	279,315	244,615	876
	XII.—UNPRODUCTIVE	*123,347*	*167,508*	*1,358*	*72,028*	*55,47*	*770*
168	54.—INMATES OF JAILS, ASYLUMS AND HOSPITALS ...	*13,124*	*1,001*	*76*	7,870	1,190	*151*
169	55.—BEGGARS, VAGRANTS, PROCURERS, PROSTITUTES, RECEIVERS OF STOLEN GOODS, CATTLE POISONERS.	*110,223*	*166,507*	*1,511*	*64,158*	*54,281*	*846*

SUBSIDIARY TABLE VII.—SELECTED OCCUPATIONS, 1911 AND 1901.

Group No.	OCCUPATIONS.	Population supported in 1911.*	Population supported in 1901.	Percentage of variation.
1	2	3	4	5
	A.—PRODUCTION OF RAW MATERIALS ...	*66,606,825*	*57,678,629*	+
	I.—EXPLOITATION OF THE SURFACE OF THE EARTH.	*66,326,209*	*57,566,534*	+ *15*
	1.—PASTURE AND AGRICULTURE	*65,539,920*	*57,008,773*	+ *15*
	(a) Ordinary cultivation	*64,079,922*	*55,785,118*	+ *15*
1	Income from rent of agricultural land	1,511,265	1,316,140	+ 19
2	Ordinary cultivators	51,384,256	48,840,135	+ 5
3	Agents, managers of landed estates (not planters), clerks, rent collectors, etc.	380,810	457,573	- 13
4	Farm servants and field labourers	10,503,591	4,931,264	+ 110
	(b) Growers of special products and market gardening ...	*370,735*	*341,469*	+ *9*
5	Tea, coffee, cinchona and indigo plantations	232,933	219,588	+ 15
6	Fruit, flowers vegetable, etc., growers	117,802	121,874	- 3
	(c) Forestry	*84,005*	*49,166*	+ *71*
8	Wood-cutters, firewood, lac, catechu, etc., collectors and charcoal burners.	76,851	47,053[a]	+ 63
	(d) Raising of farm stock	*962,033*	*754,315*	+ *27*
9	Cattle and buffalo breeders and keepers	255,450	69,673[a]	+ 267
10	Sheep, goat and pig breeders	4,570	3,325	+ 37
11	Breeders of other animals (horses, mules, etc.)	509	8,071[c]	- 93
12	Herdsmen shepherds, goatherds, etc.	701,509	673,246	+ 4
	(e) Raising of small animals (birds, bees, etc.)	*43,220*	*78,718*	- *45*
	2.—FISHING AND HUNTING	*786,289*	*559,761*	+ *40*
14	Fishing	774,104	550,896	+ 40
15	Hunting	12,185	8,865	+ 37
	II.—EXTRACTION OF MINERALS	*279,616*	*110,095*	+ *154*
	3.—MINES	*245,672*	*84,235*	+ *192*
16	Coal-mines	241,607	83,990	+ 188
	4.—QUARRIES OF HARD ROCKS—	*4,682*	*94*	+ *4,881*
	5.—SALT, ETC.	*29,262*	*25,766*	+ *14*
	B.—PREPARATION AND SUPPLY OF MATERIAL SUBSTANCES.	*11,419,200*	*11,351,179*	+ *1*
	III.—INDUSTRY	*6,152,078*	*5,958,411*	+ *3*
	6.—TEXTILES	*1,317,181*	*1,378,590*	- *4*
21	Cotton ginning, cleaning and pressing	17,324	30,512	- 43
22	Cotton spinning, sizing and weaving	820,319	1,071,371[a]	- 23
23	Jute spinning, pressing and weaving	344,814	143,456	+ 140
24	Rope, twine and string	34,823	36,260	+ 7
26	Wool carders and spinners, weavers of woollen blankets, etc. ...	17,948	19,496	- 8
27	Silk spinners and weavers	57,221	56,409	+ 1
28	Hair, camel and horse hair, bristles work, brush-makers, etc. ...	407	366	+ 11
29	Persons occupied with feathers	396	408	- 3
30	Dyeing, bleaching, printing, preparation and sponging of textiles ...	13,425	12,727	+ 5
	7.—HIDES, SKINS AND HARD MATERIALS FROM THE ANIMAL KINGDOM.	*62,279*	*39,928*	+ *56*
32	Tanners, curriers, leather dressers and dyers, etc.	44,008	35,336	+ 25
33	Makers of leather articles, such as trunks, water-bags, etc.	8,168	925[a]	+ 783
34	Furriers	408	408	...
35	Bone, ivory, horn, shell, etc., workers	9,395	3,259[a]	+ 197
	8.—WOOD	*660,306*	*565,986*	+ *17*
36	Sawyers, carpenters, turners and joiners, etc.	353,883	339,018	+ 4
37	Basket-makers and other industries of woody material, including leaves.	306,423	226,968	+ 35

* This subsidiary table gives comparative statistics for selected occupations in 1901 and 1911. In order to make them comparable, it has been necessary to exclude Sambalpur, which formed part of the Central Provinces until 1905. The scheme of classification adopted at the present census is different from that followed at the last census, when some of the occupations were included in a combination of different groups. In such cases exact figures cannot be furnished for 1901 and an approximate estimate has been given, the figures concerned being marked with an asterisk.

SUBSIDIARY TABLE VII.—SELECTED OCCUPATIONS, 1911 AND 1901—*continued.*

Group No.	Occupations.	Population supported in 1911.*	Population supported in 1901.	Percentage of variation.
1	2	3	4	5
	B.—PREPARATION AND SUPPLY OF MATERIAL SUBSTANCES—*continued.*			
	***III.—INDUSTRY*—concluded.**			
	9.—METALS	*385,786*	*392,753*	- 2
39	Plough and agricultural implement makers	15,095	22,133	- 32
41	Other workers in iron and makers of implements and tools principally or exclusively of iron.	249,028	280,237	- 11
42	Workers in brass, copper and bell-metal	82,953	70,433	+ 18
43	Workers in other metals (tin, zinc, lead quicksilver, etc)	28,656	12,000	+ 97
	10.—CERAMICS	*474,297*	*439,085*	+ 8
47	Potters and earthen pipe and bowl makers	394,382	335,888	...
48	Brick and tile makers	46,359	31 811	+ 46
	11.—CHEMICAL PRODUCTS PROPERLY SO CALLED AND ANALOGOUS.	*286,295*	*263,669*	+ 9
53	Manufacture and refining of vegetable and mineral oils	256,039	243,494	+ 5
	12.—FOOD INDUSTRIES	*302,741*	*376,635*	+ 3
56	Rice pounders and huskers and flour grinders	559,735	514,915	+ 9
57	Bakers and biscuit makers	15,604	11,043	+ 41
58	Grain parchers, etc.	176,918	248,714	- 29
59	Butchers	25,206	22,875	+ 10
60	Fish-curers	331	234*	+ 41
62	Makers of sugar, molasses and *gur*	9,323	6,854	+ 36
63	Sweetmeat makers, preparers of jam and condiments, etc.	56,957	39,171	+ 45
64	Brewers and distillers	5,223	9,011	- 42
65	Toddy drawers	28,468	20,686	+ 38
	13.—INDUSTRIES OF DRESS AND THE TOILET	*1,098,431*	*1,150,021*	- 4
68	Tailors, milliners, dress makers and darners, etc.	195,791	182,781	+ 7
69	Shoe, boot, and sandal makers	126,385	158,217	- 20
71	Washing, cleaning and dyeing	329,398	338,667	- 3
72	Barbers, hair-dressers and wig-makers	434,377	463,512	- 6
	14.—FURNITURE INDUSTRIES	*10,579*	*4,388*	+ 141
	15.—BUILDING INDUSTRIES	*366,782*	*271,955*	+ 35
77	Excavators, plinth builders and well sinkers	75,607	61,506	+ 23
78	Stone and marble workers, masons and bricklayers	174,427	140,117	+ 24
79	Others (thatchers, building contractors, tilers, etc.)	108,129	63,081	+ 71
	16.—CONSTRUCTION OF MEANS OF TRANSPORT... ...	*40,611*	*40,235*	+ 1
	17.—PRODUCTION AND TRANSMISSION OF PHYSICAL FORCES (Heat, light, electricity, motive powers, etc.).	*5,071*	*1,356*	+ 274
	18.—INDUSTRIES OF LUXURY AND THOSE PERTAINING TO LITERATURE AND THE ARTS AND SCIENCES.	*448,996*	*421,430*	+ 7
89	Workers in precious stones and metals, enamellers, imitation jewellery makers, etc.	343,747	325,948	+ 5
90	Makers of bangles, rosaries, bead and other necklaces, spangles, lingams and sacred threads.	56,326	52,996	+ 6
	19.—INDUSTRIES CONCERNED WITH REFUSE MATTER ...	*92,753*	*113,346*	- 18
	IV.—TRANSPORT	*1,316,040*	*1,008,534*	+ 30
	20.—TRANSPORT BY WATER	*362,316*	*329,607*	+ 10
95	Ship-owners and their employés, ship brokers, ships' officers, mariners, engineers and firemen.	71,588	52,327	+ 37
96	Persons employed on the maintenance of streams, rivers and canals (including construction).	8,634	7,947	+ 9
97	Boat-owners, boatmen and towmen	265,240	257,813	+ 3
	21.—TRANSPORT BY ROAD	*668,942*	*516,340*	+ 30
98	Persons employed on the construction and maintenance of roads and bridges.	210,844	147,480	+ 43
99	Cart-owners and drivers, coachmen, stable boys, tramway, mail, carriage, etc.	182,278	130,492	+ 40
100	Palki, etc., bearers and owners	164,598	185,928	- 11
101	Pack elephants camel. mule, ass, bullock owners and drivers ...	31,295	5,957	+ 425
102	Porters and messengers	79,927	46,483	+ 72

* This subsidiary table gives comparative statistics for selected occupations in 1901 and 1911. In order to make them comparable, it has been necessary to exclude Sambalpur, which formed part of the Central Provinces until 1905. The scheme of classification adopted at the present census is different from that followed at the last census, when some of the occupations were included in a combination of different groups. In such cases exact figures cannot be furnished for 1901 and an approximate estimate has been given, the figures concerned being marked with an asterisk.

SUBSIDIARY TABLE VII.—SELECTED OCCUPATIONS, 1911 AND 1901—*continued.*

Group No.	OCCUPATIONS.	Population supported in 1911.[a]	Population supported in 1901.	Percentage of variation.
1	2	3	4	5
	B.—PREPARATION AND SUPPLY OF MATERIAL SUBSTANCES—*concluded.*			
	IV.—TRANSPORT*—*concld.			
	22.—TRANSPORT BY RAIL	*241,516*	*129,406*	+ *87*
103	Railway employés of all kinds other than construction coolies ...	226,155	119,118	+ 90
104	Labourers employed on railway construction	15,361	10,288	+ 49
	23.—POST OFFICE, TELEGRAPH AND TELEPHONE SERVICES.	*43,966*	*33,781*	+ *30*
	V—TRADE	*3,951,063*	*4,384,234*	- *10*
	24.—BANKS, ESTABLISHMENTS OF CREDIT, EXCHANGE AND INSURANCE.	*197,031*	*198,816*	- *1*
	25.—BROKERAGE, COMMISSION AND EXPORT	*66,336*	*62,815*	+ *6*
	26.—TRADE IN TEXTILES	*296,125*	*302,356*	- *2*
	27.—TRADE IN SKINS, LEATHER AND FURS, ETC. ...	*121,365*	*42,750*[a]	+ *184*
	28.—TRADE IN WOOD (NOT FIREWOOD)	*81,327*	*93,168*	- *13*
	29.—TRADE IN METALS	*16,658*	*1,921*[a]	+ *1,064*
	30.—TRADE IN POTTERY	*43,663*	*71,522*	- *39*
	31.—TRADE IN CHEMICAL PRODUCTS	*54,036*	*28,786*[a]	+ *88*
	32.—HOTELS, CAFÉS, RESTAURANTS, ETC.	*118,414*	*108,719*	+ *9*
114	Vendors of wine, liquors, aerated waters, etc.	106,812	101,985	+ 5
115	Owners and managers of hotels, cook-shop, sarais, etc., and their employés.	11,602	6,734[a]	+ 72
	33.—OTHER TRADE IN FOOD-STUFFS	*2,327,353*	*2,811,535*	- *17*
116	Fish dealers	419,743	687,962	- 39
117	Grocers and sellers of vegetable oil, salt and other condiments ...	668,936	788,843	- 15
118	Sellers of milk, butter, ghee, poultry, eggs, etc.	202,939	401,537[a]	- 49
119	Sellers of sweet-meats, *gur*, sugar and molasses	127,385	112,494	+ 13
120	Cardamom, betel-leaf, vegetables, fruit and arecanut sellers ...	386,610	368,567	+ 5
121	Grain and pulse dealers	429,093	349,643	+ 23
122	Tobacco, opium, ganja, etc., sellers	65,628	74,678[a]	- 12
123	Dealers in sheep, goats and pigs	9,093	5,964[a]	+ 52
124	Dealers in hay, grass and fodder	17,956	22,247	- 20
	34.—TRADE IN CLOTHING AND TOILET ARTICLES ...	*37,455*	*20,737*[a]	+ *81*
	35.—TRADE IN FURNITURE	*57,977*	*65,551*	- *12*
127	Hardware, cooking utensils, porcelain, crockery, glass-ware, bottles, articles for gardening, the cellar, etc.	43,193	56,770[a]	- 24
	36.—TRADE IN BUILDING MATERIALS	*18,446*	*22,981*	- *20*
	37.—TRADE IN MEANS OF TRANSPORT	*84,139*	*19,974*[a]	+ *86*
	38.—TRADE IN FUEL	*153,696*	*71,476*[a]	+ *115*
	39.—TRADE IN ARTICLES OF LUXURY AND THOSE PERTAINING TO LETTERS AND THE ARTS AND SCIENCES.	*136,691*	*215,565*	- *37*
131	Dealers in precious stones, jewellery (real and imitation), clocks, optical instruments, etc.	20,074	21,386	- 6
132	Dealers in common bangles, bead, necklaces, fans, small articles, toys, hunting and fishing tackle, flowers, etc.	101,710	183,138[a]	- 44
	40.—TRADE IN REFUSE MATTER	*492*	...	...
	41.—TRADE OF OTHER SORTS	*199,788*	*253,261*	- *21*
135	Shop-keepers, otherwise unspecified	174,591	208,250	- 16
138	Other trades (including farmers of pounds, tolls and markets) ...	9,528	20,641[a]	- 54

[a] This subsidiary table gives comparative statistics for selected occupations in 1901 and 1911. In order to make them comparable, it has been necessary to exclude Sambalpur, which formed part of the Central Provinces until 1905. The scheme of classification adopted at the present census is different from that followed at the last census, when some of the occupations were included in a combination of different groups. In such cases exact figures cannot be furnished for 1901 and an approximate estimate has been given, the figures concerned being marked with an asterisk.

SUBSIDIARY TABLE VII.—SELECTED OCCUPATIONS, 1911 AND 1901—*concluded.*

Group No.	OCCUPATIONS.	Population supported in 1911.*	Population supported in 1901.	Percentage of variation.
1	2	3	4	5
	C.—PUBLIC ADMINISTRATION AND LIBERAL ARTS.	*1,909,403*	*1,941,289*	- 7
	VI.—PUBLIC FORCE	*351,838*	*323,182*	+ 9
	42.—ARMY	*10,287*	*11,565*	- 11
139	Army (Imperial)	9,948	10,606	- 6
140	Army (Native States)	339	957	- 65
	43.—NAVY	*15*	*1,417*	- 99
	44.—POLICE	*341,536*	*320,200*	+ 10
142	Police	80,788	37,555*	+ 115
143	Village watchmen	260,748	272,645	- 4
	VII.—PUBLIC ADMINISTRATION	*196,737*	*244,705*	- 20
144	Service of the State	159,464	174,419	- 9
145	Service of Native and Foreign States	11,137	12,767	- 13
146	Municipal and other local (not village) service	22,441	18,880	+ 19
147	Village officials and servants other than watchmen	3,695	38,689*	- 90
	VIII.—PROFESSIONS AND LIBERAL ARTS ...	*1,199,080*	*1,294,585*	- 7
	46.—RELIGION	*570,566*	*738,610*	- 23
148	Priests, ministers, etc.	438,524	462,371	- 5
149	Religious mendicants, inmates of monasteries, etc.	67,977	191,334	- 64
150	Catechists, readers, church and mission service	5,355	9,331	- 43
151*	Temple, burial or burning ground service, pilgrim conductors, circumcisers.	58,740	75,594	- 22
	47.—LAW	*100,237*	*77,941*	+
152	Lawyers of all kinds including kazis, law-agents and mukters ...	63,355	52,780	+ 20
153	Lawyers, clerks, petition-writers, etc.	36,882	24,461	+ 51
	48.—MEDICINE	*216,681*	*177,986*	+ 22
154	Medical practitioners of all kinds, including dentists, oculists and veterinary surgeons.	152,349	135,732	+ 12
155	Midwives, vaccinators, compounders, nurses, masseurs, etc. ...	64,332	42,144	+ 53
	49.—INSTRUCTION	*150,744*	*123,524*	+ 22
	50.—LETTERS AND ARTS AND SCIENCES	*160,792*	*177,034*	- 9
159	Others (authors, photographers, artists, sculptors, astronomers, meteorologists, botanists, astrologers, etc.)	20,756	21,434	- 3
160	Music composers and masters, players on all kinds of musical instruments (not military), singers, actors and dancers.	116,536	140,186	- 17
	IX.—PERSONS LIVING ON THEIR INCOME ...	*61,778*	*78,757*	- 22
	D.—MISCELLANEOUS	*4,162,314*	*7,522,373*	- 45
	X.—DOMESTIC SERVICE	*1,940,390*	*835,838*	+ 49
162	Cooks, water-carriers, door-keepers, watchmen and other indoor servants.	1,172,032	786 844	+ 49
163	Private grooms, coachmen, dog-boys, etc.	74.358	48,994	+ 51
	XI.—INSUFFICIENTLY DESCRIBED OCCUPATIONS.	*2,280,914*	*6,098,502*	- 63
164	Manufacturers, businessmen and contractors otherwise unspecified ...	20,662	15,620	+ 32
165	Cashiers, accountants, book-keepers, clerks and other employés in unspecified offices, warehouses and shops.	228,359	195,712	+ 17
167	Labourers and workmen otherwise unspecified	2,009,422	5,875,382	- 66
	XII.—UNPRODUCTIVE	*635,010*	*588,033*	+ 8
168	54.—INMATES OF JAILS, ASYLUMS AND HOSPITALS ...	*22,048*	*20,703*	+ 11
169	55.—BEGGARS, VAGRANTS, PROCURERS, PROSTITUTES, RECEIVERS OF STOLEN GOODS, CATTLE POISONERS.	*611,962*	*567,330*	+ 8

*This subsidiary table gives comparative statistics for selected occupations in 1901 and 1911. In order to make them comparable, it has been necessary to exclude Sambalpur which formed part of the Central Provinces until 1905. The scheme of classification adopted at the present census is different from that followed at the last census, when some of the occupations were included in a combination of different groups. In such cases exact figures cannot be furnished for 1901 and an approximate estimate has been given, the figures concerned being marked with an asterisk.

SUBSIDIARY TABLE VIII—Occupations of Selected Castes.

Bengal and Sikkim.

Caste and Occupations.	Number per 1,000 workers engaged on each occupation.	Number of female workers per 100 males.
1	2	3
ANGLO-INDIAN—		
BENGAL	*1,000*	*32*
Industries	71	26
Transport	277	5
Trade	79	23
Public administration	88	4
Arts and professions	149	113
Contractors, clerks, caulders, etc.	125	18
Others	211	90
ARMENIAN—		
BENGAL	*1,000*	*23*
Industries	75	24
Transport	193	4
Trade	200	11
Arts and Professions	167	55
Contractors' clerks caulders, etc.	149	15
Others	226	47
BAGDI—		
WEST AND CENTRAL BENGAL	*1,000*	*44*
Cultivators and fishermen	713	36
Field-labourers, wood-cutters, etc.	21	17
Raisers of live-stock, milkmen, etc.	40	2
Industries	101	162
Trade	31	287
Domestic service	23	78
Others	52	32
BAIDYA—		
NORTH AND EAST BENGAL	*1,000*	*9*
Physicians	156	4
Income from rent of land	317	21
Agents and managers of landed estates	103	...
Trade	62	14
Public administration	77	...
Arts and professions	120	1
Others	165	8
BAISHNAB—		
WEST AND CENTRAL BENGAL	*1,000*	*48*
Religious mendicants	282	89
Cultivators of all kinds	205	11
Industries	119	62
Trade	79	50
Domestic service	46	185
Beggars, prostitutes, criminals and inmates of jails and asylums.	74	199
Others	166	13
NORTH AND EAST BENGAL	*1,000*	*89*
Religious mendicants	709	133
Cultivators of all kinds	117	12
Industries	38	26
Trade	54	28
Domestic service	21	169
Beggars, prostitutes, criminals and inmates of jails and asylums.	18	728
Others	43	14
BARUI—		
NORTH AND EAST BENGAL	*1,000*	*5*
Betel-leaf growers	613	3
Cultivators of all kinds	136	7
Trade	184	4
Others	68	21
BAURI—		
WEST BENGAL	*1,000*	*68*
Labourers	590	72
Cultivators of all kinds	75	22
Raisers of live-stock, milkmen and herdsmen	27	10
Extraction of minerals	145	89
Industries	82	162
Domestic service	40	64
Others	56	98
BHOTIA—		
DARJEELING AND SIKKIM	*1,000*	*89*
Cultivators	902	93
Trade	18	30
Domestic service	27	86
Others	53	35

Caste and Occupations.	Number per 1,000 workers engaged on each occupation.	Number of female workers per 100 males.
1	2	3
BHUINMALI—		
NORTH AND EAST BENGAL	*1,000*	*10*
Scavengers	128	13
Cultivators of all kinds	313	4
Industries	135	15
Arts and professions	80	8
Labourers (unspecified)	74	8
Others	270	16
BRAHMAN—		
WEST AND CENTRAL BENGAL	*1,000*	*11*
Priests	194	9
Income from rent of land	153	22
Cultivators of all kinds	224	12
Trade	65	5
Arts and professions	50	2
Contractors, clerks, cashiers, etc.	43	...
Others	271	13
NORTH AND EAST BENGAL	*1,000*	*6*
Priests	253	4
Income from rent of land	191	15
Cultivators of all kinds	101	10
Agents and managers of landed estates, etc.	85	...
Trade	63	5
Arts and professions	99	1
Others	178	5
CHAIN—		
MALDA	*1,000*	*45*
Cultivators	436	10
Field-labourers, wood-cutters, etc.	112	25
Industries	89	1,388
Trade	124	620
Labourers, (unspecified)	93	83
Others	96	46
CHAMAR AND MUCHI—		
WEST AND CENTRAL BENGAL	*1,000*	*19*
Hide-dressers and cobblers	365	28
Cultivators of all kinds	105	5
Field-labourers, wood-cutters, etc.	200	9
Trade	85	73
Domestic service	53	20
Labourers (unspecified)	53	14
Others	139	20
NORTH AND EAST BENGAL	*1,000*	*9*
Hide-dressers and cobblers	230	4
Cultivators of all kinds	152	5
Field-labourers, wood-cutters, etc.	58	11
Industries	132	15
Trade	236	5
Others	191	25
DHOBA—		
WEST AND CENTRAL BENGAL	*1,000*	*42*
Washermen	602	64
Cultivators of all kinds	223	7
Field-labourers, wood-cutters, etc.	51	10
Industries	53	63
Others	73	27
NORTH AND EAST BENGAL	*1,000*	*16*
Washermen	479	28
Cultivators of all kinds	366	4
Field-labourers, wood-cutters, etc.	79	6
Labourers (unspecified)	30	6
Others	96	17
DOM—		
WEST BENGAL	*1,000*	*55*
Basket-makers and scavengers	442	143
Cultivators of all kinds	93	7
Field-labourers, wood-cutters, etc.	238	17
Raisers of live-stock, milkmen and herdsmen	43	8
Domestic service	43	55
Others	190	35

SUBSIDIARY TABLE VIII.—Occupation of Selected Castes—*continued.*

Bengal and Sikkim—*continued.*

Caste and Occupations.	Number per 1,000 workers engaged on each occupation.	Number of female workers per 100 males.
1	2	3
EUROPEAN AND ALLIED RACES—		
BENGAL	*1,000*	*11*
Industries	74	10
Transport	188	3
Trade	136	7
Public force	274	...
Public administration	68	2
Arts and professions	129	66
Others	136	25
ENGLISH—		
WEST AND CENTRAL BENGAL	*1,000*	*10*
Industries	52	15
Transport	161	4
Public force	360	...
Public administration	62	3
Arts and professions	109	66
Others	256	18
IRISH—		
WEST AND CENTRAL BENGAL	*1,000*	*19*
Industries	74	10
Transport	229	1
Trade	91	15
Public force	158	3
Arts and professions	162	148
Others	286	15
SCOTCH—		
WEST AND CENTRAL BENGAL	*1,000*	*5*
Industries	182	2
Transport	209	2
Trade	187	1
Public force	143	...
Arts and professions	94	38
Others	185	9
GANDHABANIK—		
WEST AND CENTRAL BENGAL	*1,000*	*20*
Dealers in drugs and spices	493	15
Income from rent of land	31	39
Cultivators of all kinds	297	13
Field-labourers, wood-cutters, etc.	18	16
Industries	65	102
Domestic service	35	108
Others	61	16
GOALA—		
WEST AND CENTRAL BENGAL	*1,000*	*20*
Herdsmen and milkmen	323	31
Cultivators of all kinds	378	7
Field-labourers, wood-cutters, etc.	69	20
Industries	68	57
Transport	34	...
Domestic service	42	49
Others	86	23
NORTH AND EAST BENGAL	*1,000*	*12*
Herdsmen and milkmen	281	17
Cultivators of all kinds	194	6
Field-labourers, wood-cutters, etc.	83	22
Transport	73	1
Trade	144	17
Labourers (unspecified)	74	5
Others	151	13
GURUNG—		
DARJEELING AND SIKKIM	*1,000*	*89*
Soldiers and cultivators	470	104
Field-labourers, wood-cutters, etc.	407	102
Raisers of live-stock, milkmen and herdsmen	15	14
Industries	14	6
Trade	21	40
Labourers (unspecified)	28	40
Others	45	22

Caste and Occupations.	Number per 1,000 workers engaged on each occupation.	Number of female workers per 100 males.
1	2	3
HARI—		
WEST AND CENTRAL BENGAL	*1,000*	*45*
Scavengers	128	195
Cultivators of all kinds	157	8
Field-labourers, wood-cutters, etc.	359	14
Raisers of live-stock, milkmen and herdsmen	47	2
Industries	133	216
Transport	53	10
Others	223	62
INDIAN CHRISTIAN—		
BENGAL	*1,000*	*27*
Cultivators of all kinds	434	18
Field-labourers, wood-cutters, etc.	114	39
Industries	54	38
Arts and professions	86	84
Domestic service	130	32
Others	182	17
JOGI—		
NORTH AND EAST BENGAL	*1,000*	*17*
Weavers	387	32
Cultivators of all kinds	340	4
Industries	43	60
Trade	110	9
Labourers (unspecified)	27	3
Beggars, prostitutes, criminals and inmates of jails and asylums.	19	177
Others	74	3
JOLAHA—		
WEST AND CENTRAL BENGAL	*1,000*	*15*
Weavers	379	20
Cultivators of all kinds	182	3
Field-labourers, wood-cutters, etc.	62	2
Industries	243	20
Trade	42	14
Domestic service	20	28
Others	72	16
KAIBARTTA (CHASI) OR MAHISHYA—		
WEST AND CENTRAL BENGAL	*1,000*	*15*
Cultivators	789	7
Field-labourers, wood-cutters, etc.	14	1
Raisers of live-stock, milkmen and herdsmen	12	1
Industries	76	153
Trade	32	61
Domestic service	26	79
Others	51	19
NORTH AND EAST BENGAL	*1,000*	*10*
Cultivators	766	6
Field-labourers, wood-cutters, etc.	42	7
Industries	30	154
Trade	58	19
Labourers (unspecified)	22	10
Others	82	23
KAIBARTTA (JALIYA)—		
NORTH AND EAST BENGAL	*1,000*	*13*
Fishermen	519	7
Cultivators of all kinds	262	5
Industries	54	358
Transport	17	...
Trade	103	23
Others	45	30
KALU—		
WEST AND CENTRAL BENGAL	*1,000*	*20*
Oil-pressers	345	23
Cultivators of all kinds	369	8
Field-labourers, wood-cutters, etc.	57	8
Industries	86	67
Trade	59	39
Domestic service	19	51
Others	65	15

SUBSIDIARY TABLE VIII.—Occupations of Selected Castes—*continued.*

Bengal and Sikkim—*continued.*

Caste and Occupations.	Number per 1,000 workers engaged on each occupation.	Number of female workers per 100 males.
1	2	3
KAMAR (KARMAKAR)—		
WEST AND CENTRAL BENGAL	*1,000*	*17*
Blacksmiths	636	10
Cultivators of all kinds	130	15
Field-labourers, wood-cutters, etc.	65	57
Industries	34	28
Trade	46	34
Domestic service	25	141
Others	64	24
NORTH AND EAST BENGAL	*1,000*	*9*
Blacksmiths	445	4
Cultivators of all kinds	134	12
Field-labourers, wood-cutters, etc.	62	31
Industries	250	6
Trade	41	26
Others	68	31
KANSARI—		
WEST AND CENTRAL BENGAL	*1,000*	*17*
Braziers	425	5
Cultivators of all kinds	54	11
Industries	149	21
Trade	152	13
Domestic service	64	152
Labourers (unspecified)	30	2
Others	126	48
KAPALI—		
NORTH AND EAST BENGAL	*1,000*	*8*
Weavers and cultivators	802	6
Income from rent of land	22	77
Cultivators of all kinds	91	6
Field-labourers, wood-cutters, etc.	24	1
Trade	20	9
Others	41	39
KAYASTH—		
WEST AND CENTRAL BENGAL	*1,000*	*15*
Writers	195	1
Income from rent of land	210	26
Cultivators of all kinds	251	14
Industries	65	26
Trade	59	13
Others	220	17
NORTH AND EAST BENGAL	*1,000*	*10*
Writers	60	...
Income from rent of land	137	19
Cultivators of all kinds	367	9
Trade	141	6
Arts and professions	62	1
Others	233	15
KHAMBU—		
DARJEELING AND SIKKIM	*1,000*	*81*
Cultivators	900	96
Raisers of live-stock, milk-men and herdsmen	10	15
Labourers (unspecified)	70	2
Others	20	28
KHAS—		
DARJEELING AND SIKKIM	*1,000*	*70*
Soldiers and cultivators	504	92
Field-labourers, wood-cutters, etc.	300	72
Raisers of live-stock, milk-men and herdsmen	25	22
Domestic service	25	20
Labourers (unspecified)	59	82
Others	88	13
KULU—		
NORTH AND EAST BENGAL	*1,000*	*12*
Oil-pressers	515	15
Cultivators of all kinds	331	4
Field-labourers, wood-cutters, etc.	22	1
Trade	77	14
Labourers (unspecified)	20	12
Others	35	35

Caste and Occupations.	Number per 1,000 workers engaged on each occupation.	Number of female workers per 100 males.
1	2	3
KUMHAR—		
WEST AND CENTRAL BENGAL	*1,000*	*32*
Potters	727	36
Cultivators of all kinds	117	7
Industries	59	37
Trade	36	38
Domestic service	12	129
Others	49	17
NORTH AND EAST BENGAL	*1,000*	*42*
Potters	750	56
Cultivators of all kinds	133	4
Field-labourers, wood-cutters, etc.	8	23
Industries	30	26
Trade	54	23
Others	25	14
KURMI—		
WEST BENGAL	*1,000*	*54*
Cultivators	847	52
Field-labourers, wood-cutters, etc.,	28	60
Raisers of live-stock, milk-men and herdsmen	47	3
Industries	42	422
Domestic service	13	71
Others	23	71
LEPCHA—		
DARJEELING AND SIKKIM	*1,000*	*89*
Cultivators	966	92
Others	34	30
LIMBU—		
DARJEELING AND SIKKIM	*1,000*	*94*
Cultivators	689	99
Field-labourers, wood-cutters, etc.	211	128
Trade	32	30
Domestic service	9	37
Labourers (unspecified)	20	88
Others	39	13
MAGH—		
EAST BENGAL	*1,000*	*61*
Cultivators	708	55
Industries	96	1,325
Trade	81	34
Labourers (unspecified)	41	14
Others	74	19
MALO—		
WEST AND CENTRAL BENGAL	*1,000*	*20*
Boatmen and fishermen	762	12
Cultivators of all kinds	62	6
Industries	80	196
Trade	35	59
Domestic service	15	205
Others	46	22
NORTH AND EAST BENGAL	*1,000*	*15*
Boatmen and fishermen	664	5
Cultivators of all kinds	84	6
Field-labourers, wood-cutters, etc.	16	21
Industries	62	786
Transport	37	...
Trade	106	35
Others	31	67
MANGAR—		
DARJEELING AND SIKKIM	*1,000*	*83*
Military service	119	116
Cultivators of all kinds	211	69
Field-labourers, wood-cutters, etc.	465	106
Labourers (unspecified)	61	40
Others	144	46
MURMI—		
DARJEELING AND SIKKIM	*1,000*	*99*
Cultivators		101
Others	23	4

SUBSIDIARY TABLE VIII.—Occupations of Selected Castes—*continued.*

Bengal and Sikkim—*continued.*

Caste and Occupations.	Number per 1,000 worker engaged on each occupation.	Number of female workers per 100 males.
1	2	3
NAMASUDRA—		
WEST AND CENTRAL BENGAL	*1,000*	*10*
Boatmen and cultivators	815	5
Field-labourers, wood-cutters, etc.	17	2
Fishing and hunting	22	10
Industries	51	80
Trade	23	88
Domestic service	17	66
Others	55	25
NORTH AND EAST BENGAL	*1,000*	*8*
Boatmen and cultivators	725	4
Fishing and hunting	26	6
Field-labourers, wood-cutters, etc.	32	2
Industries	81	35
Trade	45	25
Labourers (unspecified)	31	6
Others	60	34
NAPIT—		
WEST AND CENTRAL BENGAL	*1,000*	*21*
Barbers	475	23
Cultivators of all kinds	298	7
Field-labourers, wood-cutters, etc.	33	3
Industries	68	27
Trade	41	68
Domestic service	30	87
Others	65	26
NORTH AND EAST BENGAL	*1,000*	*6*
Barbers	494	3
Cultivators of all kinds	351	5
Industries	28	59
Trade	25	10
Arts and professions	39	1
Others	63	26
NEWAR—		
DARJEELING AND SIKKIM	*1,000*	*73*
Cultivators	385	86
Field-labourers, wood-cutters, etc.	264	71
Extraction of minerals	44	514
Industries	29	4
Trade	57	54
Labourers (unspecified)	51	189
Others	70	18
PATHAN—		
WEST AND CENTRAL BENGAL	*1,000*	*12*
Cultivators of all kinds	385	6
Field-labourers, wood-cutters, etc.	120	3
Industries	181	37
Trade	76	15
Others	238	13
PATNI—		
PABNA AND MYMENSINGH	*1,000*	*13*
Boatmen	121	3
Cultivators of all kinds	355	4
Field-labourers, wood-cutters, etc.	40	...
Fishing and hunting	164	2
Industries	139	82
Trade	122	20
Others	59	46
POD—		
WEST AND CENTRAL BENGAL	*1,000*	*8*
Fishermen	671	4
Cultivators of all kinds	9	3
Field-labourers, wood-cutters, etc.	11	...
Raisers of live-stock, milk-men and herdsmen	8	8
Industries	39	198
Trade	19	116
Others	43	25
RAJBANSI—		
DARJEELING AND COOCH BEHAR	*1,000*	*7*
Cultivators	890	2
Income from rent of land	13	17
Industries	28	492
Trade	14	199
Domestic service	13	17
Beggars, prostitutes, criminals and inmates of jails and asylums.	19	103
Others	24	5

Caste and Occupations.	Number per 1,000 workers engaged on each occupation.	Number of female workers per 100 males.
1	2	3
RAJBANSI—		
NORTH BENGAL AND FARIDPUR	*1,000*	*6*
Cultivators	838	2
Field-labourers, wood-cutters, etc.	61	2
Industries	28	200
Trade	20	171
Labourers (unspecified)	14	6
Others	39	22
RAJPUT (CHHATRI)—		
WEST AND CENTRAL BENGAL	*1,000*	*12*
Landholders, cultivators and soldiers	478	12
Industries	163	20
Trade	60	14
Domestic service	58	21
Labourers (unspecified)	31	3
Others	215	5
SADGOP—		
WEST AND CENTRAL BENGAL	*1,000*	*16*
Cultivators	812	9
Raisers of live-stock, milk-men and herdsmen	17	1
Industries	67	174
Trade	36	34
Arts and professions	8	1
Domestic service	25	121
Others	35	18
SAIYAD—		
WEST AND CENTRAL BENGAL	*1,000*	*15*
Income from rent of land	110	24
Cultivators of all kinds	326	9
Industries	193	21
Trade	56	24
Beggars, prostitutes, criminals and inmates of jails and asylums.	62	23
Others	253	12
SANTAL—		
NORTH, WEST AND CENTRAL BENGAL	*1,000*	*69*
Cultivators	671	60
Field-labourers, wood-cutters, etc.	107	88
Extraction of minerals	50	69
Industries	60	169
Trade	16	478
Labourers (unspecified)	57	160
Others	39	23
SUDRA—		
EAST BENGAL	*1,000*	*15*
Indoor servants	145	22
Cultivators of all kinds	375	6
Field-labourers, wood-cutters, etc.	40	3
Industries	93	127
Trade	111	13
Labourers (unspecified)	91	3
Others	145	10
SUNRI—		
WEST AND CENTRAL BENGAL	*1,000*	*16*
Wine-sellers	118	6
Cultivators of all kinds	474	9
Field-labourers, wood-cutters, etc.	50	16
Industries	93	153
Trade	137	13
Others	118	20
SUTRADHAR—		
WEST AND CENTRAL BENGAL	*1,000*	*30*
Carpenters	503	2
Cultivators of all kinds	145	15
Field-labourers, wood-cutters, etc.	24	18
Industries	213	207
Trade	54	184
Domestic service	17	214
Others	39	30

SUBSIDIARY TABLE VIII.—Occupations of Selected Castes—*continued.*

Bengal and Sikkim—*concluded.*

Caste and Occupations.	Number per 1,000 workers engaged on each occupation.	Number of female workers per 100 males.
1	2	3
SUTRADHAR—		
NORTH AND EAST BENGAL	*1,000*	*5*
Carpenters	668	1
Cultivators of all kinds	221	6
Field-labourers, wood-cutters, etc.	5	4
Industries	47	35
Trade	28	19
Beggars, prostitutes, criminals and inmates of jails and asylums.	6	230
Others	25	26
TANTI—		
WEST AND CENTRAL BENGAL	*1,000*	*29*
Weavers	420	26
Cultivators of all kinds	237	11
Field-labourers, wood-cutters, etc.	62	41
Industries	127	92
Trade	52	28
Domestic service	85	116
Others	67	24

Caste and Occupations.	Number per 1,000 workers engaged on each occupation.	Number of female workers per 100 males.
1	2	3
TELI AND TILI—		
WEST AND CENTRAL BENGAL	*1,000*	*18*
Oil-pressers and oil-sellers	92	24
Cultivators of all kinds	521	7
Field-labourers, wood-cutters, etc.	51	5
Industries	141	72
Trade	61	20
Domestic service	36	69
Others	78	22
TIYAR—		
DACCA AND MYMENSINGH	*1,000*	*19*
Boatmen and fishermen	518	6
Cultivators of all kinds	254	5
Industries	69	851
Trade	101	98
Others	63	9

SUBSIDIARY TABLE VIII.—Occupations of Selected Castes—*continued.*

Bihar and Orissa.

Caste and Occupations.	Number per 1,000 workers engaged on each occupation.	Number of female workers per 100 males.
1	2	3
ANGLO-INDIAN—		
WHOLE PROVINCE	*1,000*	*28*
Extraction of minerals	51	5
Transport	420	1
Trade	61	6
Public administration	50	9
Arts and professions	78	123
Beggars, prostitutes, criminals, etc.	114	6,850
Others	226	32
ARMENIAN—		
WHOLE PROVINCE	*1,000*	*12*
Transport	333	...
Trade	298	...
Others	369	31
BABHAN (BHUMIHAR BRAHMAN)—		
BIHAR	*1,000*	*8*
Agriculture	925	7
Agents and managers of landed estates, etc. ...	18	...
Field-labourers, wood-cutters, etc.	22	40
Raisers of live-stock, herdsmen and milkmen ...	6	3
Domestic service	8	18
Others	21	21
BAISHNAB—		
ORISSA AND CHOTA NAGPUR	*1,000*	*28*
Religious mendicants	282	30
Cultivators of all kinds	464	17
Field-labourers, wood-cutters, etc.	40	44
Industries	24	181
Trade	36	107
Beggars, prostitutes, criminals, etc.	73	59
Others	81	22
BANIYA—		
BIHAR	*1,000*	*40*
Traders	518	45
Cultivators of all kinds	300	23
Field-labourers, wood-cutters, etc.	85	87
Industries	27	249
Transport	18	5
Domestic service	10	30
Others	42	19
BARHI—		
BIHAR	*1,000*	*42*
Carpenters	278	7
Cultivators of all kinds	444	39
Field-labourers, wood-cutters, etc.	190	175
Raisers of live-stock, herdsmen and milkmen ...	19	11
Industries	15	200
Trade	13	138
Others	41	46
ORISSA, HAZARIBAGH AND ORISSA STATES	*1,000*	*38*
Carpenters	275	8
Cultivators of all kinds	537	40
Field-labourers, wood-cutters, etc.	85	113
Raisers of live-stock, milkmen and herdsmen ...	10	47
Industries	33	124
Trade	7	181
Others	53	155
BARAI—		
BIHAR	*1,000*	*40*
Betel-leaf-growers	301	53
Cultivators of all kinds	501	28
Field-labourers, wood-cutters, etc.	125	79
Raisers of live-stock, milkmen and herdsmen ...	11	10
Income from rent of land	11	7
Trade	16	39
Others	35	35

Caste and Occupations.	Number per 1,000 workers engaged on each occupation.	Number of female workers per 100 males.
1	2	3
BAURI—		
ORISSA	*1,000*	*80*
Labourers	716	78
Cultivators of all kinds	71	10
Field-labourers, wood-cutters, etc. ...	12	183
Raisers of live-stock, milkmen and herdsmen ...	38	11
Industries	68	254
Trade	73	434
Others	28	51
SONTHAL PARGANAS	*1,000*	*78*
Labourers	469	105
Cultivators of all kinds	196	68
Field-labourers, wood-cutters, etc. ...	93	107
Raisers of live-stock, milkmen and herdsmen ...	103	6
Industries	19	483
Domestic service	65	109
Others	55	37
MANBHUM	*1,000*	*77*
Labourers	440	114
Cultivators of all kinds	193	64
Field-labourers, wood-cutters, etc. ...	45	19
Raisers of live-stock, milkmen and herdsmen ...	72	7
Domestic service	31	580
Extraction of minerals	170	83
Others	49	74
BHUIYA—		
GAYA AND BHAGALPUR	*1,000*	*97*
Landholders	814	93
Field-labourers wood-cutters, etc. ...	109	179
Raisers of live-stock, milkmen and herdsmen ...	15	16
Trade	24	378
Domestic service	9	8
Others	29	58
SONTHAL PARGANAS	*1,000*	*102*
Landholders	840	109
Field-labourers wood-cutters, etc. ...	68	112
Raisers of live-stock, milkmen and herdsmen ...	40	11
Industries	11	348
Domestic service	15	100
Others	26	72
ORISSA STATES	*1,000*	*48*
Landholders	758	39
Field-labourers, wood-cutters, etc. ...	60	48
Raisers of live-stock, milkmen and herdsmen ...	39	31
Industries	51	348
Labourers (unspecified)	43	196
Others	59	72
BHUMIJ—		
MANBHUM AND ORISSA STATES	*1,000*	*87*
Cultivators	769	91
Field-labourers, wood-cutters, etc. ...	78	129
Raisers of live-stock, milkmen and herdsmen ...	76	12
Extraction of minerals	12	53
Trade	42	269
Labourers (unspecified)	27	313
Others	45	76
BRAHMAN—		
BIHAR	*1,000*	*12*
Priests	144	18
Income from rent of land	22	15
Cultivators of all kinds	723	10
Trade	7	21
Arts and professions	10	2
Others	84	20
ORISSA	*1,000*	*9*
Priests	102	12
Income from rent of land	54	11
Cultivators of all kinds	725	6
Trade	22	20
Arts and professions	16	1
Others	81	31

SUBSIDIARY TABLE VIII.—Occupations of Selected Castes—*continued.*

Bihar and Orissa—*continued.*

Caste and Occupations.	Number per 1,000 workers engaged on each occupation.	Number of female workers per 100 males.
1	2	3
BRAHMAN—*concld.*		
CHOTA NAGPUR PLATEAU	*1,000*	*15*
Priests	104	17
Income from rent of land	79	14
Cultivators of all kinds	637	13
Trade	25	32
Arts and professions	27	7
Others	128	28
CHAMAR AND MUCHI—		
BIHAR	*1,000*	*88*
Hide dressers	99	56
Cultivators of all kinds	273	52
Field-labourers, wood-cutters, etc.	541	117
Arts and professions	23	1,057
Labourers, (unspecified)	18	112
Others	46	51
CHOTA NAGPUR PLATEAU	*1,000*	*87*
Hide dressers	120	46
Cultivators of all kinds	412	70
Field-labourers, wood-cutters, etc.	278	122
Extraction of minerals	54	88
Labourers, (unspecified)	52	116
Others	84	137
CHASA—		
ORISSA	*1,000*	*13*
Cultivators	869	8
Field-labourers, wood-cutters, etc.	17	18
Raisers of live-stock, milkmen and herdsmen ...	21	3
Industries	37	1,001
Trade	15	164
Labourers (unspecified)	11	23
Others	30	25
DHANUK—		
BIHAR	*1,000*	*61*
Domestic service	452	60
Cultivators of all kinds	33	21
Field-labourers, wood-cutters, etc.	428	71
Raisers of live-stock, milkmen and herdsmen ...	21	9
Others	56	64
DHOBA—		
BIHAR	*1,000*	*74*
Washerman	580	110
Cultivators of all kinds	288	33
Field-labourers, wood-cutters, etc.	102	67
Others	30	22
DHURIYA—		
BIHAR	*1,000*	*61*
Cotton cleaners	81	77
Cultivators of all kinds	378	37
Field-labourers, wood-cutters, etc.	401	91
Trade	33	71
Domestic service	31	47
Others	96	55
DOM—		
BIHAR	*1,000*	*85*
Basket-makers	809	88
Cultivators of all kinds	65	59
Field-labourers, wood-cutters, etc.	62	122
Others	44	79
SONTHAL PARGANAS AND MANBHUM ...	*1,000*	*82*
Basket-makers	225	114
Cultivators of all kinds	567	75
Field-labourers, wood-cutters, etc	212	106
Raisers of live-stock, milkmen and herdsmen ...	24	13
Arts and professions	25	18
Others	147	79

Caste and Occupations.	Number per 1,000 workers engaged on each occupation.	Number of female workers per 100 males.
1	2	3
DOSADH—		
BIHAR	*1,000*	*71*
Labourers	629	94
Cultivators of all kinds	251	40
Field-labourers, wood-cutters, etc.	51	89
Raisers of live-stock, milkmen and herdsmen ...	22	10
Industries	9	166
Trade	12	211
Domestic service	13	14
Others	33	30
EUROPEANS AND ALLIED RACES—		
WHOLE PROVINCE	*1,000*	*16*
Agents and managers of landed estates, etc. ...	63	2
Extraction of minerals	42	1
Industries	35	8
Transport	204	8
Public force	341	...
Public administration	54	3
Others	261	85
GAURA—		
ORISSA	*1,000*	*55*
Herdsmen and milkmen	218	62
Cultivators of all kinds	468	35
Field-labourers, wood-cutters, etc.	215	77
Industries	24	262
Trade	13	392
Domestic service	26	117
Others	36	45
GOALA (AHIR)—		
BIHAR	*1,000*	*54*
Herdsmen and milkmen	150	109
Cultivators of all kinds	599	35
Field-labourers, wood-cutters, etc.	202	99
Industries	4	218
Transport	7	7
Trade	9	364
Others	29	38
GOND—		
ORISSA STATES	*1,000*	*63*
Cultivators	783	54
Field-labourers, wood-cutters, etc.	77	154
Industries	32	202
Trade	11	143
Public force	11	17
Labourers, (unspecified)	24	160
Others	40	44
HAJJAM—		
BIHAR	*1,000*	*53*
Barbers	461	60
Cultivators of all kinds	271	38
Field-labourers, wood-cutters, etc.	117	164
Raisers of live-stock, herdsmen and milkmen ...	8	11
Domestic service	16	69
Labourers (unspecified)	6	108
Others	21	91
CHOTA NAGPUR PLATEAU	*1,000*	*73*
Barbers	260	57
Income from rent of land	16	119
Cultivators of all kinds	573	69
Field-labourers, wood-cutters, etc.	74	208
Raisers of live-stock, milkmen and herdsmen ...	18	16
Extraction of minerals	11	56
Labourers, (unspecified)	16	208
Others	32	96
HARI—		
PURNEA	*1,000*	*40*
Scavengers	119	105
Cultivators of all kinds	147	2
Field-labourers, wood-cutters, etc.	577	21
Raisers of live-stock, milkmen and herdsmen ...	38	2
Industries	111	263
Public force	52	...
Others	156	24

SUBSIDIARY TABLE VIII.—Occupations of Selected Castes—*continued.*

Bihar and Orissa—*continued.*

Caste and Occupations.	Number per 1,000 workers engaged on each occupation.	Number of female workers per 100 males.
1	2	3
HARI—concld.		
MANBHUM	1,000	76
Scavengers	137	143
Cultivators of all kinds	304	65
Field-labourers, wood-cutters, etc.	243	99
Raisers of live-stock, milkmen and herdsmen	62	21
Extraction of minerals	84	57
Domestic service	42	32
Others	128	95
ORISSA STATES	1,000	79
Scavengers	76	112
Cultivators of all kinds	75	10
Field-labourers, wood-cutters, etc.	151	35
Industries	389	118
Trade	190	280
Domestic service	49	50
Others	130	52
HO—		
CHOTA NAGPUR PLATEAU	1,000	95
Cultivators	844	98
Field-labourers, wood-cutters, etc.	46	144
Raisers of live-stock, herdsmen and milkmen	37	12
Trade	3	432
Domestic service	13	151
Labourers (unspecified)	43	137
Others	14	33
INDIAN CHRISTIAN—		
WHOLE PROVINCE	1,000	81
Income from rent of land	223	137
Cultivators of all kinds	608	68
Field-labourers, wood-cutters, etc.	41	104
Raisers of live-stock, milkmen and herdsmen	23	29
Labourers, (unspecified)	30	129
Others	75	59
JOLAHA—		
BIHAR	1,000	69
Weavers	165	51
Cultivators of all kinds	409	54
Field-labourers, wood-cutters, etc.	239	142
Industries	34	67
Trade	33	47
Domestic service	37	61
Others	63	46
CHOTA NAGPUR PLATEAU	1,000	78
Weavers	184	70
Cultivators of all kinds	690	72
Field-labourers, wood-cutters, etc.	110	178
Raisers of live-stock, herdsmen and milkmen	17	12
Extraction of minerals	26	56
Labourers, (unspecified)	27	138
Others	56	66
KAHAR—		
BIHAR	1,000	93
Palki-bearers	321	173
Cultivators of all kinds	247	51
Field-labourers, wood-cutters, etc.	326	99
Trade	14	93
Domestic service	14	77
Labourers, (unspecified)	16	95
Others	62	90
CHOTA NAGPUR PLATEAU	1,000	86
Palki-bearers	157	103
Cultivators of all kinds	388	73
Field-labourers, wood-cutters, etc.	250	134
Extraction of minerals	25	51
Domestic service	54	86
Labourers, (unspecified)	63	97
Others	81	80
KALU—		
MANBHUM	1,000	65
Oil-pressers	390	92
Cultivators of all kinds	407	49
Field-labourers wood-cutters, etc.	65	98
Raisers of live-stock, milkmen and herdsmen	45	4
Extraction of minerals	26	15
Trade	26	90
Others	37	106

Caste and Occupations.	Number per 1,000 workers engaged on each occupation.	Number of female workers per 100 males.
1	2	3
KALWAR—		
BIHAR	1,000	33
Distillers	52	33
Cultivators of all kinds	434	24
Field-labourers, wood-cutters, etc.	77	62
Industries	13	76
Transport	13	24
Trade	362	41
Others	49	20
KAMAR—		
CHOTA NAGPUR PLATEAU	1,000	61
Blacksmiths	536	44
Cultivators of all kinds	155	46
Field-labourers, wood-cutters, etc.	159	174
Raisers of live-stock, milkmen and herdsmen	22	16
Industries	24	82
Labourers (unspecified)	28	192
Others	66	83
KANDH—		
CHOTA NAGPUR PLATEAU	1,000	83
Cultivators	911	478
Field-labourers, wood-cutters, etc.	12	35
Raisers of live-stock, milkmen and herdsmen	10	10
Industries	33	925
Domestic service	6	374
Labourers (unspecified)	16	149
Others	12	69
KANDU—		
BIHAR	1,000	66
Grain-parchers	213	233
Cultivators of all kinds	590	56
Field-labourers, wood-cutters, etc.	248	71
Industries	25	46
Trade	59	49
Domestic service	18	51
Others	47	31
KARAN—		
ORISSA	1,000	10
Writers	172	...
Income from rent of land	63	12
Cultivators of all kinds	535	8
Field-labourers, wood-cutters, etc.	33	9
Industries	31	524
Domestic service	23	47
Labourers (unspecified)	38	4
Others	100	8
KASERI—		
BIHAR	1,000	45
Braziers	346	13
Income from rent of land	50	2,378
Cultivators of all kinds	125	23
Field-labourers, wood-cutters, etc.	57	123
Fishing and hunting	85	...
Trade	69	42
Others	70	138
KAYASTH—		
BIHAR	1,000	10
Writers	274	1
Income from rent of land	68	22
Cultivators of all kinds	476	12
Agents and managers of landed estates	29	1
Public administration	21	...
Arts and professions	42	1
Others	90	28
KEWAT—		
BIHAR	1,000	42
Fishermen	24	72
Cultivators of all kinds	461	20
Field-labourers, wood-cutters, etc.	364	64
Raisers of live-stock, milkmen and herdsmen	35	4
Industries	18	472
Domestic service	62	189
Others	56	40

SUBSIDIARY TABLE VIII.—Occupations of Selected Castes—*continued.*

Bihar and Orissa—*continued.*

Caste and Occupations.	Number per 1,000 workers engaged on each occupation.	Number of female workers per 100 males.
1	2	3
KEWAT—*concld.*		
ORISSA	*1,000*	*66*
Fishermen	579	148
Cultivators of all kinds	217	4
Field-labourers, wood-cutters, etc.	57	1
Industries	29	132
Transport	43	...
Trade	43	105
Others	32	13
CHOTA NAGPUR PLATEAU	*1,000*	*86*
Fishermen	338	182
Cultivators of all kinds	297	30
Field-labourers, wood-cutters, etc.	84	35
Industries	111	279
Transport	38	3
Trade	96	222
Others	36	23
KHANDAIT—		
ORISSA	*1,000*	*11*
Landholders	831	5
Cultivators of all kinds	37	6
Field-labourers, wood-cutters, etc.	12	4
Raisers of live-stock, milkmen and herdsmen ...	14	3
Industries	44	353
Labourers, (unspecified)	12	7
Others	50	34
KOIRI—		
BIHAR	*1,000*	*54*
Cultivators and vegetable-growers	802	46
Field-labourers, wood-cutters, etc.	153	119
Raisers of live-stock, milkmen and herdsmen ...	12	12
Transport	3	3
Trade	4	110
Labourers, (unspecified)	5	78
Others	21	81
CHOTA NAGPUR PLATEAU—	*1,000*	*79*
Cultivators and vegetable-growers	784	68
Field-labourers, wood-cutters, etc.	130	180
Raisers of live-stock, milkmen and herdsmen ...	15	50
Extraction of minerals	11	38
Domestic service	19	197
Labourers, (unspecified)	21	108
Others	20	54
KUMHAR—		
BIHAR	*1,000*	*65*
Potters	583	79
Cultivators of all kinds	288	33
Field-labourers, wood-cutters, etc.	92	121
Industries	5	93
Trade	5	183
Domestic service	4	95
Others	23	72
ORISSA	*1,000*	*66*
Potters	700	101
Cultivators of all kinds	221	7
Field-labourers, wood-cutters, etc.	37	47
Raisers of live-stock, milkmen and herdsmen ...	8	7
Industries	12	436
Trade	6	146
Others	16	37
CHOTA NAGPUR PLATEAU	*1,000*	*74*
Potters	583	72
Income from rent of land	22	76
Cultivators of all kinds	245	70
Field-labourers, wood-cutters, etc.	35	148
Raisers of live-stock, herdsmen and milkmen ...	19	21
Industries	49	79
Others	47	119
KUNJRA—		
BIHAR	*1,000*	*71*
Vegetable sellers	328	275
Cultivators of all kinds	391	24
Field-labourers, wood-cutters, etc.	180	54
Raisers of live-stock, milkmen and herdsmen ...	17	17
Industries	10	37
Trade	38	131
Others	36	28

Caste and Occupations.	Number per 1,000 workers engaged on each occupation.	Number of female workers per 100 males.
1	2	3
KURMI—		
PATNA AND TIRHUT DIVISIONS	*1,000*	*52*
Cultivators	870	50
Field-labourers, wood-cutters, etc.	68	96
Raisers of live-stock, milkmen and herdsmen ...	11	22
Industries	9	115
Trade	8	43
Labourers, (unspecified)	7	94
Others	27	22
LOHAR—		
BIHAR	*1,000*	*41*
Blacksmiths	253	9
Cultivators of all kinds	538	44
Field-labourers, wood-cutters, etc.	146	149
Industries	17	41
Transport	7	6
Trade	10	54
Others	29	50
MALLAH—		
BIHAR	*1,000*	*61*
Boatmen and fishermen	247	122
Cultivators of all kinds	379	27
Field-labourers, wood-cutters, etc.	289	72
Industries	14	168
Trade	20	176
Others	51	66
MUNDA—		
CHOTA NAGPUR PLATEAU	*1,000*	*92*
Cultivators	859	96
Income from rent of land	21	4
Field-labourers, wood-cutters, etc.	22	120
Raisers of live-stock, herdsmen and milkmen ...	23	18
Domestic service	9	65
Labourers, (unspecified)	44	174
Others	22	90
MUSHAHAR—		
BIHAR	*1,000*	*82*
Labourers	829	88
Cultivators of all kinds	73	34
Field-labourers, wood-cutters, etc.	52	114
Raisers of live-stock, milkmen and herdsmen ...	20	4
Industries	5	263
Trade	5	321
Others	16	76
NUNIYA—		
BIHAR	*1,000*	*78*
Saltpetre refiners	237	106
Cultivators of all kinds	425	55
Field-labourers, wood-cutters, etc.	233	108
Industries	35	98
Trade	19	82
Labourers, (unspecified)	13	87
Others	36	48
ORAON—		
CHOTA NAGPUR PLATEAU	*1,000*	*103*
Cultivators	822	102
Income from rent of land	39	61
Field-labourers, wood-cutters, etc.	36	184
Raisers of live-stock, milkmen and herdsmen ...	15	29
Domestic service	8	110
Labourers, (unspecified)	51	238
Others	29	69
PAN—		
ORISSA AND CHOTA NAGPUR PLATEAU ...	*1,000*	*55*
Weavers	149	74
Cultivators of all kinds	222	17
Field-labourers, wood-cutters, etc.	368	56
Raisers of live-stock, herdsmen and milkmen ...	50	18
Trade	61	607
Labourers, (unspecified)	70	100
Others	80	64

SUBSIDIARY TABLE VIII.—Occupations of Selected Castes—*concluded.*

Bihar and Orissa—*concluded.*

Caste and Occupations.	Number per 1,000 workers engaged on each occupation.	Number of female workers per 100 males.
1	2	3
PATHAN—		
BIHAR	*1,000*	*30*
Income from rent of land	32	53
Cultivators of all kinds	460	19
Agents and managers of landed estates, etc.	39	4
Field-labourers, wood-cutters, etc.	152	60
Trade	58	26
Domestic service	76	20
Others	203	38
RAJPUT—		
BIHAR	*1,000*	*10*
Agriculture and Military service	902	9
Agents and managers of landed estates, etc.	23	...
Field-labourers, wood-cutters, etc.	25	48
Raisers of live-stock, herdsmen and milkmen	6	3
Trade	7	26
Domestic service	10	23
Others	27	19
CHOTA NAGPUR PLATEAU	*1,000*	*33*
Agriculture and Military service	779	31
Field-labourers, wood-cutters, etc.	53	85
Trade	19	59
Domestic service	38	31
Others	111	26
RAJWAR—		
GAYA	*1,000*	*106*
Labourers	687	119
Cultivators of all kinds	147	57
Field-labourers, wood-cutters, etc.	124	174
Others	42	34
SAIYAD		
BIHAR	*1,000*	*29*
Income from rent of land	193	51
Cultivators of all kinds	351	17
Arts and professions	59	4
Domestic service	61	64
Others	336	32
SONTHAL—		
BIHAR, ORISSA, CHOTA NAGPUR PLATEAU, ORISSA STATES AND SONTHAL PARGANAS	*1,000*	*87*
Cultivators	851	95
Field-labourers, wood-cutters, etc.	27	109
Raisers of live-stock, herdsmen and milkmen	61	16
Extraction of minerals	22	83
Domestic service	9	60
Labourers (unspecified)	14	100
Others	16	104
SONAR—		
BIHAR	*1,000*	*21*
Goldsmiths	488	5
Cultivators of all kinds	289	27
Field-labourers, wood-cutters, etc.	82	91
Industries	29	117
Trade	64	48
Domestic service	9	95
Others	39	45
SUNRI—		
BIHAR	*1,000*	*32*
Wine-sellers	51	20
Cultivators of all kinds	420	14
Field-labourers, wood-cutters, etc.	106	48
Industries	49	507
Transport	22	9
Trade	294	47
Others	58	24
CHOTA NAGPUR PLATEAU	*1,000*	*102*
Wine-sellers	10	77
Income from rent of land	20	73
Cultivators of all kinds	805	89
Field-labourers, wood-cutters, etc.	86	244
Trade	10	51
Labourers (unspecified)	29	434
Others	40	161
TANTI AND TATWA—		
BIHAR	*1,000*	*68*
Weavers	66	71
Cultivators of all kinds	259	29
Field-labourers, wood-cutters, etc.	541	98
Raisers of live-stock, herdsmen and milkmen	25	9
Industries	31	97
Labourers (unspecified)	22	165
Others	56	56
ORISSA	*1,000*	*58*
Weavers	628	90
Cultivators of all kinds	227	5
Field-labourers, wood-cutters, etc.	49	4
Raisers of live-stock, herdsmen and milkmen	10	5
Industries	39	961
Trade	18	175
Others	29	47
TELI—		
BIHAR	*1,000*	*53*
Oil-pressers	332	116
Cultivators of all kinds	418	26
Field-labourers, wood-cutters, etc.	94	66
Industries	17	229
Transport	17	7
Trade	99	34
Others	33	37
ORISSA—	*1,000*	*27*
Oil-pressers	216	109
Cultivators of all kinds	498	5
Field-labourers, wood-cutters, etc.	91	2
Industries	40	701
Trade	96	48
Labourers, (unspecified)	13	7
Others	46	16
TIYAR—		
PURNEA	*1,000*	*79*
Fishermen	175	94
Cultivators of all kinds	124	8
Field-labourers, wood-cutters, etc.	545	24
Raisers of live-stock, herdsmen and milkmen	70	1
Industries	39	743
Trade	16	182
Others	31	7

SUBSIDIARY TABLE IX.—Occupations by Religion for Orders and Selected Groups.

Order and Selected Groups.	Distribution by Religion of 10,000 persons following each occupation.											Distribution by Occupation of 10,000 persons of each Religion.										
	Bengal.						Bihar and Orissa.					Bengal.						Bihar and Orissa.				
	Hindu.	Musalman.	Christian.	Buddhist.	Animist.	Others.	Hindu.	Musalman.	Christian.	Animist.	Others.	Hindu.	Musalman.	Christian.	Buddhist.	Animist.	Others.	Hindu.	Musalman.	Christian.	Animist.	Others.
1	2	3	4	5	6	7	8	9	10	11	12	13	14	15	16	17	18	19	20	21	22	23
TOTAL POPULATION	**4,523**	**5,234**	**28**	**53**	**158**	**4**	**8,260**	**958**	**70**	**708**	**4**	**10,000**	**10,000**	**10,000**	**10,000**	**10,000**	**10,000**	**10,000**	**10,000**	**10,000**	**10,000**	**10,000**
1.—PASTURE AND AGRICULTURE	**3,839**	**5,906**	**15**	**55**	**185**	...	**8,299**	**899**	**65**	**735**	**2**	**6,472**	**8,605**	**4,067**	**7,859**	**8,951**	**655**	**8,053**	**7,516**	**7,516**	**8,326**	**3,918**
(a) Ordinary Cultivation	3,790	5,878	14	49	171	...	8,299	908	65	726	2	6,260	8,530	3,77	6,905	8,063	630	7,857	7,410	7,293	8,015	3,870
1. Income from rent of agricultural land ...	6,938	2,915	10	25	87	5	8,205	1,273	87	326	9	401	145	90	121	145	358	165	218	204	75	421
2. Ordinary cultivators	3,513	6,293	14	54	126	...	8,260	928	80	730	2	4,939	7,724	3,260	6,501	5,139	72	5,681	5,344	6,505	6,367	3,879
3. Agents, managers of landed estates (not planters), clerks, rent collectors, etc.	5,152	1,773	12	8	43	12	8,483	1,377	46	102	12	81	15	20	7	12	160	48	67	30	7	154
4. Farm servants and field labourers ...	4,816	4,560	15	20	589	...	8,597	803	19	580	1	789	648	385	276	2,767	40	1,963	1,581	504	1,546	625
(b) Growers of special products and market gardening.	7,455	459	24	810	1,308	1	8,942	739	177	142	...	122	6	248	847	655	21	8	6	19	1	...
(c) Forestry	5,608	3,478	31	391	489	1	8,983	444	114	1,177	2	8	4	8	48	20	3	14	6	25	24	8
(d) Raising of farm stock	5,130	4,299	14	509	46	...	8,260	526	60	1,153	1	75	54	34	59	213	1	174	64	151	286	31
(e) Raising of small animals	3,758	6,237	5	...	...	...	8,739	1,137	18	106	...	7	11	3	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...
2.—FISHING AND HUNTING	**9,396**	**570**	**8**	**25**	**1**	...	**9,663**	**190**	**1**	**146**	...	**290**	**15**	**37**	**66**	**1**	...	**44**	**8**	**1**	**7**	**1**
14.—Fishing	9,421	547	6	25	1	...	9,843	85	1	71	...	290	14	30	66	1	...	42	3	1	3	...
3.—MINES	**8,436**	**367**	**36**	...	**1,161**	...	**6,243**	**771**	**23**	**2,960**	**3**	**46**	**2**	**32**	...	**182**	...	**26**	**27**	**13**	**143**	**27**
16.—Coal mines	8,426	388	35	...	1,181	...	6,134	793	22	3,049	3	46	2	31	...	182	...	25	27	10	143	27
4.—QUARRIES OF HARD ROCKS	**9,717**	**260**	**23**	...	...	...	**9,360**	**561**	**8**	**71**	...	**1**	...	...	...	...	...	**1**	**1**	...	...	...
5.—SALT, ETC.	**2,698**	**7,302**	...	...	...	...	**9,980**	**20**	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	**9**	...	...	...	...
6.—TEXTILES	**5,824**	**4,094**	**16**	**62**	**3**	**1**	**6,753**	**3,023**	**61**	**129**	**34**	**242**	**147**	**107**	**219**	**4**	**50**	**102**	**394**	**109**	**23**	**1,143**
22. Cotton spinning, sizing and weaving ...	5,345	4,531	7	115	2	...	7,109	2,660	59	131	41	117	88	25	215	1	15	88	284	87	19	1,143
23. Jute spinning, pressing and weaving ...	6,319	3,445	28	5	2	2	5,074	4,917	9	...	...	102	47	71	4	1	33	3	23	1	...	...
7.—HIDES, SKINS AND HARD MATERIALS FROM THE ANIMAL KINGDOM.	**9,506**	**472**	**9**	**4**	**8**	**1**	**8,886**	**917**	**141**	**52**	**4**	**25**	**1**	**4**	**1**	...	**2**	**2**	**2**	**4**	...	**2**
8.—WOOD	**8,208**	**1,611**	**37**	**51**	**73**	**20**	**9,217**	**158**	**36**	**585**	**4**	**145**	**25**	**105**	**77**	**37**	**463**	**86**	**13**	**40**	**64**	**85**

SUBSIDIARY TABLE IX.—Occupations by Religion for Orders and Selected Groups—*continued*.

Order and Selected Groups.	Distribution by religion of 10,000 persons following each occupation.											Distribution by occupation of 10,000 persons of each religion.										
	Bengal.						Bihar and Orissa.					Bengal.						Bihar and Orissa.				
	Hindu.	Musalman.	Christian.	Buddhist.	Animist.	Others.	Hindu.	Musalman.	Christian.	Animist.	Others.	Hindu.	Musalman.	Christian.	Buddhist.	Animist.	Others.	Hindu.	Musalman.	Christian.	Animist.	Others.
1	2	3	4	5	6	7	8	9	10	11	12	13	14	15	16	17	18	19	20	21	22	23
9.—METALS	9,079	879	19	2	20	1	9,120	332	72	462	14	80	7	27	1	5	15	60	19	56	35	204
10.—CERAMICS	9,437	537	2	1	23	...	9,163	366	39	432	...	102	5	4	1	7	3	73	25	37	40	2
11.—CHEMICAL PRODUCTS PROPERLY SO-CALLED AND ANALOGOUS.	3,778	6,195	18	7	...	2	9,359	174	8	458	1	24	34	18	4	...	16	46	7	5	26	13
12.—FOOD INDUSTRIES	5,861	4,010	10	37	81	1	8,801	1,054	9	132	4	135	80	38	73	54	26	121	124	14	21	121
13.—INDUSTRIES OF DRESS AND THE TOILET.	7,637	2,331	12	12	1	7	8,215	1,647	23	114	1	189	50	48	26	1	222	153	264	50	25	43
14.—FURNITURE INDUSTRIES	3,323	6,629	36	1	...	11	7,281	2,580	125	14	...	2	3	3	...	...	7	...	1	...	...	...
15.—BUILDING INDUSTRIES	3,857	6,049	28	20	46	...	8,181	1,328	49	439	3	42	57	48	18	14	5	36	50	25	22	28
16.—CONSTRUCTION OF MEANS OF TRANSPORT.	8,261	1,679	48	4	4	4	6,942	2,174	824	60	...	15	3	15	1	...	10	...	1	5	...	...
17.—PRODUCTION AND TRANSMISSION OF PHYSICAL FORCE, ETC.	6,179	2,506	1,167	4	...	144	4,074	5,522	337	...	67	1	...	43	...	...	44	...	...	...	...	1
18.—INDUSTRIES OF LUXURY, etc.	8,379	1,544	56	10	3	8	8,985	946	21	36	12	108	17	116	11	1	144	52	47	15	3	158
19.—INDUSTRIES CONCERNED WITH REFUSE MATTER.	9,451	516	11	3	16	3	9,352	390	20	237	1	22	1	4	1	1	12	13	5	3	4	4
20.—TRANSPORT BY WATER	4,072	5,739	112	19	55	3	7,751	2,211	17	18	3	61	74	268	24	23	51	13	31	3	...	11
97. Boat owners, boatmen and towmen ...	4,734	5,246	7	20	3	...	8,547	1,427	5	19	2	51	49	12	18	1	6	11	16	1	...	5
21.—TRANSPORT BY ROAD	6,342	3,094	19	32	512	1	8,002	1,366	73	557	2	139	58	68	58	321	20	54	80	58	44	35
22.— DITTO RAIL	6,789	2,501	579	17	57	57	7,477	1,917	485	93	28	52	16	718	11	13	589	19	43	148	3	159
23.—POST OFFICE, TELEGRAPH AND TELEPHONE SERVICES.	7,447	2,053	407	66	11	16	7,121	2,033	468	374	4	11	3	100	9	1	33	3	6	21	2	4

SUBSIDIARY TABLE IX.—Occupations by Religion for Orders and Selected Groups—*continued.*

Order and Selected Groups.	Distribution by religion of 10,000 persons following each occupation.											Distribution by occupation of 10,000 persons of each religion.										
	Bengal.						Bihar and Orissa.					Bengal.						Bihar and Orissa.				
	Hindu.	Muslman.	Christian.	Buddhist.	Animist.	Others	Hindu.	Muslman.	Christian.	Animist.	Others.	Hindu.	Muslman.	Christian.	Buddhist.	Animist.	Others.	Hindu.	Muslman.	Christian.	Animist.	Others.
1	2	3	4	5	6	7	8	9	10	11	12	13	14	15	16	17	18	19	20	21	22	23
24.—BANKS, ESTABLISHMENTS OF CREDIT, ETC.	8,956	948	36	12	1	47	9,118	633	35	98	116	56	5	36	7	...	392	20	12	9	3	554
25.—BROKERAGE, COMMISSION AND EXPORT	7,395	2,095	237	4	20	249	7,995	661	21	1,307	16	16	4	81	1	1	708	6	4	2	11	25
26.—TRADE IN TEXTILES	7,341	2,411	25	48	16	159	7,392	2,281	53	136	138	68	19	37	37	5	1,980	24	64	20	5	995
27.—TRADE IN SKINS, LEATHER AND FURS, ETC.	7,632	2,341	19	1	3	4	6,650	3,036	99	211	4	31	8	13	...	...	21	8	30	13	3	10
28.— TRADE IN WOOD	6,483	2,940	17	49	506	5	9,151	448	13	383	5	14	6	6	9	31	15	11	4	2	5	13
29.— DITTO METALS	8,844	1,066	54	3	23	10	9,367	609	4	14	6	5	1	5	...	...	8	1	1	...	...	2
30.— DITTO POTTERY	8,885	1,106	...	...	7	2	9,850	143	1	6	...	12	1	...	...	...	2	5	3	...	...	...
31.— DITTO CHEMICAL PRODUCTS ...	7,328	2,463	129	5	21	54	8,985	488	67	449	11	6	2	16	...	1	55	11	5	10	6	29
32.—HOTELS, CAFES, RESTAURANTS, ETC. ...	7,151	2,543	168	49	52	37	8,731	1,099	32	133	5	10	3	39	6	3	72	24	27	10	4	29
33.—OTHER TRADE IN FOOD-STUFFS ...	8,025	1,889	7	68	6	5	8,898	940	6	143	13	533	108	75	384	11	442	265	241	21	50	844
34.—TRADE IN CLOTHING AND TOILET ARTICLES.	3,835	5,976	66	48	...	75	7,203	2,772	13	1	3	4	6	12	5	...	114	3	10	1	...	3
35.—TRADE IN FURNITURE	7,932	1,931	21	103	4	9	9,020	937	...	26	17	16	3	7	17	...	23	4	4	...	...	19
36.— DITTO BUILDING MATERIALS ...	7,775	2,208	12	3	2	...	8,232	1,597	87	84	...	5	1	1	...		...	1	2	2	...	...
37.— DITTO MEANS OF TRANSPORT ...	3,163	6,679	55	83	11	9	4,307	5,642	5	17	29	2	5	7	6		10	1	12	...	...	16
38.— DITTO FUEL	7,074	2,262	13	29	620	2	8,396	396	75	1,133	...	16	4	5	6	40	7	29	12	30	46	...
39.— DITTO ARTICLES OF LUXURY, ETC.	5,398	4,531	25	18	1	27	6,909	2,933	14	108	36	23	17	17	7	...	151	10	38	3	2	122
40.— DITTO REFUSE MATTER	3,589	6,411	...	...	...	...	9,200	400	400	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...

SUBSIDIARY TABLE IX.—Occupations by Religion for Orders and Selected Groups—*concluded*

Order and Selected Groups.	Distribution by religion of 10,000 persons following each occupation.											Distribution by occupation of 10,000 persons of each religion.										
	Bengal.						Bihar and Orissa.					Bengal.						Bihar and Orissa.				
	Hindu.	Musalman.	Christian.	Buddhist.	Animist.	Others.	Hindu.	Musalman.	Christian.	Animist.	Others.	Hindu.	Musalman.	Christian.	Buddhist.	Animist.	Others.	Hindu.	Musalman.	Christian.	Animist.	Others.
1	2	3	4	5	6	7	8	9	10	11	12	13	14	15	16	17	18	19	20	21	22	23
41.—TRADE OF OTHER SORTS	6,779	2,844	166	126	6	79	7,375	1,856	26	712	31	36	13	143	57	1	566	21	45	8	23	192
42.—ARMY	2,613	2,311	4,679	1	387	9	3,019	819	6,162	...	...	1	1	322	...	...	221	...	...	31	...	...
43.—NAVY	8,667	...	1,333	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...
44.—POLICE	6,454	3,370	64	69	41	2	8,415	1,134	53	397	1	54	24	87	49	10	25	47	55	36	26	19
45.—PUBLIC ADMINISTRATION	7,591	2 056	264	34	25	30	7,426	2,034	292	228	20	49	11	272	18	4	260	16	37	73	6	96
144. Service of the State	7,544	2.116	282	24	2	32	6,934	2,407	346	289	24	41	10	243	11	...	229	11	32	64	5	83
46.—RELIGION...	8,328	1,513	138	15	...	6	9,336	317	281	59	7	148	23	394	22	...	136	60	18	215	4	106
47.—LAW	8,874	1,022	74	5	...	25	7,826	2,099	47	1	27	32	3	43	2	...	120	6	14	4	...	47
48.—MEDICINE	8,131	1,580	141	118	5	25	8,618	1,181	129	48	24	63	11	177	78	1	257	15	17	26	1	92
49.—INSTRUCTION	7,404	2,098	392	44	3	59	7,620	1,840	396	120	24	34	9	292	17	1	365	13	27	81	3	93
50.—LETTERS, ARTS AND SCIENCES ...	7,212	2,382	363	20	1	22	7,338	2,405	204	48	5	36	10	295	8	...	147	13	37	43	1	20
51.—PERSONS LIVING PRINCIPALLY ON THEIR INCOME.	7,555	1,498	829	28	23	67	5,859	2,665	1,382	15	79	19	3	333	6	2	222	2	7	51	...	54
52.—DOMESTIC SERVICE	6,764	2,884	183	104	52	13	7,469	1,410	197	922	2	170	63	742	222	37	457	171	278	532	246	131
53.—INSUFFICIENTLY DESCRIBED OCCUPATIONS.	3,614	6,106	53	97	121	9	6,970	754	175	2,095	6	233	340	553	529	224	768	207	193	615	726	405
54.—INMATES OF JAILS, ASYLUMS AND HOSPITALS.	4,055	4,976	844	57	64	4	7,434	2,144	235	179	8	3	3	92	3	1	3	2	5	8	...	5
55.—BEGGARS, VAGRANTS AND PROSTITUTES	4,911	5,035	8	25	18	3	6,594	2,738	48	610	10	101	90	28	44	11	86	38	136	33	41	120

SUBSIDIARY TABLE X.—Number of persons employed on the 10th March 1911 on Railways, and in the Irrigation, Telegraph and Postal Departments in Bengal, Bihar and Orissa.

Class of persons employed.	Europeans and Anglo-Indians.	Indians.
RAILWAYS.		
TOTAL PERSONS EMPLOYED	4,394	236,926
Persons directly employed—	*4,346*	*139,024*
Officers	391	25
Subordinates drawing more than Rs. 75 per month	2,896	794
,, ,, from Rs. 20 to Rs. 75 ,,	1,000	21,522
,, ,, under Rs. 20 per month ...	59	116,683
Persons indirectly employed—	*48*	*97,902*
Contractors	28	1,710
Contractors' regular employés	19	13,931
Coolies	1	82,261
IRRIGATION DEPARTMENT.		
TOTAL PERSONS EMPLOYED	30	20,123
Persons directly employed—	*29*	*5,341*
Officers	18	24
Upper Subordinates	4	80
Lower ,, ...	2	170
Peons and other servants	5	4,083
Coolies	...	984
Persons indirectly employed—	*1*	*14,782*
Contractors	1	719
Contractors' regular employés	...	385
Coolies	...	13,678
TELEGRAPH DEPARTMENT.		
TOTAL	614	3,996
Administrative establishment	40	6
Signalling ,, ...	537	134
Clerks	26	356
Skilled labour	10	1,132
Unskilled labour	1	1,510
Messenger, etc.	...	858
POSTAL DEPARTMENT.		
TOTAL	104	22,868
Supervising officers	31	127
Post Masters	23	1,709
Miscellaneous Agents	...	2,534
Clerks	49	3,081
Postmen, etc.	...	7,784
Road establishment	...	5,824
Railway Mail Service—		
Supervising officers	1	14
Clerks and sorters	...	571
Mail guards, etc.	...	442
Probationers, paid or unpaid	...	37
Combined offices—		
Signallers	...	287
Messengers	...	45

LIBRARY OF THE ROYAL ASIATIC SOCIETY

SUBSIDIARY TABLE XI—CASTES OF INCOME-TAX ASSESSEES.

CASTE, TRIBE OR RACE.	BENGAL.					BIHAR AND ORISSA.					GRAND TOTAL.
	Professions.	Manufactures.	Commerce and trade.	Owners of property.	Total.	Professions.	Manufactures.	Commerce and trade.	Owners of property.	Total.	
Total	***3,164***	***588***	***17,761***	***1,359***	***22,872***	***1,412***	***384***	***10,611***	***489***	***13,096***	***35,968***
Agarwala	3	2	325	10	340	8	10	1,541	38	1,597	1,937
Aguri	30	...	118	10	158	1	...	1	1	3	161
Babhan (Bhumihar Brahman).	...	...	6	2	8	18	5	740	53	816	824
Baidya	295	1	126	58	480	34	...	27	1	62	542
Baishnab and Bairagi ...	8	...	47	...	55	2	...	26	17	45	100
Bais-Bauiya	...	...	53	...	53	1	2	182	3	188	241
Bauiya	12	6	532	26	576	1	...	191	...	192	768
Barai and Barui ...	27	...	105	5	137	3	1	31	...	35	172
Brahman	994	63	1,451	348	2,856	332	6	800	57	1,195	4,051
Gandhabanik	4	6	366	1	377	3	...	102	1	106	483
Goala (Ahir)	4	7	339	2	352	3	...	212	4	219	571
Jogi and Jugi	16	1	208	2	227	...	...	1	...	1	228
Jolaha	...	...	25	...	25	...	1	86	...	87	112
Kaibartta Total ...	36	21	569	16	642	1	...	1	...	2	644
Kaibartta (Chasi or Mahisya).	7	...	*237*	*6*	*250*	...	...	*1*	...	*1*	*251*
Kaibartta (Jalia) ...	...	*4*	*54*	...	*58*	...	...	...	...	...	*58*
Ditto (unspecified) ...	*29*	*17*	*278*	*10*	*334*	*1*	...	...	...	*1*	*335*
Kalu	1	21	184	4	210	1	...	1	...	2	212
Kalwar	...	5	55	1	61	13	42	712	14	781	842
Kamar and Lohar ...	14	11	114	4	143	...	23	138	1	162	305
Kandu	...	...	28	2	30	1	26	135	...	162	192
Kasarwani	...	...	4	...	4	...	3	159	...	162	166
Kayasth	1,111	51	1,640	239	3,041	534	2	196	39	771	3,812
Koiri	...	...	1	...	1	1	2	189	1	193	194
Kumhar	7	53	106	2	168	...	...	7	...	7	175
Kurmi	...	...	29	...	29	11	2	171	3	187	216
Mahesri	...	3	153	13	169	...	...	19	...	19	188
Marwari	...	1	380	11	392	...	6	168	2	176	568
Mayra	5	15	190	2	212	...	...	35	...	35	247
Musalman (unspecified) ...	209	59	2,373	121	2,762	100	9	311	17	437	3,199
Namasudra	7	1	98	1	107	...	...	...	...	...	107
Napit	15	2	109	1	127	...	...	4	...	4	131
Oswal	...	3	285	19	257	1	...	49	...	50	307
Pod	1	...	95	5	101	...	...	...	...	...	101
Rajbansi	8	...	171	...	179	...	...	15	...	15	194
Rajput (Chhatri) ...	4	1	42	25	72	41	8	664	109	822	894
Rauniar	...	...	4	...	4	7	12	363	2	384	388
Sadgop	49	19	419	16	503	4	...	15	1	20	523
Saiyad	6	...	13	5	24	51	...	106	20	177	201
Shaha	74	6	2,641	53	2,774	...	...	...	...	...	2,774
Sheikh	8	17	323	18	366	58	5	333	12	408	774
Sonar	...	13	42	...	54	...	18	53	...	71	125
Subarnabanik	16	20	333	19	388	1	2	25	5	33	421
Sunri	14	9	630	13	666	...	10	845	6	861	1,527
Tambuli	6	6	179	12	203	2	...	82	3	87	290
Tanti and Tatwa ...	11	20	335	20	386	1	...	26	...	27	413
Teli and Tili	45	9	1,454	65	1,573	8	44	921	8	981	2,554
Others	124	137	1,111	208	1,580	170	145	1,128	71	1,514	3,094

SUBSIDIARY TABLE XII.—Birth places of Workers in Coal Mines and Tea Garden Population.

Born in	Enumerated in							
	Coal Mines.				Tea Gardens.			
	Total.	Burdwan.	Manbhum.	Hazaribagh.	Total.	Darjeeling.	Jalpaiguri.	Chittagong.
1	2	3	4	5	6	7	8	9
TOTAL	161,731	62,363	91,634	7,734	227,491	54,702	164,879	5,910
(a) Bengal	61,155	43,078	18,026	51	70,080	25,151	40,927	4,002
BURDWAN DIVISION	58,927	42,175	16,713	39	1,157	3	266	888
Burdwan	41,679	37,577	4,102	...	...	...	...	...
Birbhum	4,178	975	3,203	...	174	...	...	174
Bankura	7,024	2,413	4,611	...	724	...	103	621
Midnapore	3,169	908	2,181	...	...	...	...	...
Hooghly	783	167	616	...	...	...	...	...
PRESIDENCY DIVISION	2,141	816	1,313	12	622	42	437	143
24-Parganas	544	544	...	...	...	...	...	...
Calcutta	...	...	...	...	120	...	...	120
Nadia	111	111	...	...	132	...	132	...
Murshidabad	1,434	148	1,291	...	...	...	...	...
Jessore	...	...	...	...	163	...	163	...
RAJSHAHI DIVISION	...	...	...	...	64,798	25,102	39,694	2
Jalpaiguri	...	...	...	...	37,441	147	37,294	...
Darjeeling	...	...	...	...	27,132	24,953	2,180	...
DACCA DIVISION	87	87	...	...	354	4	338	12
Dacca	...	...	...	...	150	...	150	...
CHITTAGONG DIVISION	...	...	...	...	3,013	...	56	2,957
Chittagong	...	...	...	...	2,945	...	...	2,945
FEUDATORY STATES	...	...	...	...	48	...	48	...
BENGAL (unspecified)	...	...	...	...	88	...	88	...
(b) Bihar and Orissa	98,794	18,692	72,457	7,645	107,218	4,175	101,784	1,259
PATNA DIVISION	6,055	839	4,921	325	464	25	419	20
Patna	1,857	244	1,413	...	...	...	...	...
Gaya	3,382	447	2,655	280	...	...	...	...
Shahabad	1,001	148	853	...	327	...	327	...
TIRHUT DIVISION	108	108	...	...	2,056	276	1,699	81
Saran	...	...	...	...	754	143	611	...
Muzaffarpur	...	...	...	...	768	125	643	...
Darbhanga	...	...	...	...	363	...	363	...
BHAGALPUR DIVISION	20,424	11,851	7,289	1,284	13,436	1,008	12,153	275
Monghyr	4,915	932	2,890	1,073	1,730	...	1,730	...
Bhagalpur	211	211	...	...	394	120	274	...
Purnea	...	...	...	...	302	...	302	...
Santhal Parganas	15,273	10,688	4,399	186	10,748	798	9,787	163
ORISSA DIVISION	...	...	...	...	2,051	...	1,943	108
Cuttack	...	...	...	...	1,985	...	1,880	105
CHOTA NAGPUR DIVISION	72,177	5,894	60,247	6,036	85,828	2,864	82,211	753
Hazaribagh	9,371	1,436	1,929	6,006	1,310	...	991	319
Ranchi	1,302	...	1,302	...	77,193	2,082	75,111	...
Palamau	1,214	...	1,214	...	2,710	617	2,093	...
Manbhum	57,871	4,431	52,840	...	151	...	...	151
Singhbhum	1,876	...	1,876	...	4,046	125	3,921	...
ORISSA (unspecified)	...	...	...	...	121	...	121	...
CHOTA NAGPUR (unspecified)	...	...	...	...	2,244	...	2,242	2
FEUDATORY STATES	...	...	...	...	1,018	2	996	20
Orissa Feudatory States	...	...	...	...	945	...	945	...
(c) Other Parts of India	1,630	525	1,081	24	4,786	1,825	2,320	641
Burma	...	...	...	...	200	200	...	...
Central Provinces and Berar	...	...	...	...	375	121	254	...
Ditto States	...	...	...	...	296	...	296	...
Madras (including Laccadives)	...	...	...	...	590	...	220	130
Punjab	...	...	...	...	154	...	154	...
Rajputana Agency	...	...	...	...	418	208	210	...
Sikkim	...	...	...	...	1,534	1,330	204	...
United Provinces	1,467	459	1,009	...	1,029	...	469	360
(d) Other Asiatic Countries	4	4	...	...	45,083	25,465	19,618	...
Bhutan	...	...	...	...	402	102	300	...
China	...	...	...	...	300	...	300	...
Nepal	...	...	...	...	44,060	24,936	19,124	...
Tibet	...	...	...	...	326	326	...	...
(e) Countries beyond Asia	148	64	70	14	324	86	230	8
United Kingdom	...	...	...	...	218	...	218	...
Scotland	...	...	...	...	102	...	102	...

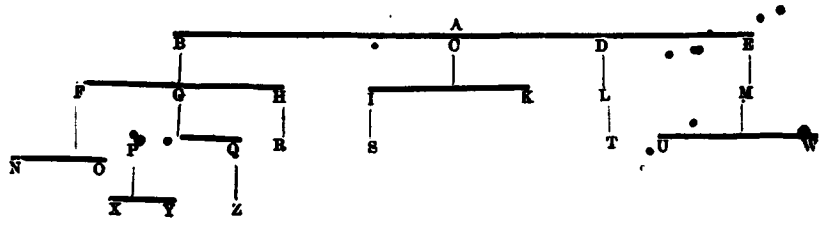
Details for districts, Provinces and countries are given only where the number is 100 or over.

APPENDIX.

Inheritance and partition of property among aboriginal races.

Hos

1. The rules of succession in force amongst the Hos are based on a patriarchal conception of the family as a sort of corporation. Maine says that primitive society "has for its units, not individuals, but groups of men united by the reality or the fiction of blood-relationship." So far as the rules of succession are concerned, we find this exemplified among the Hos. The family is divided into groups of male agnates; and the number of persons forming a group, as well as the distance of an individual from the common ancestor, are both disregarded. In other words, succession is *per stirpes* and not *per capita*, and, as will be seen later, a fiction secures the devolution of property in the absence of blood-relations. Males are preferred to females, but if there are no males, females of the same degree may succeed. On marriage, a woman passes into the family of her husband and is entitled to succeed to his property, either jointly with the direct heirs, or singly to the exclusion of the agnates. The following pedigree will help to illustrate the details which are given below:—



2. The rule of primogeniture is unknown. On the death of A, therefore his four sons (B, C, D and E) succeed to all his property. They take equal shares of the real property, any unmarried son receiving, however, an extra number of cattle or an additional amount of other personal property with which to buy a wife. If B has died before A, his three sons, F, G and H, take the share which would have gone to B if he had been alive. In the same way, if D and L had died before A, the individual T would get as much as the groups B, C or E. Succession among the Hos is, however, further complicated by the practice of polygamy. If A had married two wives, and B and C had been his sons by the first, while D and E were his sons by the second wife, B and C would get two shares of the property, and D and E only one share, *i.e.*, B's share would be one-third of the whole, while E's share would be only one-sixth. Though there is nothing to prevent it, it is unusual for a man to have more than two wives. If, however, A had had three wives, his sons by the first wife would get two shares of the property, and those by the other two wives would get one share each, irrespective of their numbers. Suppose now that, in course of time, after A's property has been divided among his sons, B has died and been succeeded by his three sons, F, G and H. If after this F dies without any lineal heirs, his share of B's property passes to his brothers G and H, or to their descendants *per stirpes*. If, however, F and G had been sons of one wife, and H by another, G alone would succeed to F's property. If F had had no uterine brothers, or if G's branch had died out, the half-brother H would succeed to F's property. If F had had neither uterine nor half-brothers, his property would pass to his paternal uncles C, D and E, or, if C was dead, to the collaterals I and K (one share) and the uncles D and E (one share each). In all cases, a posthumous son is treated in the same way as any other son, provided there is no doubt as to his parentage.

3. Daughters have no right to succeed unless there are no direct male heirs. If a daughter is an only child, she is entitled to all her father's property until she marries or dies. She usually lives with one of her paternal uncles, who maintains her and cultivates her land on her behalf. This does not, however, give him any exclusive rights in her

property unless her funeral expenses could not be met out of her personal property and he alone has had to defray them. All the co-heirs, however, have the right to share in these expenses, and only a categorical refusal to contribute to them can deprive a co-heir of his right to succeed. Thus, referring to the table already given, if L was the unmarried daughter of D, she would succeed to his property. If she lived with E, he would cultivate her land until she died, and it would then be divided equally between B, C and E, unless one of them had forfeited his rights in the manner described above. The same principle applies to marriage expenses. If B and C refused to share these expenses, E would be entitled to the whole of the bride-price paid for L. Her property would, however, be divided. Where there are direct male heirs, daughters are only entitled to maintenance, which may, however, assume the form of real property if her brothers prefer this course. She may live with any one of the brothers, or with a paternal uncle, and the same rules as those stated above hold good as regards succession to this land on her death or marriage. The amount of land given to a daughter in such cases is not fixed, but varies with the property under division. In all cases where a woman holds landed property in her own right, she has no power to alienate it permanently. She may, however, mortgage it for a term of years (known locally as *tikā*) and, if she dies or marries within the term of the mortgage, the mortgagee retains possession until its expiry, when the land passes to her brothers, uncles or other male relations as the case may be.

4. The widow of a childless man is entitled to all his property until she remarries or dies. She cannot alienate the land permanently, but can mortgage it in the same way as a daughter. If there are two widows, the elder gets two shares, and the younger gets one share, of the property. This also holds good if one has children and not the other, though the common practice in such cases is for the sons of one wife to take all the land and support the other wife.

5. A widow with minor sons or daughters is in exactly the same position as a childless widow. Both may continue to live in their husband's house and make their own arrangements for the cultivation of the land. A widow with grown-up sons usually takes a share of her husband's land for herself and lives with one of her sons. If she dies without remarrying, the succession to her share is governed by the same considerations as those mentioned in paragraph 4. If the widow has only grown-up daughters, her rights continue after they have been married.

6. A widow's remarriage extinguishes her rights in her first husband's property, but the rights of her minor sons and daughters continue. If, as is common, she marries her late husband's younger brother, the latter succeeds to the first husband's land, provided the other brothers agree. If they have any objection, he only succeeds to the share he would have got in the ordinary course. If there are minor sons and daughters of the first husband, no partition can take place. The second husband becomes their guardian and looks after the property until they grow up. Children by the second husband have no rights in the first husband's land, nor have the children of the first husband any rights in their step-father's land A widow loses her rights in her husband's property by unchastity leading to outcasting, but the rights of her children are not affected.

7. As already stated, a woman passes to her husband's family, and a son-in-law has therefore no rights in his father-in-law's property. He cannot be adopted because he belongs to another *kili*, but he may be taken into the house of his father-in-law, to act as a sort of guardian of the family and property. He cannot, however, succeed to his father-in-law's property except with the consent of all the relatives who would have succeeded in the ordinary course.

8. To revert to the pedigree given in paragraph 1, suppose that, after the partition of A's property, his sons B and C live jointly, while D and E live separately from them and from each other. If B dies without any direct heirs, all his personal property goes to C, but his landed property is divided between C, D and E, C being perhaps given an additional amount in consideration of the fact that he may have helped the deceased to improve the portion of the joint holding under partition.

9. Finally, if there are no direct heirs or agnates, the succession passes to the members of the same *kili* residing in the same village. The endogamous Ho tribe, it may be explained, is divided into a number of exogamous septs known as *kilis*. All the members of a *kili* are supposed

to be descended from a common ancestor by a fiction similar to that which united the Roman *gens*, and it is curious that the Ho custom in this respect is the same as the earlier Roman law under which the *gentiles* came next in the order of intestate succession to *sui heredes* and *agnati*. It must be admitted that the existing practice among the Hos is not in accordance with this custom, nor, for the matter, is the rule in the Kolhan record-of-rights regarding the settlement of deserted *jots* and those of deceased tenants. The latter (Rule 18) gives the preference to resident tenants of the same race, and the *mundas* are only too glad to escape responsibility for the rent by settling the land with any recorded resident who will take it. I have never known of a case in which members of the same *kili* living in the same village have disputed the settlement of a vacant holding with some other resident raiyat, whether a Ho of another *kili* or an outsider, but I have been assured everywhere that such members have the right to succeed on the failure of blood-relations, and the custom confirms on one side the truth of Maine's observations that "the family in India has a perpetual tendency to expand into the village community."

10. It seems almost unnecessary to add that a father has no power over the distribution of his property after his death. He cannot, for instance, nominate a particular son to succeed to all his property. It is known that the diversion or uneven distribution of property by means of a will is an incident that did not appear until a comparatively late stage in the development of testamentary succession, and it cannot therefore be expected to manifest itself in a community in which testamentary succession itself has not yet been evolved. I may mention, however, that I have recently come across a case in which the married daughter of a Ho who had become a Christian claimed to succeed to his property under a registered will bequeathing it to her to the exclusion of his brothers, who were still Animists. The case was compromised, and the principal point did not therefore have to be decided, but it is one that will probably come up again before long. *Primâ facie*, I am inclined to think that, as a Ho is permanently outcasted on becoming a Christian and loses his rights in the remainder of the family property, he is entitled to deal with his property in accordance with the Christian practice.

11. Turning now to partitions, it may be remarked that in India the laws of succession are regarded as connected primarily with the rupture of the family by partition rather than by death. The general rules governing partitions *inter vivos* are usually the same as those governing succession, and this is the case among the Hos. The property is divided among the sons in accordance with the foregoing rules, the parents retaining a share for themselves. On the father's death, the widow keeps this share and it is not divided until both parents have died. If they have been living with one particular son, the latter has no exclusive right to this *khorposh* land unless he has, on the refusal of the other brothers to do so, paid all the funeral expenses of his parents. Disputes as to land retained by parents for maintenance are not uncommon. In one case, a son had looked after his mother and her land for several years, and, on her death, had borne so much of the funeral expenses as could not be met out of her personal estate. Another son had not, however, been given any opportunity of participating in these expenses, and a *panchayat* decided that he was entitled to half the land on refunding half the amount expended by his brother. It may be added that sons cannot demand a partition during their father's lifetime. It is, however, usual to give a son some land on his marriage, but this is taken into consideration when the land is divided after the father's death. A father may partition before all his sons have grown up. The minor son or sons remain with him in that case, and he retains their share or shares.

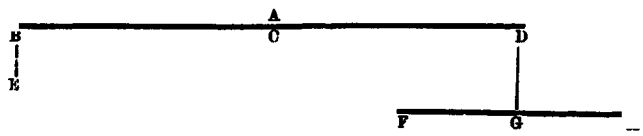
12. The customs regulating adoption are closely connected with those regarding succession and partition. Among the Hos, two forms of adoption have to be distinguished. One affects succession and is hedged around by several restrictions, the other does not affect succession and is comparatively untrammelled. The first is known as *dubumbul*, and gives the adopted son the same rights as a natural son. It cannot be resorted to unless there are no direct heirs, *i.e.*, sons or grandsons, daughters being no bar. The second is known as *asulhara*, and occurs when an orphan is taken into a man's house. It is not necessary that the adopter should have no sons of his own, because the *asulhara hon* (*hon* in Ho means child) has no rights in his adopted father's property. The latter may give him a small piece of land if he likes, but ordinarily he only receives

his keep and his marriage expenses. It sometimes happens that a man has grown too old to look after his cultivation properly, and, his sons having died, his only lineal heirs are minor grandsons who cannot assist him. In such cases, a male relative is imported to look after the land and its owner and bring up the minors. This practice is also known as *dubumbul*, but the relative is only a kind of guardian and has no rights in the property this particular form of *dubumbul* need not therefore be further considered. The word, whenever it occurs below, refers only to the complete form of adoption already mentioned.

13. *Dubumbul* can only be effected with the consent of those who would have succeeded to the adoptor's land in the ordinary course. It is usual to guard against future disputes by making the proceedings as public as possible. All the co-heirs and the Ho residents of the same village are generally present, and, if the *manki* and *munda* are not present also, the adoptor sends them a goat or some goat's flesh with a message that he has adopted so and so as his son. After the assembled relatives have signified their assent *coram publico*, the adopted son is rubbed all over his body with oil and turmeric, a necklace is hung around his neck, and he is given new clothes dyed yellow with turmeric. In the case of *asulhara* no one's permission is necessary, this being a matter of individual feeling rather than a custom.

14. The *dubumbul hon* must be a relative on the male side, no particular relative having a right of preference. Failing blood-relations, he may be a member of the same *kili*. Anyone may be an *asulhara hon*, The *dubumbul hon* may be of any age; the *asulhara hon* is necessarily too young to look after itself. Only males can be adopted *dubumbul*, but a girl may be adopted as an *asulhara hon*. Once a man has adopted a *dubumbul hon*, he cannot adopt another in the same way, but he may have more than one *asulhara hon*. Aged bachelors, widowers and widows can adopt either *dubumbul* or *asulhara*, the consent of their relatives being of course necessary in the former case. A *dubumbul* son loses all his rights in his natural father's property unless he is the only son, in which case he gets both his own and his adopted father's propey.

15. In conclusion, the following case may be noticed as an interesting illustration of the illogicality of primitive customs:—



A's property had been divided between his three sons B, C and D, who were in separate possession of their own shares. C, having no direct heirs, had, with the consent of B, E and D, adopted (*dubumbul*) G in the customary manner. G got no shares of D's property, but succeeded to all C's property on his death. Later, G himself died, leaving no direct heirs, and the question at issue was whether E was entitled to a share of his property. If G had been the natural son of C, there would have been no doubt as to E's right to a half-share. As he was, however, an adopted son, an authoritative *panchayat* ruled that F and H were alone entitled to his property, because he had originally belonged to their branch, and because B and E, in consenting to G's adoption by C, had given up their interest in C's land. If there had been any male descendants belonging to the branch into which G had passed by adoption, they would have succeeded to the exclusion of his uterine brothers. For example, reverting to the genealogical table in paragraph 1, if K had, with the consent of all his relatives, adopted U, and the latter had subsequently died living no heirs, I and S would succeed to the property of U derived from K. The rules are obviously illogical, but the decision of the *panchayat* has been confirmed over and over again in the course of the present inquiries.*

SANTALS.

16. The family share all they have in common till the death of the father when the property is divided equally among the sons, except that the eldest

* Contributed by Mr. L. B. Burrows, Deputy Collector of Singhbhum.

son gets a bullock and a rupee more than the others. The daughters have no right to any of the property, the idea being that a woman does not inherit, for she is expected to marry and to be supported by her husband and her sons. What she gets is a gift, customary and therefore demandable, but it is not inherited. Lately, however, with the sanction of the courts, only daughters have been given a life tenure of the father's land, and this virtually means inheritance by daughters. If a man dies without sons or daughters, the property passes to the father if he is alive, and if he is dead, to the brothers of the deceased by the same father (not necessarily by the same mother); if the latter are dead, their sons will succeed. In default of these, the deceased's paternal uncles and their sons succeed. The widow of a childless man is allowed one calf, one *bandi* (10 to 12 maunds) of paddy, one *bati* and one cloth, and returns to her parent's house, unless, as sometimes happens, she is kept by her husband's younger brothers. If one of these keeps her, he is not allowed more than the one share of the deceased man's property, which he would get in any case. If a man leaves only daughters, their paternal grandfather and uncles take charge of them and of the widow, and the property remains in their possession. When the daughters grow up, it is the duty of these relatives to arrange marriages for them, and to give them at marriage the presents which they would have received from their father. When all the daughters have been disposed of, the widow gets the perquisites of a childless widow and goes to her father's house or lives with her daughters. A widow with minor sons keeps all the property in her own possession, the grandfather and uncles seeing that she does not waste it. If the widow remarries before the sons are married, the grandfather and uncles take possession of all the property; the mother of the children has no right to get anything, but sometimes a calf is given to her out of kindness, this gift being called *bhandkar*. There are special rules in cases where there is a son-in-law who has married under the *ghardi jawae* form. If his wife has no brothers, and the son-in-law stays on in the house and works for his father-in-law till he dies, then he inherits all the immovable property and half the movable property, the other half of which goes to the relatives of the deceased. If there is more than one such son-in-law, they divide the property between them.

17. If there are many grandsons, or if the sons do not live happily together, *e.g.*, in particular, if the father has married again and had other issue, the father and mother may make a partition. A *panchayat* is called and the father divides all the land and cattle, keeping one share for himself. The son with whom the parents live retains possession of their share during their life-time. Daughters get no share in the property, but if they are unmarried, they get one calf each, that being the dowry given them at marriage. Unmarried sons get a double share of the live-stock, one share representing their marriage expenses. The cattle which the daughters-in-law received from their fathers and brothers and from their father-in-law at the time of marriage are not divided, but the cattle which the sons got at marriage are divided. If a woman dies while her sons are unmarried, they cannot demand a partition even if their father takes a second wife, but they can do so if they like after marriage. The father then gets one share and the sons one share each. If the second wife has no children when the father dies, the sons of the first wife can take the share, their father got, but if they take it they will have to pay for the funeral of their step-mother. [*Santal Parganas District Gazetteer*].

MUNDAS.

18. The rules of inheritance and partition observed by the Santals, as described in the Santal Parganas District Gazetteer, are the same amongst the Mundas of Chota Nagpur with the following exceptions only:—

(1) After the father's death the sons mostly live together. If they separate, they divide the landed property, so that the eldest son gets one-third more than the second, and the second one or two pieces of land more than the third, and the third a little more than the fourth, and so on. The movable property will be divided in the same way.

(2) If a man dies without sons or daughters, the property passes to the father, and, if he is dead, to the brothers of the deceased by the same father, but not by another mother.

(3) The widow of a childless man is allowed to take away only his own property (clothes, utensils, etc.).

(4) If a man leaves only daughters, the property remains in the possession of the widow, supervised by the grandfather or the uncles. When all the daughters have been disposed of, the widow has the right to stay in the house of her deceased husband, if she not prefers to live with one of her married daughters.

(5) If a man leaves no sons and the widow takes a son-in-law, or *posh putra*, in her house, he will inherit the whole movable property and the *raihas* and *korkar* lands, but not the *bhuinhari*-lands, which will go to the next male heir of the family, or, if there are no male heirs, to the members of the *khunt* who will dispose of it.*

19. Another account of the customs among the Mundas is as follows:— The family property is divided equally among the sons, except that the eldest son gets half a *kath* or one *kath* land more than the others. If, when the property is divided, some of the sons are married and others are unmarried, some bullocks and paddy, or the equivalent, will be put aside for the marriage expenses before making the partition. Daughters have no right to any share. If a man dies without any sons, the widow remains in possession of the whole property of her husband until her death, whether she has a daughter or is childless. After her death, the whole property passes to the natural heirs, viz., the brothers of her husband by the same father, or their sons. She can have her fields tilled by hired servants or by her relatives, and the latter will arrange marriage for the girls.

20. There are special rules for those who marry under the *gharia-wain* (or *ghardamad*) system. If the son-in-law stays in the house of his father-in-law and works for his father-in-law or mother-in-law for three years, he does not pay anything for his marriage. If after his marriage he remains with his father-in-law or mother-in-law and takes care of them till their death, he inherits the whole property. If after the marriage he wishes to go to his father's house, he gets from his father-in-law or mother-in-law one pair of bullocks, one *mora* of paddy, *i.e.*, about 12 maunds, and some land to live on. If a widow marries she gives up all her right to her former husband's property.

21. A childless man can adopt a child with the consent of his relatives. The child will be considered the lawful heir of the person who adopts him. He has a right to all the movable property of his adopted father after his death, and, in case the deceased had relatives, he will get a greater share of the land than the others, the excess amount being determined by the *panchayat*.†

KHONDS (KANDHS).

22. Amongst the Khonds the family, as a rule, remains undivided during the father's life-time, and sometimes also till the death of the mother, who cooks the meals and serves them out to all the members of the family. If, owing to a disagreement or from some other cause, it is considered necessary for them to live apart, the married sons build houses for themselves where they cook and eat separately with their wives and children, while the unmarried sons and daughters continue to live with the parents. This does not necessarily involve the division of the property. Though some members of the family may be living apart, they still cultivate their land together.

23. After the father's death, the elders of the village assemble and partition the land and cattle, in equal shares, between all the sons. The eldest son gets an extra field added to his share, and each unmarried son gets an extra head of cattle for the purchase of a bride. A few fields are set apart for the maintenance of the mother and daughters; some are also reserved for the maintenance of the father if the division takes place during his lifetime. Their land and the land of the minor sons who are living with them are cultivated for them by one of the adult sons or by a hired servant. Sometimes, the adult sons arrange to distribute the dependent members of the family among themselves, *e.g.*, one of them shelters the mother, another takes one of the sisters or a minor brother, etc. When the minors grow up and are married, they begin cultivating their shares themselves, but the fields reserved for the mother and daughters are taken for good and all by the son or sons who have given them shelter, and who are responsible for the funeral expenses of the mother and the marriage of the daughters. A similar division of the property and distribution of the dependent members of the

* Contributed by the Revd. Dr. A. Nottrott of the German Evangelical Lutheran Mission.
† Contributed by the Revd E. Van Hecke, S. J., of Khunti.

family is often made by the father before his death if disputes arise, or if he thinks they are likely to arise after his death. In such a case he may take a whole share of the property for his maintenance, and the maintenance of the mother and daughters. This is divided amongst the sons after the death of the parents and the marriage of the daughters. Married daughters get nothing whatever when a partition takes place.

24. If a man dies without male issue, his property is inherited in equal shares by his brothers, and, if there are no brothers, by his paternal uncles. Women have no rights in the soil. Daughters therefore are not allowed to hold land, but are supported by their nearest male relation. Young widows usually return to their father's homes, but if a widow elects to live with her husband's people, she may cultivate his land with the consent of his brothers, who see that she does not waste the property. She must bring up the children and get them married. If she has sons, the property is divided between them after her death; if she has no sons, the division is made between her brothers-in-law. If a young brother wishes to marry a widow, he may do so, as he has the first claim on her. He takes possession of all his deceased brother's property and is responsible for the maintenance and marriage of the children and the funeral expenses of the widow. The sons divide the property after the death of their mother and step-father, but if there are no sons, the division takes place after the marriage of the daughters and the death of the widow. Sons of two wives have equal shares in the property, whether the second marriage has taken place during the life-time of the first wife or after her death. A second marriage is never permitted during the life-time of the first wife unless she is barren. She selects the second bride, and it sometimes happens that she has children after the second marriage has taken place. Sons-in-law have no claim to any portion of the property. Land is jealously guarded against a member of an alien tribe, and aliens cannot acquire any rights in the soil without the consent of the other members of the family. If a man invites his son-in-law to live with him and cultivate his land, the latter can continue to hold the land after his death only with the consent of the brothers and uncles, to whom the property has passed by right of inheritance. The prohibition extends for four generations, after which the great-great-grandson is treated as a member of the sept.*

ORAONS.

25. Before approaching the question of inheritance and partition, mention should be made of certain restrictions which, among Oraons, affect the disposal of property, and, it seems, the very notion of possession.

(*i*) As a rule, males alone can possess. Women, being by nature destined to 'go and blow another man's furnace,' neither inherit nor receive shares on partition. They can, however, in certain cases, undertake the personal administration of property, enjoy the exclusive usufruct thereof, and even, under specified circumstances, dispose of it finally. Thus, a widow who has no son may adopt either a son or a "prospective son-in-law," *i.e.*, a man who will serve in the house and ultimately marry one of the daughters, and the adoptee will have a right to succeed to the property of the widow's husband at her death.

(*ii*) Oraon land-owners do not make wills. They may, during their lifetime, sell and even give away property, at least within reasonable limits; they may, by adopting a child, cause their fortune to go out of their family; but they are not at liberty to make any disposition of their property, or any part of it, which will take effect at their death. Custom regulates who shall be their heirs and what portion shall accrue to each heir.

(*iii*) Under the joint family system, which prevails among the Oraons, the father is sole owner. His sons, married or unmarried, possess nothing personally. The Oraon principle is that sons, so long as their father is alive, must not separate from him, even as regards habitation. Sons, sons' wives and grandsons live under his roof; to enable them to do so, cattle, grain, provisions, etc., will, if necessary, be moved to adjoining out-houses. All are under the parental rule and form but one household (*onta erpa*) in every possible sense, all toiling at the same fields, all eating from the old man's one cooking pot, all depositing their earnings in the same family jar. The fact of one of the inmates going away does not cause him to become a

* Contributed by Mr. A. J. Ollenbach, Subdivisional Officer, Khondmals.

separate owner. He preserves his right not only to an eventual share of the ancestral fields, but also (if he sends his earnings home) to a share of the family savings that go on accumulating during his absence. When a partition takes place, no one is entitled to a preferential share by reason of his industry or any extra earnings he may have had or may have saved during the joint family regime.

(*iv*) Questions of inheritance, and partitions, unless quite simple and clear, are submitted to, and decided by the village *panchayat*. If this rule were violated, the village assembly would refuse to entertain complaints or appeals from the decisions of the family council (also called *panchayat*).

26. The property of an Oraon cultivator generally consists of a few annas of *don* (low) land with some high land attached, one or two houses cattle, ploughs, tools, household movables and the money he has saved from the sale of his crops. In the Barwe, it may be explained, one anna of land is the area which can be sown over with 4 *uriyas* of seed, an *uriya* (or *uddu*) being a roundish basket which contains about 30 *pukka* seers of paddy. A "share" is made up of these different parts, viz., a parcel of *don* land and high land, some money from the family purse, a modicum of cattle and agricultural implements.

27. *Inheritance.*—To turn now to the subject of inheritance, we shall assume that the dead man had ceased to work in community of interest with his father or brothers, and was, at the time of his demise, a separate owner. If he had not separated, the solutions of hypothetical cases given below will be subject to certain conditions which will be stated in the section dealing with Partition (paragraph 34 *et seq*). All the possible combinations of circumstances may conveniently be reduced to three typical cases. The solution of other cases, viz., from which one feature of a typical case is absent or in which the features of two typical cases are mixed, will generally be obvious.

28. *Case No. I.—The deceased leaves a widow with grown-up children (not daughters only).*—The sons first of all set apart their mother's share, *i.e.*, about half an anna of land with attached high land, a pair of bullocks and plough, some twenty or thirty rupees, and whatever paddy is required for her subsistence till the new crop is reaped. This jointure she is free to manage as she pleases, *e.g.*, she may have the land cultivated by her sons or by strangers on the *sajha* (half produce) system of rent; she may enjoy it for life, though she cannot alienate it. As a rule, she simply adds it to the share of the son with whom she goes to end her days, and who will afterwards be her sole heir. If she is prepared to live alone or with one of her daughters, her share will, at her death, revert to the sons and be divided among them.* If, at the time of her marriage, she had received any money as dowry, and if this dowry or its equivalent is still with her (having been converted into non-consumable property or, possibly, kept in a jar), the widow resumes it without prejudice to her share of her husband's property. At her death both dowry and share will go *in integro* to the son with whom she went to live.

29. The widow's share having been allotted, the brothers parcel out† the remaining patrimony (land, money, cattle, and household movables) according to a scale dependent on their respective ages, as described below. In applying this scale to the apportionment of land, regard must be had to the fertility of the soil allotted to each as much as to its net area, and therefore the youngest of the brothers is first provided with at least half an anna of good low land. The remainder is next divided in such a way that each of the other brothers gets, as far as is consistent with the total area and the variable quality of the soil, a share double that assigned to the brother next to above him in age. For instance, if three annas of land is to be parcelled out between three brothers, the youngest will receive half an anna of good soil, the middle one will get, say, one or two half annas of good and indifferent land, and the eldest will receive one anna of good and half an anna of indifferent land. This unequal allotment is meant to correspond roughly to the unequal number of years spent in toiling on the paternal fields. Should one of the elder brothers have met, when a child, with some accident permanently incapacitating him from work, he would receive a share no larger than the brother immediately next to him.

30. If all the brothers are not born of the same mother, they each get a share‡ calculated as above, with this difference, that the sons by the second

* The whole of this paragraph applies to a step-mother as well as to a mother.

† The brothers may, of course, make no separation of interests, if they prefer to keep the property joint. In the latter case, every one's share, would remain under the management of the eldest brother. *Cf.* the section on Partition [paragraph 34 (*b*)].

‡ This is not the case if the brothers have, at the time of their father's second marriage, demanded a partition.

wife get less than the sons by the first wife, *e.g.*, if 5 annas of land are to be divided between four brothers, two by a first and two by a second wife, the combined shares of the first two will perhaps amount to 3½ annas, whereas those of the other two will be the remaining 1½ annas. Illegitimate brothers, and sons of the father's second wife by a first husband, receive no share whatever. Also, if one of the brothers, by misconduct or marriage with a non-Oraon girl, has lost his tribal rights and not recovered them, he has no claim to inheritance. Articles which it would be difficult to divide, or of which the value is not enough to make it worth while to sell them, are often given up by the heirs to their adult sisters. For instance, if 15 maunds of paddy, a cow and two goats have to be divided, the elder sister would receive, say, 8 maunds and the cow, and the younger 7 maunds and the two goats: the cow and the goats are merely gifts, not shares.

31. *Case No. II.—The deceased leaves a childless widow, or a widow with grown-up daughters.*—The widow may have been the deceased's first or second wife: in both cases, provided that she does not remarry or return to her parental home, she is entitled to the administration and exclusive usufruct of her husband's property until her death.* Her administration is only subject to a sort of mild supervision on the part of her husband's relatives, and she may not quit the village. Should she marry again, all movable and immovable property may be resumed by the natural heirs from the day that she quits the house: on leaving her husband's relatives, she is merely allowed the clothes she has on.† If she has grown-up unmarried daughters, they may not follow her; otherwise, they forfeit all claims on their grandfather and uncles as regards their marriage.

Once the widow has quitted the house, the inheritance reverts to the dead man's father; in default of the latter, the dead man's brothers divide it among themselves on the same scale as regulates succession from father to sons. In case of the pre-decease of any of the brothers, his sons receive his part of the heritage and subdivide it (at once or eventually) among themselves. Should the deceased have left neither brothers nor nephews, his paternal uncles succeed.

None of the daughters can prefer a claim to inheritance, but should they be still unmarried, their mother, in case she enjoys the usufruct, or for their father's relatives, if she does not, are bound to maintain them until suitable husbands have been found for them. No dowry is demandable.

32. There exists only one expedient by which a man who is unfortunate enough to have only daughters and no sons may, during his life-time, arrange to leave them his property.‡ This consists of the adoption of a prospective son-in-law, called *erpaieon khaddi* (Hindi, *ghardamad*, or *ghardijwa*), who wins his wife by service as Jacob did Leah. There are three kinds of prospective sons-in-law. Those of the first kind (found exclusively in Barwe) are practically servants. They receive pay in kind of 8 maunds of paddy a year, their food and clothing, plus a yearly bonus varying from 2 to 12 maunds of paddy, and when the daughter is finally given to them as a wife, they have to leave the house. Those of the second kind (rare in Lohardaga and Ranchi) may after marriage either stay in the house or set up a separate establishment for themselves. In addition to their pay, board and clothing, the yearly bonus and the wife, they receive, on departure, a pair of bullocks and plough, their tools and various household articles. The third kind of prospective son-in-law, the only one of which we speak in connection with inheritance, is rare; among every hundred families having only daughters perhaps ten such sons-in-law may be found. He gets neither pay nor bonus, but receives the same treatment as a son, and if there are servants in the house, they obey him as their future master. Personal pride will, as a rule, prevent an Oraon youth, unless he is an orphan and destitute, from becoming a *ghardamad* of any kind and "indebted for his living to his wife." When, for such reasons as widowhood, divorce, age, etc., it is probable that a man will die without male issue, he may, on the ground that he wants hands for the cultivation of his fields, take in his house one or more young men, and adopt them as prospective sons-in-law, conferring upon them all the rights of inheritance due to a son or sons. The only conditions are that they must

* We assume that the deceased had no son by his first wife.

† This is the practice in the Barwe. It is said that elsewhere in Ranchi brothers-in-law show themselves somewhat more generous

‡ A widow who retains the usufruct of her husband's property has power to make arrangements to the same effect i.e., she may adopt a prospective son-in-law or a son who will be entitled at her death to succeed to her husband's property.

marry his daughters and work for him until his death. He may, if he prefers, confer the right of sonship upon any young man who agrees to the latter condition; the son adopted in this way will inherit all the property subject only to the charge of providing for the widow and daughters, if any. Adoption, pure and simple, is the only possible scheme when the adopted boy is a relative or when the old man is childless.

It might conceivably happen that the man may have male issue after adopting an heir. The question of inheritance must then be settled by amicable compromise, the natural heir and the adopted heir dividing the property much as an elder and younger brothers would, *i.e.*, on an inverted scale of ages.

33. *Case No. III.—The deceased leaves a widow with small children.*—If the widow does not remarry, she retains (as in Case No. II) the administration and usufruct of her husband's property subject to the charges already described, with the power of adopting sons-in-law or sons. She keeps all her children in her own house. If she has sons, she is bound, when they come of age, to hand over to them their shares of the paternal fields and of any money they have saved, keeping for herself only half an anna of land, etc., as in Case No. I.

If the widow remarries, there are two possible contingencies. First, if her dead husband's children are all daughters, the property reverts to the dead man's relatives, subject to the ordinary charges. Secondly, if her children by her first husband are only boys or boys and girls, the property is administered, during the minority of the children, by their paternal grandfather or one of their paternal uncles. But, whatever is the sex of the children, and, even if they are all daughters, the trustee is entitled to take them all over to his house if they can render themselves useful there by tending cattle, driving the plough or helping in household work. For those under nine or ten years of age, the trustee makes a fixed allowance to the mother. When they have reached that age, if they do not come over to his house, not only will the allowance be stopped, but the boys will forfeit their patrimony altogether, and no further grants will be made for the maintenance of the girls.

34. *Partition.*—In the preceding sections an account has been given of the breaking up of a joint family holding into several distinct holdings immediately after the owner's death. Partition may also take place some time after the owner's death or during his lifetime. In both cases, the parcelling out of land and money may be particular or general. For instance:—

(*a*) A widower's adult sons are entitled, in the event of their father taking a second wife, to demand a general partition. This step is, as a rule, taken before the birth* of a child by the second marriage: otherwise, the applicants would have to reserve at least one share for him, if a male (*see* Inheritance, Case No. I). And, as bachelors are never allowed to separate from their father, the demand for partition must be made to the father or the village assembly by the married sons.

(*b*) From a similar interested motive, brothers who, for any period subsequent to their father's death, have continued to hold the property jointly, may demand partition, if the eldest (who, in all matters not justifying a family council, is the manager of their joint land and joint purse) turns out to be incapable, careless or of doubtful integrity.

(*c*) Whether the family patriarch is dead or not, the frequent recurrence of broils between the brother's wives is a common cause of partitions.

(*d*) Any member of a joint family may, from the date of his marriage, apply for his share to his father or (if the father is dead) to the family council; an appeal to the village *panchayat* is open to him in case of refusal. His request will often be granted, if based on reasonable grounds, as is the case when the applicant is desirous and, on all accounts, able to conduct his own affairs, or when he or his wife has some standing quarrel with the rest of the family, or when he reasonably suspects that his interests will not be safe in the hands of others. Orphan nephews often obtain separation from their uncles on the latter account.

35. Partition, whatever its nature and extent, has to be applied for, and, in order to be obtained, must be justifiable on prudential, if not on other, grounds. When insisted upon against reason, or extorted by

* Unborn children have no rights: *cf.* the proverbs:—*Sutlo sutal ke hissa ?* What can be the share of a man asleep? *Najho byate danda dor*—A waist thread for the unborn! i.e., to reserve a share for a child still in the womb would be as silly as making clothes for an unborn child.

irregular methods, the applicant's share may be reduced to one-fourth, or even one-half, of the amount otherwise due to him.* The normal quota of land and money constituting a partition share mainly depends on the place each particular member of a joint family occupies in the genealogical tree. This quota has been sufficiently described above.

(*a*) *Inheritance Cases Nos. I and II.*—When, before the death of the owner or of his first and second wife, a partition, general or particular, takes place, the share due to each, or any, separating member of the family is somewhat diminished by the necessity of making provision for the maintenance of the remaining parent or parents. This provision is, under no circumstances, larger than that mentioned in Case No. I of inheritance. If, at the time of general partition, there are female orphans in the family which is to be broken up, they are taken care of *gratis* by the grandfather or one of the uncles.

(b) Posthumous shares.—If at the time of his decease, a man's share has not yet become his effective property (his father still being the owner), or, if though possessed by him, it has not yet been dissociated from his brother's holdings, a preliminary partition is, of course, indispensable before the said share can be inherited by the deceased's descendants and become liable to the further partition which has been described in the section dealing with Inheritance.

(c) In what is stated below we are exclusively concerned with the rules that govern preliminary partitions of this kind. All the points not touched upon here must be settled as in the section on Inheritance.

Case I.—If the widow has grown-up children (not daughters only), the sons will judge for themselves whether they want to separate from their uncles. If they do, a preliminary partition must take place. If there are unmarried daughters, they will be cared for by their mother and brothers.

Case II.—If the widow is childless or has daughters only, it being further supposed that she does not remarry, her right to administer, and enjoy the usufruct of, her husband's property does not come into operation at once. She may not demand that her husband's share be separated for her, until such time as a general partition is brought about by other causes. Meanwhile, she and her unmarried daughters are, as a consequence, obliged not to leave the house where the joint family resides.

Case III.—If the widow has small children of the male sex, she may demand a posthumous partition, everything subsequently proceeding as in case No. III of Inheritance.*

* Contributed by the Revd. Father A. Grignard, S. J., of Tongo.

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RESOLUTION ON THE REPORT ON THE CENSUS OF BENGAL, BIHAR AND ORISSA AND SIKKIM, 1911.

GENERAL DEPARTMENT.

MISCELLANEOUS.

CALCUTTA, THE 14TH JULY 1913.

RESOLUTION—No. 3435.

READ—

The Report on the Census of Bengal, Bihar and Orissa and Sikkim, 1911, by Mr. L. S. S. O'Malley, I.C.S., Superintendent of Census Operations, Bengal.

THE fifth census of Bengal was taken on the 10th March 1911, and showed the population of the Province to be 57,206,430 as compared with 78,493,410 returned at the previous census of 1901. But in the interim the area of the Province had been reduced from 196,408 square miles to 148,592 by the administrative changes of 1905 and the transfer of Sikkim to the direct control of the Government of India in 1906. The taking of the census was followed by another redistribution of territories, which still further reduced the area and population.

2. The census operations were conducted by Mr. L. S. S. O'Malley in Bengal and by Mr. J. McSwiney in Eastern Bengal and Assam, and the procedure followed in these two provinces has been described in detail in two separate volumes. The Provincial and Imperial tables have, however, been compiled on a different principle, those for Bengal and Sikkim forming one volume and those for Bihar and Orissa another.

3. The present report, which deals with the results of the census not only in the Presidency of Bengal, but also in the Province of Bihar and Orissa and the State of Sikkim, has been read with interest by the Governor in Council, who desires to place on record the following observations regarding the main features of the operations in Bengal.

4. The administrative changes of 1905 and 1912 threw a heavy additional burden on the census officers. To afford a basis for comparison with previous years, the published statistics for each preceding census had to be recast twice, viz., once, before the census, for the two Provinces then in existence, and again, after the census, for the new Provinces of Bengal, Bihar and Orissa and Assam. This retarded the issue of the Report and added to the cost of the operations.

The total cost of the census for Bengal is estimated at Rs. 2,67,322, which represents an incidence of Rs. 5-12-4 per mille of the population, a rate but slightly in excess of that for 1901 in spite of the intermediate rise in wages and the extra work resulting from the administrative changes.

As in previous years, the bulk of the work was performed by an army of unpaid helpers, the number of whom reached nearly 350,000 in Bengal. To all of these great praise is due for the efficient performance of their honorary duties; their task was difficult and not wholly free from danger. The organisation was excellent, and many astonishing facts are recorded of the speed with which returns were brought in from remote corners of the wilder districts.

5. The Presidency of Bengal, as now constituted, embraces an area of 84,092 square miles and contains a population of 46,305,642. Somewhat smaller than the British Isles, it has almost a million more inhabitants. The density of the population ranges between 1,850 to the square mile in the district of Howrah and 30 in the Chittagong Hill Tracts; the average is 551. The only other district with a population of over 1,000 to the square mile is Dacca. In the 24-Parganas, in spite of its huge mill population, the average s only 502, for the district contains large tracts of the Sundarbans, a very sparsely populated area.

The actual increase in the population since 1901 has been nearly 3½ millions, or 8 per cent. There has been a gradual but steady rise in the

percentage of increase at each successive census since 1872. Different localities show widely different rates of increase, but during the last 20 years it is in the most populous areas that the pace has been quickest on the whole.

The influence of efficient drainage works upon the growth of the population is well illustrated by the area round Magra Hât, a tract of nearly 300 square miles in the district of the 24-Parganas. Thirty years ago this tract was described as one where fever was constantly present in every village, its inhabitants "inured to a semi-amphibious life by a long course of preparation resulting in the survival of the fittest." Now all this has changed, and the population, which is entirely agricultural, already shows an increase of 29 per cent. since 1901, although the drainage scheme has not even yet been fully worked out.

6. *Cities, Towns and Villages.*—Since the last census the urban population has increased by 13 per cent., a rate considerably in excess of the average for the whole population. It cannot, however, be said that the depopulation of the rural tracts is yet a serious problem, for 936 persons out of every 1,000 still live in the country. Two-fifths of the urban population centre in Calcutta and Howrah, and there has been a striking growth of the riparian population along the Hooghly, in the districts of the 24-Parganas, Hooghly and Howrah. These centres of the manufacturing industry show some remarkable figures. Bhatpara, for example, has increased by 500 per cent. since 1881, and now contains a population of over 50,000. Titagarh has trebled its population since 1901, and Bhadreswar, on the other side of the river, has increased by 61 per cent. Since 1901, the number of factories in the 24-Parganas district alone has risen from 74 to 124, and the number of operatives from a little over 94,000 to nearly 170,000. The jute mills in Bengal now employ over 200,000 hands, about double the number recorded at the previous census.

The total population of Calcutta and its suburbs has reached the huge figure of 1,043,307, which places it second only to London in the British Empire, and gives it rank among the 12 largest cities of the world. This population is made up of an agglomeration of races and castes from all parts of India and from many foreign lands. Three hundred and ninety-seven separate races, castes and nationalities were returned at the census, and more than half the residents were born outside Calcutta. Over a quarter of a million of Calcutta's inhabitants derive their living from industrial occupations and close on 200,000 from trade.

7. *Migration.*—The balance of migration is strongly in favour of Bengal, for it receives nearly 2 millions of immigrants, but sends out only half a million. Bihar and Orissa contribute the greatest number of immigrants, 1¼ million, and the United Provinces come next with over 400,000.

8. *Religion.*—In Bengal as now constituted 97·6 per cent. of the population consists of Musalmans and Hindus, the former outnumbering the latter by 3¼ millions and forming over 52 per cent. of the whole. The figures of relative growth show that during the last decade the increase among Muhammadans has been nearly thrice as great as among Hindus.

Of other religions, Animists number nearly three-fourths of a million, Buddhists a quarter of a million, and Christians 130,000. Jains, Sikhs, Jews, Parsis and others are very few in number.

9. *Age, Sex and Civil Condition.*—The rate of infant mortality is appalling. One child out of every five dies within a year of birth. Calcutta, in spite of its good sanitation and good water-supply, heads the list with a death-rate among infants of 31 per cent. Early marriage, utter ignorance of the simplest rules of hygiene, insanitary surroundings, and, among the parents of the labouring classes, poverty, which compels the mother to work almost up to the day of her confinement, are among the causes which reduce the chances of a child surviving the early stages of its life.

On the other hand the longevity of Hindu widows is remarkable: all lead simple lives, and many, bereaved at an early age, escape the dangers of child-birth.

The universality of marriage in Bengal continues, despite the rise in the market value of both brides and bridegrooms owing to the increased cost of living and the widening of the field of selection by improvement

in communications. But it is a significant fact that the average age of marriage is steadily rising. The spread of enlightened views is to some extent responsible for this, but grim necessity often compels a father unwillingly to defer the marriage of his daughters till after they have attained a marriageable age.

10. *Education.*—Bengal stands first among all the Provinces in India, not only for the actual number of persons able to read and write, but also for the proportion (7·7 per cent.) which they bear to the total population. Madras comes next with 7·5 per cent. and Bombay follows with 6·9. The total number of literate persons in the Presidency is 3½ millions, of whom slightly more than a quarter of a million are females.

Of individual areas, Calcutta heads the list with one out of every three of its inhabitants able to satisfy the test of literacy. This is a remarkably high proportion considering the large number of low class immigrants engaged in menial duties. At the other end of the scale come the districts of Mymensingh, Rajshahi, Rangpur and Malda with less than 5 per cent. of literates.

The actual addition to the number of literate persons in the Presidency since 1901 is 632,222, of whom 90,342 are females. The percentage of increase among the whole population is 21½ and that among females as high as 56. The increase would have been greater still but for the fact that the standard for literacy prescribed at this census was higher than that previously adopted. In 1901 the only criterion laid down was ability to read and write, but in 1911 no person was recorded as literate unless he could write a letter to a friend and read the answer to it. One result of this raising of the standard is that the proportion of literates among children of ten years and under has in most places either remained stationary or actually fallen.

The backwardness of Muhammadans in education is clearly shown by the fact that whereas the Muhammadans outnumber the Hindus by more than three millions, yet there are only two of the former to every five of the latter who can read and write. A curious phenomenon noticed by Mr. O'Malley is that the degree of literacy in each community varies inversely with its local strength. Thus in Western Bengal, where the number of Muhammadans is smaller than elsewhere, the proportion of literate Muhammadans is greater. Similarly in Eastern Bengal, where the Hindus are largely outnumbered by the Muhammadans, 1 in every 4 is literate; while in Western Bengal the proportion is 1 in 5.

Peculiar interest attaches to the figures which show the relative advance in literacy among these two communities. At the census of 1901 the percentage of literates was 10·3 among Hindus and 3·5 among Muhammadans. Now it is 11·8 and 4·1, respectively. The increase has been in the proportion of 7 to 8 among the former and 6 to 7 among the latter: in other words, Muhammadans have made rather more rapid progress in education than Hindus. An examination of the figures for the two sexes, however, discloses the fact that while among Muhammadans the increase has been almost uniform in both sexes (males 29 per cent. and females 31 per cent.), in the Hindu community the increase has been four times as rapid among females as among males, the percentages being 64 and 16, respectively.

The endeavours of certain of the lower Hindu castes to raise their social status is reflected in their standard of literacy. Thus the Kaibarttas, Pods, Namasudras and Rajbansis all show signs of improvement, and the Pods especially have made great strides.

The increase during the last decade in the number of educational institutions in Bengal has been remarkable, there having been an addition of nearly 4,000 schools and more than 400,000 pupils. Most striking of all is the fact that the number of girls' schools and of their pupils has increased threefold.

11. *Languages.*—Mr. O'Malley's Chapter on Languages is full of interest. The instructions as to the language to be recorded were revised this year so

as to prescribe not that language which a person most often used but that which he ordinarily spoke in his own home.

The change has resulted in greater accuracy in the returns, and from a linguistic point of view Bengal appears more homogeneous now than ever before. Bengali is the language of 92 per cent. of the population, and Hindi and Urdu account for another 4 per cent., while nearly 45 out of the 46 millions speak languages belonging to the Indo-European family.

The Hindi and Urdu speakers centre mostly round the mills of Howrah and the 24-Parganas, which draw their labour from Bihar and the United Provinces.

12. *Infirmities.*—As in 1901, four infirmities are recorded, viz., insanity, deaf-mutism, blindness and leprosy. The last decade has witnessed an increase in all the infirmities except leprosy. In Bengal there are 43 insane persons to every 100,000 of the population, insanity being most prevalent to the east of the Bhagirathi. No district except Darjeeling and Nadia has less than 25 insane persons per 100,000, and the proportion rises as high as 157 in the Chittagong Hill Tracts. The Chapter dealing with Insanity contains a highly interesting account of the beliefs among both educated and uneducated classes about the causes and cures of insanity.

Deaf-mutism, with its associates, crétinism and goitre, is most prevalent in North Bengal, and especially in Sikkim. The proportion of sufferers to general population has remained stationary since the last census.

Blindness is less prevalent than it was, except in the Presidency Division, where the proportion remains stationary.

The number of lepers has also decreased.

13. *Caste.*—The Chapter on Caste is the longest and most interesting in this volume. At the last census, statistics of all castes and tribes were compiled. At this, it was laid down that statistics should be prepared only for the more important castes, and for such others as Local Governments might for special reasons wish to include. The Government of Bengal had figures collected for all castes and tribes which in 1901 numbered 50,000 or more in the Province, for all that numbered 25,000 or more in a single district, and for certain others of special local importance or ethnological interest. The Government of Eastern Bengal and Assam compiled figures for 450 groups with a strength varying from 1 to 22 millions.

Mr. O'Malley's observations bear witness to the extraordinary social unrest that prevails to-day among the lower castes. No part of the census aroused so much excitement as this. A belief got abroad that the object of the census was to fix the relative status of each caste and to settle claims to social superiority; and this belief was largely fostered by the fact that at the last census castes were classed in order of social precedence. Petition after petition poured in from members of different castes praying to be designated by new names, or to be placed higher on the list. Somewhat different methods were adopted in the two Provinces of Bengal and Eastern Bengal and Assam for dealing with these delicate problems. In Eastern Bengal and Assam, for example, the numerous groups of Muhammadans who desired to be called Sheikhs were all entered as such, irrespective of what the enumerators considered or knew them really to be. The result has been an extraordinary (and misleading) increase in the numbers of Sheikhs in North and East Bengal; in fact, 95 per cent. of the whole Muhammadan population of the province have now been recorded as Sheikhs. In Bengal, on the other hand, such latitude was not allowed, and members of a group were entered only under those names by which the group was generally known. It was wisely decided that at this census there should be no classification by status, and thus the difficulty of deciding to which of the four main divisions of Hindus each individual belonged was overcome. But the case of those castes who wished to arrogate to themselves an entirely new name was different, and the new name was entered by the census authorities if it was recognised by the Hindu community at large and was not used by any other caste. Thus the Chandals have been entered as Namasudras and the Chasi Kaibarttas as Mahishyas. The case of the Namasudras is

curious and instructive. A generation ago they were content to call themselves Chandals. Advancing in wealth, they adopted the title of Namasudra, and at the census of 1891 they were entered as "Namasudra or Chandal." In 1901 they were entered as "Namasudra (Chandal)." In 1911 Chandal was dropped, but their further prayer to be called Namasudra Brahmans was disallowed.

Similarly, the Rajbansis claim to be entered as Kshattriyas and the Shahas as Vaisyas.

A comparatively modern symptom of this anxiety for the improvement of social status is the growth of the caste Samiti or Sabha. Most of these bodies have come into existence since the last census and especially since the Partition of Bengal in 1905. Their main object is to improve the social position of the caste, and their organization varies from combinations of the loosest kind to limited liability companies.

In this connection it is interesting to note that the statistics show that the "Bhadralok" castes are progressive. The Brahmans have increased by 7½ per cent, the Baidyas by 9 per cent. and the Kayasthas by 13 per cent.

This Chapter on Caste is remarkable for its careful review of many matters of great ethnological interest, such as "initiation into caste" and "caste government." Some of these have a very important bearing on the administration of the country at the present day. Mr. O'Malley remarks that on the whole the accessibility of the law courts is tending to weaken the system of caste self-government. There is also a tendency for the panchayat system to be supplanted by the practice of referring disputes to the local zamindar.

At the same time, Co-operative Societies, a comparatively new growth, are providing a new village organization which discharges many of the functions of the caste panchayats. Being formed on a basis of unlimited liability, these Societies find it necessary to inquire closely into the position of new members, and, as a result, the tendency has been for these Societies to exercise a very salutary influence towards curtailing marriage expenses and reducing litigation, two of the largest items of expenditure in village life. Numerous examples are reported of the way in which Co-operative Societies intervene with good effect in the village social life.

Though there is, properly speaking, no caste system among Musalmans, yet in the organization of panchayats they have assimilated Hindu ideas. A remarkable example of this is the general panchayat of Dacca, an organization which is recognised by all Muhammadans except the Ashraf class, and exists for the settlement of disputes between members of the community. Disputes are decided in the first place by a panchayat; from them there is an appeal to an appellate "bench," and from that again to a "full bench" consisting of the highest office bearers of the Association.

14. *Occupations.*—The classification of occupations has at this census been regulated by a new scheme drawn up by the Census Commissioner on the basis of that prepared by M. Bertillon which has already been adopted by many other countries. Instead of 8 main classes, 24 orders, 79 sub-orders and 520 groups, a classification has been adopted consisting of only 4 main classes, 12 sub-classes, 55 orders and 169 groups. Mr. O'Malley observes that even this classification is more elaborate than Indian conditions seem to require, but that its defects are few and unimportant.

Nearly three-fourths of the people are supported by agriculture. The head "Industries" embraces nearly 3½ millions, of whom about one-fourth depend on textile industries. The figures connected with the manufacture of jute show the astonishing increase of 140 per cent. since 1901. This industry provides for 328,000 persons. Transport supports nearly a million persons and public administration nearly half a million. Professions and the liberal arts account for nearly a million. The legal profession has increased by 30 per cent. since 1901, there being now nearly 10,000 lawyers in Bengal.

Extremely interesting results were obtained from an industrial census held concurrently with the general census. For mills, mines, etc., employing over 20 persons, a special schedule was prescribed and this was filled in by

the owners or managers themselves. The total number of such concerns was found to be 1,466, employing over 600,000 persons, one-third of whom find employment in jute mills, and nearly another third on tea plantations. The great industrial centres are the districts of Calcutta, Howrah, Hooghly, and the 24-Parganas, where two-thirds of the industrial undertakings of the province are concentrated. Of the various industries, Indians own practically all the brass foundries, oil mills, rice mills, timber yards, brick works, etc., while Europeans enjoy an absolute monopoly of the jute mills and predominate in the tea gardens and machinery and engineering works. A noticeable feature in this connection is the large and steadily growing predominance of extra-provincial labour in these industrial centres. The Bengali is in a minority in nearly all, and most markedly in the jute mills.

The distribution of occupations between Hindus and Muhummadans forms an interesting commentary on the intellectual position of the followers of the two religions. The percentage of Musalmans in the total population is 52 and that of Hindus 45. But 37 per cent. of the latter and only 15 cent. of the former follow non-agricultural pursuits. The landlords, again, consist mainly of Hindus, the proportion being 7 Hindus to 3 Musalmans. These figures show that the great majority of the Musalmans have not yet risen beyond the stage of the cultivator who tills his own holding.

15. In conclusion the Governor in Council desires to place on record his appreciation of the labours of the District Officers, and of the host of officials and non-officials through whose devoted services the census of 1911 was carried to a successful conclusion; and to whom are due the accuracy, the care and the punctuality which have characterised the census throughout. His Excellency in Council wishes especially to acknowledge the services of Mr. O'Malley in conducting the census operations with such energy and ability and in compiling a report of conspicuous merit under conditions of unusual difficulty. The names of the officers commended by him and of those who have been separately reported for their good work will be recorded in the Appointment Department.

By order of the Governor in Council,

H. F. SAMMAN,

Offg. Secy. to the Govt. of Bengal.

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